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Dictionaries as tools for language learning

Edited by

Heather Pagan

Sylvia Shaw

Louise Sylvester

World Histories of Lexicography and Lexicology

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World Histories of Lexicography and Lexicology

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Part I

Historical dictionaries as tools for language learning

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Chapter 1

Cornutus: A lexicographical and didactic tool in medieval Latin education

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This article examines *Cornutus*, a medieval school text used in Latin education, highlighting its multifaceted role in the linguistic, ethical, and intellectual development of students. The study explores the pedagogical methods associated with the text, including glossing, commentary, and the use of *ordo simplex*. By analysing both Latin couplets with lexicographical commentaries and vernacular glosses found in surviving manuscripts, the article reveals how these annotations supported vocabulary acquisition, grammar mastery, and the comprehension of complex word formations, often derived from Greek. Particular attention is paid to the interplay between Latin and vernacular glossing, showcasing how vernacular equivalents enhanced accessibility and facilitated the understanding of rare terms and linguistic patterns. The article also investigates the moral dimension of *Cornutus*, as the distichs combined grammatical instruction with ethical teachings, aligning with the broader educational aims of the medieval curriculum.

Cornutus, vernacular glosses, medieval school texts, John of Garland, medieval lexicography

1 *Cornutus* as a medieval school text

The medieval educational system, rooted in the concept of the seven liberal arts, emphasised the study of Latin grammar during the initial stages of intellectual development (the *trivium*). As Huntsman underlines: "grammar was thought to discipline the mind and soul at the same time, honing the intellectual and spiritual abilities that the future cleric would need to read and speak with discernment"

Katarzyna Jasińska-Różycka & Kateřina Voleková. 2026. *Cornutus*: a lexicographical and didactic tool in medieval latin education. In Heather Pagan, Sylvia Shaw & Louise Sylvester (eds.), *Dictionaries as tools for language learning*, 3–21. Berlin: Language Science Press. DOI: ??

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(Huntsman 1983: 59). Given this pivotal role, it was essential to select appropriate textbooks.[1] The foundational texts for instruction included those authored by Donatus (4th century), such as *De partibus orationis ars minor* and *Ars grammatica* (*Ars maior*), as well as Priscian's (5th–6th century) *Institutiones grammaticae*. Additionally, Isidore of Seville's (6th–7th century) *Etymologiae sive origines* and commentaries on the works of Donatus, Priscian, Boethius, and other authors played a significant role (Huntsman 1983: 71–73).

In later periods, so-called metrical grammars were also incorporated, such as Alexander of Villa Dei's *Doctrinale puerorum* (12th century) and Eberhard of Béthune's *Graecismus* (13th century) (Huntsman 1983: 75–77). The texts of John of Garland (13th century) were likewise highly regarded (Sheffler 2008: 110).[2] Among his didactic works is often mentioned the *Distigium, sive Cornutus (Lendinara 1991: 6)*.[3] This short poem was modelled on the *Disticha Catonis* – a text particularly valuable for medieval education, as reciting individual distichs not only taught students grammar and the proper composition of Latin verse but also provided them with ethical lessons (Sheffler 2008: 109). Although *Cornutus* did not reach the same level of prominence in medieval European schools as *Cato*, it follows in the tradition of this popular medieval schoolbook for teaching Latin. However, it differs in that it focuses more on less common and unfamiliar words, offering a unique approach to expanding the student's vocabulary compared to the more standard, everyday vocabulary found in the *Distichs of Cato*. For this reason, the *Cornutus* deserves a detailed analysis in our study.

The first part of the work, *Cornutus Antiquus*, was written by John of Garland in the 13th century, while the second part, *Cornutus Novus*, was added a century later by Otto von Lunerbuch . As is often the case with medieval texts, the work is accompanied by commentary, and this is no exception here. In the case of the *Cornutus*, the commentary often takes the form of a dictionary (Jasińska-Różycka 2025: 42–47)[4].

Considering the aforementioned books and the dictionary section, the work in its revised and most widespread form is divided into two parts. The first part contains a metrical text comprising 21 couplets from *Cornutus Antiquus*, 21 couplets

[1]For more on the learning Latin in the Middle Ages, see: Hunt (1991), Huntsman (1983), Sheffler (2008).

[2]For the list of grammatical and lexicographical works attributed to John of Garland, see: Bursill-Hall (1976) or Pagan et al. (2023).

[3]Some scholars, e.g., Hunt (1991: 323), question his authorship.

[4]In some manuscripts of the *Cornutus*, one finds commentaries that are not lexicographical in nature, but rather explanatory, elucidating the moral interpretation of particular passages of the work. For *Cornutus* containing such an explanatory commentary, see: Voleková & Jasińska-Różycka (2025).

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from *Cornutus Novus*, and a concluding set of 15 verses. Each couplet addresses a distinct thematic issue. The second part is a dictionary, providing grammatical and semantic information about the words that appear in particular couplets. *Cornutus*, blending elements of a dictionary and a textbook, was used in medieval schools in Western and Central Europe, as evidenced by numerous manuscript copies and three printed versions (incunabula): Zwolle (1481), Hagenau (1489), Paris (1497).[5] Designed to help students grasp difficult Latin vocabulary, particularly words of foreign origin (*vocabula exotica*), the text served as a foundation for grammatical and semantic analysis (Jasińska-Różycka & Voleková 2026).

Numerous manuscript copies of the work contain vernacular glosses in English, French, German, Czech, and Polish (Hunt 1991: 324; Voleková 2015: 46; Jasińska-Różycka 2025: 51–60), demonstrating the text's widespread use across Western and Central Europe and adaptability for schools and private education. In some cases, complete vernacular translations were produced, highlighting the popularity and didactic potential of *Cornutus*. Scribes sometimes tailored the text to specific audiences, adjusting the commentary to emphasise lexicographical or moral aspects. These variations demonstrate *Cornutus* as a flexible tool, adaptable to diverse educational contexts.

This paper examines selected couplets and their commentary from the manuscript copies to show how *Cornutus* facilitated various scholarly exercises, including grammatical, etymological, and lexical studies. It also considers the text's adaptability, as evidenced by its diverse manuscript versions and vernacular annotations, revealing its integral role in medieval Latin education. Through this analysis, the study will demonstrate the significance of *Cornutus* as both a lexicographic work and an educational resource in the late Middle Ages.

In this study, we draw on textual material from Hunt's (1991: 323–348) edition of *Cornutus*, which includes sources with English and French glosses. His edition is based on seven insular manuscript sources, four Western-European manuscripts, and two incunabula. The German material is taken from Habel, Habel's (1908, 1909) editions. Additionally, we draw on material from Central European manuscripts of the 14th and 15th centuries. The Czech material derives partly from our edition of manuscript A (Voleková & Jasińska-Różycka 2025) and partly from direct consultation of manuscripts B, C, and D, which remain unpublished. The Polish material has recently been edited, and all quotations are taken from this edition (Jasińska-Różycka 2025)[6] Manuscripts are cited according to the

[5] A basic inventory of manuscript sources is provided by Bursill-Hall (1976, 1979)). For more on the incunabula, see: *ISTC*, ig00081900, ig00082000, ig00082500.

[6] For more on Czech and Polish manuscripts of *Cornutus*, see: Jasińska-Różycka (2025), Jasińska-Różycka & Voleková (2026).

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sigla assigned by their respective editors. A complete list of manuscript sources, together with basic information, is provided in the appendix.

2 Moral analogies and linguistic challenges in the couplets of Cornutus

Each couplet of *Cornutus* serves as an independent thematic unit through which students could learn and practise Latin. Written in metrical form, these distichs facilitated the memorisation of difficult words, many of which were of foreign origin. For example, the opening couplet of the work, 1 CA[7], includes lexemes such as *ippus*, *blatta*, and *glossa*, which are of Greek origin:

(1) *Cespitat in phaleris ippus blattaque supinus*
Glossa velud temeto labat, emus infatuato
'Just as a horse stumbles in ornate coverings and purple,
So the tongue falters in the foolish speech of a man who has tasted too much wine' (Hunt 1991: 328)

Significantly, couplets of *Cornutus* convey moral lessons, a feature central to their pedagogical purpose. This moral emphasis was a hallmark of medieval education. As Sheffler observes: *"Even as the students themselves included a growing number of children with no interest in a clerical career, religious and moral instruction remained central aspects of the curriculum"* (Sheffler 2008: 111). In the case of the couplet *1 CA*, the moral message is framed as an analogy: just as a horse adorned with many ornate coverings stumbles and wavers, so too does a person who overindulges in drink lose their clarity of speech and coherence of thought. The text subtly juxtaposes different forms of instability—physical, moral, and spiritual—to highlight the consequences of excessive pride, ostentation, and intemperance, which ultimately hinder one's ability to act or speak appropriately.

Among the couplets, there are those that allude to biblical messages, as in the case of couplet 12 CA:

(2) *Qui multis duliam promittit heris placituram,*
Pseudulus alterius fiet, non assecla verus
'Who promises kind service to many masters
Will become a liar, not a true servant' (Hunt 1991: 340)[8]

[7] In this article, we have adopted the following designations for the couplets: an Arabic numeral indicates the couplet's position within its section, *CA* refers to the *Cornutus Antiquus*, and *CN* to the *Cornutus Novus*.

[8] Cf. Werner (1912), 64, Nr. 10.

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This couplet refers to a passage from the Gospel of Matthew, where Jesus Christ teaches that a person cannot serve both God and Mammon (wealth) simultaneously, as these two goals are inherently contradictory.[9] Although it uses words of Greek origin (*dulia*, *pseudulus*), the *Cornutus* and biblical ideas are similar—anyone who seeks to serve two masters (or goals) will face difficulties, for it is impossible to give full attention and loyalty to two conflicting matters. Consequently, an abundant gift of prosperity is required to satisfy both goals.

Although in most cases distichs are original texts with intertextual references, there are instances among them where direct borrowings occur. One example is couplet 16 CA, which functions as an expanded version of the Latin proverb *Inter caecos luscus rex* ('Among the blind, the one-eyed man is king')[10]:

(3) *Inter pigmeos nanus regnat, strabo luscos,*
Loripes extalo[s], monotalmus quoque cecos
'He who is short in stature rules among the dwarfs, he who squints rules among the poorly seeing,
He who has deformed legs rules among the legless, and he who has one eye rules among the blind' (Hunt 1991: 343)

The didactic potential of this couplet is realised both in its message and in the presentation of rare words referring to people with disabilities, such as: *pigmeus* ('dwarf'), *loripes* ('club-footed'), *extalos* ('legless'), *monotalmus* ('one-eyed person'). It is worth noting that this couplet exemplifies how a traditional saying can be elaborated upon to convey broader meanings or nuanced interpretations. Such borrowings highlight the interplay between inherited wisdom and creative adaptation, showcasing how well-known proverbs continue to influence and enrich literary traditions.

In summary, the couplets of *Cornutus* served as both a tool for teaching Latin and a medium for conveying moral lessons. Their metrical form facilitated the memorisation of difficult words, especially those of foreign origin, while reinforcing the ethical values central to medieval education. Additionally, the couplets illustrate the dynamic relationship between traditional proverbs, creative adaptation, and intertextual references, highlighting the role of the text in preserving and enriching cultural heritage.

[9] Cf. Mt 6:24 – *Nemo potest duobus dominis servire: aut enim unum odio habebit, et alterum dilectum habebit; aut uni fidelis erit, et alterum contemnet* 'no one can serve two masters: either he will hate the one and love the other; or he will be loyal to one and despise the other.'

[10] For a detailed analysis of this couplet, see: Jasińska-Różycka & Voleková (2026).

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3 *Ordo simplex* as a framework for prose reconstruction in Latin

Using *Cornutus*, students could refine their understanding of word order in prose – a fundamental skill in mastering Latin composition. The metrical structure of the couplets introduced an additional layer of complexity, as their word order often diverges markedly from that of standard prose. To aid comprehension, certain manuscripts included annotations in the form of numbers placed above individual words, indicating their correct sequence in a prose arrangement, as can be seen in Figure 1.

(4) *2 3 1 6 4 5*
Cespitat in falleris yppus blactaque supinus,
5 4 6 2 1 3
Glossa velud themeto labat, emus et infatuato Voleková & Jasińska-Różycka (2025: 478)

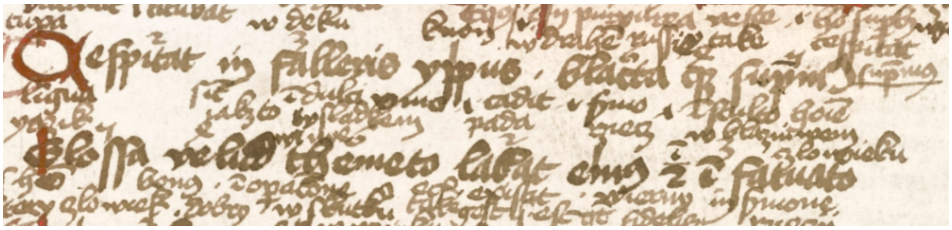

Figure 1: Czech manuscript A from the second half of 15th century (1478), fol. 180v, https://imagines.manuscriptorium.com/loris/AIPDIG-NKCR__XI_C_1_____0JGOUA3-cs/ID0185v/full/full/0/default.jpg

This system, referred to as *ordo simplex* (Vidmanová 1994: 125), provided students with a clear framework to reconstruct sentences accurately. Following the numerical sequence, the couplet could be rendered in prose as: *Ippus cespitat in phaleris que supinus blatta; emus labat infatuato velud glossa temeto.*

The exercise was both analytical and practical. Students were required to carefully interpret the numbered sequence and then reconstruct the couplet in its prose form. This task probably involved the use of wax tablets, where learners would place words into designated boxes corresponding to their correct positions in the sentence. Tablets were relatively inexpensive and easily erased (Sheffler 2008: 103), so they were an ideal medium for practice: errors could be easily corrected, allowing students to refine their work without the fear of permanence.

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This flexibility not only fostered experimentation and learning through trial and error but also aligned with the iterative nature of mastering Latin prose.

4 The dictionary part in the context of lexical studies

While individual couplets gather rare vocabulary and convey moral teachings, it is the dictionary section of the work that provides detailed information about specific words. This section, however, is not preserved in all manuscripts of *Cornutus*, but only in those that functioned as a teacher's handbook containing the notes necessary for the instructor's explanation of the text. These include remarks on meaning, inflection, word formation, etymology, and orthography. For instance, the lexicographical commentary on couplet 1 CA offers the following explanation for the word *blatta*:

(5) *Blatta est purpura et dicitur a blata, quod est purpurei coloris quantum ad sanguinem [...] et a blata dicitur blaterare, id est garrire [...]*
'*Blatta* means purple and comes from the word *blata*, which signifies the colour purple (scarlet), like blood [...] and from the word *blata* comes the word *blaterare*, which means to talk nonsense' (Hunt 1991: 329)

Similarly, the commentary on the word *ippus* from couplet 1 CA is particularly detailed:

(6) *Ippos grece, equus latine, et inde hic ippus, -pi, i. equus quod componitur philippus a philos, amor, et ippus, equus, quasi amator equorum vel philippus interpretatur os lampadis et inde componitur ipodromium et est locus ipocabus et est navis in qua portantur equii et in hiis exemplis scribitur ipos per unum 'p'*
'*Ippos* in Greek, *equus* in Latin, and hence *hic ippus*, *-pi*, i.e., *equus*, from which is derived *Philippus*, from *philos*, meaning love, and *ippus*, meaning horse, as if to say lover of horses, or *Philippus* is interpreted as 'torch bearer'. From this is derived *hippodrome*, which is a place for horses, and *hippogogium*, which is a ship in which horses are transported. In these examples, *ipos* is written with a single *p*' (Hunt 1991: 328)

This entry provides information about Greek and Latin equivalents *(ippos grece, equus latine*), the declension of *ippus* with the genitive ending *-pi*, and the meaning (*equus* 'horse'). It also delves into word formation with examples like *Philippus* and *ipodromium*, and concludes with an orthographic note.

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The primary source for such detailed explanations of *ippus* may have been the Latin dictionary *Derivationes* by Hugutio of Pisa. Passages in the commentary appear to derive from several entries in this dictionary, including the following:

(7) *FILOS grece, latine dicitur amor. Et componitur cum yppos quod est equus et dicitur hic Philippus, -pi quod interpretatur amator equorum; vel Philippus interpretatur os lampadis, quia lumen inventum predicavit Nathanaeli*
'*Filos* in Greek is called love. And it is composed with *yppos*, which means horse, and it is said here to be *Philippus, -pi* which is interpreted as 'lover of horses'; or *Philippus* is interpreted as 'the mouth of the lamp', because he proclaimed the light to Nathanael' Hugutio Pisanus, Derivationes, F36 (Cecchini 2004: 437)

(8) *YPA grece, latine dicitur re-, anti, idest contra [...] Item ypos, idest sub, et ypos, id est equus: ab ypos quod est equus dicitur hic ypogabus, idest navis, in qua equi deferuntur*
'In Greek, *ypa* is called *re-*, *anti*, that is, against [...]. Likewise, *ypos*, that is, under, and *ypos*, that is, horse: from *ypos*, which means horse, is derived *ypogabus*, that is, a ship, in which horses are carried' Hugutio Pisanus, Derivationes, I88 (Cecchini 2004: 617–618)

(9) *DROMOS grece, latine cursus et velocitas vel curvitas appellatur [...] Item a dromos quod est curvitas et hyppos quod est equus dicitur hic hyppodromus, idest stabulum equorum; vel hyppodromus dicitur locus obscurus et domus declinandi ad necessitatem, vel locus supra vel circa quem sunt arcus deambulatorii super quos amublabant homines, et secundum hoc hyppodromus componitur ab ypos quod est sub et dromos quod est curvitas, vel ab yper quod est supra et dromos quod est cursus, quia desuper homines currant et ambulent*
'In Greek, *dromos* is called a course, speed, or curvature [...] Likewise, from *dromos*, which means curvature, and *hyppos*, which means horse, is derived *hippodromus*, that is, a stable for horses; or *hippodromus* is called a dark place and a house inclined toward necessity, or a place around which there are walking arcs, over which people used to walk. And according to this, *hippodromus* is composed of *ypos*, which means under, and *dromos*, which means curvature, or from *yper*, which means above, and *dromos*, which means course, because from above, people run and walk' Hugutio Pisanus, Derivationes, D102 (Cecchini 2004: 355–356)

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In the latter part of the lexicographical commentary on the word *ippos*, there is an explanation of the derivative *ipomanes* 'a ship on which horses are transported,' which includes direct references to the works of Virgil (*ut testatur Virgilius in Georgicis*), John of Garland (*hoc testatur I. de Garlandia in suo Compendio*), and Alexander of Hales (*istam differenciam ponit Alexander de Hales in libro de grecis dictionibus et ebrei*) (Hunt 1991: 328–329). Such references—namely, the invocation of authorities and quotations from various works—are a common feature of the dictionary section of *Cornutus*. The cited figures encompass both grammarians and scholars, such as Priscian, Eberhard of Béthune, and Isidore of Seville, as well as classical authors like Virgil, Ovid, and Statius. Most frequently, however, the works of John of Garland are invoked. These include *Compendium* (e.g., the entries for *phalere* and *temeto* in couplet 1 CA, or *agalmati* in couplet 3 CA; Hunt 1991: 329–330, 332), the *Accentarius* (e.g., the entries for *glossa* in couplet 1 CA or *calus* in couplet 2 CA; Hunt 1991: 329, 331), and the *Commentarius* (e.g., the entries for *auceps* in couplet 7 CA or *archos* in couplet 21 CA; Hunt 1991: 336–337, 347). Referring to various medieval and ancient texts was a well-established practice in medieval lexicography. These quotations served not only to enhance the understanding of the word under discussion but also to illustrate and contextualise semantic and grammatical information. Furthermore, the quotations often introduced additional details, occasionally in contrast to the definitions provided earlier (Jasińska et al. 2022: 82–83).

The dictionary part of *Cornutus* not only provides insights into the origins and meanings of words but also highlight the interconnectedness of Greek and Latin linguistic traditions. They demonstrate how medieval scholars navigated multiple linguistic layers, combining ancient sources with their analyses to educate their students. Such lexicographical commentaries served not only linguistic but also cultural and pedagogical purposes.

5 Latin and vernacular glosses in *Cornutus* and their role

Several manuscript copies of *Cornutus* also contain Latin and vernacular glosses (English, French, German, Czech, Polish). This is not surprising, as in the practice of medieval teaching at Latin schools, texts were paraphrased and explained in Latin by the teacher. This method, known as *lectio*, was supported by glossing and commentary in Latin, which provided both practical and effective assistance.

The glossed and annotated manuscripts, which function as teacher's manuals or as aids for self-study, provide insight into the learning and working processes of student reading, both in oral and written form. However, as Henkel cautions,

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these manuscripts do not capture these processes in their full complexity (Henkel 2009: 472). What is evident in the manuscript sources, though, is the set of tools for textual interpretation, which can offer valuable information about the goals and methods of working with the school texts. In addition to the commentary, primarily focused on *realia* in the broad sense, and the *ordo simplex*, which informs word order, the Latin glosses emphasise the meanings of words as well as their formal and syntactic features. Latin glossing also served to systematically expand and safeguard vocabulary (*copia verborum*), thereby promoting active linguistic competence (Henkel 2009: 470). In many textbooks, including *Cornutus*, these Latin glosses are accompanied by glosses in vernacular languages. The vernacular glosses complement the functions of the Latin ones. By employing the mother tongue, they significantly enhance the effectiveness and accessibility of the explanations.

In a general sense, vernacular glosses often clarify the meaning of the Latin lemma through translation equivalents, focusing on either the general or context-specific meaning of the word. These glosses typically appear when the Latin vocabulary lacks a semantically precise equivalent for the lemma, such as with technical terms or names of animals and plants (Henkel 2009: 479–480). In the case of *Cornutus*, the glossing pertains to rare words and borrowings from Greek. An example illustrating both the general and context-specific meaning of the Latin lemma is the Czech gloss *ovčák, totižto prelát* ('a shepherd, namely a prelate'), accompanying the Latin *archimandrita* in couplet 21 CA in Czech manuscript B, fol. 306v:

(10) *Archimandrita* [intergl. *ovčák, totižto prelát*] *sit celebs eusebiusque,*
Atque cresis corde sit eique bolimus in ore
'Let the bishop be noble and pious,
With wisdom in his heart and God's word on his lips'

Both Czech equivalents originate from the dictionary part of *Cornutus*, which describes the words from which the Greek compound *archimandrita* is formed and its meaning.

(11) *Archos* grecem princeps latine, mandros grece, ovis latine, et inde componitur *archimandrus*, .i. princeps ovium .i. pastor ecclesie, nam Christiani sunt oves Christi et *archimandrita* idem est
'*Archos* in Greek means *'leader'* in Latin, *mandros* in Greek means *'sheep'* in Latin, and from this is formed *archimandrus*, i.e., '*leader of the sheep'*, meaning '*shepherd of the Church'*, for Christians are the sheep of Christ, and *archimandrita* has the same meaning' (Hunt 1991: 347)

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Another notable instance is the Polish gloss *bielmo* ('an obscuration of the crystalline lens, a cataract'), which accompanies the Latin word of Greek origin *glauconia* in couplet 17 CA in Polish manuscript P, fol. 308v:

(12) *Hernia prava proco, spurtum genus et vola cassa,*
Et polipus rini malus est glauconia [intergl. *bielmo*] *talmi*
'An immoral man is harmed by a hernia, illegitimate birth, and an empty hand, Just as a stench harms the nose, and cataracts harm the eye'

Additionally, an example of a Czech translation of a Latin word of Greek origin, notably featuring expressive language, is the Czech gloss *bzdina* ('fart'), which glosses Latin *siphon* in couplet 13 CN in Czech manuscript B, fol. 307v:

(13) *Seria sepidia fugitiuis, sermo disertis*
Siphon [intergl. *bzdina*] *erit fissus, anus semis fit yultus*
'Shelters are useful to villains, speech to the eloquent,
And a fart will split if the anus is half open'

Sometimes, the words used in the main text require more than one vernacular equivalent, as in the case of couplet 1 CA of Polish manuscript P, fol. 302r, where the phrase *in falleris* ('in ornate coverings') is accompanied by the Latin synonym *in ornamentis*, followed by two Polish glosses: *w ubraniu* ('in attire') and *w okrasie* ('in decoration'):

(14) *Cespitat in falleris* [intergl. *in ornamentis, w ubraniu, w okrasie*] *ipus blactaque supinus,*
Glossa velut themeto labet hemus infatuato
'Just as a horse stumbles in ornate coverings and purple,
So the tongue falters in the foolish speech of a man who has tasted too much wine.'

Both vernacular and Latin glosses were used in in various ways for the grammatical interpretation of the basic Latin text, for example to identify grammatical form categories and often also to clarify syntactic links in the verse (Henkel 2009: 483–493). It is typical of the poetic text of *Cornutus* that the Latin glosses point out that, for a better understanding, it is often necessary to add a word. For example, above the phrase *pleyda nosse magorum*, there is a Latin gloss *scilicet est* ('i.d., it is') with the Czech translation *jest* ('is') in couplet 12 CN of Czech manuscript A, fol. 182r:

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(15) *In biga tenues, in plauscro duco phylaces,*
Insudat polye dis, pleyda nosse magorum [intergl. *scilicet est, jest*]
'On a cart, I carry the thin; on a wagon, the fat.
The rich strive for wealth; to know the courses of stars [is] granted to astronomers'

A similar situation arises in couplet 3 CA of Polish manuscript P, fol. 303r, where the pronoun *qui* ('who') is glossed with the Latin explanatory annotation *scilicet homo* ('namely, a man'), accompanied by the Polish gloss *człowiecze* ('man'):

(16) *Qui* [intergl. *sc. homo, człowiecze*] *cupide condis ypogeum gazophilantem,*
Cardus ad vranici scandens algamata regni
'You [man] who greedily hoard an underground treasure,
Shall be the last to ascend to the thrones of the heavenly kingdom'

Latin glosses are sometimes introduced with clarifying or signalling expressions such as *id est* ('that is to say; in other words') or *scilicet* ('namely'), as seen in the given examples. Vernacular glosses usually appear without additional markers, but not always. In more lightly glossed manuscripts, glosses are preceded by the Latin adverb *vulgariter* ('commonly'), as exemplified in couplet 7 CA of Polish manuscript P, fol. 305r:

(17) *Cironomon mensis, lectis intendit aliptes,*
dumetis auceps latet et siccarius [intergl. *vulgariter zbojca*] *antris*
'The waiter takes care of the tables, the doctor rushes to the bedside,
the birdcatcher lurks in the bushes, and the bandit hides in the caves'

An exceptional case is the appearance of language markers, primarily in insular copies. In insular manuscript C, which contains both French and English glosses, adverbs such as *gallice* ('in French') and *anglice* ('in English') appear fairly regularly, particularly when Latin terms are glossed with equivalents in both languages.[11] For example, in couplet 9 CA, the Latin *onocrotalus* ('pelican') is accompanied by vernacular equivalents marked with these language markers.

(18) *Hinc elephas barrit, onocrocalus* [intergl. *gallice corlue, anglice rordrombel*]
hiccine bumbit,
Hinc onager rudit, ranunculus inde coaxat

[11]For more about multilingual glossing, see: Wallis et al. (2024).

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'Now the elephant trumpets and immediately the great white pelican grunts,
but the wild donkey brays while the little frog croaks' (Hunt 1991: 338)

The use of language markers seems to be a practical strategy for distinguishing between languages. However, in insular manuscript C, they are also used when only a single gloss is provided for a Latin lemma. For instance, in couplet 14 CA, the Latin *fecula* ('dried lees of wine') is glossed with *gallice la lie*, while the Latin *bibulus* ('a man fond of drinking') is annotated with *gallice bevur*:

(19) *Fecula* [intergl. *gallice la lie*] *non acinum, sed caupo cauma repellit,*
At bibulus [intergl. *gallice bevur*] *musti bibiones arcet amurca*
'Starch does not drive away the grape, but the innkeeper repels the heat,
But the drinker of young wine keeps drunkards away with olive oil lees'
(Hunt 1991: 341)

In some *Cornutus* manuscripts, phrases from the commentary have been incorporated into the Latin glosses, a practice particularly common in Czech manuscript A. This is due to the fact that this source omits the dictionary section in *Cornutus*, resulting in an unusually abundant presence of Latin glosses between the lines of the distich (cf. Figure 1). The interlinear version of this copy was probably not intended to be read in horizontal succession. Instead, the individual words of the interlinear Czech gloss were vertically aligned with the corresponding lemma of the basic Latin text of *Cornutus*. The purpose of this arrangement was, as Henkel (2009: 495) emphasised, primarily to foster a literal understanding of the Latin text, particularly for *vocabula exotica*, by comparing the individual Latin words with their vernacular equivalents. In Czech manuscript A, Latin glosses are often rendered into the vernacular through Czech translations. For instance, in couplet 2 CA, fol. 180v, there is a Latin gloss accompanying the term *dyalogisat*, followed by its Czech translation: *id est de deo loquitur, o boze mluví* ('i.e., he speaks about God') (Voleková & Jasińska-Różycka 2025: 478). The commentary on this expression is found, for example, in the Czech manuscript D, fol. 110r, where the original Greek διαλογίζομαι ('to converse, argue') is wrongly etymologised and the prefix *dya-* is interpreted as the numeral 'two':

(20) *Qui calus in praxi, simul est et pisticus emo,*
Illius oda placent, qui recte dyalogisat [intergl. *id est de deo loquitur, o boze mluví*]
'He who is zealous in action is also trustworthy in speech;

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the songs of him who converses rightly are pleasant'
theoloyzor, id est de Deo loquor, ergo theoloyzat dicitur a theos, quod est Deus, et logos sermo, quod verus sermo, et aliqui habent dyaloysat et tunc dicitur a dya, quod est duo, et logos sermo, quasi ille, qui de divino loquitur
'*Theoloyzor*, that is, 'I speak about God', therefore one is said to *theoloyzat* from *theos*, which means 'God', and *logos*, which means 'speech', which means 'true speech'. Some use *dyaloysat*, and in that case, it is derived from *dya*, meaning 'two', and *logos*, meaning 'speech', as if referring to one who speaks about the divine'

In many manuscripts used for Latin learning in the medieval schools, the glossing is so dense that in some passages, glosses—whether in Latin, vernacular, or even both—appear above almost every word. These manuscripts provide a word-for-word, lemma related Latin or vernacular paraphrase of the main text. In the case of poetic texts like *Cornutus*, the glosses often provide a word-for-word transfer into the language of prose, creating an ideal foundation for paraphrasing *lectio* in both Latin and vernacular (Henkel 2009: 493). Such a dense level of glossing is found in some Czech and English sources. The systematic addition of equivalents by glossators and teachers to individual words of the text effectively made *Cornutus* a textbook for readers seeking self-education. It appears that the Czech manuscript B was meticulously crafted, with generous spacing between lines, each verse neatly aligned on its own line, and a systematic Czech translation in a smaller script placed above individual words. It was likely created by commission for a reader seeking self-education; other manuscripts, which served as teachers' handbooks, were not as neatly written, and contained Latin commentaries or Latin glosses (Jasińska-Różycka & Voleková 2026).

In contrast to manuscripts with English, French, Czech, and Polish glosses, those containing a German vernacular element stand apart. Some of manuscripts feature not just glosses to the Latin text but an entire German translation, resulting in a poetic text. According to Habel (1908: 12–22), the original version of this translation is in Low German. Over time, however, translations of certain couplets of *Cornutus* began to appear in High German dialects as well, and in some manuscripts, there are combinations of both dialects (e.g., Low German with High German interpolations, High German with Low German strophes). As a result, there is no single canonical translation. This is evident, for example, in couplet 5 CA:

(21) *Terga laphi dorcaeque latus delata popinae*
An sint elixa vel assa, scit bene lixa

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> 'They brought the backbones of a deer and the side of a doe to the kitchen;
> Whether they should be boiled or roasted, the cook should know well' (Habel 1908: 24)

The most common translation of the opening line reads: *de hercen vnde de tcegen* ('the deer and the goats'). However, some manuscripts modify this translation in order to render the Latin original more precisely, employing alternative forms. They read: *den rugghen van den herten van den ſiden van den ſterten* ('the back of the deer, the sides, and the tails') or *der rück von den hirczen und von den czegen* ('the back of the deer and of the goats') (Habel 1908: 20).

The differences between German translations and glossed manuscripts in other vernacular languages extend to the layout of the text as well, as is shown in figures 2 and 3.

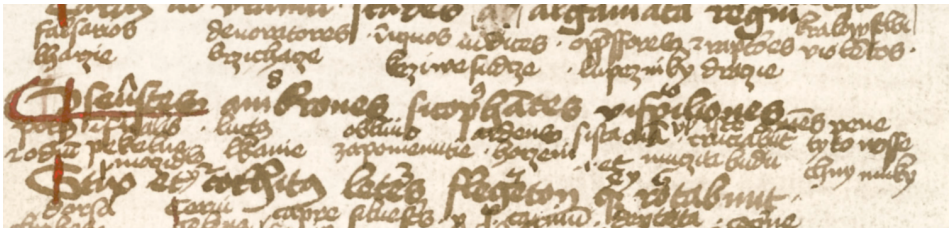

Figure 2: Czech manuscript A from the second half of the 15th century (1478), fol. 180v, https://imagines.manuscriptorium.com/loris/AIPDIG-NKCR__XI_C_1_____0JGOUA3-cs/ID0185v/full/full/0/default.jpg

In the Czech copy, the glosses are interlinear. Vernacular words are written directly above the corresponding Latin word from the couplet, with its Latin equivalent placed above the gloss. Meanwhile, in another manuscript, the German translation is presented directly after the couplet and is further distinguished by rubrication on the initial letters of words starting each line. This layout highlights both the separation and interdependence of the two sections – the Latin couplet and the German translation.

To summarise, glossing in *Cornutus* manuscripts served as a crucial pedagogical tool, enhancing the comprehension of the Latin text for students in medieval schools. Latin glosses focused on vocabulary expansion, syntactic clarification, and the explanation of rare terms, while vernacular glosses, appearing in English, French, German, Polish, and Czech, offered accessible equivalents in the reader's native language. These glosses often clarified complex or foreign terms, occasionally providing expressive or nuanced translations. The glossing methods varied significantly between manuscripts: English, Czech and Polish glosses

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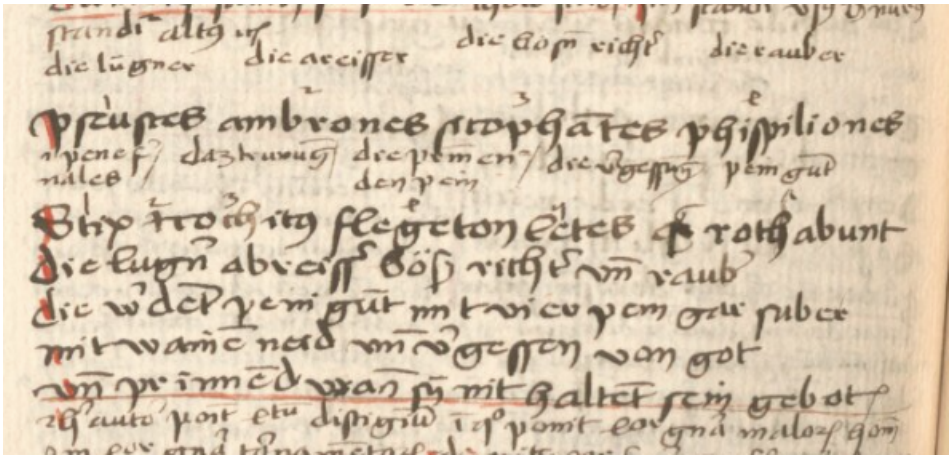

Figure 3: German manuscript R from the 15th century, fol. 145v, https://www.digitale-sammlungen.de/en/view/bsb00145111?page=300,301

were typically interlinear, aligned with corresponding Latin words for literal interpretation, whereas German elements included complete poetic translations, differing in dialect and lexical choices. The diversity of glossing styles and layouts highlights their dual role in fostering linguistic competence and adapting texts for educational purposes.

6 Conclusion

Through various examples, we aimed to demonstrate that *Cornutus* served as a pivotal educational tool in medieval Latin schools, offering students comprehensive opportunities for both linguistic and ethical development. Through its numerous poetic couplets, rich with rare vocabulary, the work served as a foundation for learning grammar, orthography, etymology, and linguistic structure. Students not only practised analysing and composing Latin verse but also honed practical skills in declension, word formation, and recognizing connections between Latin, Greek, and their native languages. Glosses—both in Latin and vernacular languages—played a central role in facilitating this learning, helping students to understand rare and exotic terms as well as the principles of word formation, which were often more intricate than the everyday use of language. The inclusion of vernacular languages in glosses further enhanced their accessibility and effectiveness, allowing learners to bridge gaps between the Latin text and their own linguistic contexts.

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The importance of *Cornutus* for medieval education extended beyond linguistic training, as it also instilled moral lessons, aligning with the broader goals of scholastic education. Its structured approach to glossing and commentary exemplified the pedagogical methods of the time, combining rote memorisation, analytical interpretation, and practical application. The dense glossing in some manuscripts provided word-for-word translations and syntactic clarifications, making the text more accessible for students, whether guided by a teacher or studying independently. By integrating elements of grammar, ethics, and multilingual interpretation, *Cornutus* became not just a textbook but a comprehensive educational resource that cultivated both intellectual and moral growth in its readers, reflecting the holistic aims of medieval scholastic traditions.

Acknowledgements

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Chapter 2

Georg Mancelius' German–Latvian dictionary "Lettus" (1638) as the first learning tool for the Latvian language

Pēteris Vanags

In the early 17th century, Courland and Livonia (present-day Latvia), then under Swedish and Polish-Lithuanian rule, faced a severe shortage of Lutheran clergymen proficient in Latvian, particularly in rural congregations. Most new clergy came from German-speaking lands, making at least a basic understanding of Latvian essential for effective ministry. Before the 17th century, Latvian language learning relied on a handful of printed religious texts, which were often linguistically inconsistent and orthographically inaccurate. Recognizing this gap, Georg Mancelius (1593–1654), a Courland pastor, sought to improve the situation by publishing a Latvian language manual, *Lettus. Das ist Wortbuch* (1638). This work comprises three main parts: 1) an alphabetical German-Latvian dictionary; 2) a thematic dictionary, *Phraseologia Lettica*; 3) ten parallel conversations in German and Latvian. Additionally, the edition includes the first Latvian translation of the Book of Proverbs. Mancelius explicitly stated in the preface that the dictionary was intended "for the benefit of foreigners coming from Germany who wished to participate in church services, despite their lack of knowledge of the [Latvian] language." He also noted that "foreign merchants in this country may also use it, as seen in the word-book and phraseology."

Beyond its primary function as a dictionary, the publication contains numerous annotations and explanations, which provide both linguistic and ethnographic insights into Latvian language and daily life. These annotations fall into several categories: 1) grammatical comments, 2) phonetic comments, 3) semantic comments, 4) dialectological comments, 5) other notes on language usage. Furthermore, *Phraseologia Lettica* offers practical language examples that could be directly applied in real-life communication. Through these extensive linguistic observations and structured examples, Mancelius' work provided learners with a comprehensive resource to aid in communicating in Latvian across diverse everyday contexts.

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This paper aims to analyze Georg Mancelius' *Lettus* (1638) as an early systematic tool for learning and describing the Latvian language. It examines the dictionary's structure, source materials, annotations, and scholarly significance. Its original contribution lies in offering a fresh interpretation of Mancelius's notes and linguistic commentary as an early form of Latvian dialectology and ethnolinguistic description.

lexicography; language acquisition; Latvian language; ethnolinguistics; Georg Mancelius

1 Introduction

1.1 Historical and linguistic context

The 17th century marks a new era in the history of the Latvian people and the Latvian language. The preceding period, spanning the 13th to the 16th centuries, was characterized by the subjugation of various East Baltic tribes - Letgalians, Semigallians, Selonians, and Curonians - under the rule of the Livonian Order. This process led to their gradual integration, culminating in the formation of both the Latvian nation and language (Šterns 1997: 598–614).

By the mid-16th century, following the Livonian War, Livonia fell under the rule of Lithuania and Poland. The Latvian territories were reorganized: the Duchy of Courland and Semigallia was established on the left bank of the Daugava River as a vassal state of the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth, while the Duchy of Livonia (*Ducatus Ultradunensis*) was formed on the right bank under the rule of the Grand Duke of Lithuania (Dunsdorfs & Spekke 1964: 148–196). This political arrangement persisted until the early 17th century when, as a result of the Polish-Swedish War, the western part of the Duchy of Livonia, including Riga, came under Swedish control in 1621. This territorial division was solidified by the Treaty of Altmark in 1629 and later by the Treaty of Oliva in 1660 between Poland-Lithuania and Sweden (Dunsdorfs 1962: 19–53, 89–103).

This political division also had significant implications for the confessional landscape of the region. In eastern Livonia, under Polish rule (commonly referred to as Polish Livonia), Catholicism was reinforced. In the Duchy of Courland, where Augsburg Confession (Lutheranism) was officially recognized, Lutheranism became the dominant religion, persisting to the present day. However, as Courland remained a vassal of Poland-Lithuania, the Catholic Church also retained certain rights, and during the 17th century, several noble families

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converted to Catholicism, leading to the formation of isolated Catholic enclaves within an otherwise predominantly Lutheran Courland. In Livonia, Catholic dominance continued until the first quarter of the 17th century, when Swedish rule was established. Thereafter, Lutheranism became the sole official religion, and efforts were concentrated on its consolidation. The Swedish administration reinforced both the church's influence and Lutheranism's stronghold in Livonia (Feldmanis 2011: 154–169).

Thus, in the 17th century, three main political entities existed within Latvian lands – Livonia or Livland, Courland, and Polish Livonia (modern-day Latgale) – each subordinated to two dominant powers: Sweden and Poland-Lithuania. However, these territories differed significantly in their religious and cultural orientations. Over time, the two regions – Livonia and Courland – became more closely aligned due to their shared Lutheran faith and Germanic cultural orientation, while Polish Livonia, where Catholicism prevailed, gravitated toward Polish influence. This cultural and religious divergence has persisted to the present day.

This political structure remained intact until the Great Northern War, which resulted in Sweden losing its territories in Livonia, transferring former Swedish Livonia to Russian rule.

Despite the presence of various ethnic groups in Latvian lands during the 17th century - including autochthonous Latvians and Livonians, as well as German settlers and smaller ethnic communities – Latvians comprised over 90% of the population. Germans predominated only in urban centres (Dunsdorfs & Spekke 1964: 221–225).

The division into ethnic groups largely corresponded to linguistic boundaries. In 17th-century Latvian territories, Latvian, Livonian, German, Polish, Swedish, and several other languages were spoken. However, their usage and functions varied significantly.

German served as the primary written language in both Courland and Livonia. It was used in state administration and official documentation, both in the ducal government and in Swedish-controlled Livonia. German was also the language of literary production and one of the principal languages of education.

The Latvian language was undoubtedly the most widely spoken language in Latvian territories during the 17th century, as it was the native language of the vast majority of the population. Additionally, it was spoken as a second language by members of other local ethnic groups, including Livonians, Germans, and others. However, despite its widespread use, the role of Latvian was socially restricted, as the social status of Latvians themselves was also limited.

Within the social hierarchy, individuals of Latvian origin occupied the lower and, in some cases, middle strata of society, whereas the upper classes were

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predominantly of foreign descent. This hierarchical structure was the primary reason why the Latvian language held no official function in state administration.

1.2 Latvian as a church language

The most widespread domain in which Latvian was used beyond everyday communication was the Christian Church. Although Franciscan monks had already preached in Latvian at St. Catherine's Monastery in Riga before the Reformation, Latvian only gained comprehensive status in church services during the Reformation. A separate Latvian congregation in Riga is believed to have been established around 1525, and by 1527, it was officially documented at St. Jacob's Church (Straubergs 1933: 278–280); (Dunsdorfs & Spekke 1964: 100–101). This period is also associated with the first recorded mention of a possible book containing Latvian text. In 1525, the Catholic city council of Lübeck confiscated a barrel of books intended for Riga, described as containing "vasz plenu[m] libris lutterianisz ecia[m] missis in vulgari liuonico lettico ac estonico" ('a collection full of Lutheran books, including Masses in the common Livonian – Latvian and Estonian languages') (Biezais 1973: 25–31).

Throughout the 16th century, the use of Latvian in the Lutheran Church was strengthened. Its role was codified in church regulations of the time. In 1586–1587, and later in 1615, the first editions of church handbooks in Latvian, including catechisms, pericopes, and hymnals, were published.

Although the formal use of Latvian in the Lutheran Church was ensured, in practice, this often posed challenges due to the inadequate Latvian proficiency of many clergy. The main issue was that many pastors arrived from Germany, leading to a lack of Latvian-speaking clergy. At the beginning of the Swedish period in Livonia (1622), there were only seven pastors. By 1630, this number had increased to 45, but many were foreigners who did not speak Latvian fluently. This issue was highlighted in 1630 by Governor-General Johann Skytte, who criticized Livonian Superintendent Hermann Samson for the poor Latvian language skills of clergy (Liljedahl 1933: 378); (Dunsdorfs 1962: 83). In response, Samson pointed out that a similar situation existed in Courland and that pastors typically learned Latvian while performing their duties (Lundström 1914: 234–236); (Dobreff 2006: 142–143).

The same concerns regarding insufficient Latvian language skills among clergy were raised by dean of Koknese Johann Georg Rehehusen in his report dated July 26, 1648, titled *Bericht des Kirchenzustandes bey den armen Undeutschen in Liefland vnd wie demselben zu remedieren* (Lundström 1914: 291); (Adamovičs 1930: 268).

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The dissatisfaction of Latvian congregations with the language skills of many pastors is reflected in the well-known remark by pastor Georg Mancelius from 1631:

> "Daher geſchichts das der=jenige / ſo aus Teutſchland zu vns kompt / vnd dieſe ſprache nach anleitung der erſten vnd andern ſchrifft lernet / nimmer=mehr verſtändlich dieſelbe außredet / ſondern es gemeiniglich alſo machet / das der Pawr nach verrichtetem Gottesdienſt ſagt: Kas ſinna ko tas Wahtzſemmes Kagkis ſacka?"
>
> 'It so happens that those who come to us from Germany and learn this language according to the first and second writings never manage to speak it clearly. Instead, it often results in a situation where, after the church service, the peasant asks: 'Who knows what that German cat is saying?'' (LVM [b iiij] $^{r-v}$)

Efforts were made throughout the century to address this linguistic issue among German clergy through the development of dictionaries and grammars to facilitate language learning.

1.3 The emergence of Latvian linguistic scholarship

The 17th century also marks the beginning of linguistic awareness and description of the Latvian language. This development was driven by the practical necessity for instructional materials to assist German clergy arriving from Germany in learning Latvian. This reason is explicitly mentioned in the introduction of the first Latvian grammar, *Manuductio ad linguam lettonicam facilis et certa* (1644). Its author, pastor Johann Georg Rehehusen, who himself had immigrated from Germany, notes that he had written the grammar fourteen years earlier (circa 1630) and that many colleagues had requested its publication (Fennell 1982b: 8, 106). However, upon its release, this grammar was sharply criticized – particularly by Paul Einhorn – the superintendent of Courland at the time. Einhorn criticized the grammar as overly simplified and inaccurate (Fennell 1982a: 1–45).

The 17th century also saw the development of Latvian lexicographical traditions. The earliest mention of lexicographical work is found in the obituary of Ertman Tolgsdorf, the translator of a Catholic catechism published in 1585, and states that he had compiled a Latvian dictionary – referred to as a "nomenclator" – possibly a traditional type of thematic dictionary at the time (Apīnis 1977: 39; (Kučinskis 1983: 66). The first printed Latvian dictionary that has survived is *Lettus, Das ist Wortbuch*, prepared by Georg Mancelius and published in 1638. The

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first section of this work is an alphabetically arranged German-Latvian dictionary, while the second section, *Phraseologia Lettica*, presents words and phrases organized into thematic categories (Zemzare 1961: 11–63).

The aim of this paper is to analyse Mancelius' *Lettus* as the first systematic tool for learning and describing the Latvian language, focusing on its structure, sources, annotations, and significance in the early stages of Latvian language study. The original contribution of this study lies in offering a new perspective on the dictionary's sources and organisation, as well as on the role of its linguistic and ethnographic notes. While previous scholarship has acknowledged the existence of these annotations, little attention has been paid to their systematic analysis and to their importance as one of the earliest sources for Latvian dialectology and ethnolinguistics.

2 Georg Mancelius and his *Lettus*

2.1 Georg Mancelius' life and works

As noted, the works of Georg Mancelius, significant for the history of the Latvian language, did not emerge in a vacuum; rather, they were driven by the necessities and opportunities of the era. The primary reasons for his contributions were the lack of Latvian-speaking clergy and the need for instructional materials to facilitate the learning of the Latvian language. Another problem within the church was not only language proficiency but also the quality of Latvian texts used in religious services. Mancelius sought to address all these challenges.

Georg Mancelius (also Mantzel) was born in 1593 in Mežmuiža/ Grenzhof (present-day Augstkalne) in the Duchy of Courland and Semigallia to a Lutheran pastor's family. He studied at Jelgava Latin School (1605–1608), Riga Cathedral School (1608–1610), and the Paedagogium in Stettin (1611). He continued his education at the University of Rostock (1612–1615), where he earned his first degree. After returning to Courland, he served as a Lutheran pastor in Valle/ Wallhof (1616–1619) and Sēlpils/Sellburg (1620–1625). Subsequently, he lived in Swedish Livonia, working in Tartu/Dorpat (1626–1638) as the head pastor in the congregation of St. John and also as a professor at the academic gymnasium (1630–1632) and university (1632–1638). He later returned to Courland at the duke's call, serving as the court's chaplain from 1638 until his death in 1654 (Krēsliņš 1992: 141–150).

Mancelius left behind a significant literary legacy in multiple languages. His Latin works consist primarily of theological treatises and academic discussions

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from his university years and later periods. In German, he authored a few theological treatises. However, his most notable contributions were his works in the Latvian language: *Lettisch Vade mecum* (1631, 1643–1644, with additions), *Das Haus-, Zucht- und Lehrbuch Jesu Syrachs* (1631, 1643), *Die Sprüche Salomonis* (1637), *Lettus / Phraseologia Lettica / Zehen Gespräche* (1638), and *Lang=gewünschte Lettische Postill* (1654).

Mancelius' first Latvian work, *Lettisch Vade mecum* (1631), a revised and expanded Lutheran church handbook, marked the beginning of standardization of written Latvian. This publication introduced new principles of Latvian orthography and established the Semigallian dialect as the foundation of the written language. His linguistic contributions laid the groundwork for the so-called "old orthography," which persisted until the mid-20th century. Furthermore, Mancelius provided the first linguistic remarks on Latvian spelling, phonetics, and morphology in the prefaces to *Lettisch Vade mecum* (1631) and *Lettus* (1638).

2.2 *Lettus*: its structure and sources

The books dated 1637 and 1638, published at Gerhard Schröder's printing house in Riga, are typically found as a convolute consisting of three parts, each with its own title page:

1. LETTUS, Das ist Wortbuch/ Sampt angehengtem täglichem Gebrauch der Lettiſchen Sprache; Allen vnd jeden Außheimiſchen/ die in Churland/ Semgallen vnd Lettiſchem Liefflande bleiben/ vnd ſich redlich nehren wollen/ zu Nutze verfertigt ... Anno M. DC. XXXVIII.

2. PHRASEOLOGIA LETTICA, Das ist: Täglicher Gebrauch der Lettiſchen Sprache. ... 1638.

3. Die Sprüche Salomonis in die Lettiſche Sprache gebracht. ... 1637.

In bibliographical indexes, these works are usually listed under separate entries (Apīnis & Šiško 1999: 45–46). However, both the title of the first part and the preface contained within it make it clear that these texts were intended as a unified edition or book set.

The first part, *Lettus*, is an alphabetically and morphologically structured German-Latvian dictionary comprising approximately 6,000 entries across 207 pages, formatted in two columns in Octavo. The macrostructure of the dictionary follows alphabetical order, but strict sequencing is maintained only for the first two letters. Derived words, such as verbs with prefixes, are often placed after

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the root word from which they are derived. The microstructure of the dictionary consists mainly of German lexemes in their base form, sometimes accompanied by synonyms. The Latvian translation is provided in the base form as well (nominative for declinable words, infinitive for verbs), occasionally supplemented by one or more synonyms. In some cases, metalinguistic annotations are included (primarily for Latvian lexemes, and less frequently for German ones). In certain entries, the meaning is further clarified with a Latin translation. Occasionally, instead of a single lexeme, an entry may contain a phrase or even a full sentence in both the German and Latvian sections.

The second part, *Phraseologia Lettica*, is a thematic German-Latvian dictionary structured into 51 chapters covering various topics and spanning 191 pages. The entries include not only individual lexemes but also word combinations and longer phrases. Two chapters specifically provide lists of local toponyms, including river and settlement names. This part also includes metalinguistic annotations. Additionally, this part of the publication contains ten dialogues in parallel German and Latvian texts on various subjects, primarily focusing on travel and rural labour. This section lacks a separate title page or heading but has its own foliation.

Die Sprüche Salomonis is a full translation of the Book of Proverbs from the Old Testament. Notably, this is the first known translation of this text into Latvian. While it is not directly related to the first two parts of the convolute, its inclusion in the publication provides a broader sample of the Latvian language. This book comprises 104 pages in Octavo format. The Latvian text in this edition also includes commentaries.

Until now, little research has been devoted to the sources of Georg Mancelius' 1637/1638 publications. The origin of the German lemma list in the *Lettus* dictionary has not been previously documented. Regarding the thematic dictionary *Phraseologia Lettica*, scholars have merely noted that it is "kārtota tematiski pēc tā laika leksikogrāfijas tradīcijas" ('arranged thematically according to contemporary lexicographical traditions') (Zemzare 1961: 11–14). The ten dialogues have been described as "a popular genre in the early seventeenth century" (Krēsliņš 1992: 132), while Stephan Kessler has indirectly linked them to the works of Jan Amos Comenius or Erasmus of Rotterdam (Kessler 2018: 14–16).

For the preparation of this study, several works on 16th- and 17th-century German lexicographical traditions (Claes 1977); (Jones 2000); (Henne & Ising 2001); (Müller 2001) were reviewed, along with digitally accessible copies of various early modern German dictionaries. Without delving into details, which will be the subject of a separate publication, it can be stated with reasonable certainty

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that the core of the German lemma list in the alphabetical-morphological dictionary derives from two primary sources:

1. One of Heinrich Decimator's (*c.* 1544–1627) editions of *Sylva vocabulorum et phrasium cum solutae* (first published in 1578), from the early 17th century (Müller 2001: 180–190); (Claes 1977): nos. 623, 671, 685, 695–6, 715, 726, 737–8, 751, 775–6, 797–9, 812–4, 825; (Jones 2000: 276–285);

2. An edition of the anonymous dictionary *Lexicon trilingue* (first published in 1586), sometimes attributed to David Schelling and Helfricus Emmel, specifically its supplement *Index Germanicolatinus* (Müller 2001: 135–143); (Claes 1977): nos. 690, 694, 701, 719, 745, 824; (Jones 2000: 55–57).

A direct source or close equivalent for the systematic dictionary *Phraseologia Lettica* has yet to be identified. Like similar dictionaries of its time (Müller 2001), it is divided into thematic chapters, some of which correspond to those found in other contemporary publications. However, no known work contains an identical chapter structure and sequence. A key distinction from the examined examples is that Mancelius' edition includes not only individual lexemes and collocations but also a significant number of longer phrases. Moreover, these phrases frequently appear to reflect local realities and events. The current research suggests that even if Mancelius had access to a specific primary source, he contributed a considerable amount of original material to this thematic dictionary. This is supported by his own statement in the preface of *Lettus*:

> "Geſtehe ichs gern/ das in der Phraſeologi nicht alles ordentlich geſetzt ſey/ welchs mir der vernünfftige vnd vnpartheiſcher Leſer deſto eher wird zu gut halten/ wann er ſich wird berichten laſſen/ wie ich diß Werck nicht bey guter Muß verfertigt/ ſondern von meinen vielfaltigen concatenatis laboribus kaum ſo viel Zeit hab abbrechen können/ das ich dieſe Arbeit zuſammen raſpeln mögen/ vnd demnach bey ſolcher beſchaffenheit nicht alles zu einer zeit/ vnd auff einmahl mir eingefallen."
>
> 'I readily admit that not everything in the phraseology is arranged in an orderly manner, which the reasonable and impartial reader will be more inclined to excuse once they understand that I did not produce this work during leisure time. Rather, I could scarcely carve out enough time from my numerous concatenated labours to piece together this work hurriedly. Consequently, under such circumstances, not everything occurred to me at once or at the same time.' (*L*, preface [vij] ^{v})

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The ten dialogues, given their local themes and references to specific places and realities, were undoubtedly written by Georg Mancelius himself. In the final dialogue, he even indirectly refers to himself without explicitly naming himself:

> "Es war doſelbſt ein Teutſcher Prediger/ der redete dieſe Sprache gantz rein/ zu dem funden wir vns."
>
> 'There was a German preacher there who spoke this language [i.e., Latvian] quite fluently, and we turned to him.' (C Diij ^{v})

Undoubtedly, this section of the publication had indirect sources or inspirations, as dialogues with translations were a common tool for language learning in the late 16th and early 17th centuries. Krēsliņš (1992: 132) has mentioned Daniel Martin's *Parlement nouveau, ou, centurie inerlinaire...* (Strasbourg, 1637) in relation to Georg Mancelius. Similarly, dialogues are used in works such as *Dictionariolum Hexaglosson* (Leipzig, 1611) and *Colloqvia Et Dictionariolvm Sex Lingvarvm* (Heidelberg, 1614) (Müller 2001: 148–159).

The final part of the convolute, *Die Sprüche Salomonis*, is Mancelius' own translation, as indicated in both the preface and the title page of the translation. The source for this Latvian translation was a German edition of Martin Luther's Bible (Repečkaitė & Kazakėnaitė 2025: 53). Krēsliņš (1992: 132–133) has noted also an interesting parallel—around the same time, a Swedish translation of the same Old Testament book *Salomons Ordspråks Bok* (1632), was printed in Riga.

2.3 Purpose and objectives of *Lettus*

One of the fundamental purposes of any bilingual dictionary is to serve as an aid in language acquisition, whether in formal education at school or for practical needs in everyday life. Similarly, Mancelius compiled *Lettus* with the aim of assisting foreigners in learning the Latvian language and in practical daily communication.

First and foremost, this purpose is explicitly stated on the title page of the dictionary:

> "LETTUS, Das iſt Wortbuch/ Sampt angehengtem täglichem Gebrauch der Lettiſchen Sprache; Allen vnd jeden Außheimiſchen/ die in Churland/ Semgallen vnd Lettiſchem Liefflande bleiben/ vnd ſich redlich nehren wollen/ zu Nutze verfertigt/"
>
> 'LETTUS, that is, a dictionary with the attached daily use of the Latvian language; prepared for the benefit of all and everyone from abroad who stay

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in Courland, Semgallia, and Latvian Livonia and wish to make an honest living.' (L [a ij] ^{r})

This practical objective is also elaborated upon in the preface, where the necessity of providing support for Lutheran pastors arriving from German-speaking regions who wish to serve Latvian congregations is emphasized:

"Bin auch damahls/ vnangeſehen ich mit meinen concatenatis laboribus vnd Amptsgeſchäfften gnug zu thun/ gäntzlich reſolviret geweſen/ negſt Göttlicher Hülffe in dieſer Sprache weiter den Kirchen in Churland/ Semgallen vnnd Lettiſchem Liefflande/ nach dem Maß der Gaben/ ſo GOtt auß Gnaden mir verliehen/ mit einem Lettiſchen Vocabulario vnd Phraſeology, deßgleichen mit einer Poſtill/ vmb der Außländer willen/ die auß Teutſchland zu vns kommen/ vnd zu Kirchendienſten ſich wolten gebrauchen laſſen/ damit ſie/ alß die ſodaner Sprache gantz vnkündig/ dennoch einen Handgriff haben möchten/ zu dienen;"

'At that time, even though I was sufficiently occupied with my concatenated labours and official duties, I was entirely resolved, with divine assistance, to further serve the churches in Courland, Semgallia, and Latvian Livonia within the measure of the gifts God has graciously bestowed upon me. This included preparing a Latvian vocabulary and phraseology, as well as a postil, for the sake of foreigners who came to us from Germany and wished to be employed in church services, so that they, being entirely unfamiliar with this language, might still have a practical tool to serve.' (L (a) iiij $^{r-v}$)

The preface also mentions another group for whom the dictionary could be useful—foreign merchants who wished to conduct business in the Latvian-speaking part of Livonia:

"deſſen gleichwol auch außheimiſche Kauffleute in dieſem Lande ſich gebrauchen können/ wie auß dem Wortbuch/ vnd der Phraſeology zu erſehen"

'Which, nevertheless, foreign merchants in this land can also use, as can be seen from the dictionary and the phraseology.' (L (a) v v)

Furthermore, the author does not merely assert that this dictionary can be useful. The material in the publication itself - especially various annotations and explanations in the text - not only affirms the author's intent but also provides both linguistic and ethnographic clarification of various aspects of language and everyday life. These features could aid in the better and faster acquisition of Latvian. Additionally, the publication offers examples of language usage that are directly applicable to daily situations.

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3 Comments in the text of *Lettus*

3.1 Grammatical comments

To facilitate the learning of the Latvian language and clarify the usage of lexemes, collocations, or phrases, Mancelius occasionally provides various annotations alongside translations in *Lettus*. These annotations are often enclosed in ordinary or square brackets, but at times, they are not explicitly separated from the main text. The annotations present in Mancelius' work can be categorized into several groups: 1) grammatical annotations, 2) phonetic annotations, 3) semantic annotations, 4) dialectological annotations, and 5) various other notes on usage. These annotations are found in all four parts of the publication; however, their arrangement and nature vary in each section.

There are relatively few grammatical annotations, and they are primarily found in the first two parts of the publication—the alphabetical and thematic dictionaries. Explanations indicating that certain words are commonly used in the plural are provided with the abbreviation "pl." 'plural'. This annotation appears next to plural nouns, for example:

(1) Schaum / puttas / pl.
'foam' (L [J vi] r)

(2) der Schweiß / tee S̶weedri / pl.
'sweat' (PL [A viii] v)

(3) die Leber / Acknis pl.
'liver' (PL C iiij r)

Similarly, this notation is used for nouns where both singular and plural forms are given, but which are frequently used in the plural:

(4) Bruſt / Kruhtz / Kruhtis pl.
'breast' (L [B vi] ^{v})

(5) Vieh / Lohps / Lohpi / pl.
'cattle' (L M ij ^{v})

(6) Schuch / Kurrpe / Kurrpis / pl.
'shoe' (PL H [i] ^{v})

In such cases, the annotation "sing." ('singular') may also be used to indicate the singular form:

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(7) Die Brüſte oder Zitzen / Puppi / pl. Puppa / ſing.
'breast' (L [B vi] v)

(8) Haar / Matti / pl. Matts / ſing.
'hair' (L E ij v)

However, not all lexemes that would fit into these categories are provided with grammatical number annotations. Furthermore, in the ten dialogues and in *Die Sprüche Salomonis*, there are no grammatical number annotations at all.

In two cases, the thematic dictionary contains an indication that a word is in diminutive form:

(9) ein Geſchirr / Traux / Trauzings dimin.
'dishes' (PL [G viii] r)

(10) ein ſtücke Fleiſch / Ghaļļas ghabbals / ghabbalings / dimin.
'a piece of meat' (PL [A viij] r)

In most cases, diminutive forms are simply translated with the corresponding German diminutive without any additional comment, for example:

(11) eine Schale / Kauß. eine Schalechen / Kauffings.
'bowl' (PL H v r)

(12) Ein Hauß / Namms. ein Haußlein / Nammings.
'house' (PL H iij r)

(13) Ein Wurm / Tahrps. Alſo nennen ſie auch Vngezieffer. ein Würmlein / Tahrpings.
'A worm. That's what they also call vermin. a little worm' (PL E ij v)

There are very few grammatical notes on verbs. Only in the thematic dictionary are there occasional remarks on the grammatical-lexical semantics of verbs, specifying whether they are active or passive. In two cases, this explanation clarifies a German verb, while in one case, it explains the semantics of the Latvian equivalents:

(14) Anhangen / activè, peekahrt.
'to attach' (L A iiij r)

(15) abbrennen / paſſivè, nodeckt.
'to burn down' (L B v v)

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(16) bücken / neigen / lohzieteeß / klanniteeß paſſ. lohziet / Act.
'bend, lean' (L [B vii] r)

In the case of German verbs, this grammatical information was likely taken from a source dictionary.

Another grammatical annotation notes that the Latvian language lacks a direct equivalent for the German verb *haben* 'to have':

(17) haben / deficit.
'to have, lack' (L E ij v)

This is because Latvian uses a possessive construction with the verb *būt* 'to be'. The dictionary provides an equivalent construction, though without any additional comment:

(18) er hats / winjam gir. ich hab / man gir.
'he has, I have' (L E ij v)

A rather vague annotation is *letticismus* 'Latvianism', which is used twice in the thematic dictionary to indicate that using a locative case (*ellē* 'in hell', *ugunī* 'in fire') would be a more appropriate expression than a prepositional phrase (*iekšan elles*, *iekšan ugun*[*s*]), which is a literal calque from German:

(19) die Helliſchen Geiſter / Elles=gharri / tee Gharri Elleh (letticiſmus, pro eekſchan Elles.)
'The infernal spirits, *Elles=gharri*, *tee Gharri Elleh* (Letticism, instead of *eekschan Elles*.)' (PL A iij v)

(20) Die Teuffel werden die Gottloſen im helliſchen Fewr ewig plagen / Tee Wälli muhſchige mohzis tohß Beßdeewighus Elles Ugguny. [pro eekſchan Elles Uggun/ letticiſm.]
'The devils will torment the godless eternally in the infernal fire, *Tee Wälli muhschige mohzis tohß Beßdeewighus Elles Ugguny*. (Instead of *eekschan Elles Uggun*, Letticism.)' (PL A iij v)

This type of explanation using *pro* can also appear without additional clarification, for example, to indicate a more grammatically correct imperative construction:

(21) laß vns fiſchen gehen / eima ſweioht. [eima pro laideeta mums eet.]
'Let us go fishing, *eima sweioht*. (Instead of *laideeta mums eet*.) (PL [D vii] v)

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Similarly, a participial construction is suggested instead of a subordinate clause:

(22) Mein Kind, wenn du krank bist, so bitte GOtt, so wird er dich wieder gesund machen / Mans Bährns, nhewäſſäls buhdams (pro, kad tu nhewäſſäls eſſi) luhds Deewu, tad wings töw atktall wäſſälu darrieß.
'My child, if you are sick, *nhewäſſäls buhdams* (instead of *kad tu nhewäſſäls eſſi*) pray to God, and He will heal you.' (PL L v v)

In *Die Sprüche Salomonis*, an annotation states that such a participial construction is "elegant Latvian language":

(23) Nhe dodeeß tudeļ̦ vs Bahrſchannas / aiſto ko ghribbi tu pehtz darriet / (a) tawu Tuwaku lammayiß? (a) elegantia Lettica, id eſt, kad tu tawu Tuwaku lammayiß eſſi. 'Do not give in to mockery, is this what you wish to do, (a) to curse your neighbor? (a) elegant Latvian, that is, when you curse your neighbor.' (PL F ij v)

Additionally, alternative grammatical constructions are sometimes provided without further explanation, similar to word translations. The only metalinguistic comment here is *oder* ('or').

(24) Er hat das gantze Hauß mit Federn beſtrewet/ in dem er nur eine Ganß geplücket/ wiſſu Nammu ar Spallwahms apkaiſſiyis/ weenu Sohſſi pluhkdams [oder/ weenu Sohſſi pluhzoht.
'He has covered the whole house with feathers by plucking just one goose. Or: by plucking just one goose.' (PL [D vi] r)

(25) ſetze Waſſer zu Fewr/ das Zeug zu waſchẽ/ vsleetz Vdens vs Vgguni Riecku maſghaht/ [oder/ Riekam vsleetz Vdens.]
'Put water on fire, the thing to wash.' (PL [E viii] r)

3.2 Phonetic comments

There are very few phonetic annotations regarding the pronunciation of specific words or sounds in Mancelius' *Lettus*. On a few occasions, the dictionary mentions contracted or shortened forms of certain lexemes or phrases:

(26) Storch / Schugguris / Schubburis / contractè, Schuggurs.
'stork' (PL D v r)

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(27) Wahde / Waddus / contr. Wadds.
'type of fishing net' (PL E [i] r)

(28) Rahdi ſchurr (cõtract: rahdſchur.)
'show me here' (PL [D iiij] r)

In one instance, the text refers to a modified form of a German loanword in colloquial Latvian:

(29) Rentmeiſter / Rentmeiſters. [Soll mans aber ſchreiben wie die natürliche Bawren reden/ ſo müſt es alſo lauten: Renck=meiſters. Jch ſchimpffe hiemit niemand.]
'Steward. [But if one were to write it as the common farmers pronounce it, it would be written as *Renck-meisters*. I do not mean to insult anyone by this.]' (L [H viij] ^{v})

(30) Rentmeiſter / Rentmeiſters / Etliche ſagen: Renckmeiſters. [Jch ſetz es niemand zum praejuditz.]
'Steward. Some say: *Renckmeisters* [I do not intend this as a prejudice against anyone.]' (PL [M ij] ^{v})

Additionally, there is only one instance where the dictionary draws attention to the pronunciation of the Latvian phoneme /c/ (<ķ> in modern Latvian spelling), comparing it to the pronunciation of the /k/ sound in German as spoken in Livonia:

(31) nieſen / prauſten / ſchkaudiet. [Jn dieſem Worte muß das (K) außgeſprochen werden/ wie wir Liefländer das (K) außreden/ wañ wir ſagen Kerl/ kehre.]
'to sneeze, to snort. [In this word, the (K) must be pronounced as we Livonians pronounce (K) when we say *Kerl* 'fellow' or *kehre* 'turn'.]' (PL [B viij] ^{r})

It should be noted that Mancelius provides more extensive remarks on Latvian orthography and phonetics in the preface to his church handbook *Lettisch Vade Mecum* (LVM [b iiij] ^{v} – [c i] ^{v}).

3.3 Semantic comments

Mancelius frequently provides annotations to clarify the meanings of words and refine their usage. These annotations may describe the contexts in which a word is used or highlight differences between Latvian and semantically similar German words, for example:

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(32) Todtſchlag / Släppkawiba. [propriè von ſolcher That die Möderiſcher weiſe geſchicht.] Nokauſchana.
'manslaughter [properly referring to an act committed in a murderous manner.]' (L [L vi] ^{v})

(33) eine Backe / taß Waix. [Alſo nennen die Letten das Theil am Menſchen/ was zwiſchen Naſen vnd Ohren iſt/ wie die Latiner Genam & malam, teſte Pliniô.]
'cheek' [Latvians use this term for the part of the face between the nose and ears, similar to genam and malam in Latin, according to Pliny.]' (PL [B vj] ^{r})

(34) Ka tu (a) ſtaigha vs labbu Zeļļu / vnd palleez vs taiſſnu Stieghu.
(a) Tacka dicitur de brutis animalibus.)
'When you walk on a good path and turn onto a straight road – (a) *Tacka* is said of animals.' (SS A iiij ^{v})

In some cases, Mancelius specifically points out incorrect usage of certain lexemes, advising against them:

(35) grawe wolle / mälla Willa. [Man ſagt nicht firrma Willa.]
'gray wool. [One does not say *firrma Willa.*]' (PL [C vij] ^{v})

(36) eine bunte Henne / raiba Wiſta. [Man ſagt nicht recht/ dagglaina Wiſta/ denn das Wort Dagglains/ wird von Schweinen geredt.]
'a speckled hen. [One should not say *dagglaina Wiſta*, as the word dagglains is used for pigs.]' (PL [D vj] ^{r})

Mancelius frequently provides distinctions between words referring to similar things or creatures but with differing meanings from their German equivalents, for example:

(37) Weſpe / Dunnduris/ (Spahres ſind andere Creaturen.)
'wasp (*Spahres* are different creatures.)' (L N [i] ^{v})

(38) ein Werffnetz / Mailehn. Duckuris iſt ein anders.
'a casting net. *Duckuris* is something different.' (PL [D viij] ^{r})

(39) eine Sichel / Zirrpis. [Bruckſchas/ iſt eine andere art.]
'sickle [*Bruckſchas* is another type.]' (PL J v ^{r})

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In the thematic dictionary, many Latvian lexemes related to the everyday life and labour of Latvian peasants are not translated with a single word but rather described in detail, for example:

(40) ein Netz eines Fadems lang/ an der ſtangen geführet/ zwiſchen zweyen Böhten/ Rieſchi.
‘a net one fathom long, stretched between two boats.’ (PL E [i] r)

(41) der Bodem darauff man dröſchet/ Klohns.
‘the floor on which one threshes.’ (PL H iiij r)

(42) das gezwirnte Geräht/ dadurch die Fädeme in den Kamm/ vnd ſo forderſt gezogen werden/ Nietes.
‘the twisted device through which the threads are drawn into the reed.’ (PL J ij r)

In some cases, a Latvian word is provided as the lemma instead of a German word:

(43) Lapſenes iſt eine art wilder Jmmen/ die im Hew Honig tragen.
‘*Lapſenes* is a type of wild bee that stores honey in tree cavities.’ (PL [E iij] r)

(44) Maſſalas iſt eine art Mücken/ welche vmb die Rocken=Erndte den Menſchen/ ſonderlich aber den Pferden ſeer verdrießlich ſind/ vnnd meiſtentheils nach den Augen fliegen.
‘*Maſſalas* is a type of gnat that is particularly bothersome to people and horses during the rye harvest, often flying towards the eyes.’ (PL [E iij] r)

(45) Kahpuri/ ſind die Wurmlein/ ſo ſich bey dem Rindviehe im Sommer bewegen auffm Rücken/ daher ſie die Schwäntze in die höhe heben vnd ſchwärmen oder biſen.
‘*Kahpuri* are larvae that move along the backs of cattle in the summer, causing them to raise their tails and twitch.’ (PL [E iij] v)

As observed, these types of comments provide not only linguistic clarification but also, at times, ethnographic insights. In some cases, this information is expressed even more explicitly, for example:

(46) ein Leinen vmbwerffend Rock/ Vswalck/ eſt veſtis ruſtica.
‘A linen wrap-around coat – a rustic garment.’ (PL H [i] v)

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(47) Ährkulis/ iſt ein Holtz ſampt dem Flachſe/ Heede oder Wolle/ wie die Weiber in Semgallen meiſten theils zum Spinnen gebrauchen.
'*Ährkulis* is a wooden tool together with flax, tow, or wool, used mainly by women in Semigallia for spinning.' (PL [H viij] ^{v})

(48) Aiſto ja töw nhe gir ja=maxa / tad töw (c) tawu Ghulltu appackſchan töw attjembs.
(c) vel, tawas Ziffas: Denn die Lieff=vnnd Churländiſche Bawren haben nichts ſonderlichs von Federbetten.
'If you do not have anything, then (c) they will take back your bedding from you.
(c) Or, *tawas Ziffas*: because Livonian and Courland peasants do not have much in terms of featherbeds.' (PL [E vj] ^{r})

Thus, these extended lexical translations and explanations serve as a valuable resource for both learning and applying the Latvian language.

3.4 Dialectological comments

A considerable number of Mancelius' notes pertain to the geographic distribution of lexemes or constructions within the Latvian language. Before publishing *Lettus*, Mancelius had lived in various Latvian-speaking regions at different times, each characterized by distinct linguistic features. As previously mentioned, he was born and raised in Mežmuiža, an area within the Central Latvian dialect's Semigallian subdialect. After his studies, he served in two parishes in the Selonian subdialect area of the Upper Latvian dialect – Valle (1615–1620) and Sēlpils (1620–1625) – where the phonetics and lexicon differed significantly from those of the Central dialect. Between 1625 and 1636, he resided and worked in Tartu, which lies in the Estonian-speaking part of Livonia. There, he had the opportunity to become acquainted with the Estonian language as well as the neighbouring Livonian Latvian dialects. This undoubtedly contributed to his awareness of linguistic diversity and variation.

As a whole, Mancelius' writings were based on the phonetics and morphology of the Central Latvian dialect, which he explicitly described in the preface to his church manual *Lettisch Vade Mecum*:

> "Derwegen haben Author vnd Drucker/ ſich nicht der Statt/ alß darinnen die weinigſten Letten/ ſondern dem gantzen Liefland/ Churland vnd Semgallen accomodiren müſſen/ vnd bin der gäntzlichen meinung/ das kein Pawr hie

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> im Land oder anders wo ſein werde/ der dieſe Verſion nicht verſtehen, vnd alſ die rechte Lettiſche Sprache annehmen ſolt."
>
> 'Therefore, the author and printer had to accommodate not just the city, where the fewest Latvians reside, but the entirety of Livonia, Courland, and Semgallia. I am of the firm opinion that there is no peasant in this country or elsewhere who would not understand this version and thus adopt the proper Latvian language.' (LVM b ij ^{r})

However, since *Lettus* was intended as a language-learning aid, users - who might find themselves outside the Central Latvian dialect area and hear vocabulary that differed from the written standard - needed to recognize these variations. Therefore, Mancelius frequently included notes on dialectal differences throughout his work.

References to different Latvian dialects already appear in the prefaces of *Lettus*. Here, for example, some phonetic differences are noted:

(49) Jtem: te Kunghi/ (Roſit. vnd Mariaeb. ſagen tie Kunghi)
'Item: *te Kunghi* (the people of Rositen and Marienburg say *tie Kunghi*).' (L [(a) vj] ^{r}),

(50) no teems Kungheems (die Roſiter/ Marienburger/ Schwanenburger vnd Düneburger reden tiems Kunghiems/ tuhß Kunghus etc.)
'*no teems Kungheems* (the people of Rositen, Marienburg, Schwanenburg, and Dünaburg say *tiems Kunghiems*, *tuhß Kunghus*, etc.)' (L [(a) vj] $^{r-v}$).

The preface also mentions that different parishes may use distinct lexemes:

> "... das faſt in einem jeden Kirchſpiel viele Wörter jhre beſondere eigenſchafft haben."
>
> '... that in almost every parish, many words have their own particular characteristics.' (L [(a) vij] ^{v}).

However, Mancelius reassures dictionary users that such phonetic or lexical differences are neither unusual nor incorrect:

> "Ob gleich ein Wort in Churland anders/ weder in Liefland oder Semgallen geredet wird/ vnd dennoch nicht aller vnterſcheidt allhte angemercket worden; ſo kan mans doch nicht ſchelten/ das es vnrecht oder kein Lettiſch (Vnteutſch) ſey: ſondern es iſt vnd bleibt nichts minder Lettiſch (Vnteutſch) ob ſchon das Wort anders hie/ weder dort genennet vnd außgeſprochen wird."

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> 'Even if a word is spoken differently in Courland than in Livonia or Semgallia, and although not all distinctions have always been noted, one should not condemn it as incorrect or as not being Latvian (Unteutsch). Rather, it is and remains no less Latvian (Unteutsch), even if the word is named and pronounced differently here than there.' (L [(a) vij] ^{r})

The same phenomenon, he notes, occurs in Estonian:

> "Vnd dieſes findet ſich auch in der Eſtoniſchen Sprache/ alß: Jm Dörptiſchen Kräyſſe nennet man ein Meſſer Weitz/ eine Jungfraw Junckur/ einen Hund/ Penni etc. Aber im Revallſchen vnd Narviſchen heiſſet man ein Meſſer/ Nugga/ eine Jungfraw/ Neitzigk/ (Jm Dörptiſchen nennet man eine Magd/ Neitzigk) einen Hund/ Koire. Wer wolte aber ſagen/ das eins oder das ander darumb vnrecht/ vnd nicht Eſtoniſch were. Eben alſo iſts auch mit dem Lettiſchen bewandt."
>
> 'And this can also be observed in the Estonian language: In the district of Dorpat, a knife is called *Weitz*, a maiden *Junckur*, and a dog *Penni*, etc. However, in Reval and Narva, a knife is called *Nugga*, a maiden *Neitzigk* (in Dorpat, a maid is also called *Neitzigk*), and a dog *Koire*. But who would claim that one or the other is therefore incorrect and not Estonian? The same applies to Latvian.' (L [(a) vij] $^{r-v}$)

Notes on dialectal lexical differences can be found in all three parts of *Lettus*, though not in *Die Sprüche Salomonis*. In most cases, dialectal comments are presented as alternative lexemes listed alongside the standard form, sometimes with a location label in parentheses or preceding the variant. Mancelius most frequently references his former parishes—Valle (40 mentions) and Sēlpils (17 mentions). The variations can involve phonetic or morphological differences but more often consist of entirely different lexemes, for example:

(51) brüten/ Eyer außbrüten/ Pautus (Wallhoff. ohlas) ißperreht.
'to hatch eggs' (L [B vj] ^{v})

(52) ein Spann/ Spannis. Wallh. Spainis.
'bucket' (PL [E vij] ^{r})

(53) Wedd appackſch Pajumbtu. (Wallh. ſämm Pajumbtu.)
'take under shelter' (C B iiij ^{v})

Similarly, lexical variants from Sēlpils appear, such as:

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(54) herbey bringen/ attneſt/ Seelb. daneſt.
‘to bring’ (L [B vj] ^{r})

(55) ein Pferd/ Sirrxs/ Seerxs/ Seelb.
‘horse’ (PL D [i] ^{v})

(56) das Fewr/ Vgguns/ Wallh. Seelb. Ghuṇs
‘fire’ (PL [K vj] ^{r})

Some lexemes are linked to specific locations in Courland (Skrunda – *Scrunden, Schrunden, Schrund.*), Vidzeme (Alūksne – *Mariaeb.*, Gulbene – *Schwanaeburg*, Nurmuiža – *Normhuſen*), and Polish Livonia (Daugavpils – *Dünaeb.*, *Dünaeburger*, Rēzekne – *Roſiten*, *Roſietſchen*). Examples include:

(57) Vnd/ vnd/ Schrunden. inn.
‘and’ (L M iij ^{r})

(58) zwingen/ ſpeeſt/ peeſpeeſt/ Roſiten. ſpieſt.
‘to force’ (L N [viij] ^{v})

(59) Gitter/ Tralliṇi/ Strelles Mariaeb.
‘grid’ (PL H iij ^{v})

Sometimes, a single dictionary entry includes multiple dialectal variants:

(60) Ganß/ Sohß/ Scrunden, Kahnis/ Normhuſeu. ghuhſchi.
‘goose’ (L D iiij ^{r})

(61) Nachrichter/ Bennde/ Beeritz/ Mariaeb. & Schvvanæburg. Piritz.
‘hangman’ (L J [i] ^{v})

(62) eine Stube/ Jſtaba/ Mariaeb. Jſtoba/ Seelb. Vſtuba.
‘room’ (PL H iiij ^{r})

At times, Mancelius indicates the broader geographical spread of a lexeme without specifying a particular location. Several times (approximately seven instances), he references Courland, for example:

(63) breite/ flache Schüſſel/ Wahnags/ Cur: Skuttulis.
‘flat bowl’ (L B v ^{v})

(64) Kärcker vnterm gebäwde/ Kaſte/ Curl. Tümneeka.
‘dungeon’ (L F iij ^{r})

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(65) Jch dancke dir … eß patteitzu … Curon. eß täntzinu.
'I thank you' (PL F [i] ^{v})

Similarly, occasional references highlight distinctive usage in the Lithuanian borderlands (*friſch/ gefund/ wäſſäls. [an der Littawſchẽ Grentze/ sweix/ wäſſäls.]* (L D ij ^{r})) and in the Latvian-speaking part of Vidzeme (*Kuche/ Karrſcha/ Plahzins/ Liv. letti.* (L [F vij] ^{v})).

In the thematic dictionary, dialectal comments are sometimes more detailed and expansive, drawing attention to a lexeme's meaning or usage:

(66) Halm/ Luxting/ Luxtei/ [Alſo wirds genennet im Marienburgiſchen vnnd Schwanenburgiſchen wann der Halm etwas auß der Erden herfür geſchoſſẽ/ wann aber die Eher herfür ſcheuſt/ das wird genennet/ Plauxt.] Jn Churland aber vnd Semgallen wirds ins gemein Sahle genennet.
'Halm, *Luxting*, *Luxtei* [Thus it is called in the Marienburg and Schwanenburg regions when the stalk has just sprouted from the ground; however, when the ear emerges, it is called *Plauxt*.] In Courland and Semgallia, it is generally called *Sahle*.' (PL G iiij ^{v})

(67) du kanſt leicht vergeſſen/ tu dries warri as=mirrſt/ töw leela as=ſmarrſcha. [Mercke/ an etlichen orten ſprechen ſie die Syllab As/ auß/ Ais.]
'Note: In some places, they pronounce the syllable As as Ais.' (PL [A vij] ^{r})

(68) eine Waſſermüle/ Vhdens=dſirrnawas. [Die Sehlburger/ vnd andere dort hinauff/ nennens Pattmalas.]
'Watermill, the Sehlburgers and others in the surrounding areas call it *Pattmalas*.' (PL F iiij ^{v})

(69) [Die Seelburger vnd Dünaeburger nennen ein Ey/ Ohla: denn Pauti ſind bey jhnen vnverſchembt.]
'The Sehlburgers and Düneburgers call an egg *Ohla*, because *Pauti* is considered improper among them.' (PL [D vij] ^{r})

Some dialectal variants or synonyms are presented without a specific location or region but instead marked with Latin terms *alii, aliud, alibi*. In the alphabetical dictionary and conversations, such examples appear infrequently:

(70) vnfreundlich/ barrgs alij, picktz.
'unfriendly, angry' (L D ij ^{r})

(71) Ta Ißkapts nhe jäm̃ (alij, nhe mähds)
'The scythe does not cut well.' (C [C viij] ^{r})

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A few more cases appear in the thematic dictionary, for example:

(72) Blut/ Affinis/ alij, Affchnis.
'blood' (PL [A viij] ^{v})

(73) ein Wolff/ Willx/ Wullx alibi.
'wolf' (PL D iij ^{r})

(74) Pflaum/ Pluhmes/ alij Ghlohmes.
'plums' (PL G iij v)

However, the largest number of such annotations (at least 15) is found in *Die Sprüche Salomonis*, where there are no specific indications of regional usage. Additionally, in this translation, the explanation follows the verse text to avoid disrupting readability, for example:

(75) (a) ~~S~~affeen tohß allaſchien vs tawu ~~S~~irrdi / vnd karr tohß py tawu Kacklu.
(a) alij, fariß.
'Bind them always to your heart and tie them around your neck. **(a)** Alternatively, *fariß*.' (SS B ij ^{v})

(76) Tee ſackti Vdenns gir (b) falldi / vnd ta paſſlähpta Maiſe gir Gharrda.
(b) alij, falldäni.
'Stolen waters are **(b) sweet** / and hidden bread is delicious. **(b)** Alternatively, *falldäni*.' (SS [B viij] ^{r})

(77) (a) Auxta ghaiffa dehļ nhe ghribb taß Sliñgkis arrt / tad buhß tam plauyamà laikà deedeleht / vnd nhe neeka nhe dabbuit.
(a) alij ~~S~~allta ghaiffa dehl.
'Because of the cold air, the lazy man does not want to plow, but at harvest time he will have to beg and receive nothing. **(a)** Alternatively, *~~S~~allta ghaiffa dehl*.' (SS E [i] ^{v})

It is possible that at least some of these differences marked in *Die Sprüche Salomonis* are not strictly dialectal but rather synonymous variations.

3.5 Other types of comments

Beyond the clearly defined categories of comments examined above, the publication contains various additional remarks that provide supplementary information regarding the meaning or usage of specific lexical items, as well as the author's reflections on certain linguistic matters.

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In several instances, Mancelius indicates that certain constructions are used in an ironic or metaphorical sense:

(78) Jch hab das Kind auffm Schoß/ mann Bährns Klehpy. [Alſo ſagen ſie/ jedoch ſchimpfflich: winjai pills Klehpis/ ſie hat einen vollen Schoß/ das iſt/ ſie iſt ſchwanger.]
'I have the child on my lap, *man Bährns Klehpy*. [Thus, they say, but mockingly: *winjai pills Klehpis*, 'she has a full lap,' meaning she is pregnant.]' (PL C iij ^{v})

(79) der Magen/ Pafirrtz [Die Pawren klagen/ wañ jhnen der Magen wehe thut/ vbers Hertz/ vnd ſagen: Sirrds fahp.]
'The stomach, *Pafirrtz* [The peasants complain when their stomach hurts, saying instead that their heart aches, and they say: *Sirrds fahp.*]' (PL C iij ^{v})

(80) das Bier iſt außgetrunckẽ/ Allus iſdſärrtz. Ruſtici ut plurimum dicunt, Mutza ißdſärrta.
'The beer is finished, *Allus iſdſärrtz*. The peasants usually say, *Mutza ißdſärrta* ['the barrel is finished']' (PL G 2 ^{r})

Mancelius also remarks on what he perceives as incorrect expressions in the Latvian language, reflecting what he sees as the peasants' misunderstanding of Christian doctrine:

(81) zur Beicht gehen/ eet ſawus Ghräkus fuhdſeht. [Billig ſolte man bey dem emfältigen Bawrvolck die art zu reden abbringen/ das ſie ſagen/ Ghräkohß eet/ welchs trawn nichts anders iſt/ alß gehen in Sünden.]
'To go to confession, *eet ſawus Ghräkus fuhdſeht*. [It would be appropriate to discourage the simple peasants from saying *Ghräkohß eet*, which means nothing else but 'to go into sin.']' (PL K ij ^{v})

Mancelius provides an explanation of the different spellings of phonetically similar words to prevent confusion between distinct concepts:

(82) Jegkam nhe klahyahß / no auxtahms leetahms runnaht / (b) Nehlewehl Leelam= kungham / ka taß labpraht (c) mälotu. … (c) Mäloht/ liegen/ anders kan mans nicht ſchreiben/ cum vnterſcheide des Wörtleins Mehle/ eine Zunge/ Mälli/ ſchwartze/ Mäli Lügen. Alſo wird nun ferner geſchrieben: Mälloht/ ſchwärtzen / Mäloht/ Liegen.

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> ‘*Mäloht*, to lie, cannot be written otherwise, in order to distinguish it from *Mehle*, a tongue, *Mälli*, black, *Mäli* lies. Henceforth, it should be written: *Mälloht*, to black, *Mäloht*, to lie.’ (PL D iiij [v])

Several comments reveal Mancelius’ thoughts on the relationships or differences between certain lexical items. For example, he argues that the name of his native place, *Mežmuiža* (from *mežs* ‘forest’ and *muiža* ‘manor’), was in fact more correctly *Ežmuiža* (from *eža* ‘border’), as this corresponds to the German name *Grenzhof* ‘border estate’:

(83) Grentzhoff/ Meſchamuiſcha/ [vielleicht Eſchamuiſcha/ weil das Ampt mit Littawen bey Schaggarn grentzet.]
‘Grentzhoff, Meſchamuiſcha, [perhaps Eſchamuiſcha, because the manor borders Lithuania near Schaggarn.]’ (PL [M vij] [r])

Similarly, he does not approve the variant *krustība* of the word *kristība(s)* ‘baptism’, arguing that it is unrelated to *kristīt* ‘to baptize’ and *Kristus* ‘Christ’, but rather to *krusts* ‘cross’:

(84) Die heilige Tauffe/ ta fwähta Chriſtiba. [Chruſtiba were ein anders/ vnd keme her vom Cruſts/ Creutz.]
‘The Holy Baptism, ta fwähta Chriſtiba. [Chruſtiba would be something else and derives from Cruſts, cross.]’ (PL K ij [v])

He also provides his understanding of the origin of the word *melkulis* ‘liar’, which, he suggests, is equivalent to *mēles kūlējs* ‘tongue thresher’:

(85) Zillwäkam pattiek fawa Labb=darriſchanna / vnnd Nabbax gir labbahx nhe ka (c) Mällkulis. (c) quaſi Mehles=Kuhleis / Zungendreſcher.
‘The fool boasts of his kindness, and the wicked are not better than (c) *Mällkulis*. (c) as if *Mehles=Kuhleis*, tongue thresher.’ (PL [D viij] [v])

The thematic dictionary also includes some purely ethnographic remarks that describe Latvian customs and ways of life:

(86) ein Ohrleffel/ Auffo=kahrniyams. [Die Letten gebrauchen ſich nicht eines ſolchen Jnſtruments/ drumb wiſſen ſies auch nicht recht zu geben.]
‘An ear spoon, Auffo=kahrniyams. [The Latvians do not use such an instrument, so they do not know how to name it properly.]’ (PL [B vj] [r])

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(87) wer weiß wer an mich gedenckt/ das ich ſo hiſſche/ kaß ſinna kaß mannis pee=minn/ ka mann Schaggus rauſta. [Jſt eine gemeine Einbildung bey dem Bawers=mann.]
'Who knows who is thinking of me, since I am itching. [This is a common folk belief among the peasants.]' (PL [B vj] ^{r})

(88) die Alten ſagen/ wann die Roßkäfer des Abends fliegen/ ſollen warme Nachte erfolgen: Wätzi Ļaudis ſacka/ kad Wabboles wackarohß ſkraida/ tad filltas Nacktis äffoſchas.
'The elders say that when cockchafers fly in the evening, warm nights will follow.' (PL [E iij] ^{v})

In summary, Mancelius' comments not only provide linguistic observations but also offer a wealth of information about the daily lives and customs of Latvian peasants. These insights could help a foreign language learner both in communicating with locals and in better adapting to the unfamiliar and varied social environment.

4 Examples of language use

If word translations and comments could aid in understanding the structure of the language and, to some extent its pragmatics, then for the acquisition of practical, everyday language usage, Mancelius prepared the second part of his handbook, *Phraseologia Lettica*, which provides numerous ready-made examples of language use. The purpose of this section is indicated in its title: *Täglicher Gebrauch der Lettischen Sprache* (*'Daily Use of the Latvian Language'*). It contains 51 chapters covering a wide range of life and activity domains, including topics such as God, humans and their bodies, animals, household matters, agriculture, gardening, various tools, and other areas. Many chapters include not only individual lexical items with translations but also collocations (two- or three-word phrases) and frequently longer textual fragments.

Some of these texts appear to have been transcribed directly from spoken conversation, resembling excerpts from dialogues or narratives. These include reminiscences of earlier times, for example:

(89) Da der Moſcoviter diß Land einnahm/ war ich ſchon ein zimlicher Knab/ kad Kreews ſcho Semm vs=jeme/ biyu eß jaw labbs Puiffis.
'When the Muscovite took over this land, I was already quite a boy.' (PL A v ^{r})

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(90) Jch gedencke die zeit/ das ein Loff Roggẽ zwo Marck Rigiſch galt. Es peeminnu to laiku/ kad Rudſo=Puhrs maxaja diwi Riegas Mahrk.
'I remember the time when a loaf of rye bread cost two Riga marks.' (PL [A vij] ^{r})

(91) Jch ward ſo außgeplündert/ das ich nicht ein Kohlblatt behielt/ man ta ißpohſtija/ ka man nhe attlicka nhe Kapoſta=lappa.
'I was so plundered that I did not keep even a cabbage leaf.' (PL K [i] ^{r})

Among the language examples are also proverbs, beliefs, and customs, sometimes accompanied by comments:

(92) wer frühe auffſtehet/ der jſſet früh/ kurrſch Puttnis aggre zeļļahß/ aggre ſlauka däggunting: [Jſt ein Lied Sprichworts=weiſe bey den Pawren.]
'Who gets up early, eats early. [It is a song in the manner of a proverb among the peasants.]' (PL [C vij] ^{r})

(93) je meer Dienſtboten/ je weniger auffficht/ jo dauds S̶uņņu/ jo mas S̶ahtu ſarrgha. proverb.
'The more servants, the less supervision. (proverb)' (PL D ij ^{v})

(94) die Raben pflegen die Kinder im Kropffe weg zu tragen/ die jhren Eltern vngehorſam ſind/ tee Kraukļi tohß Bährnus Kahxly nohſt=näß/ kattri Thäwu vnnd Maht nhe klauſſa.
'The ravens tend to carry away children in their throats, those who are disobedient to their parents.' (PL [C vij] ^{r})

Some texts reflect various everyday situations, for example:

(95) das Kind ſtürtzte recht auff den Kopff/ wunder war es/ das es den Halß nicht brach/
taß Bährns itt vs paſſchas Ghallwas kritta/ brienums/ ka taß Kacklu nhe lauſe.
'The child fell straight on its head; it was a wonder that it did not break its neck.' (PL B iij ^{v})

(96) du haſt noch nicht die alte Schuld abgezahlet/ vnd wilt wiederumb eine friſche machen/ tu wehl nhe eſſi to wätzu Parradu nomaxajis/ vnd ghribbi jaw attkall jaunu darriet.
'You have not yet paid off the old debt, and you already want to make a new one.' (PL K iiij ^{v})

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(97) es hat dieſe Nacht ein Finger dick Eiß gefroren/ ſcho Nackti Pirrxta=beeſumu Läddus fallis.
'A finger-thick layer of ice froze last night.' (PL [K vij] ^{v})

Especially in chapters concerning peasant and artisan work, imperative verb phrases frequently serve as language examples, urging someone to perform or avoid certain actions, for example:

(98) zünde Pergel an/ ee=dädſeni Skallu.
'Light the torch.' (PL F iiij ^{r})

(99) kom her/ nimb die Steine auß/ nahtz ſchurr/ iß=jemb Ackminis.
'Come here, take the stones out.' (PL [F viij] ^{v})

(100) laß du den Braten nicht in die Aſche fallẽ/ nhe leetz tu to Zeppeti Pällnohß kriſt.
'Do not let the roast fall into the ashes.' (PL [E vj] ^{v})

Some phrases seem to have been taken directly from the mouth of a pastor conversing with members of his congregation:

(101) Wann du GOtt hertzlich vmb Gnade bitteſt/ ſo beweiſet er dir gern ſeine/ kad tu no Deewu no Sirrtz dibben Schälaſtibu luhds/ tad parada wings töw lab=praht ſawu Schälaſtibu.
'If you sincerely ask God for grace, He will gladly grant it to you.' (PL A ij ^{v})

(102) Gott vnſer Hüter ſchläfft noch ſchlumẽrt nicht/ Deews muhſſo Sarrgs nei ghuļļ nei ſnauſch.
'God, our guardian, neither sleeps nor slumbers.' (PL [H vj] ^{v})

(103) Mein Kind/ wenn du kranck biſt/ ſo bitte GOtt/ ſo wird er dich wieder geſund machen/ Mans Bährns/ nhewäffäls buhdams (pro, kad tu nhewäffäls eſſi) luhds Deewu/ tad wings töw atktall wäffälu darrieß.
'My child, if you are sick, pray to God, and He will heal you.' (PL L v ^{v})

Several phrases might be particularly useful for merchants when interacting with peasants, for example:

(104) Jch bitte dich behalt bey dir dieſen Bock/ biß ich wieder komme/ es luhdſohß/ pa=turri to Ahſi teekams kamehr eß attkal att=eemu.
'I ask you to keep this goat with you until I return.' (PL D [i] ^{r})

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(105) ich geb dir mit einem worte fünff Marck/ eß ar weenu Wahrdu dohmu töw peezas Mahrkas.
'I give you five Marks with a single word.' (PL D [i] r)

(106) wie viel gilt dieſes Stück? zeek taß Ghabbals maxa.
'How much does this item cost?' (PL K iiij v)

The thematic dictionary also includes about a hundred various questions useful in different situations, for example:

(107) kanſtu die Ochſen leren pflügen? ſinni tu Wehrſchus ißmahziet arrt?
'Can you teach the oxen to plough?' (PL D [i] v)

(108) weiſtu den Weg dahin? ſinnieg tu to Zeļļu?
'Do you know the way there?' (PL [J vij] v)

(109) was iſt für Wetter drauſſen? kahtz Ghaiß ara?
'What is the weather like outside?' (PL [K vij] r)

Frequently, alongside questions, possible answers are also provided, sometimes with multiple variants, for example:

(110) Wie alt iſt das Kind? zeek wätz gir taß Bährns?
'How old is the child?'
zwey/ drey/ vier Wochen, diwi/ trieß/ tſchettrus Neddeļus.
'Two, three, four weeks.'
fünff/ ſechs/ ſieben Monat, peetz/ feſſch/ ſepting Mehneß.
'Five, six, seven months.' (PL A v v)

(111) was redet er für eine Sprache? kahdu Wallodu wings runna?
'What language does he speak?'
Teutſch/ Wahziſku. Lettiſch/ Lattwiſku. Pollniſch/ Pohliſku. Littawſch/ Leitiſku.
Reuſch/ Kreewiſku. Eſteniſch/ Jggauniſku. Schwediſch/ Sweedriſku. Finniſch/ Sohma=wallodu.
'German, Latvian, Polish, Lithuanian, Russian, Estonian, Swedish, Finnish' (PL [B vij] v)

(112) wann biſtu auffgeſtanden? kad tu zehleeß.
'When did you get up?'
in der erſten/ andern/ drittẽ Hanenkrähe/ pirrmajohß/ ohtrohß/ treſſchohß Ghaiļohß.
'At the first/ second/ third crowing of the rooster.' (PL [L ij] r)

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Various questions and answers also appear in the ten dialogues following the thematic dictionary, for example:

(113) F. Wie knarret deine Senſe?
B. Ka tawa ißkapts ta ziext?
'How does your scythe creak?'
I. Das Bändlein iſt vertrucknet/ der Handgriff am Stiel iſt loß.
I. Kluhdſiņa ißkalltuffi/ Knaggis ſwabbads. Kahtz.
'The strap is dry, the handle on the shaft is loose.' (C [C viij] ^{r})

(114) O. Einem Pferde iſt ein Eyſen abgefallẽ.
O. Weenam Sirrgham Packawa nokrittuffi.
'A horse has lost a horseshoe.'
L. Welchem?
L. Kuŗŗam?
'Which one?'
O. Dem Braunen/ Weiſſen/ Rappen/ Fuchſe/ Fahlen/ Maußfahlen/ Forderſten/ Hinderſten.
O. Bährajam/ Balltam/ Mällam/ Sarrkanam/ Pallfam/ Dumjam/ Preekſchajam/ Packaļejam.
'The brown/ white/ black/ chestnut/ dun/ mouse-colored one/ front/ hind one.' (C C ij ^{v})

Thus, through these various types of language usage examples, the book provides learners with material that enables them to communicate in Latvian in diverse everyday situations.

5 Conclusion

The review of Mancelius' *Lettus* (1637–1638) demonstrates that the publication is not merely the first Latvian dictionary, but a comprehensive set of pedagogical resources designed for learning the Latvian language. In addition to its lexicon, *Lettus* presents contextual examples, explanatory comments, and ready-to-use conversational phrases, all of which reveal a deliberate educational purpose and a systematic approach to language description.

Although there is no documented evidence of *Lettus* being employed as a formal teaching manual, its long-lasting influence on subsequent descriptions of Latvian is undeniable. The ten dialogues were reprinted as an appendix to Georg Dressel's grammar *Ganz kurze Anleitung zur lettischen Sprache* (1685), and material from *Lettus* found its way into virtually all Latvian dictionaries of the 17th

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and 18th centuries, both printed and manuscript. A substantial portion of its vocabulary continues in Modern Latvian, underscoring the dictionary's durability and practical value.

A central contribution of this study has been the systematic classification and interpretation of Mancelius' annotation system. The analysis shows that the annotations are not incidental but constitute an early attempt to represent **phonological, morphological, and lexical variation** across dialects. The system is specific in its consistent marking of vowel alternations, consonantal variation, and morphological doublets, thereby reflecting a keen awareness of the linguistic diversity encountered by 17th-century learners and missionaries. Its merits lie in its **regularity, transparency, and careful differentiation of forms**, which make it a surprisingly robust tool for reconstructing regional features of Latvian. At the same time, certain limitations are apparent: prosodic distinctions are only partially captured, and some categories remain broader than what later dialectology would require. Nevertheless, even in its imperfections, the annotation system offers invaluable insight into the linguistic landscape of the period.

When placed within a broader European context, *Lettus* can be viewed alongside a growing early modern interest in systematically documenting vernaculars. Comparable efforts – such as early German, Polish, and Scandinavian dialect descriptions, and multilingual pedagogical works in the tradition of Comenius – likewise sought to provide structured representations of spoken variation for practical and didactic purposes. Within this wider tradition, Mancelius' method stands out as one of the earliest systematic attempts in Northern and Eastern Europe to record regional speech patterns using a quasi-phonological and functionally oriented annotation scheme.

Overall, *Lettus* emerges not only as a bilingual lexicon but as a pedagogical and ethnolinguistic artifact of considerable historical significance. Its structured documentation of speech variation anticipates later developments in European dialect research and contributes to our understanding of how a unified written tradition for Latvian ultimately began to take shape.

Sources

L – LETTUS, Das iſt Wortbuch/ Sampt angehengtem täglichem Gebrauch der Lettiſchen Sprache; Allen vnd jeden Außheimiſchen/ die in Churland/ Semgallen vnd Lettiſchem Liefflande bleiben/ vnd ſich redlich nehren wollen/ zu Nutze verfertigt/ Durch GEORGIVM MANCELIVM Semgall. Der H. Schrifft Licentiatum & c. Erſter Theil. ... Gedruckt vnnd verlegt zu Riga/ durch GERHARD. Schröder/

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Anno M. DC. XXXVIII.

LVM – Lettiſch Vade mecum. Handbuch/ darinnen folgende ſechs Stücke begriffen: ... Von newen reſpectivè vberſehen/ corrigiret vnd gemehret/ Durch GEORGIUM MANCELIUM Semgallum, teutſchen Paſtorn zu Dörpt bey S. Iohan. Kirchen/ vnd deſſelben Kräyſes Probſt. ... Gedruckt zu Riga/ durch vnd in Verlegung Gerhard Schröders. [1631]

PL – PHRASEOLOGIA LETTICA, Das iſt: Täglicher Gebrauch der Lettiſchen Sprache. Verfertigt durch GEORGIUM MANCELIUM, Semgallum, der H. Schrifft Licentiatum & c. Ander Theil. Dieſem iſt beygefüget das Spruchbuch Salomonis. Zu Riga Gedruckt vnnd Verlegt durch Gerhard. Schröder/ 1638.

C – [Ten conversations in German and Latvian. Last part of Phraseologia Lettica with its own foliation.]

SS – Die Sprüche Salomonis in die Lettiſche Sprache gebracht/ Durch GEORGIUM MANCELIUM, Semgall: SS. Th. Licentiatum & Profeſſorem & c. ... Zu Riga/ Gedruckt durch vnd in verleg: Gerhard Schrödern/ 1637.

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Chapter 3

Dictionaries as tools for learning the language(s) of science and technology: The case of *Lexicon Technicum*

Olga Menagarishvili

As we all know, dictionaries are usually studied within an academic field called lexicography. Additionally, frameworks/lens from other fields could be used together with lexicography to discuss dictionaries as tools for language learning. This article demonstrates one of the ways in which cultural studies (an interdisciplinary field that focuses on the questions of power and culture and, therefore, allows one to discuss "knowledge legitimation within cultural contexts" Longo 2006: 112 could be brought into historical lexicography to explore dictionaries of science and technology as tools for learning the language(s) of science and technology. More specifically, one of the first dictionaries of science and technology published in English (*Lexicon Technicum*) is analyzed in the context of dictionary production and consumption in the 18th century. The methods include lexicographic archeology, cultural analysis, and employing a production-consumption model. The results demonstrate that the main characteristic of the scientific knowledge economy in which *Lexicon Technicum* functioned in England in the 18th century was adding large volumes of information. I interpret this as an attempt to create and disseminate a "complete" corpus of knowledge that could be used for learning during consumption cycles.

dictionaries of science, dictionaries of technology, dictionary production, dictionary consumption, dictionaries as tools of learning

1 Introduction

Cultural studies is an interdisciplinary field that focuses on questions of power and culture and allows us to discuss "knowledge legitimation within cultural con-

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texts" (Longo 2006: 112). From a cultural studies perspective, dictionaries possess power as they assign value to knowledge (Menagarishvili 2020). Lexicography could be combined with cultural studies to analyze ways in which dictionaries of science and technology function as tools for learning the language of science and technology. More specifically, in this paper, I will use research methods from cultural studies as well as lexicography to analyze the *Lexicon Technicum* compiled by John Harris – one of the first dictionaries of science and technology published in English: the first edition was published in 1704 in London.

Few sources explore *Lexicon Technicum* from the cultural studies perspective. Hoare (2009) provides a comprehensive account of the history of dictionaries of science and technology focusing on Harris's *Lexicon Technicum* as the first representative of this genre. Yeo (2001) and Layton (1965) explore dictionaries of science published in the 18th century; Yeo (2001) discusses *Dictionaries of Arts and Sciences* of the 18th century as a genre that appeared in a certain historical and cultural context, while Layton (1965) emphasizes the role of these dictionaries in the diffusion of scientific knowledge in Great Britain. Finally, Bradshaw (2017: 152) provides an overview of *Lexicon Technicum*'s content and connects it with "one of the most important periods of scientific advancement." No systematic data-driven studies that would consider *Lexicon Technicum* as a participant in the scientific knowledge economy have been completed. The purpose of this paper is to fill that gap and explore one of the first dictionaries of science and technology published in English (*Lexicon Technicum*) in the context of dictionary production and consumption of the 18th century.

2 Dictionaries of science and technology as participants in the scientific knowledge economy

Dictionaries in general and dictionaries of science and technology in particular can be viewed as participants in the scientific knowledge economy, namely, as participants in knowledge making and as products of capitalism (Menagarishvili 2020). Let us consider dictionaries of science and technology from these two angles.

2.1 Dictionaries of science and technology as participants in knowledge making

Foucault's notion of *additivity* appears promising when applied to dictionaries as participants in knowledge making. Foucault (1972: 124) focuses on the specificity of the forms of additivity in different cases:

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> This analysis also presupposes that statements are treated in the form of *additivity* that is specific to them. In fact, the types of grouping between successive statements are not always the same, and they never proceed by a simple piling-up or juxtaposition of successive elements. Mathematical statements are not added to one another in the same way as religious texts or laws (they each have their own way of merging together, annulling one another, excluding one another, complementing one another, forming groups that are in varying degrees indissociable and endowed with unique properties). Moreover, these forms of additivity are not given once and for all, and for a particular category of statements: medical case-history today forms a corpus of knowledge that does not obey the same laws of composition as medical case-history in the eighteenth century; modern mathematics does not accumulate its statements according to the same model as Euclidean geometry.

From this point of view, dictionary versions accumulate a corpus according to specific rules that might be characteristic of dictionaries, but that might not work for other types of discourse.

To explore some of these rules, an expanded version of Latour's model of knowledge accumulation was used in this study. Latour (1987: 220–221) uses exploring new territory and creating maps to explain his original model (see Figure 1):

> Expedition number one disappears without trace, so there is no difference in 'knowledge' between the first and the second that fumbles its way in darkness always at the mercy of each of the people whose path is crossed. More fortunate than the first, this second expedition not only comes back but brings something (noted X2 in the drawing) that allows the third to be so familiar with the coastline that they can quickly move to other lands bringing home parts of a map of a *new* territory (X3). At every run of this accumulation cycle, more elements are gathered in the centre (represented by a circle at the top); at every run the asymmetry (at the bottom) between the foreigners and the natives grows.

2.2 Dictionaries of science and technology as products of capitalism

As Menagarishvili (2020) notes, Latour's original model of knowledge accumulation could be applied to the process of dictionary production. However, because

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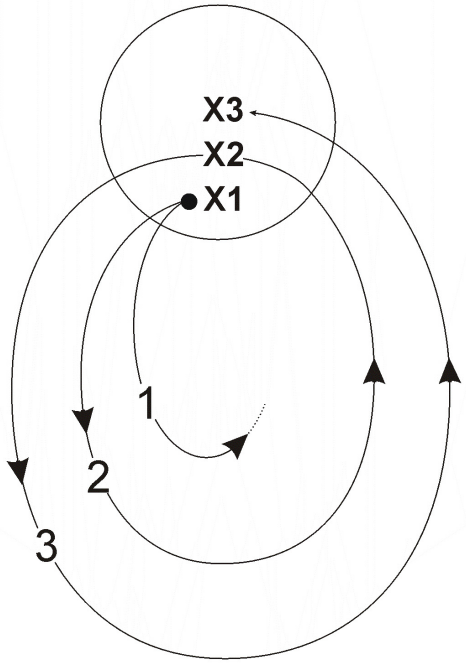

Figure 1: Latour's (1987: 220–221) model of knowledge accumulation

in addition to contributing to knowledge making, dictionaries in general and dictionaries of science and technology in particular are products of capitalism, Menagarishvili (2020) proposed to expand this model (see Figure 2).

Menagarishvili (2020) explains the expanded model in the following passage:

> As we can see in the figure, production cycle 1 is incomplete if the material for the first dictionary version has been collected, but the dictionary version does not get published. After the dictionary compiler collects the material for a dictionary version and publishes it (X2 in the drawing; production cycle 2 is completed), this dictionary version is sold and used by the public (consumption cycle 2' is completed). Going through the consumption cycle might provide additional information that could potentially lead to a new dictionary version (X2'). However, at this point, this dictionary version is not realized. Production cycle 3 begins when the compiler of the third dictionary version "brings [it] home" and adds new information to the second dictionary version, which leads to the third version (X3), thus completing production cycle 3. The third version is then sold and used by the public

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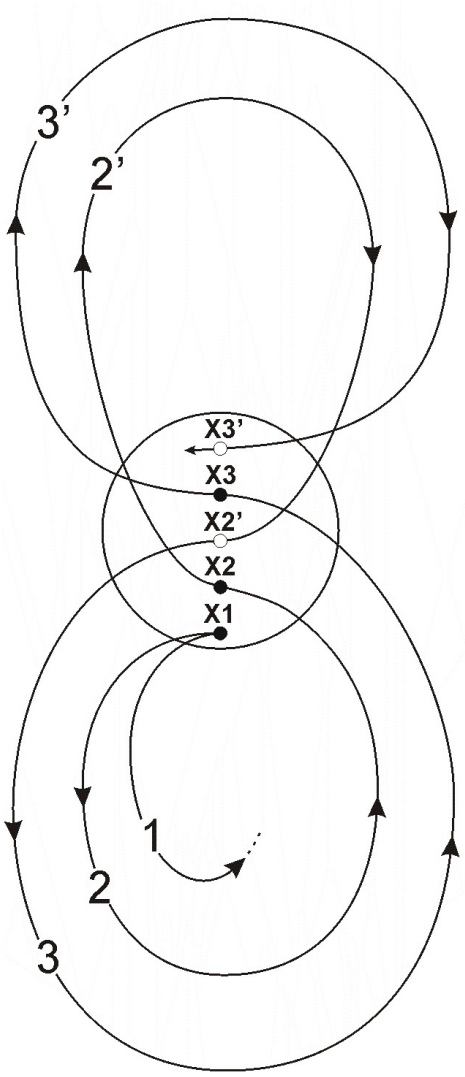

Figure 2: The model of production-consumption cycles (Menagarishvili 2020)

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(consumption cycle 3'), etc. As such, the creation of each dictionary version becomes the production cycle, while selling and using this version corresponds to the consumption cycle.

While Menagarishvili (2020) used this model of production-consumption cycles to explore one of the modern dictionaries of science and technology; in this paper, the model will be used for the analysis of a dictionary of science and technology published in the 18th century.

3 Methodology

The methodology for this project is a combination of a cultural study and a lexicographical study. Dictionaries of science and technology are considered participants in the scientific knowledge economy in a certain cultural context, and a cultural study is a logical choice for that. At the same time, this project is a lexicographical study because of the artifacts analyzed (dictionaries) and the types of information sought (the difference between several editions of the same dictionary).

Menagarishvili (2020) provides detailed descriptions of all three research methods, including the cultural analysis of the frontmatter, the lexicographical analysis based on lexicographic archeology (Ilson 2003: 76), and the use of the production-consumption model, and employs these methods to analyze a modern dictionary of science and technology. The cultural analysis of the frontmatter involved exploring the themes found in the frontmatter of each edition. For the lexicographical analysis, every 20th page of the word list of the first edition of the dictionary was selected. This text was then compared with the corresponding text from the subsequent edition, and the differences were recorded and classified. This process was repeated for every edition. Finally, the production-consumption model was applied to examine how each dictionary edition functions within production-consumption cycles (see Figure 2). The results of the cultural analysis and the results of the lexicographical analysis were used to construct models of production-consumption cycles for each dictionary edition. The same research methods were used in the current project to analyze a dictionary of science and technology published in the 18th century.

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4 Results

4.1 *Proposals*, 1702

The first production-consumption cycle of the dictionary (see Figure 3) was connected with the *Proposals* that Harris published in 1702 in order to advertise the first edition of *Lexicon Technicum* to potential subscribers. The circle on top represents the centre where all the information for the dictionary was collected. This centre disseminates systems of rules and dominates at a distance other places.

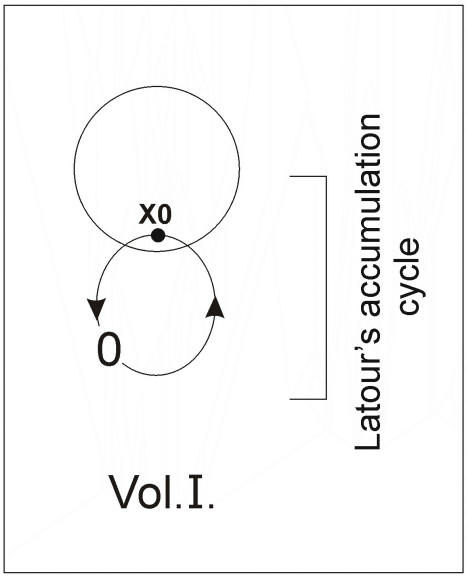

Figure 3: Production-consumption model of the first *Proposals*

The cycle at the bottom is production cycle 0 because no dictionary edition is produced at this point. Instead, the *Proposals* are created, which help advertise the dictionary and get subscribers for the first edition of Volume I of the dictionary. Creating the *Proposals* during production cycle 0 helps get ready for consumption cycle 1, during which the first edition of Volume I is sold and used by the public.

4.2 Edition 1: Volume I (A–Z), 1704

Figure 4 is a production-consumption model of the first edition of Volume I of *Lexicon Technicum*. The circle in the middle represents the "centre," which included John Harris (the dictionary compiler) and the people who owned the copyright and distributed the dictionary (see Table 1).

Table 1: Changes in the imprints of *Lexicon Technicum* and *A Supplement to Dr. Harris's Dictionary of Arts and Sciences*

1st ed. Vol. I 1704	2nd ed. Vol. I 1708	1st ed. Vol. II 1710	3rd ed. Vol. I 1716	2nd ed. Vol. II 1723	4th ed. Vol. I 1725	5th ed. Vol. I, II. 1736	Supplement
Dan. Brown	Dan. Brown	Dan. Brown	Dan. Browne	D. Brown	D. Browne	D. Brown	–
Tim. Goodwin	Tim. Goodwin	Tim. Goodwin	Tim. Goodwin	–	–	–	–
John Walthoe	John Walthoe	John Walthoe	John Walthoe	J. Walthoe	J. Walthoe	J. Walthoe	–
Tho. Newborough	Tho. Newborough	–	–	–	–	–	–
John Nicholfon	John Nicholfon	John Nicholfon	John Nicholfon	–	–	–	–
Tho. Benskin	–	–	–	–	–	–	–
–	–	–	–	J. Knapton	J. Knapton	Meff. Knapton	–
Benj. Tooke	–	Benj. Tooke	Ben. Tooke	B. Tooke	–	–	–
–	–	–	–	S. Tooke	S. Tooke	–	–
Dan. Midwinter	Dan. Midwinter	Dan. Midwinter	Dan. Midwinter	D. Midwinter	D. Midwinter	D. Midwinter	–
Tho. Leigh	–	–	–	–	–	–	–
Francis Coggan	Francis Coggan	–	–	–	–	–	–
–	–	M. Atkins	–	–	–	–	–
–	–	–	–	B. Cowse	B. Cowse	–	–
–	–	T. Ward	Tho. Ward	T. Ward	T. Ward	T. Ward	–
–	–	–	–	E. Symon	E. Symon	E. Symon	–
–	–	–	–	E. Valentine	E. Valentine	–	–
–	–	–	–	J. Clark	J. Clark	J. Clark	Sold by J. Clarke
–	–	–	–	–	B. Motte	B. Motte	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	A. Bettesworth	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	C. Hitch	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	E. Wicksteed	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	C. Bathurst	Sold by C. Bathurst
–	–	–	–	–	–	A. Ward	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	T. Wotton	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	T. Hatchet	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	E. Comins	–
–	–	–	–	–	–	–	Sold by M. Cooper
–	–	–	–	–	–	–	Sold by T. Co...
–	–	–	–	–	–	–	Sold by T. Gardner
–	–	–	–	–	–	–	Sold by most other Booksellers in Town and Country

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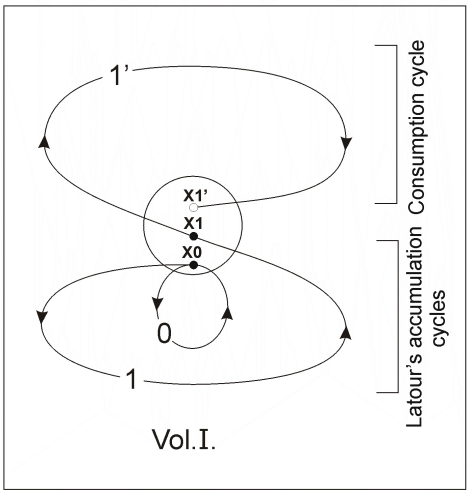

Figure 4: Production-consumption model of Edition 1, Volume I, *Lexicon Technicum*

After Harris collected the material for the dictionary, the first edition of Volume I was published (X1 in the figure; production cycle 1 was completed). During this cycle, all the information necessary for creating the word list of the dictionary was collected and brought to the centre.

At the same time, during production cycle 1, the dictionary compilers were preparing for the consumption cycles that followed, during which the dictionary would be distributed. For example, the list of subscribers for the first edition of Volume I was created and published in the same volume. Additionally, in order to make sure that the dictionary was commercially successful, an important rhetorical move was made in the front matter of this edition: Harris emphasized that the dictionary helps create the corpus of complete knowledge by discussing not only words, but "things" and by being very comprehensive.

Next, the first edition of Volume I was sold and used by the public (consumption cycle 1' is completed). At this stage, the subscribers who were on the list received the dictionary. During this cycle, some additional information about this edition's consumption—distribution and use— could have been collected, which could potentially lead to a new dictionary edition (X1'). However, at this point, this edition was not realized because the next production cycle was needed to collect linguistic material for the next edition. The rectangle around the cycles represents the context, in which the first edition of Volume I was created and sold.

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The Preface of the first edition of Volume I contains many references to the comprehensiveness of *Lexicon Technicum*. Harris mentions the following subject fields represented in the dictionary: Geometry; Algebra; Astronomy; Gunnery; Fortification; Civil Architecture; Navigation; Laws of Motion; Mechanics, Nature, and Properties of Statics; Hydrostatics; Physics and Natural Philosophy; Botany; Chemistry; Anatomy; Heraldry; and Law. He also explains how each field is treated in the dictionary. Such detailed description of the content of the dictionary can be seen as an attempt to demonstrate that the dictionary describes "everything" and, therefore, creates a "complete" corpus of knowledge.

There is a close connection between creating a "complete" corpus of knowledge and the cultural context. According to Foucault (1994), order became one of the key notions of Western culture in the 17th century. As Foucault (1994: 57) writes, "[the] relation to *Order* is as essential to the Classical age as the relation to *Interpretation* was to the Renaissance…. The ordering of things by means of signs constitutes all empirical forms of knowledge as knowledge based upon identity and difference." Now, "all knowledge is obtained by the comparison of two or more things with each other" (Foucault 1994: 52). Therefore, the table becomes the centre of knowledge in the 17th and the 18th centuries (Foucault 1994: 75). One example of creating a "complete" corpus of knowledge and ordering it is the work of Linnaeus who "conceived the project of discovering in all the concrete domains of mature or society the same distributions and the same order" (Foucault 1994: 76). Hence, Harris's attempt to describe "everything" can also be interpreted as an attempt to create such a corpus and order it.

The front matter of the first edition of Volume I of the dictionary also provides some information about the people involved in creating and selling the dictionary. John Harris is, of course, identified as the author. In addition, the title page contains the imprint, or what Feather (1985: 60) calls "a sort of book-trade code", about other figures involved in the publication and distributing of the dictionary: "LONDON, Printed for *Dan. Brown*, *Tim. Goodwin*, *John Walthoe*, *Tho. Newborough*, *John Nicholfon*, *Tho. Benskin*, *Benj. Tooke*, *Dan. Midwinter*, *Tho. Leigh*, and *Francis Coggan*, MDCCIV." According to Feather (1985: 60), "Printed for" signals that the copyright owner was his own distributor. The imprint on the title page signals that the first edition of Volume I of the dictionary was printed in London in 1704, and the people enumerated owned the copyright and distributed the dictionary.

The front matter also contained a list of dictionary subscribers titled *A Catalogue of the Names Of as many of the SUBSCRIBERS to* Lexicon Technicum, *As came to our Hands* (Harris 1704). As stated above, in order to advertise the first edition of Volume I to potential subscribers, Harris published *Proposals* in 1702. In

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this document, in addition to describing the dictionary, Harris (1702: 2) pointed out the benefits of subscribing, "The Expence in this Work being very great, and the Deſign univerſally uſeful, we hope it will meet with proportionable Encouragement; and thoſe Perſons that Subſcribe ſhall have their Name, Title, Seat, & c. printed before the Work, as Encouragers thereof." Apparently, Harris's announcement was successful: there were 906 names on the list of subscribers in the first edition of Volume I of *Lexicon Technicum*. According to this list, the subscribers came from a number of professions, connected with law, religion, science, trade, bookselling and book printing. The titles ranged from "Esq.," "Mr.," "Madam," and "Mrs." to "His High Excellence," "His Grace," and "The Right Honorable." There was a market for a dictionary of science, and Harris's *Proposals* reached a very wide audience.

4.3 *Proposals*, 1707

Figure 5 is the production-consumption model of the second *Proposals* (Harris 1707). Harris used this document to advertise the first edition of Volume II. The circle on top represents the centre where all the information about Volume II of *Lexicon Technicum* was collected. Also, this centre is different from the centre for Volume I because a new book is being created, which will lead to a new series of editions different from the editions of Volume I.

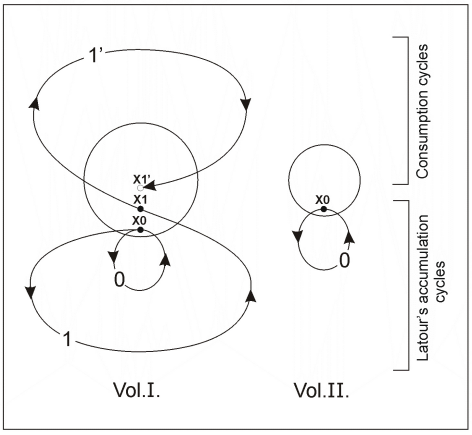

Figure 5: Production-consumption model of the second *Proposals*

Just as in the model of the first *Proposals*, the cycle at the bottom is production cycle 0 because no dictionary edition is produced at this point. Instead, the second proposal is created, which helps advertise the dictionary and get subscribers

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for the second edition of Volume II. Therefore, creating the proposal during production cycle 0 helps get ready for the consumption cycle, during which the first edition of Volume II will be distributed and used by the public.

4.4 Edition 2: Volume I (A–Z), 1708

Chronologically, the next edition that was published contained only Volume I. Figure 6 is the production-consumption model of the second edition of that volume. The "centre" included the same author (John Harris), but there were several changes in the imprint that contained the list of the people who owned the copyright and distributed the dictionary (see Table 1). Some new information consisting of minor changes in spelling and punctuation was added to the first edition of Volume I (production cycle 2), which leads to the second edition (X2), so production cycle 2 is completed.

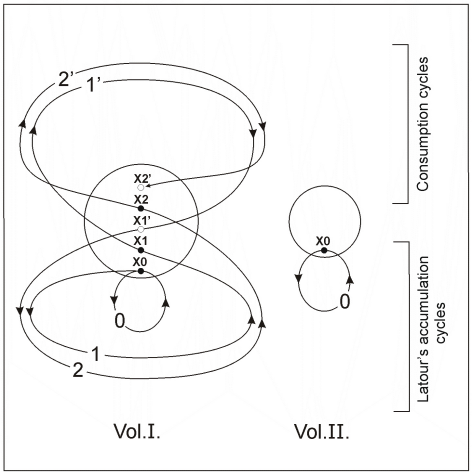

Figure 6: Production-consumption model of Edition 2, Volume I, *Lexicon Technicum*

In addition, during production cycle 2, the second edition of Volume I was prepared for consumption cycle 2', during which this book would be sold. In order to make this edition commercially successful, the same rhetoric was used in the front matter of this edition of Volume I as in the front matter of the first edition. The second edition of Volume I was then distributed and used by the public (consumption cycle 2').

Three people (Tho. Benskin, Benj. Tooke, and Tho. Leigh) (see Table 1) disappeared from the imprint, so the number of people who owned the copyright and

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distributed the dictionary became smaller. Harris was still stated as the author of the dictionary.

The rest of the front matter was very similar to that of the first edition of Volume I. In several cases, punctuation and capitalization were changed, but no other significant differences in the text were found.

In terms of archeological analysis, the second edition of Volume I was found to be very similar to the first edition of the same volume. Very few changes in spelling and punctuation were found.

4.5 Edition 1: Volume II (A–Z), 1710

After two editions of Volume I, the first edition of Volume II was published in 1710. Figure 7 is the production-consumption model of the first edition of Volume II. The centre is different from the centre for Volume I because a new book is being created. Also, the centre still includes the author (John Harris) and the people who had the copyright and distributed this edition (see Table 1).

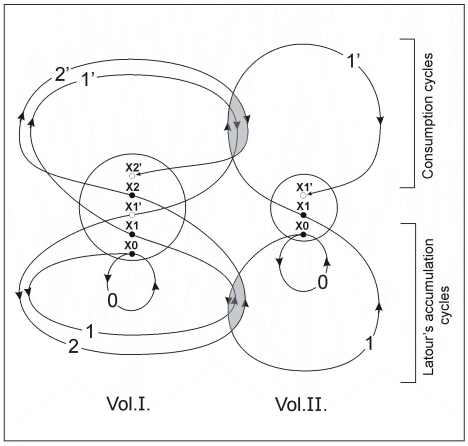

Figure 7: Production-consumption model of Edition 1, Volume II, *Lexicon Technicum*

After Harris collected the material for this edition, the first edition of Volume II was published (X1 in the figure; production cycle 1 was completed). During this cycle, all the necessary information was brought to the centre. Production cycle 1' of Volume II overlaps production cycles 1' and 2' of Volume I because, as the archeological analysis showed, even though most of the information provided in the first edition of Volume II was new, several terms common for this edition of Volume II and for the second edition of Volume I were found. However, all of the

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definitions were still completely rewritten, which demonstrates an attempt to provide as much new information as possible and, therefore, create a "complete" corpus of knowledge. For example, in the second edition of Volume I, *colour* is defined as "a Quality reſiding in the Body that is ſaid to be ſo and ſo colored, or which doth modify the Light after ſuch and ſuch a manner: Or 2. As more properly the Light it ſelf, which ſo modified ſtrikes upon the Organ of Sight, and produces that Senſation which we call *Colour*" (Harris 1708). The first edition of Volume II offers the following definition, "Color, in a Law Senſe, is a Plea that is probable, though in truth falſe; and hath this End, to draw the Trial of the Cauſe from the Jury to the Judge" (Harris 1710).

At the same time, during production cycle 1, the dictionary was prepared for the consumption cycles that followed. For example, the list of subscribers for the first edition of Volume II was created and published in the same volume. Additionally, even though the front matter was rewritten, Harris again emphasized that the dictionary helps create a complete corpus of knowledge because Volumes I and II complement each other and can be treated like a complete library.

Next, the dictionary was distributed and used by the public (consumption cycle 1' is completed). At this stage, the subscribers who were on the list published in the dictionary received Volume II. Consumption cycle 1' of Volume II overlaps consumption cycles 1' and 2' of Volume I because, as the analysis of the subscribers' lists showed, some of the subscribers bought both volumes. Therefore, in many cases, the consumption cycles of Volume I and the consumption cycles of Volume II shared part of the market.

The volume contained a new front matter. In the Introduction, Harris explains what was special about Volume II. First, he writes about the new information Volume II contains, "In this Second Volume, as I promiſed both in the *Preface* to the Firſt, and alſo in the *Propoſals* for This, the *Matter* is intirely *New*, and without any Repetition, that I know of, of any thing in the *Former*; and that ſhall be my Method, if ever I Publiſh any thing further in this Way" (Harris 1710). Therefore, according to Harris, Volume II adds a large amount of information to the corpus of knowledge constructed by Volume I. This again demonstrates that adding large volumes of information was the dictionary compilation technique that Harris intended to use.

The same idea is stated in the discussion of how mathematics is treated in Volume II.

Harris (1710) writes,

> And becauſe I would have theſe Two Volumes to ſerve as a kind of ſmall Mathematical Library, and prevent in ſome meaſure the Neceſſity and

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> Charge of buying many Books on theſe Subjects; I have alſo, as I deſign'd at firſt, given you in this Volume very good Tables of Logarithms, Sines, Tangents and Secants, with a full Account of the Nature, Uſe and Application of them; ſo that nothing will be wanting here to compleat Trigonometry, both Plain and Spherical; and the Practice of it in Navigation, Dialling and Aſtronomy, & c.

Here, Harris refers to the idea of a complete "library" or a complete corpus of knowledge to emphasize that Volume I and Volume II complement each other and contain all the information about mathematics there is. This should motivate the user to buy the two volumes of this particular dictionary but keep them disinterested in other reference works.

The front matter of Volume II of the dictionary also provides some new information about the people involved in creating and selling the dictionary. John Harris is still stated as the author, but the imprint has changed: Mr. Newborough and Mr. Coggan were replaced by Mr. Atkins and Mr. Ward (see Table 1). However, all the people enumerated in the imprint still owned the copyright and distributed the dictionary.

Similar to the front matter of the first edition of Volume I, the first edition of Volume II contained a list of dictionary subscribers titled "A Catalogue of the Names Of as many of the Subscribers to Lexicon Technicum As came to our hands." The system of publication by subscription common in England in the 18th century was again at work here. In order to advertise the first edition of Volume II and the second edition of Volume I, Harris published the second *Proposals* in 1707. In this document, he described the dictionary and pointed out the benefits of subscribing. This led to 1240 names on the list of subscribers.

The list for the first edition of Volume I and the list for the first edition of Volume II demonstrate that these books shared the market and that there was a growing interest in *Lexicon Technicum*. The majority of subscribers (862 people) were on both lists. Also, 378 names were added to the second list, and only 44 disappeared. The list was again very diverse in terms of the social status of the subscribers who represented many different professions connected with law, religion, science, trade, bookselling and book printing. Just as in the first list, the titles ranged from "His High Excellence," "His Grace," and "The Right Honorable" to "Esq.," "Mr.," "Madam," and "Mrs." Hence, overall, the subscribers who owned the first edition of Volume I were interested in Volume II.

The first edition of Volume II followed the second edition of Volume I. From this point and until 1736, there were two series of editions: one for Volume I and

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the other one for Volume II. I will discuss these two series of editions in chronological order. Just as Volume I, Volume II covered the entire alphabet. New sample pages were collected to compare this edition of Volume II with later editions of the same volume. I attempted to compare Volume II with the second edition of Volume I using the sample pages from Volume I but found it very difficult because no common terms were found. Because Volume II contained fewer articles and in general, they were longer than the articles in Volume I, it seemed more productive to search for the common terms using the sample pages found in Volume II, not Volume I. When the method was altered this way, several common terms were found.

Several changes were made to the articles that were found both in the second edition of Volume I and in the first edition of Volume II. All of the changes were connected with completely revised definitions. The changes included *change of number and a revised definition in a new field* (the grammatical category of number for the entry was changed (for example, plural in the second edition of Volume I, but singular in the first edition of Volume II), and the definition was completely revised and discussed an entry from another subject field (for example, "Beams of a ship" in the second edition of Volume I, but "Beam, in any Building" in the first edition of Volume II)), *a revised definition in a new field* (similar cases, but when the number was not changed), and *a revised definition* (the definition was revised, but the subject field remained the same.)

From this point and until 1736, the two volumes acted as two separate dictionaries, each covering the entire alphabet. There were two series of editions: one for Volume I and the other one for Volume II.

4.6 Edition 3: Volume I (A–Z), 1716

Figure 8 is the production-consumption model of the third edition of Volume I, which was published in 1716. The "centre" included the same author (John Harris), and Table 1 demonstrates the changes in the imprint that contained the list of the people who owned the copyright and distributed the dictionary. Some new information consisting of minor changes in spelling and punctuation was added to the second edition of Volume I (production cycle 3), which leads to the third edition (X3), so production cycle 3 is completed.

In addition, during production cycle 3, the third edition of Volume I was prepared for consumption cycle 3'. In order to make this edition commercially successful, the same move was made in the front matter of this edition of Volume I as in the front matter of the first and the second editions. The third edition of Volume I was then distributed and used by the public (consumption cycle 3').

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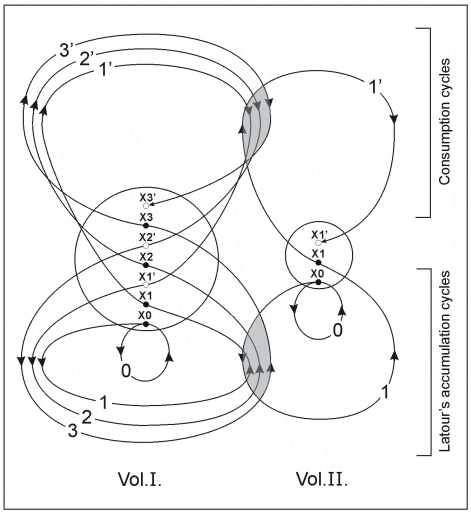

Figure 8: Production-consumption model of Edition 3, Volume I, *Lexicon Technicum*

The front matter of the third edition of Volume I was very similar to that of the first edition of Volume I. The only significant difference was found in the imprint: Mr. Atkins was no longer one of the people who had the copyright and distributed the dictionary (see Table 1). Punctuation, capitalization, and spelling were changed in several cases, but no other significant differences in the text were found.

In terms of archeological analysis, the third edition of Volume I was found to be very similar to the second edition of the same volume. Very few changes in spelling and punctuation were found.

4.7 Edition 2: Volume II (A–Z), 1723

Chronologically, the next edition was the second edition of Volume II. Figure 9 is the production-consumption model of this edition. It still had the same author in the "centre," but there were several changes in the imprint that contained the list of the people who owned the copyright and distributed the dictionary (see Table 1). Some updated information about John Harris was added to the first edition of Volume II (production cycle 2). This led to the second edition (X2), so production cycle 2 was completed. Because this edition of Volume II was so similar to the previous edition of the same volume and all editions of Volume I were also alike, the production cycles for Volume I and Volume II still overlapped.

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The same move was made in the front matter of this edition as in the front matter of the previous edition of Volume II in order to prepare the dictionary for the consumption cycles that followed. The second edition of Volume II was then distributed and used by the public (consumption cycle 2').

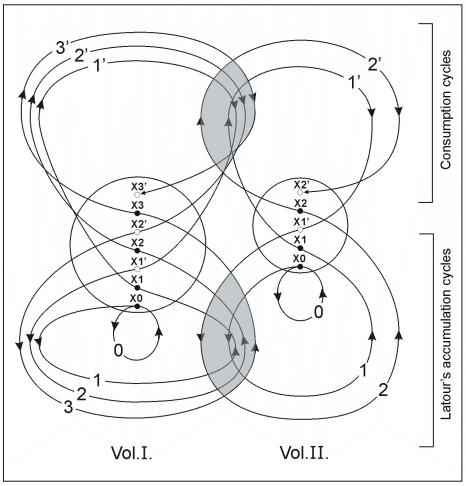

Figure 9: Production-consumption model of Edition 2, Volume II, *Lexicon Technicum*

The front matter of the second edition of Volume II did not change considerably in comparison to the front matter of the first edition. On the title page, Harris's death is mentioned for the first time ("late Secretary to the *Royal Society*"). Also, the imprint is again altered: Mr. Knapton, Mr. S. Tooke, Mr. Cowse, and Mr. Symon were added to the list of people who had the copyright and distributed the dictionary while Mr. Goodwin and Mr. Nicholson were deleted from the list (see Table 1).

The results of archeological analysis suggest that the second edition of Volume II was similar to the previous edition of this volume. Very few changes in spelling were found.

4.8 Edition 4: Volume I (A–Z), 1725

The fourth edition of Volume I was published in 1725. Figure 10 is its production-consumption model. The description of how this edition functions in the production-consumption cycles is very similar to that of the third edition of Volume I.

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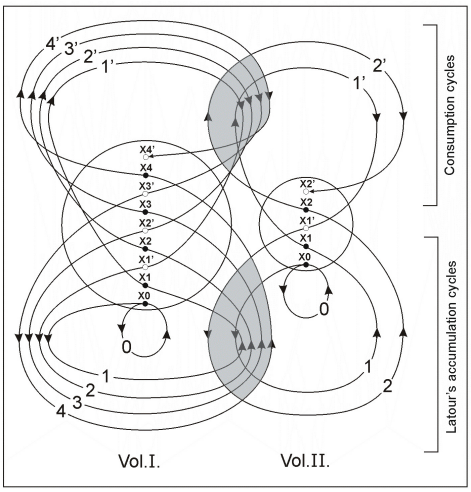

Figure 10: Production-consumption model of Edition 4, Volume I, *Lexicon Technicum*

The front matter of the fourth edition of Volume I is similar to that of the previous edition of the same volume. The only significant difference was found in the list of people named in the imprint: Mr. Motte replaced Mr. B. Tooke (see Table 1). As in all previous editions of both volumes, all the people on the list had the copyright and distributed the dictionary.

According to the results of archeological analysis, the fourth edition of Volume I was found to be very similar to the third edition of the same volume. Very few changes in spelling and punctuation were found.

4.9 Edition 5: Volume I (A–H) and Volume II (J–Z), 1736

The fifth edition, which was published in 1736, marked a new stage in the history of *Lexicon Technicum*. In this edition, Volume I and Volume II that functioned as separate dictionaries each describing the entire alphabet, were finally combined into one dictionary. This dictionary still consisted of two volumes, but because the first one contained letters A through H and the second – letters J through Z, the reference work would be "complete" only with both volumes present. This was also proved by the fact that only the first volume had a front matter; the second one began with the wordlist and, therefore, was meant to be seen as "continuation" of the first volume. The two volumes were finally meant to be bought and used together.

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Figure 11 is the production-consumption model of the fifth edition of *Lexicon Technicum*. The centre is different from the centres for all previous editions of the dictionary because a new book is being created. Also, the centre still includes the author (the dictionary is still attributed to John Harris). However, when this edition was being compiled, all of the decisions regarding the changes to the dictionary were made by anonymous "Editors." Therefore, the Editors were also in the centre. Finally, the people who had the copyright and distributed this edition are listed in Table 1.

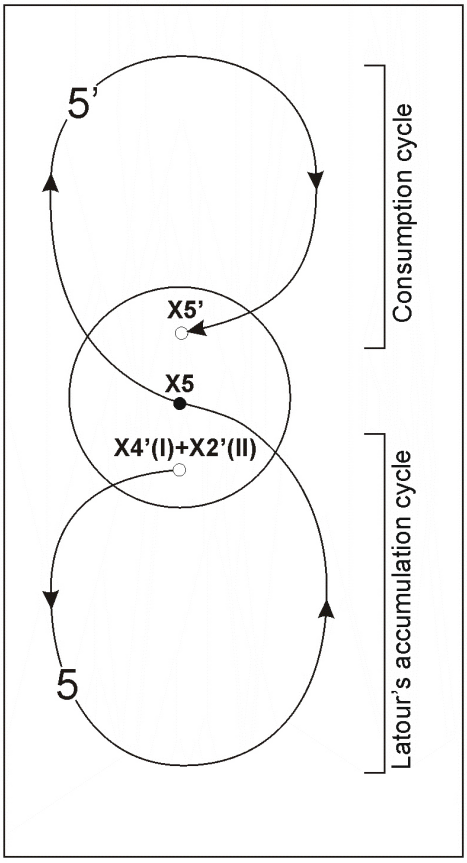

Figure 11: Production-consumption model of Edition 5, Volume I, *Lexicon Technicum*

Because the fourth edition of Volume I and the second edition of Volume II were used as the basis for this edition, the original "point" that marked the beginning of the production cycle for the fifth edition is labeled as "X4'(I) +X2'(II)." The

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points "X4'" and "X2'" can also be found in Figure 10. During production cycle 5 (see Figure 11), the Editors combined the two volumes, added some information, and brought it all to the centre. After that, the fifth edition was published (X5 in the figure; production cycle 5 was completed). The types of new information included additional entries from a number of subject fields, completely rewritten definitions, various types of additional information in the articles, and substituted information in the articles. Adding new information helped contribute to the corpus of knowledge that was being formed at that time.

At the same time, during production cycle 5, the dictionary was prepared for the consumption cycles that followed. The editors added some new text to the front matter: they emphasized that this edition would add to the existing corpus of knowledge by providing a lot of additional information. Next, the dictionary was distributed and used by the public (consumption cycle 5' is completed).

All of the decisions regarding the changes to the dictionary were made by a group of people who called themselves "the Editors." It is, however, unclear who exactly these people were, and Harris is still stated as the author of the dictionary. As in the previous editions, several changes were made to the list of people who had the copyright and distributed the dictionary: eight new names replaced Mr. Tooke, Mr. Cowse, and Mr. Valentine (see Table 1).

The title page stated directly what was special about this particular edition: "The fifth edition. Now digeſted into one Alphabet: With very conſiderable Additions and Improvements from later Diſcoveries in *Mathematicks* and *Philoſophy*, & c. Illuſtrated with ſeveral Additional Copper-Plates, and many new *Diagrams*" (Harris 1736). The publishers signal right away that the new edition of the dictionary will add to the existing corpus of knowledge. The same idea is then stated in the Preface: in order to make the dictionary appear even more complete, "the Editors" enumerated the types of additional information found in the fifth edition. These types included "Improvements made in the Arts and Sciences," new "Technical Words and Terms of Art," etymologies, new tables, and copper plates.

"The Editors" connected the notion of "complete" knowledge with the notion of usability when explaining the change in the structure of the dictionary,

> Whereas the former Editions were in two diſtinct Alphabets, each Volume in one, ſo that many, if not moſt of the Articles of the Firſt Volume, ended incomplete, and required that the Second muſt alſo be conſulted for the additional Matter, which was no ſmall Inconvenience and Trouble to the Peruſer: In this Edition, the two Alphabets are brought into one, and thoſe Additions in the Second Volume are ſubjoined immediately after the Firſt; and ſo the Matter carried on in a continued Series (Harris 1736).

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If this logic is followed, the fifth edition of the dictionary is more usable because each article is "complete," so all available knowledge is stored in one place that is easily accessible.

Entries from the following fields first appeared in the fifth edition: Algebra, Anatomy, Architecture, Astrology, Astronomy, Botany, Carpentry, Chemistry, Fortification, Geometry and Higher Geometry, Gunnery, Heraldry, Law, Levelling, Mathematics, Mechanics, Medicine, Natural History, Optics, Painting, Physics, Rhetoric, and Sea Language. The majority of these entries were labeled according to the subject fields they represented. Overall, 96 entries were added.

Seven entries were present in the previous editions of Volume I and Volume II, but not in the fifth edition of the dictionary. In most cases, it was possible to determine the subject field by finding the entry in the Index in the previous edition of Volume I or Volume II. The entries that were deleted came from the following fields: Chemistry; Law, Common, Civil, and Cannon; History, Ancient Customs, & c.; and Navigation and Sea-Terms.

The results of archeological analysis demonstrate that the number of entries that were added (96 entries) is much greater than the number of entries that were deleted (7 entries). The same applies to the subject fields the entries came from: the entries were added to 24 subject fields and removed from 4 subject fields.

4.10 *A Supplement to Dr. Harris's Dictionary of Arts and Sciences*: 1754

The last book in the *Lexicon Technicum series* was *A Supplement to Dr. Harris's Dictionary of Arts and Sciences* published in 1754. Figure 12 is the production-consumption model of the *Supplement*. The centre is different from the centres on all models discussed above because a new book is being created. Also, the *Supplement* was compiled by a different group of people ("A Society of Gentlemen"), and many changes were made to the list of people who had the copyright and distributed the book (see Table 1).

After the compilers collected the material for the *Supplement*, the book was published (X1 in the figure; production cycle 1 was completed). During this cycle, all the necessary information was brought to the centre. As can be expected from the title of the book, most of the terms were the ones not present in the fifth edition of *Lexicon Technicum*, and even the common ones had entirely new definitions, which demonstrates an attempt to provide as much new information as possible and, therefore, create a "complete" corpus of knowledge.

At the same time, during production cycle 1, the *Supplement* was prepared for the consumption cycles that could follow, during which the dictionary would

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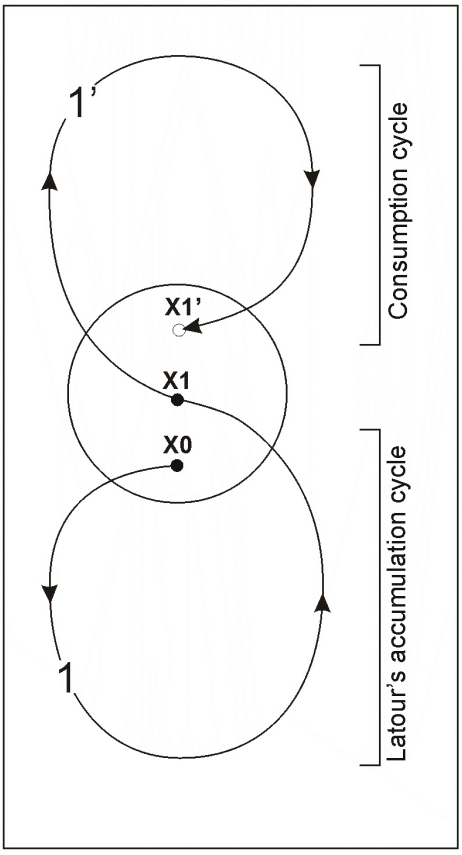

Figure 12: Production-consumption model of the *Supplement*

be distributed. In particular, the compilers legitimized the information found in the dictionary using the authority of the Prince of Wales in the Dedication and emphasized in the Preface that the *Supplement* would add to the existing corpus of knowledge by providing a lot of additional information.

Finally, the *Supplement* was distributed and used by the public (consumption cycle 1' is completed).

While the *Supplement* is not the next edition of *Lexicon Technicum*, it is still a reference book from the same series that adds to the information contained in the dictionary discussed above. According to the title page, the dictionary was compiled by "A Society of Gentlemen," so the authors remain anonymous. In the Preface, they emphasize the connection of their book with Harris's dictionaries by stating that their dictionary is "a Continuation of a Work ſo excellent in its

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kind as Dr. Harris's Dictionary." On the title page, the authors also state that this volume "will, together with Dr. Harris's two Volumes, make the moſt uſeful Set of Books" (Society of Gentlemen 1754). The authors enumerate the "subjects" treated in the dictionary and state that in all of them "this Book is of *itſelf* entirely compleat" and that together with Harris's dictionaries their book will make the moſt "compleat Body of Arts and Sciences yet extant." They further clarify the additional information contained in their dictionary, "Thoſe subjects in which Dr. Harris is any way deficient are here perfected; no trifling and inſignificant Words inserted, but only ſuch as may convey ſome uſeful and entertaining Knowledge to the Reader." The authors first of all use Harris's name and authority to promote their dictionary, and, secondly, try to add on to the corpus of knowledge formed by Harris.

As for the people involved in creating the *Supplement*, the imprint has greatly changed when compared with the fifth edition of Harris's dictionary. In fact, only two people, Mr. Clark and Mr. Bathurst, remained the same, but had a different function now: they had the copyright and distributed Harris's dictionary, but only acted as distributers for the *Supplement*. The anonymous authors owned the copyright, and the new distributers were Mr. Cooper, Mr. Gardner, and one more person, whose name was not readable (see Table 1). Additionally, the phrase "sold by moſt other Bookſellers in Town and Country" indicated that the book was available through the usual channels not only in London, but also in the regional centres (Feather 66). Hence, the *Supplement* was more accessible than Harris's dictionary.

The *Supplement*, as can be expected from the title, mostly included new entries when compared with the fifth edition of the dictionary. However, 17 common terms were found. The authors tried to use a system of visuals in order to mark the novelty of entries. They write, "Thoſe Articles mark'd with an Aſteriſm, of which there are above ELEVEN HUNDRED, are entirely new ones, and not to be found in any Performance of the like Nature. Thoſe mark'd thus ☞ are Additions to thoſe under the ſame Title in Dr. HARRIS'S *Lexicon*." Unfortunately, the authors were inconsistent in their intent.

All of the articles describing the terms common for Edition 5 and *A Supplement to Dr. Harris's Dictionary of Arts and Sciences* were completely rewritten, which made it difficult to classify the changes. No additional illustrations were found.

4.11 Phases of the history of *Lexicon Technicum*

As can be seen in Figure 13, the history of *Lexicon Technicum* can be subdivided into three phases. During Phase I, Volume I and Volume II functioned as two

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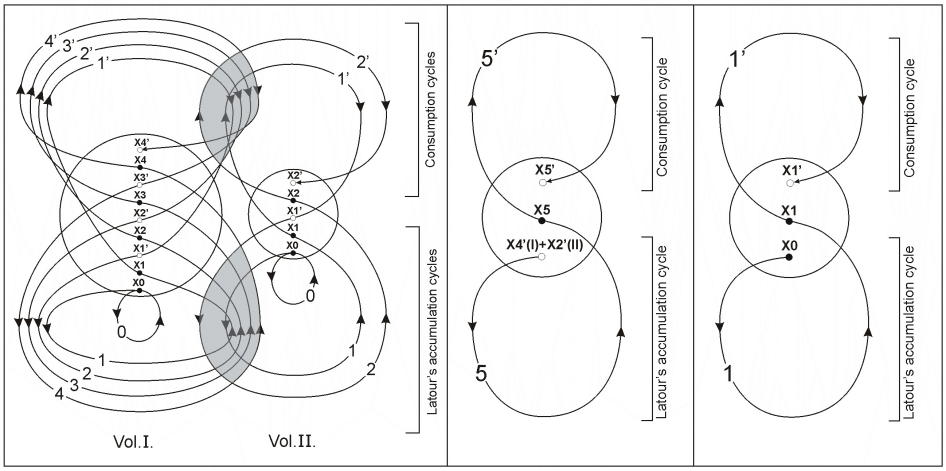
relatively autonomous dictionaries that in some cases overlapped in terms of the users and the information provided in the dictionaries but overall complemented each other. During Phase II, the two volumes were combined, and some new information was also added, which led to the appearance of the dictionary consisting of two volumes, but in this case the volumes formed a complete reference work. During Phase III, another book was added to form a "library" together with the dictionary created during Phase II.



Phase I. Phase II. Phase III.

Figure 13: Phases of *Lexicon Technicum*

It should also be noted that the production-consumption models are abstract. The production cycles may have been more productive than the consumption cycles, which would make the former appear larger than the latter. However, that is not reflected in the models because of their abstract nature.

The main characteristic of the scientific knowledge economy in which *Lexicon Technicum* functioned is adding large volumes of new information (entire books, for example, in the case of Volume II during Phase I and the *Supplement* during Phase III). This can be interpreted as an attempt to form a "complete" corpus of knowledge. The idea of forming such a corpus is also often used in the front matters of the dictionary to increase the book's marketability and was common for the cultural context of that time. Other characteristics of the scientific knowledge economy in which *Lexicon Technicum* functioned include publication by subscription and relatively unstable centres where all the information for the dictionary was collected.

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5 Conclusion

Dictionaries in general and dictionaries of science and technology in particular participate in the scientific knowledge economy by creating scientific and technical knowledge and acting as products of capitalism. In this study, I have considered how one of the first dictionaries of science and technology published in English participates in the scientific knowledge economy in a certain cultural context.

The results demonstrate that the main characteristic of the scientific knowledge economy in which *Lexicon Technicum* functioned in England in the 18th century was adding large volumes of information (entire books, for example). I interpret this as an attempt to create a "complete" corpus of knowledge and explain it by the cultural context: as Foucault (1994: 75) writes, the table was the centre of knowledge in Western culture in the 17th and 18th centuries, so "collecting" all "existing" knowledge and ordering it were the two activities dictionary compilers were clearly interested in. The story of *Lexicon Technicum* can be seen as an attempt to create and disseminate a "complete" corpus of knowledge intended for learning as various editions of the dictionary went through their respective cycles of consumption.

Acknowledgements

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Chapter 4

The singularities of John Carrier's Hungarian–French and French–Hungarian dictionaries

Gábor Tillinger

The paper presents the characteristics of the long-forgotten Hungarian–French (1884) and French–Hungarian (1891) dictionaries compiled by John Carrier – a language teacher of Swiss origin, who lived in Hungary for nearly two decades in the second half of the 19th century.

Besides the detailed description of the lexicographic features, the article highlights the factors and reasons why the dictionaries presented here could be a better or simply a different choice for language learners of that time. While analysing the microstructure of Carrier's dictionaries, special attention is paid to the choice of headwords and equivalents, as well as the quantity of examples of usage, compared to the other French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century. The qualities of Carrier's dictionaries are also examined from the point of view of an average language learner – whether French or Hungarian.

It seems that Carrier's dictionaries never reached a larger public, although they must have been among the most reliable language learning aids of their time. Furthermore, they could very well suit the needs of the average language learner, as they were not overwhelmingly large, while having far more headwords and examples in the entries than a pocket dictionary. Certain semantic fields were even overrepresented in Carrier's dictionaries, and some of their entries cannot even be found in the largest French–Hungarian dictionaries of the time.

Between 1844 and the end of the 19th century, eight different French–Hungarian bilingual dictionaries were published, and most of them seem to have been strongly influenced or even based on existing French–German dictionaries. Carrier's dictionaries, however, show fewer traces of such influence.

Today, only two libraries in Hungary own a copy of Carrier's dictionaries, and they cannot be found in second-hand bookshops either. Carrier's works – just like his

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person and life – remain unknown even among linguists, which is a pity, especially considering the merit of his work.

French, Hungarian, historical lexicography, microstructure

1 Introduction

1.1 Background and objectives

The first French–Hungarian bilingual dictionaries were published in the 19th century – the very first one in 1844. Unfortunately, these works – whether in terms of their characteristics or their history in general – are almost unknown even among scholars, and they rarely serve as a subject for research. These works and their authors have almost been completely forgotten. Oddly enough, even the few existing historico-lexicographical bibliographies (such as Ságí 1922, Jezerniczky 1933 or Magay 2011) have certain shortcomings regarding the history of French–Hungarian lexicography. This is why I have already devoted several in-depth research projects to this topic since 2021 (see e.g. Tillinger 2024b or 2024b)[1].

Among these dictionaries (for a chronological overview see Section 1.2), two are especially interesting: they never appear in second-hand bookshops, and I could find only two libraries – both in Hungary – that own a copy of them. These are the two dictionaries written by a certain John Carrier: the Hungarian–French part published in 1884, followed by the French–Hungarian part in 1891. But why are these works so hard to find and who was this author with a non-Hungarian name, whose dictionaries were published in Hungary? Besides these questions, the most important one is probably if Carrier's dictionaries were any different from the other ones of their time, and if yes, how? Another interesting question is how useful they could be as tools for language learners – whether Hungarian or French. Overall, what features did Carrier's dictionaries have?

In this paper, in addition to the general presentation of Carrier's dictionaries, I also aim to describe the characteristics of the microstructure of these works, as well as to make an analysis of certain entries, comparing Carrier's dictionary articles to those of every other French–Hungarian dictionary of the 19th century. I intend to analyse the quantity and the quality of examples of usage provided

[1]Currently, I am writing a monograph entirely dedicated to the history of early French–Hungarian lexicography, taking into account not only the real dictionaries, but also the very first vocabulary lists published in certain grammar books or phrasebooks.

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by the dictionaries in question, while I also comment on the overall choice of headwords in Carrier's dictionaries.[2] The summary of my study may then answer the question, if Carrier's works could have been a good choice as learning tools for Hungarian (and/or French) language learners. Furthermore, I will also give a short presentation of all the information I have managed to gather about the person of this mysterious author.

It is important to clarify that there is less emphasis on the Hungarian–French dictionaries in this paper, the focus is mostly on the French–Hungarian dictionaries, although every work published in the 19th century is going to be mentioned.

1.2 French–Hungarian bilingual dictionaries of the 19th century: A chronological overview

The first bilingual dictionary with French as the source language and Hungarian as the target language is the one written by Mihály Kiss (or Michel Kiss according to the French title page), published in 1844 in Pest, Hungary. Before 1844, there existed a few grammars, as well as other multilingual works that, among other things, included vocabulary lists with French and Hungarian equivalents, but it is Kiss' work that is a real dictionary including only French and Hungarian. The Hungarian–French volume was written by Ignácz (Ignace) Karády, and it was released in 1848. These dictionaries also had a second edition in 1852. The reason why Kiss' and Karády's books are called *dictionnaire de poche* in French (and *zsebszótár* in Hungarian, meaning 'pocket dictionary') is not the number of entries – of which there are about 23,000 only in the French–Hungarian part – but rather the paucity of the articles in terms of the number of examples of usage. The insufficient number of equivalents and the almost complete absence of examples must have made the use of these dictionaries quite difficult, even for Hungarians, for whom they were probably intended. Kiss did not write a preface to his dictionary, and Karády did not mention in his foreword any sources he might have used.

The next works are the French–Hungarian and Hungarian–French dictionaries by Kálmán (Coloman) Babos, published in 1865. His name does not appear on the title page of the French–Hungarian part (although this one is the first volume), it is only found in the second volume, i.e. the Hungarian–French part. Even though these works have nothing to do with Kiss' and Karády's dictionaries, the

[2]The term "example (of usage)" may be interpreted in different ways by scholars dealing with lexicography, so I find it important to emphasize that my definition is close to the classical one described by Svensén (2009: 281), referring to all types of indications consisting of word combinations (phrases, clauses, sentences) that contain a form of the lemma sign.

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publisher (being the same, namely Heckenast) labelled them as "third edition". In reality, these were the first editions of Babos' dictionaries, but the third time the publisher released French–Hungarian dictionaries – following the two editions of Kiss' and Karády's works (see details in Tillinger 2024a: 202–204). From the point of view of microstructure, Babos' dictionaries are much more substantial than the earlier works. With more than 30,000 entries in the French–Hungarian part, these dictionaries are considerably larger than the ones by Kiss and Karády. There are more examples of usage in Babos' works, but their number is far from sufficient. These dictionaries were probably intended for Hungarians, but even they must have had a hard time "decoding" everything due to the lack of equivalents and examples in some cases. Interestingly, the complete title of Babos' French–Hungarian dictionary includes *d'après le dictionnaire français de Molé*. What we cannot know is to what extent Babos used Molé's work – mentioned only on the title page. At the same time, other questions arise: Which dictionary by Molé is it exactly?[3] Who is hiding behind the name Molé? No answers to these questions can be found in Babos' work. In his preface (which is in the second volume), Babos mentions two dictionaries that he used while writing the Hungarian–French part: the second edition of the Hungarian and German dictionary by Mór Ballagi (it has to be specified that this is the Hungarian–German and German–Hungarian dictionary by Ballagi, a work published in 1847–48, the two parts in separate volumes, the name of the author in the dictionary being Móricz Bloch) and the German–French dictionary by Schuster (probably the edition of 1848 or 1855).

In 1873 in Budapest, the newly founded capital of Hungary (created by the merger of three neighbouring cities: Buda, Pest and Óbuda), the first edition of the work entitled in French *Nouveau dictionnaire français–hongrois et hongrois–français d'après le nouveau dictionnaire de M. A. Thibaut* was published. The Hungarian title reveals that it is a small-format "pocket dictionary". This work had many later editions, but the year of publication was never indicated. The editor or editors of the Hungarian edition remain unknown, and there is no indication which dictionary of Thibaut served as the basis for this work. The name M. A. Thibaut can be found as the author of several French–German dictionaries, and, according to German researchers (see e.g. Fränkel 1904: 602), it is a pseudonym that hides the German author Johann Gottfried Haas (1737–1815). It is a well-known fact that pseudonyms were very fashionable at the time among dictionary authors. It was often the publishers who decided to change the author's name, either in the hope of better sales figures, or in order to keep the person of the

[3]In my opinion, it might be the one published in 1841, see References.

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author in secret, so that other publishers could not contact them. It is therefore very likely that this work is a translation of a French–German dictionary. Given the time elapsed between the date of the author's death and the date of publication of the first Hungarian edition, one can doubt the up-to-dateness and the reliability of this dictionary. The number of entries is relatively high (compared to a pocket dictionary), around 28,000 in the French–Hungarian part, but the simplistic microstructure and the paucity of the articles concerning examples reflect the characteristics of small dictionaries: this dictionary is poor in examples, and the different meanings of the headword are not presented in a well-structured way, the equivalents are simply listed.

In 1879 came Frigyes (Frédéric) Mártonffy's French–Hungarian dictionary, published in Budapest. This work contains over 40,000 headwords. Interestingly, the Hungarian–French part was in fact the second edition of Babos' Hungarian–French dictionary. Mártonffy's dictionary had only one edition. Mártonffy states in his preface that he used the best French and Hungarian works as sources, especially the dictionary of the French Academy and "the" dictionary of difficulties of the French language, but we cannot know how and to what extent. Moreover, apart from the question of the different editions of the French Academy's dictionary that he does not specify either, we cannot be sure which dictionary of difficulties he is referring to. We can only wonder whether he meant the work by Pierre-Claude-Victor Boiste (1828) or the one by Jean-Charles Laveaux (1818, followed by revised, corrected and expanded editions, the second in 1822, the third in 1846 and the fourth in 1873). One thing is certain: Mártonffy does not mention any French–German dictionary. What is innovative and highly appreciable in this dictionary is that the pronunciation of the French lemmas is indicated in parentheses after the headwords. Even if this is only an approximate pronunciation, it must have been a great help to Hungarian users. Another innovation is that the different meanings and function types of the lemmas – the so-called "sense categories" – are numbered, which makes it easier to find one's way around the entries. On the other hand, the numbering sometimes lacks logic. Mártonffy's dictionary is much richer in examples than previous dictionaries, but the structuring of the examples is not always well organized.

Jenő Ármin (Eugène Armand) Pokorny was the author of the huge French–Hungarian dictionary that was published in three volumes – the first two in 1880, followed by the third one in 1881 – in Budapest. The number of the entries in Pokorny's dictionary exceeds 50,000. The work went through four editions, the fourth one came out in 1892 on the occasion of the posthumous publication of the two volumes of the Hungarian–French part in 1891–92. In his preface (written

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only in Hungarian), Pokorny states that the other French–Hungarian dictionaries, published before his, offer only simple, more or less voluminous "nomenclatures". As he writes, presenting headwords accompanied by simple equivalents can make the use of a dictionary confusing. According to him, this is also the reason why French–German dictionaries were so popular in Hungary at the time. His goal was therefore to create a French–Hungarian and Hungarian–French dictionary thanks to which German dictionaries would no longer be indispensable. Pokorny emphasizes the presence of examples of usage (aimed at illustrating both fixed expressions and different styles) and grammatical information in his dictionary. Regarding his sources, Pokorny mentions that he used the "most recent and most renowned" French works, such as the dictionary of the French Academy, the dictionaries of Littré, Poitèvin and Landais, but most of all the Bescherelle. Unfortunately, he does not indicate the exact details of these works, not even their titles. He also writes that he structured his dictionary using the dictionary of Sachs – "so sought after in Germany" – but he does not specify to what extent and in what way he used it, and, as in the case of the other works, he does not specify the bibliographical data. One can only assume that Pokorny refers to the *Dictionnaire encyclopédique français–allemand et allemand–français* by Karl Sachs and Césaire Villatte (1869–1880). As for the microstructure, it had evolved considerably, and the articles provide much more information on headwords and their usage. The headwords are followed by an approximate pronunciation in parentheses as in Mártonffy's dictionary. Pokorny – just like Mártonffy – numbered the meanings and/or the function types. What is new is that in some articles, for some meanings of the French headword, there are not only Hungarian equivalents, but also short explanations in Hungarian that can help dictionary users to better decode a given meaning of the headword. Such explanations were missing in previous works. Another new and unique element of some entries is the indication of possible antonyms. Pokorny sometimes even gives synonyms and homophones. As for the quantity of examples of usage, Pokorny's dictionary is much richer than the dictionaries of his predecessors. At the same time, several weaknesses can be identified, such as the structuring of the meanings (especially when there are many of them) and the misleading typography of certain explanations. It should also be noted that the choice of examples does not reflect the important differences between the source and target languages (just like in the previous works), which is certainly due to the influence of French–German dictionaries. Moreover, in the case of many entries, the equivalents are still poorly chosen, even erroneous.

As mentioned earlier, John Carrier's Hungarian–French dictionary came out in 1884, followed by his French–Hungarian dictionary in 1891. These are the

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only works of the 19th century that were not written by a Hungarian, and were not published in Pest or Budapest, but in Győr. It is also interesting to mention that Carrier's works are the only ones in the history of French–Hungarian lexicography where the Hungarian–French part gets published before the French–Hungarian one. For a more detailed description of Carrier's works see Section 3.

In 1891, the pocket dictionary – called *dictionnaire manuel* on its French title page – written by Nándor Könnye was published, the French–Hungarian and the Hungarian–French parts in one volume. The author is also known by the first name Ferdinánd. This work was published by the publisher Eisler in Budapest, but the printing was done in Oradea (Nagyvárad in Hungarian). The number of entries does not reach 20,000 in the French–Hungarian part, and the articles are very poor in examples. The pronunciation of the headwords is not indicated, and, since the different meanings are not numbered, the presentation of the equivalents remains unstructured.

Béla Ujváry's dictionary was published in 1898, with the title *Franczia és magyar zsebszótár: Tekintettel a két nyelv szólásaira* ('French and Hungarian pocket dictionary: Including idiomatic expressions of the two languages'). Indeed, it is a pocket dictionary, in small format. The number of entries is around 10,000 in the French–Hungarian part, but this figure is misleading: the author grouped into one entry all the derivatives and compounds that, by their meaning, are closely related to the headword. Thus, some lexical units with the same root are treated in the same article. If we count the lexical units, their number rises to 30,000. Regarding the number of examples, Ujváry's dictionary is not richer than Carrier's. Just like in the latter, the presentation of equivalents is not structured, there is no numbering for the different sense categories of the headword in this work either, and the pronunciation of the headwords is also missing.

Table 1 provides an overview of every French–Hungarian dictionary published in the 19th century.

1.3 The potential needs of the main user groups

In the case of bilingual dictionaries, the majority of users are native speakers of one of the languages in the dictionary. The two main user groups of the dictionaries discussed here are therefore Hungarian learners of French and French learners of Hungarian. Not surprisingly, all of the dictionaries in question were published in Hungary. French is considered a world language – with a high number of native and L2 speakers in many countries around the world, spoken even as a lingua franca by people neither ethnically nor nationally associated with it outside of France – while Hungarian is not. For this reason, there has always

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Table 1: The French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century

year of publication	author	number of entries	size
1844	Kiss	≈ 23,000	‘‘pocket”
1865	Babos	> 30,000	medium
1873	Thibaut	≈ 28,000	small
1879	Mártonffy	> 40,000	medium
1880–81	Pokorny	> 50,000	large, 3 vol.
1891	Carrier	≈ 25,000	small
1891	Könnye	< 20,000	‘‘pocket”
1898	Ujváry	≈ 10,000 (≈ 30,000)	‘‘pocket”

been a greater demand for Hungarian speakers to learn French than for French speakers to learn Hungarian. In line with this, there are more French language experts in Hungary than Hungarian language experts in any francophone country. All this also means that the primary target group of the dictionaries examined here is Hungarian speakers.

It is common sense that bilingual dictionaries can be used for a wide range of purposes – serving either comprehension (decoding) or production (encoding) (see e.g. Scholfield 1982, 1997) but also learning (Nation 1989). According to Nation (2001: 281–282), decoding implies – among others – looking up unknown words (while listening, reading or translating) and confirming the meaning of partly known words. Encoding involves looking up unknown words (needed to speak, write or translate), looking up the spelling, pronunciation, meaning, grammar, constraints on use, collocations, inflections and derived forms of partly known words (needed to speak, write or translate), but also confirming spelling, pronunciation, meaning, etc. of known words. Nation also mentions learning as a main purpose of dictionary use: for choosing unknown words to learn and/or enriching knowledge of partly known words.

Of course, the needs of Hungarian dictionary users do not differ from these generally stated areas of use. However, since the Hungarian language shows significant differences from the French language in many respects (as they belong to two different language families), dictionary users have a more pronounced need for the given bilingual dictionary to be more than just a simple glossary without any extra language usage information. Indicating the pronunciation of the headwords can be an important feature, but the most important ones would

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probably be the following: thorough and well-structured presentation of the different meanings and the usage of the headword (complex but easy-to-understand and consistent microstructure); numerous examples of usage; explanations when adequate equivalents cannot be provided. These are the main aspects that were considered in the analyses presented in Section 3.

2 John Carrier – A life behind the dictionaries

Information about John Carrier's person and life is just as hard to find as the copies of his dictionaries. The most informative sources are actually related to his tragic death.

Carrier was of Swiss origin, born in Geneva in 1858. It was in the second half of the 1870s that he settled in Hungary, living first in the town of Tata, then in Győr, where he lived for 15 years until his death on 20 May 1894. This information is provided by the Bulletin of the Main Grammar School of the Order of Saint Benedict of Pannonhalma in Győr for the School Year 1893–94, in which a short passage of eighteen lines announces Carrier's death and pays tribute to him. As for his professional life, he worked as a lay teacher of French and gymnastics at this high school. If we look at some other bulletins for earlier school years, we can learn that Carrier worked there for eight years, starting in 1886.

It was also in the town of Győr that his dictionaries were published by a small local printing house. These dictionaries probably had a modest print run – compared to other dictionaries from the more powerful publishing/printing houses in Budapest (or earlier Pest) – and their publisher was less efficient with the distribution of the copies in the country. This must be the reason why Carrier's works never had a great echo, and it is precisely this that could also explain the fact that his dictionaries are real rarities today.

At the same time, surprisingly, Carrier's work appears in the Hungarian literature of the time. There is a (nowadays little-known) short story by the Hungarian Kálmán Mikszáth (1847–1910, one of the most famous writers in Hungary), a short story with a French title, namely *Aussi brebis*. It was first published in the newspaper *Pesti Hírlap* in 1897, then in the book *Öreg szekér, fakó hám*, a collection of the author's writings, first published in 1901. In this short story, the narrator's sons – the narrator being the writer himself – ask their father to buy a Hungarian–French dictionary for them, and the writer sends the maid to buy Carrier's dictionary. So, it was not just any Hungarian–French dictionary that Mikszáth wanted to buy for his sons, and he even makes this clear in his short story. Carrier's dictionaries must therefore have been appreciated by some connoisseurs.

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About his tragic death already mentioned, we can learn from the issue of 21st May 1894 of the Hungarian newspaper Pesti Hírlap (one of the most widely read dailies of that time) that "Carrier János" (the magyarized name of John Carrier) and his wife were victims of a sailing boat accident on the Danube near the city of Győr on the 20th of May 1894. The newspaper's correspondent (whose name is not mentioned) in Győr writes about it as follows:

> "Carrier and his wife went for a boat trip on the yacht "Balaton" this Sunday afternoon and drowned in the Danube near the Révfalu Bridge, under the Episcopal Castle in Győr, in front of several witnesses. The boat caught a headwind, Carrier climbed the mast to adjust the sail, then the boat suddenly capsized. The loving husband threw himself after his wife to try to save her, but the wife, clinging to her husband – who was an excellent swimmer – dragged him into the depths. [...] Carrier was a teacher of French language, and he was a respected citizen of our city for 15 years. Although he was of Swiss origin, he spoke Hungarian perfectly and took the oath of Hungarian citizenship a few years ago. He was also an exceptional linguist. He wrote a French–Hungarian dictionary that was published a few years ago in two large volumes. [...]"[4]

Let us note that the journalist speaks of a French–Hungarian dictionary in two large volumes – which is both an exaggeration and a mistake. A mistake, since Carrier's French–Hungarian dictionary was published in a single volume in 1891 – the other volume published in 1884 being the author's Hungarian–French dictionary – and an exaggeration, because these dictionaries are far from being large. Such an amplification on the part of the journalist can, without a doubt, contribute to the dramatization: it is a way of emphasizing the scientific greatness of the deceased. Of course, it is easier to use a simple epithet evoking the size of a work than to describe the scientific qualities of the work in question.

At the same time, if we read the 1893–1894 school year bulletin of the grammar school where Carrier worked, we find the following about Carrier and his death:

> "To earn his living, he gave French lessons and taught gymnastics. He worked tirelessly from morning to night to ensure his modest existence; his only entertainment was pleasure boating. On the afternoon of Sunday the 20th of May, he wanted to devote his free time to this sport, and he set off on a sailboat with his wife on the Danube. Who would have thought that this would be the last voyage for this peaceful couple living in quiet

[4]My translation.

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> isolation? After the departure, the sail had to be trimmed. In this action, Carrier fell from the boat, causing the boat to capsize, causing his wife to fall into the water. And, although both were good swimmers, this time their skill was of no use to them; help arrived too late, both died in the waves of the Danube."[5]

If we compare the story published in the school bulletin with that of the daily newspaper, we can easily see some factual differences. More than a century later, it is impossible to find out what really happened that day. And the little presented in the few paragraphs above seems to be all we may know about John Carrier.

3 John Carrier's dictionaries as learning tools

In this section, Carrier's dictionaries are examined with regard to the aspects mentioned in Section 1.3, putting the focus on the French–Hungarian volume. Special attention is paid to the following: number of entries, choice of headwords, microstructure (overall structure of the entries; pronunciation of the headword; presentation of the different grammatical and semantical categories; information regarding usage, stylistics, register, technical terminology, etc.; visual and typographical features), choice of equivalents, quantity of examples of usage, explanations related to problematic equivalents. The qualities of a dictionary regarding the above-mentioned factors can not only determine the average user experience but they can also have a great impact on the effectiveness of the learning process.

3.1 Generalities – Strengths and weaknesses

A general remark that one might make right at the beginning when starting to turn the pages of Carrier's dictionaries is that there is no foreword in either of these works. This means that neither Carrier nor the publisher provided the users with any information regarding the editorial principles and the use of the dictionaries.

The number of entries amounts to approximately 23,000 in the Hungarian–French, and 25,000 in the French–Hungarian part. With these figures they are in the average of French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century (see Section 1.2). Both parts include two complementary word lists, one called *Noms propres*, and another one named *Table géographique*. The first one includes forenames (218 in the Hungarian–French and 258 in the French–Hungarian part),

[5]My translation.

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while the second one is composed of names of countries, cities and adjectives related to these (417 in the Hungarian–French and 477 in the French–Hungarian part).

What can be seen when reading the different entries in Carrier's dictionaries is that the equivalents are often more reliable compared to other French–Hungarian dictionaries. The content of the latter is often too influenced by French–German dictionaries – a problem also mentioned by Jules Theisz in the foreword of his French–Hungarian dictionary (published in 1902 or 1903) where Theisz also provides a few concrete examples.

As for the quantity of examples of usage (for more details, see Section 3.4), these are relatively few in number in the entries of the French–Hungarian part – even if more numerous than in the dictionaries of Kiss (1844), Babos (1865), Thibaut (1873) or Könnye (1891). Oddly though, examples of usage do not occur at all in the Hungarian–French part.

An absolute strength of Carrier's dictionaries is that they are unusually rich in technical terms, and these terms were even marked by abbreviations indicating the fields to which they belonged. There are 22 of these indicated fields in the French–Hungarian part, representing the following fields: agriculture, algebra, anatomy, astronomy, botany, chemistry, surgery, geography, geometry, grammar, printing, jurisprudence, marine, mathematics, medicine, mineralogy, music, mythology, painting, physics, theology, typography.

Interestingly, despite the average size, some semantic fields are even overrepresented, which means that we can find headwords that we would only expect in large dictionaries. For example, this is the case for some terms of anatomy – such as the names of certain (types of) muscles of the human body (such as *abaisseur* 'depressor', *abducteur* 'abductor', *adducteur* 'adductor' etc.) – marine (*accalmie* 'calm, lull at the sea', *agrès* 'tackle, ropes', *amarinage* 'commandeering', *amatelotage* 'ranging the men of the crew in pairs' etc.) or mathematics (*aliquante* 'aliquant', *aliquote* 'aliquot' etc.).

The French–Hungarian part is also extremely rich in words belonging to the fields of flora and fauna. In particular, we can find names of plants and animals that were little known or used in both France and Hungary at the time, and often even today: e.g. *aconit* 'aconite, monkshood, wolfsbane, devil's helmet', *amarante* 'amaranth', *balisier* 'Indian shot, purple arrowroot (Canna indica)', *belle-de-jour* '(dwarf)morning-glory (Convolvulus (tricolor))', *belle-de-nuit* 'four o'clock flower (Mirabilis jalapa)', *cardon* 'cardoon (Cynara cardunculus)', *cochlearia* 'scurvy-grass, spoonwort', *acouti* / *agouti* 'agouti (Dasyprocta)', *caïman* 'caiman', *casoar* 'cassowary', *chevrotain* 'chevrotain, mouse-deer; musk deer', *conger* 'conger eel' etc. Also considering the size of these dictionaries, the

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presence of specific terms such as *corymbe* 'corymb' (a flat-topped inflorescence in which the flower stalks arise at different levels on the main axis and reach about the same height) or *anthère* 'anther' (the part of a stamen that produces and contains pollen and is usually borne on a stalk) is also surprising. Moreover, among the French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century, Carrier's works are the only ones to include certain entries (such as *acérinées* – a term better known in the form *acéracées* 'Aceraceae', i.e. the maple family), including the voluminous dictionaries of Pokorny (1880–1881).

Although Carrier uses a good number of abbreviations to indicate the semantic field of technical terms or words that are somehow problematic, these clues are sometimes missing, which can lead to confusion. For example, under *asperge* 'asparagus', we simply find *spárga* as a Hungarian equivalent. Certainly, this Hungarian word means 'asparagus', but it can also have another meaning, namely 'string (to tie)'. In a case like this one, the Hungarian user of the dictionary would need a clarification. Another example is the entry *cardinal* where we find two Hungarian equivalents: *bibornok* (misspelled in the dictionary with an *i* instead of an *í*, the correct form being *bíbornok*, today *bíboros*) and *búbos pirók*. In the case of *bibornok*, it is the meaning 'high dignitary of the Catholic Church', while *búbos pirók* refers to a bird of the Cardinalidae family. Lacking semantic clues, French users of the dictionary must have had difficulty choosing the appropriate equivalent. At the same time, Carrier's merit must be recognized for having also included the ornithological meaning, despite the fact that the lemma in question denotes a North American bird.

Unfortunately, Carrier's dictionaries have unusually numerous typographical errors, both in the French and the Hungarian words (of course, not only among headwords, but anywhere inside the entries). These errors are of different kinds: e.g. missing diacritics, wrong diacritics, missing letters, extra letters, wrong letters. This is probably due to the fact that these works were published by a very small printing house called Gross (being the family name of the owners) in the town of Győr. This printing house had only nine workers (including three typesetters, three apprentices, two workers handling the paper sheets and one unskilled worker) in the 1890s (Kováts 1998). They probably did not have much experience with setting and printing dictionaries, as the structuring of the microstructure (punctuation, printing styles/formats: italics vs normal) is not so consistent either.

Some examples of the errors that occur in the French words: *aligator* (instead of > *alligator*), *anthiasthmatique* (> *antiasthmatique*), *cerèales* (> *céréales*), *citronille* (> *citrouille*), *colimacon* (> *colimaçon*); and in the Hungarian words: *szőllő*

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(> *szőlő*), *kotlóséyuk* (> *kotlóstyúk*), *házitücsók* (> *házitücsök*), *tücsők* (> *tücsök*), *zsázsá* (> *zsázsa*), *tonna* (> *torma*).

Another type of error concerns punctuation: an unnecessary comma appears sometimes between words that belong together, for instance in noun phrases composed of a premodifier and a noun, as seen in the entry of the French headword *bardane*, where the Hungarian equivalent appears as *közönséges, bojtorján* instead of *közönséges bojtorján*. Such an error can be very misleading, as the users – mostly the French speaking learners, not having a good knowledge of Hungarian – might think that there are several (in this case two) possible equivalents for the headword.

The greatest defect of Carrier's works is represented by the lack of the logical and consequent structuring of the presentation of the equivalents – the different meanings of the headword not being numbered. For instance, if we look at the entry of the French verb *prendre*, right after the headword and before the first example of usage, we can find fourteen (semantically quite divergent) Hungarian equivalents, simply separated from each other by a comma or a semicolon – with no consistency in this distinction: *venni, elvenni; fogni, megfogni; fölvenni, magára venni, felölteni; ragadni; elcsenni, ellopni; elfogni, elfoglalni, bevenni; megigézni*. Furthermore, the pronunciation of French headwords is not indicated either – a lexicographic feature (relatively new in Hungary at that time) already used in Mártonffy's (1879) dictionary.

Despite their shortcomings, Carrier's dictionaries could be a very good choice for most Hungarian learners of French, especially because of their easily manageable size, with a largely sufficient nomenclature and with rather reliable equivalents.

3.2 A closer look at the microstructure

In Carrier's dictionaries, headwords always begin with a capital letter, and they are immediately followed by a comma sign. No bold font style is used for headwords.

Abbreviations indicate the word class (i.e. the lexical category) of the headwords, providing even some further information, such as gender for nouns (in the French–Hungarian dictionary), transitivity for verbs, etc. Abbreviations are chosen according to the source language of the dictionaries.

In the French–Hungarian dictionary, mostly in the case of adjectives, when the headword can have separate endings depending on the gender, the feminine ending follows the headword and precedes the abbreviation of the word class.

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Usually there is a comma between the eventual feminine ending and the abbreviation of the word class, but this is not done consistently, sometimes a full stop is used instead.

The equivalents are given in italics, separated by a comma or a semicolon, depending on the eventual semantic differences between the equivalents. Commas are usually used between synonyms, while semicolon indicates a more important semantic difference, suggesting the polysemy of the headword. Unfortunately, this is the only method applied by the author to separate the different sense categories of a headword – no numbering is used.

Further explanatory information may be provided in parenthesis. For instance, in the French–Hungarian dictionary, important semantic fields are often specified by (French) abbreviations, preceding the corresponding equivalent. Equivalents may also be followed by additional information in parenthesis, the purpose of which being to supplement an equivalent, always in the language of the equivalents.

Examples of usage – when provided – follow the primary equivalents (reflecting only the general meanings of the headword, regardless of other eventual meanings that are related to an idiomatic usage), and their typeset style is the same as for the headwords. They are then followed by a translation in italics. In certain entries, mostly in the case of verbs, the examples of usage consisting of a complete sentence are not only followed by their translation but even preceded by a secondary equivalent of the headword. Such a secondary equivalent represents a secondary meaning that only appears in a specific construction type, illustrated by the example that follows. It could be a significant problem for the users that a secondary equivalent (in italics) is separated from the preceding translation (also in italics) of the previous example by a simple comma. As a result, users must have been confused; they could not be sure if all the words appearing in italics – the one after the other and separated by a comma – belong together or not.

From the users' point of view, the biggest problem related to the microstructure in Carrier's dictionaries might have been the lack of numbering of the different sense categories of the headwords (see Section 3.1). Another issue could be the eventual interpunctuation errors, especially when a mistake of this kind can lead to misinterpreting of the equivalents or the translations (see Section 3.1).

Entries always end with a full stop.

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3.3 The choice of equivalents

As it was pointed out in Section 3.1, the equivalents in Carrier's dictionaries generally are reliable, in some cases they even are more accurate than those found in other dictionaries of the century. However, problems of different kind may occur every now and then. In this section, I will show a few examples of problematic or missing equivalents (that could pose significant issues for the language learners, as well as for the average users of Carrier's dictionaries), but also a couple of entries where Carrier's explanations work better.

Among the headwords mentioned earlier in Section 3.1, *acouti* and *agouti* are probably two examples of the most interesting cases. Even though they appear as separate entries in the dictionary, in reality, *acouti* was only an alternative form of *agouti* in the French of the time, *acouti* being closer to the original form in the source language, Guarani – an indigenous language of South America. These lemmas denote a medium-sized rodent from tropical America. It is therefore more than curious why Carrier found this animal – almost unknown to Europeans – worthy of inclusion in his dictionary. What is more, among the French–Hungarian dictionaries, Carrier's dictionary is the only one to mention both forms, but the form *acouti* rarely appears even in the great French–German dictionaries of the 19th century.

If we look at the Hungarian equivalents provided by the author, under *acouti* we find *fiatal tengeri nyúl* (literally 'young sea rabbit/hare'), while under *agouti* Carrier gives *tengeri nyúl* (literally 'sea rabbit/hare'), as if the two words stood for two different things. In fact, *tengeri nyúl* is not and has never been a common (scientific) term in Hungarian to designate the animal in question. The part *nyúl* 'rabbit/hare' is probably inspired and influenced by the various German equivalents in the French–German dictionaries of the 19th century – compound words containing either *Kaninchen* 'rabbit' (originally a diminutive form of *Kanin*) or *Hase* 'hare' – for example *langnasiges Ferkelhase* or *Afterhase*. Other potential sources of inspiration could be the sixth (1835) and seventh (1878) editions of the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie française*, in which we find the following definition – cited here in my English translation: "Quadruped of the order of Rodents, which has the physiognomy and habits of the rabbit." As for the part *tengeri* 'maritime/sea-', it can appear in the names of plants or animals designating species of overseas origin – similar to the epithet *d'Inde* in French, cf. *coq*/*poule d'Inde* (literally 'rooster/hen of the Indies') which gave today's *dinde* 'turkey', or *cochon d'Inde* 'guinea pig' (literally 'pig of the Indies') – for example *tengerimalac* 'guinea pig' (literally 'sea pig'), or quite simply *tengeri*, the name for corn in certain Hungarian dialects.

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As mentioned earlier, flora and fauna are very extensively represented semantic fields in Carrier's dictionaries. However, the Hungarian equivalents in some cases do not match the French headwords. For instance, if we look at the entry of *chévrefeuille* [sic, the correct form would be *chèvrefeuille*] 'honeysuckle', we will find *szulák* as the only Hungarian equivalent. The problem is that *szulák* means 'morning glory (flower)', so, it stands for a different plant. Mártonffy made the same mistake in his dictionary, *szulák* being the only provided equivalent for *chèvrefeuille*. This Hungarian word also figures in the corresponding entries of Babos' and Pokorny's dictionaries, but they include another Hungarian equivalent as well: *jerikói loncz* – a name that really was in use for honeysuckle in the Hungary of the 19th century (and it is still in use today, with a slightly different orthography: *jerikói lonc*). Interestingly, the work that only indicates the correct Hungarian name of this plant is Kiss' dictionary – let us remember, it was the first French–Hungarian bilingual dictionary.

The verb *aller* 'to go' has an extremely high frequency in French, which is due to its semantics. Besides referring to a quite common activity, this verb is also polysemic and it occurs in a high number of idiomatic expressions. As for its polysemy, the formation of *futur proche* – the 'near future' tense – with *aller* as an auxiliary verb is an example that absolutely should be mentioned. If we look at the entry of *aller* in Carrier's dictionary, unfortunately, we will not find this function of the verb. Carrier gives three primary equivalents: *menni* 'to go', *járni* 'to go (on a regular basis)', and *utazni* 'to travel'. These are followed by some examples of usage, namely 13: *aller à cheval*; *aller en voiture*; *aller en bateau*; *aller par terre*; *ce chemln* [sic, instead of *chemin*] *va à Paris*; *ce travail ne vas pas*; *cette montagne va jusqu'aux nues*; *cet habit vous va bien*; *aller faire qc.*; *c'est ce que j'allais dire*; *aller aux voix*; *aller chercher qn.*; *s'en aller.*

In the case of *aller faire qc.* one might think that the author intends to present the auxiliary verb function for the formation of the near future tense, but the translation following the example makes it clear that Carrier wanted to exemplify another meaning: *vmit tenni szándékolni* 'to intend to do sg'. Although this interpretation can be related to the near future tense, but the example in question with its translation does not reflect it at all.

The headwords *aliquante* 'aliquant' and *aliquote* 'aliquot' (mentioned in Section 3.1) are good examples to show that Carrier's entries can be more accurate and more helpful than those of the largest French–Hungarian dictionaries of the time. First of all, let us look at the semantics of these technical terms used in mathematics. An "aliquant" part is a number or quantity which does not divide a larger number without leaving a remainder, while an "aliquot" part is a number or quantity which divide a larger number without leaving a remainder.

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If we look up *aliquante* in Pokorny's (1880–1881) dictionary, we will find: "(Partie) aliquante = nagyobb a föl nem menő (szám)". The entry states precisely that the headword is an adjective, and the user can also guess that this adjective is usually used as an epithet to the noun *partie*. As for the Hungarian equivalent, it is quite hard to understand. At first, it sounds like an explanation and not an equivalent, because it can be regarded as a complete sentence: literally 'the not-upgoing (number) is bigger'. If one reads the entry *aliquote*, the equivalent there makes it evident that the previous equivalent contains a typo, and the first two words should be written together: *nagyobba*. This way, the meaning of the equivalent is '(a number) not going up (in)to a bigger one'. Even so, it is quite far from being clear for everyone.

In Carrier's dictionary, we will find the following equivalent – which is rather an explanation: "mely maradékkal foglaltatik egy nagyobb számban (például 2 az 5-ben)", meaning 'which is included with a remainder in a larger number (for example, 2 in 5)'. Considering the real meaning of the term, Carrier's solution is much clearer – not least thanks to the additional example in parentheses.

Looking up *aliquote*, one can find the following in Pokorny's work: "Partie aliquote = nagyobba fölmenő szám". This time *partie* and *szám* appear without parenthesis. The equivalent means 'a number going up (in)to a bigger one'. In Carrier's entry: "mely maradék nélkül foglaltatik egy nagyobb számban (például 2 a 6-ban)" – 'that is included without a remainder in a larger number (for example, 2 in 6)'. Once again, the users of Carrier's dictionary were more likely to understand the meaning of the headword.

It is also interesting and important to note that the terms *aliquante* and *aliquote* appear only in Carrier's and in Pokorny's dictionary among all the French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century.

3.4 The quantity of examples of usage

As mentioned in Section 3.1, examples of usage appear only in the French–Hungarian dictionary, and their quantity seem to be quite moderate. In order to be able to position Carrier's work among other dictionaries from this point of view, I have made a comparative analysis of the quantity of examples of usage in every bilingual French–Hungarian dictionary of the 19th century. I have examined articles with frequent and semantically overloaded verbs as headwords, the usage of which is most often illustrated by numerous examples – both because of polysemy and because of the high frequency of these verbs in different contexts. These two factors – i.e. high frequency and polysemy – have also been the main selection criteria of the verbs examined. Besides the fact that the selected verbs

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usually come with a high number of examples in French bilingual dictionaries (making these verbs suitable and representative subjects for a comparative analysis), high frequency also implies that these verbs belong to the core vocabulary, thus their adequate presentation in a dictionary is of great importance from the language learners' point of view. Furthermore, polysemy is a factor that increases the difficulty of the learning process (but also of the translation process – whether we talk about decoding or encoding), which necessitates that dictionaries face this challenge and deal with the problem effectively. I have counted the number of examples in the selected entries, and the result is shown in Table 2.

Table 2: The number of examples of usage in selected entries of the French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century

	Kiss 1844	Babos 1865	Thibaut 1873	Mártonffy 1879	Pokorny 1880–81	Könnye 1891	Carrier 1891	Ujváry 1898
aller	4	32	27	39	99	8	13	20
avoir	1	9	5	13	33	0	0	12
devoir	0	0	0	5	15	0	4	3
être	0	0	0	6	77	9	4	13
faire	0	2	2	46	172	19	20	16
lasisser	0	0	0	4	15	2	2	6
mettre	1	1	1	27	83	5	13	16
pouvoir	0	2	2	7	22	0	2	7
prendre	0	5	5	61	140	13	35	17
rendre	1	5	4	22	35	4	18	5
venir	0	15	8	17	65	2	10	11
TOTAL:	7	71	54	247	756	62	121	126

The figures clearly show that Pokorny's dictionary is by far the richest in examples, with 756 examples in total for the 11 entries analysed, followed by Mártonffy's dictionary, in which the same 11 entries include 247 examples. Let us recall that these two works are also the most voluminous, containing the most entries. In third place are Ujváry's dictionary with 126 and Carrier's with 121 examples – these two works are thus halfway between Mártonffy's dictionary on one side, and Babos' (71 examples), Könnye's (62 examples) and Thibaut's (54 examples) dictionaries on the other. Kiss' work with its seven examples is clearly the poorest in examples.

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3.5 Qualities as a language learning tool – The aspects of Hungarian and French users

Since Hungarian is a Finno-Ugric language (and not an Indo-European one like French), it is not surprising that some grammatical constructions are formed in different ways. One could name many cases in which a meaning or function is expressed by a single word in one language, while it is impossible to define the same meaning by a simple equivalent in another language. To give some examples, I have chosen to highlight here three French headwords – three verbs – that can pose problems in this regard, and the presentation of which is insufficient in the French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century, to a certain extent even in Carrier's work. The following exemplified verbal constructions are very common in both languages, and – due to their high frequency and the structural differences between the languages – both French and Hungarian learners (i.e. dictionary users) would need more explanation and more/better examples of usage in dictionaries that are meant to be a practical learning tool.

Before looking at the examples, a general fact should be clarified about Hungarian verbs. In today's Hungarian dictionaries, verbs are indicated in the 3rd person singular indicative present (of the so-called "indefinite" or "general" conjugation) – this has been the norm for about a hundred years. In the 19th century and earlier, however, it was not like that. In the very first Hungarian dictionaries, especially in the bilingual ones paired with Latin, Hungarian verbs are found in the 1st person singular, while in works where Hungarian is paired with German, Hungarian verbs are usually presented in the infinitive. Infinitives were also used in the French–Hungarian dictionaries, even in Carrier's, but interestingly not in Kiss'.

3.5.1 *avoir* 'to have'

In the Hungarian language, there is no verb *avoir* 'to have' to express possession (note that the English possessive construction with *to have* is similar to the corresponding usage of *avoir* in French). In Hungarian, it is the equivalent of the verb "to be" which is used as a predicate, and the direct object (the possessed) of the French/English construction is used in Hungarian as the subject, marked by a possessive suffix referring to the possessor's person, while the subject of the French/English verb is used in Hungarian as a complement in the dative case – as shown in (1). If the possessor is not expressed by a specific noun, a personal pronoun in dative is used but only when it is stressed – the possessor's person being marked anyway by the possessive suffix on the possessed – see (2). Such

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constructions are typical for Finno-Ugric languages. Let's see some concrete sentences:

(1) Péter-nek van (egy) francia szótár-a. (Hungarian)
Peter-DAT is (a) French dictionary-3SG.POSS
'Peter has a French dictionary.'

(2) (nekünk) van (egy) francia szótár-unk. (Hungarian)
(we-DAT) is (a) French dictionary-1PL.POSS
'We have a French dictionary.'

Such constructions are best explained by examples of usage in a dictionary, but early French–Hungarian dictionaries do not provide any for this meaning of "to have". As Hungarian equivalents, Kiss gives the words *lenni* (the infinitive 'to be') and *van* (3rd person singular of the same verb), and he completes them with the German infinitive *haben*, but he does not give any examples of usage. Besides *lenni*, Babos also gives *birni* (spelt *bírni* in some dictionaries, being the only correct form today), a polysemic verb that can mean 'to possess', but without examples it is difficult to interpret this equivalent. In Thibaut's dictionary, we find three Hungarian equivalents: *lenni*, *birni* and also *kapni* 'to get, to receive'. As there are no matching examples of usage, it must have been very difficult for the user of the dictionary to interpret the difference between these equivalents. Mártonffy also gives *bírni* and *lenni*, and he completes the latter in parentheses with the suffixes *-nak*, *-nek* indicating the dative, but – since he does not say more about it and he does not give any examples – it is not obvious which part of the expression should be put in the dative (and there are other constructions in Hungarian with *lenni* and the dative). Pokorny gives only *birni*, and he supplements it with a single example, namely with a formally rather complex "proverb", which does not really make the task of the dictionary user any easier: *Il n'est rien de tel que d'en avoir* 'There is nothing like having one'.

As for Carrier's French–Hungarian dictionary, the headword *avoir* as a verb appears twice, first as an "auxiliary verb", and secondly as a "transitive verb". When mentioned as an auxiliary, one would expect to learn about its usage in compound tenses, but Carrier's Hungarian equivalents and explanation refer to the meaning 'to have': *birni* 'to possess', *lenni (vkinek vmije)* 'to be (sg to/for sy = someone's something)'. The small explanatory note in parenthesis clearly suggests the meaning 'to have'. In this note, *vkinek* is a usual abbreviation used in dictionaries for *valakinek* (*vki* = *valaki* 'someone/somebody', here in the dative case with the suffix *-nek*, expressing the possessor), while *vmije* is an abbreviation for *valamije* (expressing the possessed, *vmi* = *valami* 'something', here with

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a possessive suffix *-je*, where the suffix stands for the 3rd person singular and refers to the possessor's person). In the second entry, where *avoir* is treated as a transitive verb, the Hungarian equivalents are as follows: *birni* 'to possess', *kapni* 'to get/receive', *megszerezni magának* 'to get/acquire/procure for oneself'. In this case, Carrier – just like the unknown authors behind the Hungarian edition of Thibaut's dictionary (see above) – might refer to the meaning of *avoir* occurring mostly when used in certain past (e.g. in *passé composé*) or future tenses. The problem is that it is only one of the several possible meanings/usages of the verb in question. Thanks to the small note in the first entry – making Carrier's entry the most informative one compared to the other existing French–Hungarian dictionaries of the time – Hungarians learning French (just like any users of the dictionary) could certainly understand that *avoir* can express possession, but it remained probably impossible for them to see clearly when it comes to other meanings. As for French users learning Hungarian, due to the lack of clear examples of usage, it still must have been a huge challenge to understand the possessive construction in Hungarian.

3.5.2 *devoir* 'to have to (do sg), to must (do sg)'

This French verb also can have several meanings, among which I would like to highlight its use with another verb in the infinitive to express a kind of obligation (debitive function): *quelqu'un doit faire quelque chose* 'someone has to / must do something'. In the Hungarian language, there is no corresponding verb that could be conjugated according to the agent – that is, the person who must act, being identical with the subject of the French construction. With this meaning, it is the verb *kell* (literally 'to be necessary/needed') that is used in Hungarian, the subject of which is the infinitive (designating the activity to be performed), and the agent (as a kind of complement) is in the dative case. Also, the infinitive used in this construction is marked by a possessive suffix indicating the person of the agent – which results in a special personal form of the infinitive – see (3). If the agent (in the dative case) is not expressed by a separate noun, but a personal pronoun, it can be omitted when not in focus – the person of the agent being marked anyway on the infinitive – as shown in (4). If there is no agent and no possessive suffix on the infinitive, it means that the construction has a generic (non-specific) agent – see (5).

(3) Péter-nek vár-ni-a kell. (Hungarian)
Peter-DAT wait-INF-3SG.POSS is needed
'Peter has to wait.'

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(4) (Nekem) vár-n-om kell. (Hungarian)
(DAT.1SG) wait-INF-1SG.POSS is needed
'I have to wait.'

(5) Gyakran vár-ni kell. (Hungarian)
often wait-INF is needed
'One often has to wait.'

In Kiss's dictionary, there are only three simple Hungarian equivalents that are supposed to cover all the (main) meanings of *devoir*: *adós*, *kell* and *tartozik*. The first one is an adjective (also used as a noun) 'having a debt, indebted; debtor', the second one is a verb that is used in a completely different way syntactically (as already explained above, see examples 3–5), while the third one – also a verb – means 'to have a debt, to owe'. As a matter of fact, the third and last equivalent has a further meaning, 'to belong', and left without any example or explanation the dictionary user can only guess (supposing some semantic relation between the first and the third equivalent) that the relevant meaning in this case would be 'to have a debt, to owe'.

Babos gives the following equivalents, without examples of usage: *adósnak lenni* 'to be indebted', *tartozni* 'to have a debt, to owe', *köszönhetni* (a verb that is hardly comparable to French or English structures, literally 'to be able to say thanks', used when someone – being the subject of the verb – thinks/considers that a thing is due to another thing, expressing thus a cause, cf. "thanks to" with the meaning 'due to'; the closest English expression is "to owe sy sg"), *kelleni* (the infinitive of *kell*), and *kötelesnek lenni* 'to be obliged'.

The five equivalents in Thibaut's dictionary are exactly the same as in Babos' work, and we cannot find any example of usage here either.

Mártonffy differentiates five meanings of *devoir*, among which the meaning that I have highlighted here is represented by the equivalent *kelleni*. Fortunately, the author gives two examples of usage, among which it is especially the first one that can be useful with its Hungarian translation: *il doit parti* [sic], in Hungarian *el kell utaznia* 'he has to / must leave'. Unfortunately, the erroneous form of the infinitive *partir* can mislead the Hungarian user of the dictionary, because the form "*parti*" exists as a past participle. The second example is less useful, since it includes a negation that can change the semantics of the verb depending on the context: *vous ne devez pas rester* 'you don't need to stay', translated into Hungarian by Mártonffy as *nem szabad maradnia* 'you (formal) must not stay'. This translation suggests another meaning of *devoir*, synonym of 'you cannot / should not stay'.

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In Pokorny's dictionary, we can find two equivalents for the meaning in question: *kell* (curiously, the author gives the conjugated form of the verb, while elsewhere he gives the infinitive of Hungarian verbs) and *köteles* (an adjective meaning 'obliged'). Pokorny's examples of usage are rather complicated and less useful: *Les choses devaient se venir là*; *Dussais-je y périr*; *Fais ce que dois, advienne que pourra* (proverb); *Vas où tu peux, mourir ou* [sic] *tu dois* (proverb). The English translations are the following: 'Things had to end this way'; 'Even if I had to perish there'; 'Do what you have to, whatever may come/happen'; 'Go where you can, die where you have to'.

In Carrier's dictionary, there are two simple Hungarian equivalents: *tartozni* 'to have a debt, to owe' and *köszönhetni* (approximately 'to owe' – see the explanation above among Babos' equivalents) with the remark "fig." (= *figuratif* 'figurative'). These equivalents are followed then by four examples of usage: *il me doit son bonheur* 'he owes me his happiness'; *il doit être riche* 'he must be rich'; *il doit faire froid* 'it must be cold'; *il doit partir* 'he must leave'. As we can see, there is no example for the meaning covered by the first equivalent. The first example is related to the second equivalent. The second and the third examples represent the same semantics of *devoir*, as they both express probability. Finally, the fourth example shows the debitive meaning. The Hungarian translation of this fourth example is *el kell utaznia*, thus both the French example and the Hungarian translation is the same as in Mártonffy's entry – with the difference that there is no typo in Carrier's.

As we can see, only Mártonffy and Carrier provide examples of usage for the debitive meaning of *devoir*, which clearly makes their entries a much better help for the dictionary users. The learners can get a grasp on the structural differences, and they can see how phrases including the French headword and those including the adequate Hungarian equivalent work.

3.5.3 *pouvoir* 'can, to be able'

In French, differentiation is usually made between *pouvoir* (*faire quelque chose*) 'can/to be able to (do something)' and *savoir* (*faire quelque chose*) 'to know (how to do something) – whether someone can do something either because circumstances make it possible (*pouvoir*), or because of their knowledge/skills (*savoir*). In Hungarian, such distinction is usually not made, both French verbs can be translated by the same Hungarian verb: *tud*. One will therefore need some complementary information in Hungarian to be able to tell the difference. The sentences *je ne peux pas nager* 'I can't swim' and *je ne sais pas nager* 'I don't know

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how to swim' can therefore be translated into Hungarian by the same sentence – see (6).

(6) Nem tud-ok úsz-ni. (Hungarian)
NEG can-1SG.PRES swim-INF
'I can't swim.' or 'I don't know how to swim.'

However, depending on the nature of the circumstances, *pouvoir* can be expressed in different ways in Hungarian. The verb *tud* represents one of the possibilities. The other possibility is to use a potential suffix – a form that is not considered by Hungarian grammars as a separate verb mood. (The verb *pouvoir* can be translated into Hungarian in several ways, here I only mention the most frequent constructions for the meaning 'to have the possibility to do sg'.) This potential is used in Hungarian mainly to express that the act (indicated by the infinitive following the verb *pouvoir* in French) is permitted, but it can also refer to other circumstances, such as "to have the possibility" in general – see the sentences in (7) and (8).

(7) Nem utaz-hat-nak Párizs-ba. (Hungarian)
NEG travel-POT-3PL Paris-ILL
'They can't travel to Paris.' or 'They are not allowed to travel to Paris.'

(8) Nem tud-nak Párizs-ba utaz-ni. (Hungarian)
NEG can-3PL Paris-ILL travel-INF
'They can't travel to Paris.'

In Kiss' dictionary, there is only one Hungarian equivalent: *lehet*. Originally, this Hungarian word is the verb *van* 'to be' (*lenni* in the infinitive) in the potential (present tense, 3rd person singular). This form therefore means 'can be', and, indeed, it is also one of the possible equivalents of the French *peut-être* 'maybe'. It should also be noted that *lehet* has a third type of usage: it can be used with other verbs in the infinitive, and the meaning will be 'it is possible to…', e.g. *lehet menni* 'one can go / it is possible to go'. It is therefore difficult to interpret this Hungarian equivalent without any examples of usage.

Babos gives the following equivalents: *…hatni*, *…hetni*, *tehetni*, *megtehetni*, *birni* and *birhatni*. The first two represent the variants of the potential suffix with the infinitive ending, the three dots indicating the place of any verb. The third and the fourth are, on the other hand, concrete verbs (the fourth one being the same as the third one, completed with a verbal prefix *meg-* expressing mostly perfective aspect) in the potential form, meaning 'to be able to do' or 'to be

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allowed to do' – see the problematic ambiguity shown by (7). The fifth one is the same polysemic verb that already has been mentioned in connection with the French verb *avoir*: the verb *birni* means either 'to possess' or 'to be able to… / to have the strength to…' – being only two of the possible translations. It is very difficult to interpret it without examples of usage. Finally, the sixth equivalent is the same as the previous one, but in the potential – resulting in a tautological form. As for the examples of usage, Babos gives two. The first one is *cela se peut* which includes the reflexive variant *se pouvoir* (not mentioned separately elsewhere in the dictionary) in a conjugated form, meaning 'it can be / it is possible', and this example is followed by the Hungarian translation *ez lehetséges* 'it is possible'. The other one is *il n'en peut mais*, an old idiomatic expression not in use anymore, which used to have two meanings: 'it is not his fault' or 'he cannot take it anymore'. The Hungarian translation *nem tehet róla* has the first meaning. As we can see, there are no examples provided to illustrate the usage of *pouvoir* with another verb.

In Thibaut's entry we find exactly the same equivalents and examples of usage as in Babos'.

Mártonffy's equivalents are fewer and less understandable. He gives *hatni…*, *hetni…* – one might wonder why the three dots follow the suffixes. Then he continues with an example: *pouvoir marcher* 'can walk' with the equivalent *mehetni* (the potential "mood" form of the infinitive *menni*) – a simple, error-free and quite effective example. His next example, however, is based on the pronominal (impersonal) form *se pouvoir*, which is very curious, given that he treats this meaning separately in the entry with other similar examples. Later in the entry, he also gives the equivalents *tehetni* 'to be able to do' and *birni* (see above).

Pokorny provides the following equivalents: *hatni*, *hetni*, *birni* and *tehetni*. The last two have already been presented above. As for the first two, they appear as if they were independent infinitives, but they are only suffixes – as I explained earlier in relation to Babos' equivalents. The examples of usage – as is often the case with Pokorny – are too complicated and ineffective: *On ne peut être plus mal servi* 'One could not be worse served'; *Je ne puis qu'y faire* 'I can't do anything about it'.

Carrier's Hungarian equivalents are as follows: *hatni*, *hetni*, *tehetni*, *birni*, *lehetőnek lenni*, *képesnek lenni*. The first two are suffixes, but they appear in the entry as if they were independent verbs – just like in Pokorny's entry. The third one – appearing in other dictionaries as well – can be effective to reflect the semantic content, but it hardly can depict the possibility of using *pouvoir* with another verb in the infinitive form, as *tehetni* cannot be used with another verb. The fourth is also a well-known one, the problem of which has already been

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described. The last two equivalents appear only in Carrier's entry; *lehetőnek lenni* means 'to be possible', while *képesnek lenni* stands for 'to be able'. The latter Hungarian expression can actually be combined with another verb in the infinitive, which eventually can be helpful for the Hungarian learner using Carrier's dictionary, but not so much for a French user, due to the lack of further information precising the difference between the Hungarian equivalents. In Carrier's entry, there are two examples of usage. The first one is *il se peut*, which is similar to the one in Babos's entry (*cela se peut*). Their meaning is the same, but they are not used in the same way, as *il se peut* is usually followed by a clause (introduced by the conjunction *que*): *il se peut que…* 'it is possible that…'. Carrier provides two translations for this expression: *meglehet* and *lehetséges* – both have the same meaning 'it is possible', and both can be used on their own or even supplemented with a clause. The other example of usage is *je n'en peux plus* 'I cannot take it anymore', with the Hungarian translation *nem birom ki tovább*, having the same meaning, and it is based on the idiomatic expression *n'en pouvoir plus*. Curiously, none of Carrier's examples depict the usage of the basic meanings of *pouvoir*, they rather show idiomatic expressions that include the French verb in question.

As we can see, Carrier's equivalents and examples often turn out to be more helpful than those in the other works of the 19th century – at least for Hungarian users. Based on this constatation, Carrier's dictionary must have been a good choice as a learning tool for average Hungarian beginners trying to master important features of the French language.

4 Conclusion

Summarizing the constatations about Carrier's dictionaries described in the present study, it can be stated that these works – especially the French–Hungarian part – must have been practical language learning tools for Hungarian users, but less useful for those who wished to learn Hungarian via French.

Entries in the author's French–Hungarian dictionary contain a certain amount of examples of usage illustrating the different sense categories and possible uses of the treated French headwords, but no examples are included in the Hungarian–French part. As for the quantity of the examples of usage, it has been shown by means of a comparative analysis that Carrier's French–Hungarian dictionary was among the medium rich French–Hungarian dictionaries of the time, only the two largest dictionaries (having the highest number of entries) offered significantly more examples.

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When it comes to the number of entries, both of Carrier's dictionaries include more entries than Kiss' (1844), Karády's (1848) or Könnye's (1891) works. Mártonffy's (1879) and Pokorny's (1880–1881) dictionaries are much larger with more entries and examples, but Carrier's explanations are clearer and more accurate in certain entries. In his French–Hungarian dictionary, Carrier included even some entries that cannot be found in other French–Hungarian dictionaries of the 19th century.

Although Carrier's works were smaller than Pokorny's with less and shorter entries and a simpler microstructure, Carrier's dictionaries were easier to handle and to use for an average user and language learner, i.e. not a linguist. Pokorny's French–Hungarian dictionary had three volumes, and the structuring of certain longer entries was extremely complex and highly confusing – not mentioning the numerous mistakes of categorizing the different meanings and uses of the concerned headwords, and the occasionally poorly chosen equivalents.

Carrier's French–Hungarian dictionary had approximatively 25,000 entries (which is more than in several "pocket dictionaries") including a for its size unusually high number of technical terms related to anatomy, botany, zoology, geography or mathematics – an important feature for pupils and students of the time.

One can wonder what the possible sources for Carrier's works could have been. After having analysed about 7000 entries in Carrier's French–Hungarian so far, I have found that equivalents in some cases are the same as in Pokorny's work, while in some other cases (although less often) they are like those in Mártonffy's, and sporadically like in Babos' dictionary. Interestingly, eventual mistakes and errors happen to be repeated in Carrier's works. In some entries, Carrier indicates only one or two equivalents among several ones included in Pokorny's dictionary, but Carrier's restrictive choice does not always seem to be well-picked. Of course, in numerous cases, Carrier's equivalents and explanations are formulated independently from other works, i.e. they are different, and they can even be more accurate than those of other works.

All in all, Carrier's dictionaries, including a sufficient quantity of entries and a well-selected nomenclature, with their mostly precise equivalents, could be practical and useful learning tools for most Hungarian users – even though the pronunciation of the French headwords is unfortunately missing.

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Chapter 5

Learning the language of medicine and wellbeing with Honnor Violet Morten's *Nurse's Dictionary of Medical Treatment and Nursing Terms* (1891)

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Although historical accounts of (English) lexicography tend to present it as a predominantly male preserve which eclipses women's contribution to the field, scholars have amply demonstrated the importance of women's various roles within dictionary-making throughout the centuries. When considering the specific case of medical dictionaries, however, women's endeavours have generally been neglected in academic studies; nevertheless, the practice of feminist historiography may help recover previously underrated or hidden works by exposing deficiencies made from "the top" and by decentring the male subject. This paper proposes a contribution that considers the specific case study of Violet Honnor Morten's *Nurse's Dictionary of Medical Terms and Nursing Treatment* (1891), which brought together typically feminised and masculinised domains of knowledge (household management and medicine). By also considering the gendered status of the compiler and the intended audience (including nurses, but possibly wives and mothers as well), this contribution looks at how this tool was employed to learn medical terms and, thus, how it could be considered a linguistic reference as well. Results shed light on the educational nature of this dictionary by focusing on the strategies adopted by Morten to guide her readership in learning the language of medicine, for example by using a combination of popularising techniques (reformulation, similes, synonymy, etc.), technical terminology (with explanations and definitions), and metalinguistic comments on the use of foreign words, word formation, and pronunciation. Consequently, the importance of the socially-empowering factor is not to be underestimated, as such a language reference work is situated in a historical context where women's (and nurses') education was still highly debated and contested: indeed, the dictionary offered both the chance to master the language of

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medicine and, at the same time, to disseminate medical knowledge well beyond the confines imposed by Victorian gender ideologies.

medical lexicography; **medical terminology**; **language learning**; **gender**; **knowledge dissemination**

1 Introduction

In the history of (English) lexicography, women have been traditionally seen as *receivers*, rather than *producers*, of dictionaries: think, for example, of Cawdrey's 1604 edition of the *Table Alphabeticall*, that targeted "unskillfull persons" (including "Ladies and Gentlewomen, and other vnskillful persons"), of Bullokar's *English Expositor* of 1616, which he hoped would be "admitted among greatest Ladies and Gentlewomen", or Cockeram's 1623 *English Dictionarie*, aimed once again primarily at "Ladies and Gentlewomen". This insistence on women's linguistic education was based on somewhat contradictory ideas: on the one hand, the creation of such dictionaries aimed at making the learned languages accessible to those who, like women, had no learning, and therefore presented a series of educational poverties (Shapiro 2018);[1] on the other, women's interest in words was often cited as a form of evidence for their frivolity, or, better, their "chamber maids tittle-tattle", as labelled by Florio (cited in Brown 1996: 359). Naturally, educated "Ladies and Gentlewomen" did possess literacy and financial means for books, including dictionaries. However, due to their gender, they were excluded from university education, which meant they did not study Latin and Greek, the foundations of medical terminology. This situation persisted for centuries, as this type of study was deemed unsuitable for girls, who were instead expected to concentrate on modern languages (Barker & Chalus 2014).

The exclusion of women from formal, university-based medical training did not translate to an absence of medical activity; rather; it channelled their practice into the domestic and vernacular spheres. Historically, the primary responsibility for the health and wellbeing of the household fell to the mistresses of the house: this necessity fostered a distinct tradition of practical, experience-based healing. The evidence for this is largely found in the genre of medical recipes or household remedy book, meticulously compiled by women (in vernacular) and focused on immediate, therapeutic outcomes. As Taavitsainen's research highlights (2001

[1]As Brown (1996: 356) states, "the woman reader might have stood synecdochally for the particular kind of ignorance which made dictionaries of 'hard words' necessary in the first place".

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and 2022), , the home remained the central place of medical care well into the Early Modern period, and women's role in domestic management inextricably linked them to health management, including general medicine, injury care, and, critically, reproductive medicine and midwifery.

While this is a general consideration that encompasses English lexicography as a whole, it is even more valid when we consider publications devoted to the specific (and man-made) domain of medicine. In the 1800s (the era covered in this paper), medicine became more and more professionalised and portrayed as masculine, "an uncompromising search for truth and certainty rather than a project of feminine comfort or care" (Wells 2012: 10).[2] However, the work of medicine also included reading and writing, and women were certainly against being excluded from this, although their contributions are still generally unacknowledged due to the subordinate status of their intellectual activities (Percy 2020: 279). For example, women with an interest in medicine wrote, first and foremost, a thesis, but their written production could also go on to include case histories, faculty minutes, public lectures, commencement speeches, scientific papers, memoirs, and testimonies to investigative bodies: thus, in Wells' words (2012: 5), "their writing can historicize and complicate our understanding of the relations among women and science, gender and knowledge".

The portrayal of medicine as typically masculine was displayed in language too, as the term 'man of science' (usually preferred to 'scientist' at the time; Mussell 2009: 1) exemplifies: "although inclusive in terms of social position", as it was identified with the discipline, "it was a term that explicitly offered masculinity as a prerequisite for the disinterested pursuit of knowledge" (ibid.). Moreover, as Barton (2003: 90) writes,

As labels, "men of science" and "scientific men" paralleled "men of letters" and "medical men", but the associated rhetoric seems richer in its implied values. Religious, military, imperial, and anti-aristocratic ideals were appealed to when men of science described themselves as patient workers, fearless explorers, conquerors of the unknown, disciplined soldiers, and single-minded searchers after truth.

The use of a typically masculine language to express such research, which was shown as "a noble struggle between the masculine ego and a mysterious feminine nature" (Mussell 2009: 1) further hindered women's attempts "to acquire the necessary resources to present themselves as credible witnesses in scientific

[2]Indeed, medicine has been already revealed as a gendered science by the first wave of feminist scholarship, which dismantled the claims of objectivity and showed how it "constructed gender and how the masculine bias of the profession compromised both its ability to treat women patients and its claim to impartiality" (Wells 2012: 10).

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practice" (Mussell 2009: 18). On this note, Frances Power Cobbe (an Irish social reformer writing in the late nineteenth century) scorned the double-edged medical oppression of women, who were prevented from officially joining the ranks and earning professional wages and, at the same time, encouraged to retain their weakness and subordination as patients (Brock 2018: 230).

Recently, scholarly emphasis on women's scientific and medical writings both from the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries has continued in the feminist historiographical effort to recover previously neglected works. In particular, linguistic studies have already highlighted the importance of women's contribution in eighteenth- and nineteenth-century scientific writing[3], the specific case of medical writing (Wells 2012), their role in the transmission of scientific knowledge (Agorni 2016), and their focus on agency and authority in midwifery manuals (Guzzetti 2024), to cite just a few of these insights. However, the genre of lexicography, and of medical dictionaries in particular, seems to have been generally neglected in such works of archival recovery:[4] for this reason, this paper offers to provide a specific focus on women's nineteenth-century medical lexicography and to delve deeper into the linguistic strategies used to promote the acquisition of technical terminology. In her outstanding work on women's interventions in the history of English lexicography, Russell (2018) has identified three dictionaries of medicine published in the latter part of the 1800s: this contribution particularly deals with Honnor Violet Morten's *Nurse's Dictionary of Medical Terms and Nursing Treatment* (1891).[5]

As the title suggests, this reference work was aimed specifically at nurses (and written by a nurse too), who lived through significant changes in the latter part of the nineteenth century. Indeed, reforms concerning nurses' education were promulgated throughout the whole of the century, and from the 1860s Florence Nightingale further empowered these figures towards professionalisation and public acknowledgement (Gamarnikow 2013). Nursing was seen as "the cultural expression of the female world" (Abrams 2014: 3), as the stress between femininity, nursing, and caring was continually put forward (Madsen 2003: 39 and Brock 2018: 237). While this certainly highlighted feminine qualities and proved to be a way for women to express their own authority and expertise on a subject where the disjunction between science and the domestic sphere was liminal, this

[3]See Moskowich's (2013) and Crespo's (2015) analyses of the *Coruña Corpus of English Scientific Writing*.

[4]For instance, historical studies made by Ambrose (2005), McConchie (2019), and Gordiyenko (2020) on medical lexicography fail to include women's contributions in it.

[5]The other titles include Jessie Anne Fowler's *Phrenological Dictionary* (1894) and Emily Marjory Armstrong Stoney's *Practical Materia Medica for Nurses* (1899).

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had negative social repercussions as well (see Davidoff 2003 and Karusseit 2007). For example, the stereotypical divisions of labour were prominent in hospitals too, and the focus on what were thought of as women's ingrained qualities actually meant that their work was doubly gendered as it was confined to 'feminine' tasks and, simultaneously, it was subordinated to that of men (Digby 1992: 205). Additionally, we should remember how nurses were represented in novels and newspapers "in a typical Victorian dichotomy, as either ministering angels or gin-sozzled hags" (Hawkins 2010: 126): thus, while on the one hand they began to see some public acknowledgement of their work, ideologies and stereotypes still made people wary of being nursed by women.[6] For this reason, choosing to focus here on scientific publication written by a nurse for the sake of nurses' education offers the chance to recover a previously disregarded work that contributes to historical reconstructions of women's roles both in the medical fields and as disseminators of a specific kind of knowledge from which they were usually barred, at least officially.

2 Materials

Considering the history of lexicography (and, even more so, of *medical* lexicography) does not simply mean studying the history of a series of texts, but, rather, as Considine (2010: xi) states, of "human activity" as a whole: an all-encompassing activity that involves "assembling, ordering, systematising, and disseminating medical information" (*ibid.*) which is usually found in other forms, be they popular handbooks, compendiums, or recipe-books. After all, lexicography is, according to McArthur (1998: 150), "our first and for an enormous length of time our only container of knowledge". These 'storages' of medical knowledge obviously need to be inserted within the history of (English) lexicography more broadly speaking and, although McConchie asserts that lexicographers are rarely seen as harbingers of change (McConchie 2019: 5), the specific role of women within this field is certainly noteworthy and provides scholars with insightful materials to be assessed against more general medical debates infused with gender ideologies.

In the late eighteenth century and up until the first half of the nineteenth century at least, medical and scientific knowledge for and by women used to be

[6]This paper cannot thoroughly deal with the history of nursing; still, for more information on it, see, for example, Nelson & Sabin (2003), Nolte (2008), Wells (2012), Gamarnikow (2013), and Langtree (2022).

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communicated via the 'familiar format', which Brock (2018: 231) defines as being 'safe' in terms of respectability, which later became a key tenet of Victorian gendered ideas. However, women started arguing for a wider sphere where they could exploit their gender to gain "a special understanding of some neglected (and usually undervalued) aspect of medicine, such as hygiene, public health, or prevention" (Wells 2012: 5). This involved taking into account matters of production and (uneven) distribution, as not all readers had the expertise to interpret scientific documents, while at the same time medicine-writers were certainly aware that they needed to present their findings for particular audiences, "whether this meant publishing in the specialist journals of learned societies, in the high-brow periodicals that published science alongside other contents, or as news in the newspaper press" (Mussell 2009: 3), or, why not, in reference works such as medical dictionaries.[7]

In the specific case of nursing, Langtree (2022: 584) identifies more than twenty books describing this practice written between the mid-eighteenth and the mid-nineteenth centuries in countries such as Spain, Germany, France, England, Canada, and the United States: most of these books provide advice on recruitment and detailed instructions about their professions, though, admittedly, none of these were medical dictionaries. Her work is still fundamental in that it discloses the three contexts where nursing work took place during the nineteenth century, that is, vocational (paid) nursing, religious nursing practised by nuns, and informal nursing that aligned with societal norms, by which women were practically obliged to take care of their sick relatives (Langtree 2022: 585). On the other hand, as already mentioned, Russell *does* identify medical lexicography as a genre attributed to women dictionary-makers, albeit in very small numbers considering the overall 150 projects which she takes into consideration (see Russell 2018: 76–100).

This chapter focuses on the medical (or nursing) dictionary compiled by Honnor Violet Morten in 1891: its thorough analysis as a tool to learn specific terminology and disseminate medical ideas has been generally overlooked. Apart from being a nurse and a midwife,[8] Morten was also a journalist and an active cam-

[7]Within this publishing context and print culture, it is essential to remember that it was often professionalisation that excluded women from scientific practice: "whereas the older, amateur science, it is argued, permitted both men and women to contribute to science at all levels (although, of course, subject to certain social barriers), the new, laboratory-based professional science routinely excluded women from become professional scientists by denying them access […]" (Mussell 2009: 4).

[8]At the time, the boundaries of these two activities were actually rather blurred, as nursing also often included midwifery (Madsen 2003: 43).

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paigner in the Women's Suffrage Movement. Her publications[9] remained core texts for nurses for at least a century, as *The Nurse's Dictionary*, in particular, was continuously published until its 30th edition in 1992. This language reference work should be included among those dictionaries that, as Russell (2018: 109–112) explains documented specialised subject fields which were commonly described as masculinised professions.[10] In such publications, authorial gender may sometimes appear in the front matter as a pseudonym that hides identity, such as *By a Lady* or *By a Banker's Daughter*, but Morten's dictionary is clearly signed with her own name, along with a list of other books and her diplomas and professional certifications which attest to her own authority, knowledge and expertise in treating medical matters.

The title of the work is interesting in itself, as McConchie (2019: 17–18) recalls how earlier examples of medical lexicography (compiled by men) used such adjectives as *medicinal* or *medical* (as in James' *Medicinal Dictionary* or Motherby's *New Medical Dictionary*), with the former retaining "its sense of 'having healing properties' for centuries". Morten's title presents her dictionary by repeatedly reporting the word *nurse* (*The Nurse's Dictionary of Medical Terms and Nursing Treatment, Compiled for the Use of Nurses*, hence *ND*), thus certainly highlighting these medical workers' attempt to counter the common gender ideologies of the time already reported, while at the same time specifying its intended readership. However, on this note, it is also important to remember that we cannot possibly determine *who* actually made use of these types of dictionaries, as "the user was as likely to be the patient as the practitioner" (McConchie 2019: 18), and, in the case of Morten's publication in particular, the audience might include lay women as well, as the relationship between nursing and caring for the family was a close one (Madsen 2003: 40).

The front matter specifies that the *ND* contains "descriptions of the principal medical and nursing terms and abbreviations, instruments, drugs, diseases, accidents, treatments, physiological names, operations, foods, appliances, etc., etc., encountered in the ward or sick-room", thus the focus on linguistic matters (apart from the obvious dissemination of medical knowledge) is made clear by referring to *terms*, *abbreviations*, and *names* belonging to the medical semantic domain which needed to be defined, further explained and contextualised so that

[9] Morten also published *The Midwives' Pocket Book* in 1897, which also contained a glossary of medical terms specifically referring to midwifery.

[10] Other such examples included Mathilde Méliot's *Explanatory Dictionary of Terms and Phrases Relating to Finance* (1896), Louisa Caroline Huggins Tuthill's *History of Architecture*, which included a glossary (1848), and Margaret Bryan's *Lectures on Natural Philosophy* (1806), which again contained a "vocabulary of terms" (Russell 2018: 111–12).

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nurses might be helped in their job and in their (always somewhat subordinate, as stated by Gamarnikow 2013: 114) relationship with doctors. More precisely, the Preface states that "nurses are warned that this volume is merely meant to be used at the bedside for temporary reference, until there is time to look up fuller works on the different subjects" (p. 5) and that, among other things, "help is given towards pronunciation, with new medical terms constantly being coined", thus reinforcing the utility of this dictionary as an aid for language learning and, at the same time, for women's social empowerment.

Therefore, given the attention devoted to linguistic matters, the following analysis focuses on shedding light on the techniques used to promote the acquisition of medical terminology, as more fully explained in the next section.

3 Learning new words: methodology and results

According to McConchie (2019: 1), medical terminology has always constituted an area of variance "as competing languages, theories, and practices came and went, and the medical lexicon continued to expand". The need to assemble and categorise information of any kind (not just medical) in a logical, coherent and accessible manner is to be traced back at least to the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, when "contemporaries favoured works in alphabetical order designed for rapid reference, rather than didactic works arranged thematically" (Headrick 2000: 172). In order to handle this exponential growth of knowledge and to distinguish "the good and the useful from the worthless and spurious" (McConchie 2019: 2), dictionary compilers adopted a series of strategies to present specialised vocabulary and help learners acquire it successfully: the concrete facts of science and medicine had to be rendered through language "into written texts that everybody [could] take advantage of" (Lonati 2014: 89).

In the present context, Morten's reference work was analysed by primarily taking into consideration that medical dictionaries are usually set apart mainly because of their encyclopaedic component, while the linguistic elements sometimes constitute mere glossaries or basic definitions (Lonati 2014: 92; McConchie 2019: 9). Consequently, the single entries were manually scanned by focussing only on definitional patterns that included specific reference to ways in which a given headword could be learnt and remembered by nurses, to be used while working in the wards alongside doctors: therefore, the lengthy encyclopaedic sections were not considered for the purposes of this study, although they certainly prove to be interesting as they contain indications about symptoms, remedies, and also suggestions for the nurse's correct conduct in dealing with patients.

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Later, these definitional patterns were grouped into categories that represent the different linguistic strategies used by Morten to help the acquisition of medical terminology, namely: (i) metalinguistic comments on technical terms of foreign origin (chiefly French or Latin) and their English equivalents, on word formation, and on pronunciation; (ii) the interplay of popular (sometimes even folkloristic, as defined by Niedzielski & Preston 2003) knowledge and specific technical vocabulary, along with their explanations and definitions; and (iii), the explicit use of reformulation as a key tool in language learning, with a special reference to the use of everyday language, similes and equivalents. Table 1 below reports the findings, which list the selected headwords categorised according to these groups. In the following subsections, a few of the listed words will be analysed.

It is evident from Table 1 that metalinguistic comments *do* prove to be scarce in *ND*, as in most medical dictionaries (as reported above); still, the analysis shows insightful findings into the strategies used to promote the learning of specialised terminology, and therefore these examples will be amply discussed in the sections below.

Another feature which is immediately evident by the sheer number of the listed headwords in Table 1 is the role of popular knowledge and of popularising techniques for the same aim: indeed, while the use of specific technical vocabulary (to be intended, here, as those professional words which are used in the entries to define and explain headwords) seems to be scarce, the recurrence to linguistic strategies that promote the dissemination of medical terminology provides plenty of examples. This might imply that presenting specialised information in an accessible way for nurses was the first and foremost way to promote medical literacy; at the same time, it might also testify to the initial hypothesis regarding the (intended) audience of the dictionary, which may have well expanded to comprise lay women caring for their sick at home, and for whom official medical education was still hindered by social norms and gender ideologies.

As Table 1 shows, these popularising techniques have been separated into two main subsections: the category "Popular knowledge" includes those headwords whose entry reports link to everyday practical needs and experiences and common beliefs which, according to Morten, could be useful in explaining medical terms and in helping nurses remember them. On the other hand, the category "Reformulation" has to do more strictly speaking with *linguistic* popularising techniques used as definitional patterns, and these include the use of "everyday" English (in contrast with specialised terminology), but also similes and equivalents which may be useful in the didactic aim of this dictionary. It is also interesting to

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Table 1: Main strategies to promote language acquisition and relative headwords found in *ND*

Strategy	Headwords
Metalinguistic comments	*blepharitis; bouillon; bruit; cephalgia; cynanche; F.M.; inter; jus; malignant; malis; non compos mentis; pseudo; sigmoid; slough; specific.*
Technical terminology	*albuminuria; appendix vermiformis; arbor vitae; Barbadoes Leg; Basedow's Disease; Bellow's Sound; chicken-pox; condyloma; first intention; fontanel; fossa; labia majora; labia minora; navel.*
Popular knowledge	*albuminuria; amphoric resonance; aphtae; Barbadoes Leg; boil; chicken-pox; cholera infantum; chorea; cyanosis; formication; framboesia; gravel; haematuria; hamamelis; hernia; hyaline; hyaloid; hysterics; leucorrhoea; malingering; malleus; migraine; myxoedema; olivary bodies; pertussis; phlegmasia dolens; rubella; scabies; scarlatina; scorbutus; taenia; talipes; tetanus; tonsillitis; torticollis; tympanites; urticaria; varicella; variola; vernix caseosa; vitreous humour; xiphoid.*
Reformulation	*amyloid degeneration; apophysis; appendix vermiformis; arachnoid; arbor vitae; atheroma; Bellow's Sound; bile; calculus; caput succedaneum; carbuncle; caruncula; chloasma; chyle; chyluria; chyme; coccyx; condyloma; cornea; cotyloid; Cowpeper's Glands; cynanche; delirium; dementia; desquamation; dipsomania; emmia; epiglottis; eruption; erythroid; exostosis; exudation; falciform; Fallopian Tubes; foramen; fossa; fremitus; genitalia; genum valgum; gibbosity; globus hystericus; goitre; Graafian follicles; hair follicle; helcoid; herpes; hydroma; hyoid; hysterotomy; incus; inertia; infundibulum; jactitation; kerion; labia majora/minora; leucocytes; leucoma; liparous; liquor amnii; lympathics; malphigian bodies; meconium; medulla oblongata; menorrhagia; mucus; myxosarcoma; nates; navel; nebula; node; nodosity; odontoid; oleaginous; parenchyma; pelvis; pericardium; peristaitic; petechiae; physometra; prostate; purulent; retention; rodent ulcer; sacculated; saliva; sebaceous; sphenoid; spongiopiline; sterility; strabismus; tela; turgescence; unciform os; uterus; uvula; vermiform appendix*

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notice how, occasionally, certain headwords present a mix of two categories that are not apparently related, if not altogether contrasting: these terms in particular have been underlined in the Table, and the analysis that follows will highlight how sometimes the same entry would include both technical terminology and popular knowledge/reformulating techniques, thus demonstrating how Morten (and nurses, generally speaking) could master both the language of medicine and that of domesticity, to use it efficaciously to explain the most difficult words of her profession, and to compile a dictionary whose boundaries between medicine and family care became even more porous than was commonly thought. The results are detailed and discussed in the following sections.

3.1 Metalinguistic comments

The analysis of metalinguistic comments, which are generally proper to bilingual and monolingual dictionaries (but not necessarily, as anticipated, of *medical* dictionaries) reveals that Morten did not use this strategy for terminology learning consistently throughout *ND*, as the examples retrieved prove to be far less numerous than in other categories. However, the (limited) inclusion of such types of explanations might suggest that the dictionary compiler was certainly familiar with similar works of linguistic reference, and that a specific attention to language was indeed a fundamental part of nurses' education. As a matter of fact, learning to master the language of medicine and wellbeing certainly also meant being able to both work alongside doctors in hospital wards and, more personally, to advance one's medical knowledge through a form of instruction which was still often impeded.

In particular, attention to lexical morphology recurs more regularly than other cases: this is because most medical terminology includes word formation via prefixes, suffixes, and compounds which are repeatedly used, and this repetition is advantageous when helping nurses acquire and remember specific terms. For example, Morten focuses on explaining the meaning of prefixes when defining *blepharitis* ("Purulent ophthalmia. Terms commencing 'bleph' refer to the eyelids"); *inter* ("A Latin prefix meaning 'between', and used with many medical terms, such as *intercostal*, between the ribs; *intermittent fever*, in which there are regular pauses between the attacks"); and *pseudo* ("A prefix meaning false or spurious"). Moreover, the definition of *cephalgia* ("Pain in the head") considers *cephal-* as a prefix "used to compound many terms; thus, *cephalometer*, and instrument for measuring the head".

Of course, these prefixes mostly have classical origins, as is often the case in medical terminology. In other definitions, Morten further defines Latin terms by

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providing their exact equivalents in English, as in *jus* ("A Latin term for broth; thus, *jus bovinum* is beef-tea), *cynanche* ("Sore throat, or quinsy. *Cynanche laryngea*, croup, *cynanche maligna*, putrid sore throat; *cynanche parotidean*, mumps), and *non compos mentis* ("Not sound of mind"). The same strategy is often applied for terms coming from French (and thus, again, of Latin origins): *bouillon* is defined as "French term for broth", and *bruit* as "The French for 'sound', used with regard to the sounds heard in auscultation. *Bruit de craquement*, crackling; *de Diable*, humming; *de frottement*, friction; *de potsele*, cracked-pot; *de rape*, rasping; *de soufflet*, bellows sound". In these cases, the use of phrases such as "A/ the Latin/French term for…" and "The French for…" to start the definitions of the single headwords reminds us more of traditional bilingual dictionaries, or even of simple glossaries which were often included at the end of medical treatises, especially those of a didactic nature.

Other specific linguistic references are included in the definitions of *malignant* ("An *adjective* applied to very virulent and dangerous forms of diseases, which run a more rapid course than the milder forms"); *malis* ("A *term* signifying the presence of parasitic animals on or in the skin; thus *malis acari*, a tick-bite); and *sigmoid* ("*Like the Greek letter s*, applied especially to a bend of the colon before the rectum"). Moreover, the entry for *specific* provides details on the different meanings this apparently common word may have in medical terminology: "Applied to medicine, it means infallible; applied to a disease, it means of special character".

Though undoubtedly scarce, the entries referring expressly to linguistic matters as strategies to promote language learning also testify to the much broader cultural background that any nurse (not just Morten) implicitly had, that is, one that included also metalinguistic knowledge about word formation, foreign languages, and notions of pragmatic meanings in context. While this type of information might seem to be secondary to the medical (and more practical) one for the very nature of the nurses' profession, acquiring medical terminology by focusing on language itself certainly helped empower them and highlight the importance of a more formal education as well.

3.2 Technical terminology and popular knowledge

This section specifically deals with connections of technical and popular knowledge found in the definitions of *ND*, and, even more accurately, with the importance these had as strategies for acquiring medical terminology. To be more precise, in this case, technical terms are analysed based on how they were used in the single entries to explain headwords. In the same way, the analysis of the

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recurrence to popular (or, sometimes, folkloristic) knowledge highlights how a nurse's expertise had to include both professional and day-to-day know-how.

Of the headwords listed in the category "Technical terminology" in Table 1, only six can be said to have been worded and directed towards a highly skilled audience, as extremely difficult medical terms abound here. Starting with *first intention*, we find that this entry is the only one to resemble the typical layout of a medical dictionary, that is, headword + technical definition: "a *surgical term* for healing of a wound by bringing the edges directly together, so that they unite without the necessity of new *granulations* to fill in spaces". The collocation *surgical term* already anticipate that what is being defined is a highly technical word for a surgical practice, thus something that would not be commonly done within the household but, rather, a technique with which only nurses working in hospitals had to be familiar. Although the word *granulation* is not readily comprehensible to the average dictionary user, it is neither explained nor contextualised by Mortn, which may suggests that she considered it to be needs to be a form of implicit knowledge every nurse had to already have, without needing to seek additional clarifications about it.[11]

In two other cases, definitions are clearly edited with medical practitioners in mind. Indeed, *Basedow's Disease* is straightforwardly defined as "exophthalmic goitre": thus, the more popular name with which the disease used to be known is actually defined with its extremely technical counterpart, which implicitly suggests that nurses had better acquire the latter to work alongside doctors in hospitals. Interestingly, the adjective *exophthalmic* (referring to a protrusion of the eyeball) is not broken down with metalinguistic comments about prefixes or etymologies, as happened with the examples described in Section 3.1. The other entry with similar characteristics is *fontanel*, which is defined as "a soft space in the skull of an infant before the skull has completely ossified. The anterior fontanel, or *bregma*, and *sagittal sutures* meet. The posterior fontanel is where the *lambdoid* and sagittal sutures meet". Again, the plain English *fontanel*, with which mother would potentially be familiar, is 'translated' into technical terms (*bregma*), and the definition includes other medical terminology, such as *sagittal sutures* and *lambdoid*, which once more implies a deeper professional knowledge that is taken for granted here.

Moreover, there are also three entries where technical terminology is intermixed with popularising techniques (which are further discussed in Section 3.3

[11]Indeed, as reported in the *Oxford English Dictionary* (*OED*), *granulation* does have multiple meanings, ranging from the domains of botany and zoology to astrology. In this case, quite obviously, the correct meaning would be the one from pathology (2.a): "The formation of grain-like prominences on sores when healing; the development of granules in diseased structures".

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with the case of reformulation). Indeed, *arbor vitae* is a Latin term defined as "*tree-like* appearance of the *cerebellum* and *cervix uteri*" (thus, here the Latin is simply translated in plain English, but recourse is still made to technical anatomical terms); *condyloma* is explained as "*wart-like syphilitic* growths about the *anus* or *pudendum*" (here, the synonym is used just to indicate the shape of the growth in question, but then again technical terminology is preferred to denote anatomical parts);[12] and *fossa* is classified as "*little depressions* of the body, such as *fossa lacrymalis*, the hollow of the frontal bone, which holds the *lachrymal gland*" (again, the expression *little depression* is used to help nurses understand this term in a more practical way, but then the technical terminology is still present). As can be seen, this series of Latin or Latinate words, which point to highly skilled levels of medical knowledge, are then explained with other professional terminology, thus suggesting that familiarisation with specialist linguistic knowledge was of paramount importance for nurses.

On the other hand, we do find numerous technical headwords that are rendered in easier, more popular terms in the entries, and this usually happens either by providing a simple translation into everyday English, or by referring to practical experience which may help nurses both understand and remember the difficult terminology. For instance, *rubella* is briefly and quite simply labelled as "German measles": here, the name derives from the fact that German physicians first described it as a separate condition in 1814. Other such examples are *scabies*, defined as "the itch" because of the skin rashes caused by a parasitic insect; *taenia*, renamed as "the tape-worm" because of its flat shape that resembles a measuring tape; *tonsillitis*, simply defined with its more popular variant "quinsy"; *torticollis*, called "wry-neck", since this is the English equivalent of the Latin words *tortus* (i.e., twisted, wry) and *collum* (i.e., neck); and *varicella*, reported with the popular English name "chicken-pox", since the blisters it creates look like chickpeas. It is easy to see how all these headwords refer to common diseases (often especially associated with children) which were well-known even among the general public, so much so that they had (and still have) a more popular name to identify them. Thus, in terms of language acquisition, the use of this strategy suggests that by learning to associate popular names with their technical counterparts, it would be far easier for nurses as it provided a link between the language of the public and the language of doctors.

[12] Curiously, the word *pudendum* is not simply the Latin medical equivalent to refer to "the external genitals, esp. the vulva", but it is also used to refer figuratively to "the shameful parts of something" (as reported in both cases in the *OED*), thus underlying the implicit taboos surrounding (female) anatomy (see Braun & Kitzinger 2001 and Guzzetti 2023).

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In some cases, popular names are clearly introduced by specific expressions that signal their widespread recognition: thus, *framboesia* is an African disease "*commonly called* yaws"; *gravel* is "a *popular term* for stone in the bladder and other calculi"; *hysterics* is "a term *vulgarly applied* to screaming and crying fits in women, who cannot or will not control their emotions"; *leucorrhoea* is "a whitish discharge from the vagina, *commonly called* the 'whites'"; *migraine* is "headache, *usually known* as 'sick headache'"; and *phlegmasia dolens* is "*commonly called* white leg". Thus, phrases like *commonly called/a popular term for/vulgarly applied/usually known* hint that these diseases were fairly common among the lay population, and again this reference to popular knowledge might be extremely useful in learning and remembering technical terminology. Specifically, it is interesting to notice the case of *leucorrhoea*: its popular equivalent 'the whites' may actually suggest that this condition was very well-known among midwives even before the medicalisation of obstetrics and gynaecology and the inclusion of the more highly specialised term.

Sometimes, these popular names are accompanied by further explanations which derive from practical and everyday experiences, still in an attempt to combine the hands-on nature of the nurses' profession and the necessity to acquire a linguistic competence that could be as equal as possible to that of physicians. This means that definitions do not simply include the alternative name in plain English, but also references to symptoms and to practices the nurse had to employ to ensure the patient's recovery and wellbeing. Curiously enough, this happens when defining illnesses common among children in particular. For instance, the entry for *cholera infantum* explains that it is the "*summer diarrhoea of infants*; it requires immediate attention, or prostration soon comes on. Diet is of the utmost importance, also freedom from chills": thus, the Latin term of the disease is defined by appealing to everyday knowledge, that is, to the fact that it tended to mostly befall children during the summer months. Much in the same way, *chorea* is another Latin word defined as "*St Vitus' dance*, involuntary twitchings of the muscles; most common in children, who generally grow out of it. These cases must not be left alone, and every effort must be made to prevent children from hurting themselves […]": here, the condition is rendered in much plainer words by alluding to the so-called 'dancing mania', a social phenomenon that may have also had biological causes and which spread throughout Europe between the fourteenth and seventeenth centuries. Other similar examples include *pertussis*, "*whooping-cough*; a contagious spasmodic cough, common in childhood",[13] and *scarlatina*, "*scarlet fever*; an infectious fever accompanied by redness of the skin,

[13]So-called due to the "noisy, gasping intake of breath" (cfr. *OED* s.v. WHOOPING-COUGH).

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and most common in children [...]": thus, the fact that children's diseases appear to be described in plainer terms more frequently than others might be a reminder of nurses' doubly-gendered roles both as medical professionals and as mothers, or elder sisters who had to care for their young siblings also at home. Therefore, this meant that some kind of medical knowledge was acquired first and foremost within the household, and that it preceded the official medical one they had to obtain in order to become qualified specialists.

Finally, the categories "Technical terminology" and "Popular knowledge" in Table 1 present some underlined words: as already explained, these are headwords whose entries present a mixture of these strategies. We can find three specific cases of such examples: *albuminuria*, *Barbadoes Leg*, and *chicken-pox*. First, *albuminuria* is defined as "a disease of the kidneys, marked by the appearance of *albumin* (a substance *resembling white of egg*) in the urine [...]": so, in this case, we can see the introduction of the medical term *albumin* and its brief explanation in plain English which resorts once again to everyday practical experience (in order to recognise albumin, one might just think of the whites of eggs). Then, we have *Barbadoes Leg*, whose entry reads as "*elephantiasis*, *swelling and enlargement* of the leg": in this instance, the popular name, which arises from the fact that this condition is more incident in hot climates, is rendered with its technical complement (*elephantiasis*), which is then again transformed into everyday language by explaining that it can be recognised by seeing swellings and enlargements in the legs. Lastly, *chicken-pox* is defined as "*varicella*. Rash appears on the chest about the third day; the disease runs its course in a fortnight. Give light food and keep from cold; prevent the patient from scratching the pimples, or scars will be made. Infectious". Interestingly, this is the only case of cross-reference, as *varicella* is also found as a separate entry and, as we have seen, with the simple label "chicken-pox". While the technical term was simply explained with its everyday English equivalent, here the popular name is also accompanied by a lengthier definition which includes symptoms and cures. Such cases naturally strengthen the idea that in medical dictionaries on the whole, but specifically in those written *by* women *for* women, the boundaries of specialist and lay knowledge were actually much more blurred than in other scientific genres.

3.3 Reformulation

By looking at Table 1, it is evident that reformulation is the most popular strategy used to favour terminology learning, given the numerous examples included in this category. This popularising technique denotes not so much the reference to popular knowledge to explain difficult words and concepts (as we have seen in

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Section 3.2), but, rather, the recurrence to anglicised equivalents of a technical term (often given as a headword in its Latinate form) and to other common and everyday words used to define specialised lexical items in English (Lonati 2014: 94). In particular, a more detailed analysis of the examples provided in Table 1 seems to suggest that this strategy specifically comprised not only the employment of common English words, but also similes (in various forms) and adjectives that referred to the material quality of the item being described.[14]

Most entries simply involve a reformulation of difficult technical concepts and words in much plainer terms, hence again the hypothesis that the intended readership of *ND* might have included the lay (female?) dictionary-users along with nurses. Thus, *dementia* is solely defined as "*feebleness* of the mental faculties, *inconsequent ideas*. The last stage of insanity"; the *epiglottis* is explained as "cartilage which guard the entrance to the glottis or *windpipe*" (with *windpipe* being the popular equivalent of the headword in question); *gibbosity* becomes "protuberant; *hump-backed*"; *jactation* is "*tossing* of the body; *restlessness*"; *leucocytes* are "white *corpuscles* of the blood"; *menorrhagia* is the "*excessive flow* of the menses [...]"; *petechiae* are "*small red spots* on the skin"; and *rodent ulcer* is explained as "*a gnawing spreading ulcer eating away* the flesh". The frequent occurrence of the simple combination "Latinate headword + anglicised equivalent", which often appeals to direct and everyday knowledge, that is, to practical and hands-on experiences one might have within the household as well, reminds us of a typical bilingual dictionary (although, some entries in *ND* are expanded to include encyclopaedic content regarding a more detailed description of the disease and its cures).

As for similes, these are principally used to define and describe anatomical parts, rather than diseases. We do not find the classical structure that comprises an explicit comparison through words such as "like", "as", or "than", but, rather, adjectives are used to create such analogies and parallels. In other entries, the simile is expressed in a perhaps less direct way, and it mainly concerns the shape or quality of the organ, substance or outgrowth being defined. So, *infundibulum* is "a term applied to several *funnel-shaped* organs of the body" (that is, organs that are "shaped like a funnel"), and *unciform os* is "a hook-shaped bone of the wrist" (a bone that is shaped like a hook); at the same time, a *parenchyma* is a "spongy substance of an organ", just like *spongiopiline* means "a spongy material backed with water-proof, and very useful for fomentations" (that is, in both cases, material that feels like a sponge). Other headwords insist in this way, by

[14]Due to space constraints, not all headwords reported in Table 1 can be discussed here, and therefore this part of the analysis considers only the most salient instances.

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providing practical equivalents to the Latinate terms and by focusing on materials and colours: *apophysis* is "a bony protuberance" and *exostosis* is "a bony tumor growing from bone" (that is, "resembling a bone"); *caruncula* is "a small fleshy growth" (like flesh); *meconium* is "a black *sticky* substance voided from the bowels of an infant during the first day or two of its life" (like a viscid, glutinous material); *physometra* is a "gaseous enlargement of the uterus" (similar to gas); *bile* is defined as being "greenish, bitter, and viscid" (like the colour green); and *chloasma* is "a discoloration of the skin; fawn-coloured patches appearing in women, particularly during pregnancy" (like a mixture of light yellow and brown colours). In some cases, this correspondence is made more obvious and direct by constructing a hyphenated compound adjective with the suffix *-like*, which makes the expression more analogous to a classical simile. For instance, the *Fallopian Tubes* are defined as "two trumpet-like canals, about 3 inches long, passing from the womb to the ovaries": here, there is no reference to the etymology of the word, but the explanation is given by finding an easy correspondent which would make both learning the medical term and remembering the features of the tubes more straightforwardIn all the cases described in this paragraph, it seems as if the use of reformulation in all its variants (be they the employment of 'simple' English words or of similes) and in a way that combines again professional and practical knowledge is fundamental to ensure not only a clear explanation of key ideas, illnesses, and anatomical parts, but also to help nurses learn and remember difficult technical terminology too.

Lastly, we may notice in Table 1 that the underlined headwords in the category "Reformulation" appear in the "Technical terminology" section too: thus, just as in the case of popular knowledge, we find examples that present both techniques at the same time. Specifically, *appendix vermiformis* is a Latin word which presents both a simile and more technical terms in its definition, which reads as "a *worm-like* tube from one to five inches. A rudiment of the lengthened *caecum*; or, according to Darwin, a relic of the lower form of life from which we have sprung": here, the first part of the entries deals with explaining the shape of the tube (*like a worm*), while in the second part we find the term *caecum* (the first part of the large intestine) which is not further explained, and thus it is treated as already assumed. Much in the same way, *bellow's sound* is "a *puffing* sound of the heart heard on auscultation, called also the '*bruit de soufflet*'": in this case, the first part defines it as resembling a sort of panting sound (therefore drawing again from practical experience), while the second part offers an alternative name, which is, for the first time, not the popular substitute, but the technical (French) one. Similar examples are *labia majora/minora* defined respectively as "*two large folds* at the mouth of the *pudendum*, called also the *labia pudenda*" and

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as "*two smaller folds* within the major; called also *nymphae*": the popular sections of these entries have to do with very hands-on knowledge regarding the size of these anatomical parts (which is indeed what mainly differentiates them), while the more technical parts introduce specialised medical terminology (*pudendum*, *labia pudenda*, and *nymphae*) that further helps build professional expertise. Finally, the example of *navel* presents a headword in its anglicised form which is then defined by using the Latinate alternative: "the *umbilicus*, the point of connection of the cord […]". In this case, technical terminology is preferred to define the body part, though a reformulation in simpler terms is still provided.

4 Conclusion

The focus on Morten's *ND* as a tool for medical language learning has given us interesting insights into compiling practices employed in the generally neglected genre of women's scientific lexicography. What certainly can be considered as particularly noteworthy is the metalinguistic awareness presented throughout the dictionary (mainly concerning morphology or knowledge about foreign terminology, i.e., Latin and French), that clearly shows both Morten's educational background from the London Hospital and the nurses' need to handle specialised terminology correctly. Concurrently, the blending of technical terms, anecdotes from popular and practical experience, and of reformulation as a key popularising technique delineates the peculiar nature of medical lexicography produced *by* women *for* women. Indeed, this combination produces a bridging genre that connects the popular domestic manuals and periodicals which had developed during the eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, and the specialised dictionaries concerning the masculinised domain of medicine: this in turn reflects women's traditional link with the caring of the sick (which primarily happened within the household), and their progressive entry into the medical professions. In her *ND*, Morten successfully employs both what Wells (2012: 14) labels as the "register of health" (that is, advice for future nurses attending patients, but also implicitly for lay people attending their own family) and, simultaneously, the "register of medicine" (more similar to the reproduction of a faculty lecture). In terms of language learning, this manipulation of "the language of the separate spheres" (Digby 1992: 204) indicates that nurses were positioning themselves in the medical practice by occupying "a semi-detached sphere of their own" (*ibid.*), one where specialised (linguistic) knowledge and practical or popular experience could coexist for the benefit both of practising women and of the patients' well-being as well.

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As we have said, the dictionary's aim was undoubtedly, first and foremost, to disseminate medical knowledge and inform a perceived market (McConchie 2019: 7), although other potential readers could also include, for example, middle-class women tending to their families too. Within this general picture, and considering nineteenth-century gender ideologies and debates concerning women in medical fields, the function of *ND* as a tool for mastering the language of medicine demonstrates the "secure connection, rather than the disparity, between professionalisation and propriety to an increasingly widening audience for scientific and medical genre" (Brock 2018: 231). The boundaries of the separate spheres, which proved to be much more porous than intended, in fact "opened up space within which women could contest their positions of powerlessness, often utilising the very language of women's special qualities to make their case" (Kingsley Kent 1999: 191). Specifically, at least from the 1880s, women entered new professional worlds where both financial and social reward could be obtained (Brock 2018: 241): in this context, acquiring and mastering the language of medicine was a fundamental step towards the public and official acknowledgement of nurses' expertise and importance *alongside* doctors, and not as their mere subordinates, in hospital wards.

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Chapter 6

The geopolitics of dictionaries as tools of learning: South Slavic case studies

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The present paper addresses the geopolitical context of dictionary production among Southern Slavs (in today's Bosnia, Croatia, and Serbia), from the 15th-century Renaissance dictionaries to the end of the 20th century. The analysis is rooted in the communicative lexicography theory advocated by Yong & Peng (2007). Following a narrative that briskly introduces the conceptual landscape of this paper and the socio-historical background of the region from which the dictionaries discussed in it hail, three main sections are discussed: First, a brief review of ideological geopolitical factors in the history of South Slavic lexicography is provided, focusing on the dictionaries used in language learning. Second, late 18th-century Serbian user-oriented dictionaries are discussed, a line of lexicographic production that has been sidelined and then forgotten due to a geopolitical shift to a different model of the standard language. Finally, based on Šipka (2000), statistical data about the ratio of languages in bilingual and multilingual dictionaries in various historical periods is presented. Shifting ideological and geopolitical influences have been constant since South Slavic lexicographic traditions began. The shift toward a new model of the literary (and then standard) language variety has sidelined a rich tradition of literacy, including a series of user-oriented dictionaries. These dictionaries are reviewed, including the languages involved. They were based on rational needs stemming from language contacts and strongly focused on users' needs. The analysis of the most common bilingual dictionaries in the 20th century shows the dominance of the languages representing the powers of influence in the region: English, German, French, and Russian. It is also visible that since the 1980s there has been a skyrocketing increase in English and a decline in Russian dictionaries, while German and French continue with moderate growth.

historical lexicography, user-oriented dictionaries, South Slavic languages, ideology, geopolitics

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1 Introduction

In this paper, I am using the word *geopolitics* as a compact reference to the patterns of political influence and cooperation in international relations. This use of the word is common, as attested by the following: "In contemporary discourse, geopolitics has been widely employed as a loose synonym for international politics." (Deudney 2025: s.v.). I will demonstrate the impact of geopolitical factors on the central South-Slavic lexicographic production using three case studies. First, the role of geopolitics in the history of South-Slavic lexicography from the late 16th century to this day will be exemplified using prominent dictionaries of their time. Second, a branch of 18th-century bilingual Serbian dictionaries (the only extant dictionaries from this period) will be explored. Finally, quantitative parameters of the 20th-century lexicography of commonly taught languages in the central South-Slavic area will be analyzed. The discussion of these three datasets will be preceded by a sketch of the historical backdrop relevant to the lexicographic production in the region and by the introduction of key concepts.

One should keep in mind that what follows is a discussion of lexicographic production rather than of dictionary macro- and microstructure. Equally importantly, the dictionaries mentioned here coexisted with numerous other lexicographic products, most notably monolingual dictionaries (e.g., such Serbian dictionaries are discussed at length in Šipka 2024), where a range of factors other than geopolitics has been at work.

2 The setting

Lexicographic traditions of the Southern Slavs are rooted in a series of historical events in the region of today's Bosnia, Croatia, and Serbia, some of which reach deep in time. More information about the historical background can be found in Jelavich & Jelavich (1977), Singleton (1989), and Davies (1997). The settlement of the Serbs and Croats on the Balkan peninsula in the 6th and 7th centuries and the separation of the Orthodox church in the 10th century have created two cultural spheres in the region, with the Croats belonging to the Western and the Serbs to the Eastern cultural tradition. These two domains were named Slavia Romana and Slavia Orthodoxa (see Krečmer 2020, Picchio & Goldblatt 1984, Pikkio 2003, and Tolstoj 1997 for more information).

Later relevant historical events include the fact that most Croatians were under the Austrian and/or Hungarian rulers, while the Serbs were conquered by the Ottoman Turkish Empire after the fall of the Serbian Empire in the late 14th

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century. Croats have been a part of the Slavic world within the domain of the Roman Catholic Church, while Serbs belong to the cultural sphere of the Orthodox Christian church. The Turkish conquest gave rise to the third cultural sphere in the region: Islam, with Bosniaks, also known as Bosnian Muslims (the Southern Slavs who had converted to Islam after the conquest) as its purveyors.

The aforementioned historical facts have determined the difference in the lexicographic production between the Croats, on the one hand, and the Serbs, on the other. The Croatian lexicographic tradition has been developed in a favorable environment within the Western European cultural sphere, and the Serbs joined this circle only in the late 17th century as a result of the settlement of a substantial Serbian population in southern Hungary. The oldest extant Croatian dictionary is *Liber de Simplicibus*, a manuscript of a monolingual dictionary of plant names, compiled in 1445 by Niccolo Roccabonella. The oldest printed dictionary is considered to be *Dictionarium quinque nobilissimarum Europae linguarum, Latinae, Italicae, Germanicae, Dalmatiae & Ungaricae*, a quintilingual general dictionary compiled by Faust Vrančić in 1595. This tradition was then continued by various dictionaries from the regions of what is today Croatia. One should particularly mention multilingual Mikalja (1649), Jambressich (1742), and Della Bella (1785), as well as bilingual Latin-Croatian Habdelić (1679) and Bellosztenecs (1740). An early manuscript rhymed Turkish-Bosnian dictionary has also been attested in the Bosniak lexicographic tradition (Uskufi 1631).

Late 17th-century Serbian migrations to southern Hungary (present-day Vojvodina) have given rise to a series of Serbian bilingual dictionaries, including Latin, German, Greek, and Turkish editions stretching from the late 18th to the mid-19th century. These dictionaries were intended primarily to meet the daily needs of those learning foreign languages in this cultural environment.

Nineteenth-century political movements in the region promoted the unity of the Southern Slavs, which eventually led to the standardization of the common Serbo-Croatian language and brought about a common lexicographic tradition. The pivotal dictionary in that regard was Karadžić (1818), advancing a literary language model that was accepted by both the Serbian and Croatian sides, following a long period of ideological struggle. The unification tendencies were strengthened by the formation of the common South Slavic State in 1918 (called first the Kingdom of Serbians, Croats, and Slovenes, and then, since 1921, Yugoslavia). The common linguistic and lexicographic tradition continued (with certain interruptions, notably during World War II) until the disintegration of Yugoslavia in the early 1990s, when three separate linguistic and lexicographic traditions arose: Serbian, Croatian, and Bosnian Muslim. The statistics that will

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be provided about bilingual dictionaries pertains greatly to the common lexicographic period.

Given one topic explored in this paper is the late 18th- to mid-9th-century Serbian user-oriented dictionaries, the situation of Serbs at that time is of particular importance. Serbs were divided between the Austrian Empire in the north and the Ottoman Turkish Empire in the south. Prior to the late 19th century, when Serbia became independent, the main centers of Serbian culture (if one excludes secluded monastic life) were in the southern parts of the Austrian Empire. That is where user-oriented dictionaries discussed here were penned and used. Serbian intellectual elites in the Austrian Empire came from a class of well-off landowners and clergy. They were firmly rooted in the tradition of Orthodox Christianity, which concurrently entailed strong ties with Russian culture (with Moscow being seen as the "Third Rome," [for more information, see Jelavich & Jelavich 1977:22]). A consequence of ties with Russia was that one of the literary language varieties of that time was the so-called Slavonic Serbian. This hybrid language form included some Russian linguistic features, along with Serbian and those from Church Slavonic (a linguistic variety with a strong presence in Orthodox Slavic cultures). The initial Russian influence that Slavonic Serbian inherited was Russian Church Slavonic, brought to Serbian lands by Russian teachers. Naturally, the Slavonic Serbian language has co-existed with several other language varieties – most notably Russian Church Slavonic as the liturgical language – and Serbian vernacular with some Russian Slavonic influences. More information about this complex polyglottic situation can be found in Ivić (1998), Mladenović (1989), Subotić (2002, 2006), and Tolstoj (1978).

I will now proceed by briefly outlining the main conceptual tools of this analysis.

3 Conceptual map

The following concepts will be discussed: lexicographic process and its elements, commonly taught languages, and Panslavism versus Austroslavism. I embrace the socio-cognitive model of lexicography that "attempts to establish a triangular communicative model of lexicography and views the bilingual dictionary as a system of intercultural communication between the compiler and the user" (Yong & Peng 2007: 15). Young and Peng thus see lexicographic production as a form of communication between dictionary writers and their users.

If we apply this approach to the study of the sociolinguistic factors in South Slavic lexicographic traditions, the dictionaries are socially embedded; they represent systems of intercultural communication between the compiler and the

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user, where both involved parties have certain attitudes and belief systems about linguistic variation. The situation is, however, more complex than that. The dictionary has frequently been the ferment of change and – even more frequently – it mirrored or incorporated social changes.

The relation between the three key components of the process (factors that influence lexicographers, lexicographic strategies, and affected dictionary elements) can be represented as follows. As can be seen in Figure 1, the factors influence lexicographic strategies, which shape the elements while providing feedback to the dictionary's environment. Geopolitics is, as will be demonstrated further in this paper, a very powerful factor shaping lexicographic production, beginning with the choice of language in bilingual dictionaries.

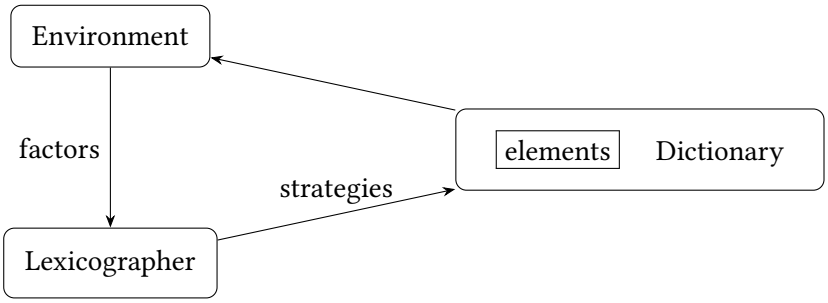

Figure 1: Sociolinguistic aspects of lexicography

Societal factors influencing lexicographers are numerous and diversified. Aside from geopolitics, which will be discussed in this paper, these factors encompass ideology and religion; for example, Renaissance ideology is responsible for dictionaries of Western European languages other than Latin. There are also economic factors: for example, the market demand makes bilingual dictionaries of some languages more abundant than others. Politics is also among those factors; for example, large monolingual dictionaries in various Slavic countries are seen as sources of national pride. A further factor is in-and-out-group dynamics, which is responsible for numerous foreign word dictionaries in Slavic countries. Societal changes, such as modernization, influence dictionary production as well: for example, various dictionaries have transitioned to electronic-only editions. Finally, various cultural influences play a role, for example, when the format of learners' dictionaries that is common in a language like English is adopted in a Slavic language, where it is not common. All these factors are explained in detail and exemplified in **Sipka2016**. They will also be briefly touched upon in the next section of this paper.

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I will now discuss commonly and less commonly taught languages, a distinction that originates from US academia and applicable, with some modifications, to the South-Slavic situation. An important distinction in the language-learning landscape in the United States is between commonly taught languages (Spanish, German, and French) and less commonly taught languages (all other languages taught in the United States). The distinction is based on the fact that commonly taught languages are regularly offered in high schools. Brecht and Walton describe this distinction as follows: "To most Americans today, competence in a foreign language is often thought to be competence in French, German, or Spanish. . . . The remainder of the world's languages, including those languages that increasingly seem to figure so prominently in today's news reports, have come to be called in this country the less commonly taught languages (LCTLs)" (Brecht & Walton 1994: 191). This originally American concept is applicable to any language-learning landscape. Which languages will be commonly taught depends on the region and historical period. For example, Latin was the most commonly taught (and learned) language across Western Europe for many years, which is not the case anymore. English, on the other hand, used to be a less commonly taught language in that period and has risen to the status of the most common language. For the purposes of this paper, one can say that Latin, Italian, German, and Hungarian were commonly learned languages throughout the history of Croatian lexicography. In the Serbian branch, these were Latin, German, Greek, and Turkish. During the 19th century and the merging of the two traditions, Latin and German retained that status, joined by French, then English and Russian were added to the list in the 20th century. Latin, on the other hand, while still being taught at elite high schools, de facto lost the status of a commonly taught – and more importantly for dictionary production – learned language.

Finally, an important distinction in tracing geopolitical influences in Serbian lexicographic production in the Austrian Empire (to be discussed in Sections 4 and 5 of this paper) is between Panslavism and Austroslavism. The ideological expression of this embeddedness in Orthodox Christianity is the so-called Panslavism, the idea that Slavic peoples should unite, led by the Russian Empire (for more information, see Kohn 1960). At the same time, the court in Vienna actively promoted the ideology of Austroslavism, the idea that Slavic peoples of the Austrian Empire should accept Austria as their homeland and unite around it (Moritsch 1996 provides an account of that ideological formation).

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4 Historical case studies

In the history of South Slavic lexicography, there are numerous cases where geopolitics has played an important role in influencing lexicographers and shaping their dictionaries. One field is the very choice of languages included in multilingual and bilingual dictionaries. Thus, historical Croatian dictionaries contain languages such as Venetian Italian, German, and Hungarian (i.e., languages of major ruling powers in that part of the Slavia Romana, along with Latin [the supranational language of that cultural sphere]). All of them are present in the first published Croatian dictionary (Verantius 1595). On the other hand, in the Bosniak tradition, which was unfolding in the Ottoman Turkish Empire, a Turkish-Bosnian manuscript rhymed dictionary has been attested (Hevaji Uskufi 1631). Ottoman Turkish is, again, the language of the major power of that cultural sphere at the time. The situation on the Serbian side is similar. Given that Serbs were divided between Austrian and Ottoman Turkish empires, with major cultural centers located in the former, the languages represented in Serbian dictionaries are no surprise. This tradition stretches from the second half of the 18th to the beginning of the 19th century. It started with *Rečnik malyj* (1793 and numerous other editions), a subject-matter bilingual German dictionary. As attested in Novaković (1869), Gudkov (1993), and Šipka (2000), other dictionaries in that tradition include bilingual Latin dictionaries (1766, 1767, 1850, 1853). Later in the 19th century, when there were also centers of publishing in the newly established Serbia (first as a part of the Ottoman Turkish empire), other dictionaries appear. The dictionaries also included are Turkish (1847, 1855), Greek (1847, 1855), French (1846), and further German (1849, 1850, 1859). We can see, yet again, German as a geopolitically relevant language, Latin as a language of the cultural sphere, and Turkish as a geopolitically relevant language in a different part of the region. Additionally, Greek was the language of numerous traders, and French entered as the language of a major European geopolitical power.

A very strong geopolitical influence can be seen in Karadžić (1818), a Serbian dictionary with German and Latin equivalents, which has ushered in a new form of standard language variety (as discussed in Section 1 of this paper). This dictionary was published in Vienna, the Austrian Empire's capital, which explains why the equivalents are in German and Latin. Even more interesting is the role of the Austrian court in the inception of this dictionary. It is a well-documented fact that the author of this dictionary was encouraged to pen it and then coached and aided in the phase of compilation by Bartholomeus Kopitar, the state censor of the court in Vienna. Kopitar's views were consistent with the court policy of supporting Austroslavism in Slavic nations – the view that Slavs should

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gather around the Austrian court rather than around Russia, a Pan-Slavist outlook. Bonazza (1988) offers most information on this subject, but there are numerous other sources, such as Popović (1964), Butler (1969), Dobrašinović (1980), Ivić (1981), and Vodopivec (1988). Serbian tradition prior to this dictionary was strongly Pan-Slavic. The main centers of literacy in what is today the Vojvodina region of Serbia were under firm Russian geopolitical influence. The new standard-language variety ushered in by Karadžić (1818), a dictionary with a clear Austro-Slavic agenda, changed the situation on the geopolitical chessboard of the time by displacing Russian geopolitical influences and introducing Austrian ones.

One should also insert a word of caution. While geopolitical forces were prominently at play in South-Slavic lexicographic traditions, numerous other factors have shaped its dictionaries – often in tandem with geopolitics. For example, Karadžić was not only an Austroslavist but also a representative of a new bourgeoisie, in conflict with the traditional gentry and clergy, which were also Panslavists. Thus socio-economic factors were also involved, in addition to geopolitical ones. In some cases, there were micro-ideological factors at play. For example, Bellosztenecs (1740) and Jambressich (1742) embody the competition between the order of St. Paul (the first dictionary) and Jesuits (the second) to attract the youth into their high schools. I will now turn to the tradition of Serbian user-oriented dictionaries that commenced in the late 18th century.

5 18th-century user-oriented dictionaries

A series of Serbian user-oriented dictionaries, including German, Latin, Turkish, Greek, and French (see Šipka 2000 for their full list), was intended primarily to meet the daily needs of those learning foreign languages in this cultural environment (discussed in the previous section of this paper). One should understand that at the time when these dictionaries appeared, literacy – and the ability to use these dictionaries – was limited to the upper classes: clergy, nobility, senior military, and the like. A vast majority of the population at that time was illiterate. For example, even much later in the 19th century, the 1866 census in the Principality of Serbia registers 13% men and 1% women as literate. While literacy rates were somewhat higher in the north, in the Austrian Empire, that does not change the general picture. One of the most popular dictionaries from this series was the anonymous *Rečnik malyj* (1793 and numerous other editions), which was a German-Serbian subject-matter dictionary with 37 lexical fields, 1,500 German lexemes, and their 2,500 Slavonic Serbian equivalents. It additionally contains 16

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dialogues in the Appendix. Using present-day terminology, we might say that this dictionary was user-friendly, and its lexical fields mirror the needs and concerns of its users (Serbs learning German).

Let us look more closely at the user-friendly aspects of this dictionary (and other bilingual dictionaries in this series). The very selection of the subject-matters fields is finetuned to the needs of the user in that time period and in that particular geographical setting. The users (i.e., literate strata of the population that had the need to learn foreign languages), primarily German, were either clergy or aristocrats, along with some developing bourgeoisie, involved in trade, military service (these were border areas of the Austrian Empire toward Ottoman Turkish Empire), or farming (with the region well-known for its vintners). The subject-matter fields in which this dictionary is organized show some general fields that would be useful in any society, such as kinship, body parts, actions, and food and drink. Some are related to the particular social classes and categories from which prospective users come. Thus, furniture, setting the table, kitchen, garments, city, arts and crafts, God and religion, and countries and peoples reflect the lifestyle and interests of these users. Then, there are categories reflecting farming and household activities, such as cellar, stable, fieldwork, and garden. Perhaps the best reflection of how the subject-matter fields in this dictionary were geared toward meeting the user needs in a border area with significant military presence is the fact that there are two categories devoted exclusively to the military (military expressions and military ranks). Furthermore, the categories of punishments and transgressions, calisthenics, and titles are closely related to military life. All subject-matter fields are presented in Table 1.

The dialogues that are provided at the end of the dictionary follow the pattern of user-friendliness. Again, there is one dialog that is closely connected to military life, as can be seen in Table 2.

This branch of dictionaries is somewhat of a sidetrack primarily because of its linguistic substance. The Serbian side of the dictionary was Slavonic Serbian, which was a mixture of the Serbian and Russian versions of Church Slavonic, quite distant from the dialect ushered in by Karadžić (1818), which served as the basis for the standard Serbo-Croatian, which emerged in the 19th century. This, in turn, was geopolitically conditioned as an Austro-Slavic maneuver against Panslavism. Nevertheless, their design as user-oriented dictionaries was modern, anticipating future trends in that type of lexicography. In the case of this branch of Serbian lexicographic work, geopolitics has a negative effect by sidelining progressive tendencies in dictionaries as tools of learning.

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Table 1: Subject-matter fields in *Rečnik malyj*

God and religion	World	Year and Weather
Holidays	Countries and Peoples	Sea and Rivers
Mining	Colors	Garden
Animals - 5 categories	Body Parts	Garments
Learning	Actions	Titles
Parts of Home	Furniture	Kitchen
Cellar	Setting the Table	Foods and Drinks
Stable	City	Military Ranks
Military Expressions	Fieldwork	Calisthenics
Punishments and Transgressions	Arts and Crafts	Trade
Human Imperfections	Kinship	

Table 2: Dialogs (most come in several scenarios)

At the beginning of a visit, thanking somebody for visiting	Apologizing at the beginning of a visit with somebody	Meeting somebody
Inviting somebody to enter our home	Entering somebody's home	Inviting somebody for a walk
Inviting somebody for a meal	To insist somebody stay for dinner	Seating guests at the table
Offering guests to eat	Ask guests to drink and be merry	Finishing a meal
Giving gifts	Wishing well for a new year	Congratulations on birthdays and name days
Congratulating a military promotion or a new rank		

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6 Statistical data from the 19th and 20th century

To conclude the analysis of geopolitical factors in South Slavic dictionaries, I will present several figures based on the data from Šipka (2000) about the bilingual dictionaries, including German, English, French, and Russian (one of the four commonly taught and studied languages in 20th-century Serbo-Croatian [Bosnian/Croatian/Serbian] lexicography).

Figure 2 (below) presents 20th-century general bilingual dictionaries of these four commonly taught and studied languages between 1900 to 2000 on the territory of what used to be the Kingdom of Serbs, Croats, and Slovenes, and then since 1921, Yugoslavia and abroad. The number of dictionaries is given for each decade in this period. What can be seen is that, after a modest lexicographic production prior to the end of World War II, there is a strong parallel growth of all four languages in question, followed by decline and stagnation in the 1970s and 1980s. This growth was a consequence of Yugoslavia balancing on the Iron Curtain, trying to build relationships with Western countries and the Soviet Union alike. At the same time, the soft power of cultural influences (e.g., literature, film, and popular music) were also coming from the territories where the four commonly taught languages were spoken. It was also important that German and French-speaking countries, such as Austria, Switzerland, France, and Belgium, were common destinations of Yugoslav guest workers. English-speaking countries, such as Australia, Canada, and the United States, were common destinations for Yugoslav emigrants. The stagnation was a function of increasing economic and social problems of the former Yugoslavia. What is most interesting is the moderate growth of German and French, exponential growth of English, and decline of Russian in the last decade of the 20th century. The effect of geopolitical influences in the region is expressed not only in the fact that these four languages top the lexicographic production but are visible in the fact that the growing power of American geopolitical influence and the declining Russian post-Soviet geopolitical presence has been reflected in the dictionary production.

Another indicator of geopolitical relations in dictionary production is the ratio of general dictionaries published abroad versus those published in the territories of the former Yugoslavia. Abroad here refers to the dictionaries published outside the former Yugoslavia. That practically means that the bilingual dictionaries in the abroad category were published in German-speaking countries for German, English-speaking countries for English, French-speaking countries for French, and the Soviet Union, and later Russia, for Russian.

Clearly, the countries where the four languages in question are spoken represent the dominant partners in geopolitical relations. In other words, they are

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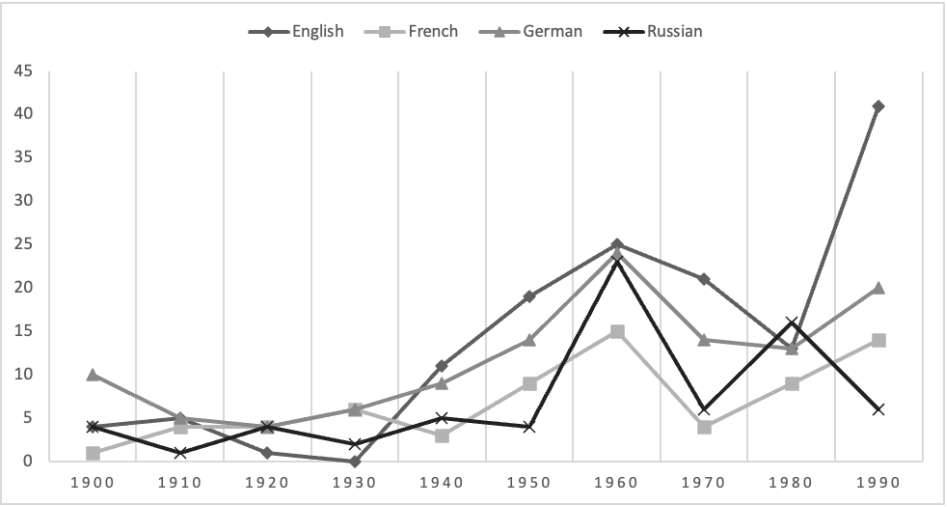

Figure 2: 20th-century bilingual Serbo-Croatian dictionaries by decade

the agents of geopolitical influences and clout, whereas the territories of the former Yugoslavia represent recipients of those influences. This is clearly reflected in lexicographic production, as shown in Figures 3–6. In the case of all four languages, the production in the territories of the former Yugoslavia is substantially richer than abroad. This discrepancy is a natural consequence of the direction of geopolitical and, with it, soft political influence. To put it bluntly, the speakers in the former Yugoslavia were much more interested in the four commonly taught languages (French, English, German, and Russian) than the speakers of these languages were interested in Serbo-Croatian (or Bosnian, Croatian, and Serbian, as it was later called).

Figure 3 shows a growth of the home English bilingual dictionary production starting in the 1930s and again in 1980 with a rather moderate and stable production abroad.

The situation with the French bilingual dictionaries, presented in Figure 4, shows several peaks of growth in the home production and the ebbing production abroad.

The situation with the German bilingual dictionaries shown in Figure 5 is similar to the French one. The home production features several peaks and a general upward trend while the production abroad diminishes its output over time.

Figure 6 shows Russian bilingual production, which is different from the previous three in that there is a sharp decline in home and abroad production alike

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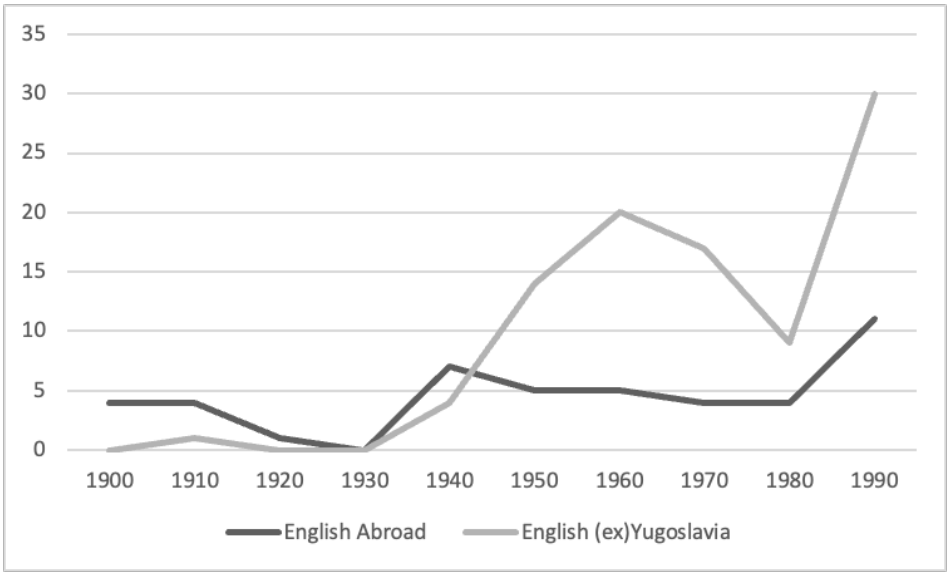

Figure 3: Bilingual dictionaries with English in the (former) Yugoslavia and abroad

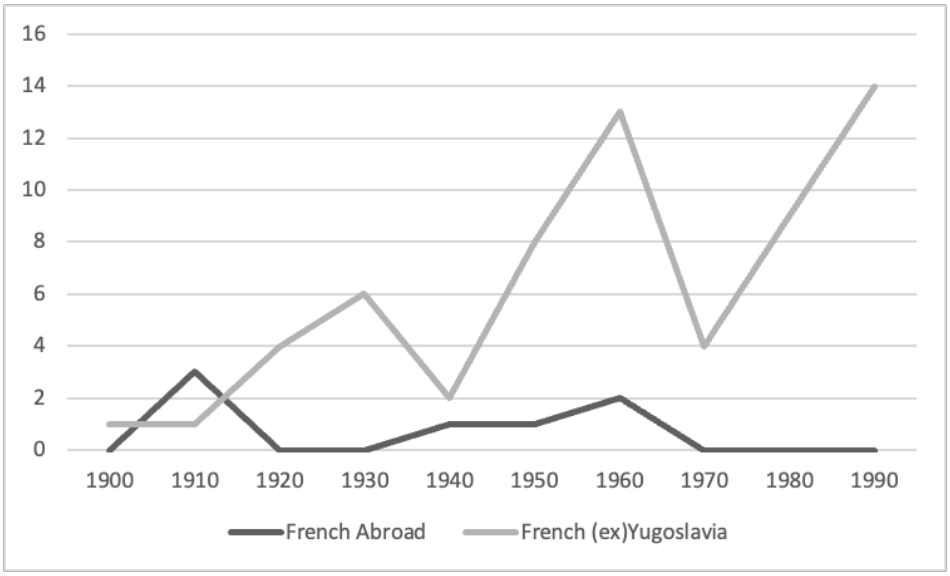

Figure 4: Bilingual dictionaries with French in the (former) Yugoslavia and abroad

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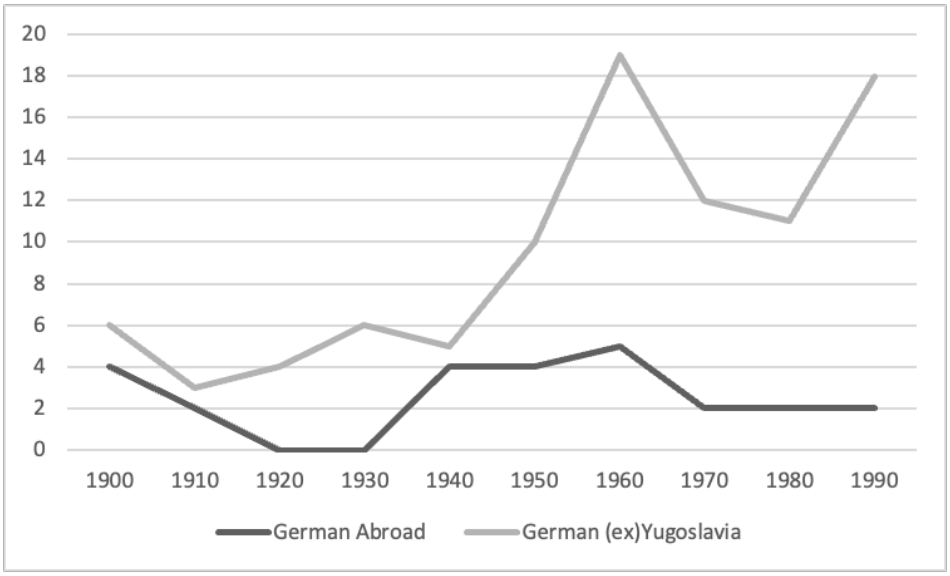

Figure 5: Bilingual dictionaries with German in the (former) Yugoslavia and abroad

Figure 6: Bilingual dictionaries with Russian in the (former) Yugoslavia and abroad

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in the last two decades of the 20th century.

Switching from general to specialized dictionaries, one should note that the latter offer another view into the relative power of geopolitical influences and the fields in which they are exercised. Looking at the diversification of the subject-matter fields, as attested in Šipka (2000), one can see that English is most diversified with 53 fields, followed by German with 43, whereas Russian with 25 and French with only 16 are far behind. This distribution is a clear consequence of the growing English-language influence (mostly through technology and the entertainment industry from the United States).

Which subject-matter fields are included in specialized dictionaries additionally testifies to the spheres of geopolitics-based cultural influences. As shown in Table 3, English and German are more oriented toward science and technology, while French and Russian gravitate more toward the social sciences and humanities. Precisely these are the patterns of soft-power influence in the region. Germans were the ones who brought key technologies to the region. During the Industrial Revolution, large areas of the region of today's Bosnia, Croatia, and Serbia belonged to the German-speaking Austrian Empire and later Austro-Hungarian Empire. Even those areas that were outside this empire were reliant on the import of those technologies from the German-speaking countries. On the other hand, French and Russian belles-lettres have been highly popular and influential in the region, as have been various social scientists.

We have seen from all three datasets discussed in this paper (historical cases, Serbian user-oriented dictionaries, and 20th-century South-Slavic bilingual dictionaries) that geopolitics has played an important role in shaping lexicographic production. These influences ranged from the choice of languages in bilingual dictionaries to sidelining a range of progressive learners' dictionaries. One should definitely note that geopolitics is not the only factor influencing lexicographers and shaping lexicographic production. There has always been an interplay of geopolitical factors with various other factors, such as economy, cultural influences, in-group dynamics, and others mentioned and exemplified in section three of this paper. More about these diversified factors can be found in **Sipka2016**. The data presented here contribute to a better understanding of the complexity of geopolitical factors in lexicographic production and their ebbs and flows over time. It also emphasizes the complexity of the intercultural communication between the dictionary compilers and their users. In that communication, the dictionary makers are acting, often unbeknownst to them, along various geopolitical vectors.

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Table 3: Subject-matter fields in 20th-century specialized dictionaries

English	Abbreviations, Agriculture, Biology, Chemistry, Computer Science, Construction Works, Dialects, Economics, Education, Electronics, Engineering and Technology, Farming, Finances, Fire protection, Food, Gastronomy, Geology, Historical, Kinship terms, Language and Linguistics, Law, Library Science, Loan-words, Mechanical engineering, Medicine, Military, Onomastics, Paronyms, Petroleum, Phraseology, Politics, Sea and Sailing, Science, Slang, Sports, Statistics, Technology, Tourism, Traffic Engineering
German	Chemistry, Computer Science, Construction Works, Crafts, Dialects, Economics, Education, Electrical Engineering, Forestry, Gastronomy, Geography, Geology, Glass Industry, Hunting, Industrial Technology, Language and Linguistics, Law, Loan-words, Mechanical Engineering, Medicine, Military, Mining, Onomastics, Postal services, Phraseology, Printing, Railway, Slang and Colloquial, Technology, Tourism, Trade
French	Agriculture, Economics, Electronics, Engineering, Language and Linguistics, Loan-words, Postal services, Statistics, Military, Phraseology, Politics, Trade
Russian	Aviation, Business, Construction Works, Dialects, Economics, Electrical Engineering, Forestry, Language of belles-lettres, Law, Loanwords, Military, Paronyms, Phraseology, Railway, Science, Sports, Technology, Tourism, Trade

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Chapter 7

Dictionary and society: Contrastive study of Chinese, English and French (meta)lexicographic traditions

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The dictionary, as a cultural and social object, has garnered increasing attention for its significance as a distinct subject of study. These essential works capture various facets of political, cultural, economic, and social life, reflecting ongoing progress (Gouws 2020; Pruvost 2000/2021; Yong & Peng 2022, etc.). This intersection between dictionaries and society is referred to as sociolexicography (Busse 2002) and is defined as 'the study of how social processes influence the content and structure of dictionaries'. This line of inquiry also falls under metalexicography (Zgusta 1971; Quemada 1968; Pruvost 2000/2021; Gouws 2020; De Schryver 2023d, etc.).

While scholars from both Western and Eastern traditions have explored the history of dictionaries in their respective countries, few studies adopt a contrastive perspective. This paper offers a diachronic analysis of traditional dictionaries in three different languages: English (Indo-European family), French (inflectional and derivational type), and Chinese (Sino-Tibetan family, isolating or analytic structure), and their traditional metalexicographic cultures. We trace the evolution of these dictionaries through three distinct periods: prior to their inception (pre-16th century), the era of early dictionaries (16th–19th centuries), and the advent of modern dictionaries (20th century onward). This comparison highlights the significant relationship between dictionaries and the societies in which they were created.

dictionary, sociolexicography, metalexicography, English-French-Chinese, contrastive lexicography

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1 Introduction

The dictionary, as both a cultural artifact and a social construct, has increasingly attracted scholarly attention as a distinct object of study. These indispensable tools encapsulate various aspects of political, cultural, economic, and social life, serving as mirrors of societal evolution (Rey-Debove 1971: 272–273; Béjoint 2000; Rey 2007; Gouws 2020; Pruvost 2000/2021; Yong & Peng 2022). The relationship between dictionaries and society is explored through *sociolexicography* (Busse 2002), which examines how social processes influence the content and structure of dictionaries. This area of inquiry overlaps with *metalexicography*, the theoretical study of dictionaries (Zgusta 1971; Quemada 1968; Rey-Debove 1971; Huang 1992, 2001; Pruvost 2006; Gouws 2020; Do-Hurinville et al. 2022, De Schryver 2023d; Chen 2021, 2024). Building on these perspectives, this study adopts a comparative sociolexicographic framework to examine how dictionaries reflect and shape cultural traditions.

While numerous scholars from both Western and Eastern traditions have studied the history of dictionaries within their own cultures, contrastive perspectives remain underexplored. In particular, little attention has been paid to systematic comparisons between Western and Eastern metalexicographic traditions. This paper addresses that gap by focusing on three major traditions—English, French, and Chinese—representing different linguistic types (Indo-European inflectional, Romance derivational, and Sino-Tibetan isolating). The central research questions are: 1) How have these traditions reflected the social, political, and cultural contexts of their time? 2) In what ways do they converge or diverge in their sociolexicographic functions? 3) What does this comparison contribute to a broader theory of lexicography?

2 Dictionaries and society: Socio-lexicography

2.1 Definition and scope

Scholars and lexicographic traditions provide several definitions of a dictionary:

(1) A dictionary is "a reference book that consists of an alphabetical list of words with their meanings and parts of speech, and often a guide to accepted pronunciation and syllabification, irregular inflections of words, derived words of different parts of speech, and etymologies." (*Collins English Dictionary* 2nd edition 1997, 429)

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(2) "A book dealing with the individual words of a language (or certain specified classes of them), so as to set forth their orthography, pronunciation, signification, and use, their synonyms, derivation, and history, or at least some of these facts: for convenience of reference, the words are arranged in some stated order, now in most languages alphabetical; and in larger dictionaries the information given is illustrated by quotations from literature." (*Oxford English Dictionary* 2nd edition 1989, vol. IV, 625)

(3) "Collection of words from a language or a field of human activity, gathered according to a nomenclature of varying importance and generally presented in alphabetical order, providing a certain amount of information on each word relating to its meaning and use and intended for a defined audience." (*Trésor de la langue française*)

(4) "Vocabulary, collection in order of all the words of a language." (*Dictionnaire de l'Académie française* 1694, 1718, 1740, 1762, 1798)

(5) "Vocabulary, collection of all the words of a language, arranged in a certain order, and explained in the same language, or translated into another." (*Dictionnaire de l'Académie française* 1835, 1878, 1932)

(6) "Methodical collection of words arranged most often in alphabetical order, indicating the definition, spelling, meanings and uses of words in a language (also called General Dictionary)." (*Dictionnaire de l'Académie française* 1992)

The dictionary, "in theory a systematic relational database with ordered articles and recurring fields, can, in practice, be as variable as the lexicon it aims to describe" (Wooldridge 2003). In Chinese, we have *zìdiǎn* 字典 'dictionaries of Chinese characters', *cídiǎn* 词典 'dictionaries of words', and *cídiǎn* 辞典 'dictionaries of words or units of discourse', and all these differ structurally from their Western counterparts. They can be organized alphabetically or by the number and structure of strokes in each character. For example:

(1) To find the character *fù* 富 'wealth', one might use alphabetical order under "F".

(2) In radical-order dictionaries, a key component (e.g., ⿰ in *bīng* 冰 'ice') directs users to specific pages for further details.

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Modern technology has simplified searches in Chinese dictionaries, allowing users to find entries quickly through digital platforms.

Dictionaries across languages share fundamental purposes but exhibit unique structures and cultural influences. This paper will delve further into these distinctions, examining the interplay between language, culture, and lexicographic tradition.

Dictionaries transcend their role as mere collections of words, they are reflections of the social and cultural evolution of societies. As Gouws (2020) observes, there is "an interactive relationship between language and culture," and dictionaries must take this into account. General language dictionaries, therefore, do more than enhance comprehension of language—they also mirror cultural dimensions. Research that addresses this responsibility belongs to the domain of metalexicography, which both enriches the literature and contributes to improved lexicographic practice (Gouws 2020).

Yong & Peng (2022) similarly highlights the dynamic interplay between dictionaries and society:

> "Dictionaries are the product of the evolution of human civilization and the development of society. The needs arising from society and culture act as catalysts for the inception and progress of lexicography." (Yong & Peng 2008). Lexicographical culture constitutes a vital component of national culture; the development of dictionaries reflects the historical trajectory of advancements in civilization and the fluctuations of a nation. [...]" (Yong & Peng 2022: 5)

The field of SOCIO-LEXICOGRAPHY, as described by Béjoint (1994), Gottlieb et al. (2005), investigates the influence of social processes on the content and structure of dictionaries. This study employs a diachronic perspective to explore traditional metalexicographic cultures and adopts a contrastive analysis of Chinese, French, and English.

2.2 Dictionary development and socio-lexicography: A historical overview

Key references for lexicography span the English, French, and Chinese traditions, each contributing distinct perspectives to the discipline.

In the English tradition, Béjoint (1994, 2010) offers a theoretical framework for modern lexicography, especially in relation to sociolexicography, while Cowie (2009) provides a comprehensive history of English lexicography, with particular

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attention to learner's dictionaries. Hartmann (1986) sets out a historical account that situates dictionaries within broader linguistic and cultural developments, and Hüllen (2006) explores the topical organization of early English dictionaries, shedding light on their methodological innovations. Together, these works trace the evolution of English lexicography from early glossaries to modern reference tools.

The French tradition has been shaped by foundational studies such as Quemada (1968, 1987), Quemada (1997), who documents the historical trajectory of French lexicography, including the shift from bilingual to monolingual dictionaries, and Pruvost (2000/2021, 2006, 2009), who emphasizes the links between dictionaries, society, and technological change. These works collectively illustrate how French lexicography not only codified linguistic norms but also reflected cultural and political transformations.

By contrast, the Chinese tradition remains less well known in Western scholarship, yet it is illuminated by the works of Lin (1992), who outlines the early history of Chinese dictionary compilation, Liu (2015), who provides an overview of the development of Chinese character dictionaries, and Xu (2016) and Yong & Peng (2022), who examine the long-term evolution of Chinese lexicography with attention to its philological and cultural context. These studies highlight the distinctive features of Chinese lexicography, including its radical-based classification system and its emphasis on characters rather than phonetic order.

Taken together, these references demonstrate the diversity of lexicographic traditions and provide the comparative foundation on which this study builds.

The evolution of dictionaries can be broadly divided into three stages within a diachronic framework:

(1) Before the 16th century: While systematic Western dictionaries, in the modern sense, had yet to emerge, China's feudal system had already fostered the development of dictionaries through various phases, culminating in maturity by this period.

(2) The era of old dictionaries (16th–19th century): This phase witnessed the establishment and expansion of traditional lexicographic norms and practices in both Western and Chinese contexts. These included primarily monolingual dictionaries, although bilingual works also began to appear in certain regions.

(3) The advent of modern dictionaries (20th century onwards): Marked by advancements in technology and methodology, this era represents the tran-

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sition to contemporary lexicographic practices, encompassing both monolingual and bilingual/multilingual dictionaries.

By tracing the historical progression of dictionaries, this paper provides a comparative understanding of how cultural, societal, and linguistic shifts have shaped the lexicographic traditions of China, France, and England. Focusing on the period from the sixteenth to the twentieth century, it situates lexicographic practices within their socio-historical contexts in order to highlight both convergences—such as the role of dictionaries in education and standardization—and divergences shaped by linguistic typology and cultural traditions. In doing so, the study contributes to a comparative sociolexicographic perspective that bridges European and Chinese scholarship and underscores the dictionary's role as a dynamic cultural artifact.

3 Historical development of socio-lexicography

3.1 Before the 16th century: Pre-dictionaries and the beginnings of lexicography

In the history of European civilization, the lexicographical culture of ancient Greece and Rome left deep and indelible marks on the creation of European dictionaries. The affirmation of royal power under Henry IV and the rise of absolutism thus favored linguistic structuring in France, while in England, political stability under the Tudors allowed the consolidation of English. By the early 15th century, English had firmly established itself as the general language of all strata of British society. In France and England, during the Middle Ages, Latin dominated in religious and academic circles, with French becoming predominant at the English court. Lexicography was stimulated by the cohabitation of Latin with the vernacular languages. In China, state standardisation under the Qin and Han was a catalyst for linguistic and lexicographical unification (Yong & Peng 2022).

The dictionary is a product of civilization and the evolution of language at a certain stage. The emergence of the first French or English dictionaries dates back to the need to interpret Latin in the Middle Ages. During this period, European societies were marked by bilingual or even trilingual written cultures. For instance, in later medieval England, Latin, French, and English coexisted. Many of these early dictionaries were intended mainly for students. Latin, the language of the elite and of important academic texts, coexisted with the vernaculars such as French or English, used more widely in everyday life and craft activities (Yong & Peng 2022; Pruvost 2000/2021).

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The development of dictionaries in China followed a unique trajectory, and reached maturity well before the 16th century. The origins of Chinese dictionaries can be traced back to the era preceding the Qin dynasty, specifically the Spring and Autumn period (Eastern Zhou 771 – 256 BC) and the Warring States period (475 – 221 BC). From the pre-Qin period to the 3rd century BC, the first forms of dictionaries began to emerge, flourishing under the Qin and Han dynasties, which were marked by the policy of "unifying the graphs in the documents (⊠⊠ Shū tóngwén)" (Bottéro 2010: 85).

Compilations of word lists, often in the form of bilingual dictionaries such as Latin-French and Latin-English, were an integral part of the lexicographical tradition, reflecting the predominance of Latin in scholarly exchanges. Major theological, philosophical, and academic works were written exclusively in Latin, requiring students to be proficient in the language. When complex terms were encountered, glossators would step in to interpret these words in English, French, or more accessible Latin, providing explanations of difficult terms and facilitating understanding of religious and academic texts. These annotations, called glosses, were later compiled into a work called the *Glossary* (Yong & Peng 2022: 20–27; Pruvost 2000/2021: 20–21), a prototype of the dictionary. It is often difficult to identify the authors of these early works. Monks and teachers created glossaries in manuscript form, facilitating teaching efforts. These glossaries and lists of Latin vocabulary, used for memorization, formed the basis of the first English and French dictionaries. These glossaries were mainly bilingual, such as the *Epinal-Erfurt Glossary* (c. 639–709), the *Epinal Glossary* (734), the *Leiden Glossary* (9th century), and the *Glossary or Nomina multarum rerum anglice* (10th century). For French, one of the best known is the 8th-century *Gloses and Glossaries of Reichenau*. The method of compiling these word collections evolved over time. Initially, difficult Latin words were recorded in the order they appeared in the texts. Later, this method was improved by classifying the words according to their first letter, without regard for the subsequent letters. Finally, difficult words were carefully classified in full alphabetical order, anticipating the structure of modern dictionaries.

In China, on the other hand, lexicography already had a more systematic function, with monolingual works such as the *Ěryǎ*尔雅 'The Ready Guide' (c. 200 BC), considered the first Chinese lexical encyclopedia, and the *Fāngyán* ⊠⊠ 'Dictionary of Regional Languages/Dialects', which explored regionalisms. In England and France, dictionaries often began as bilingual or multilingual texts, especially between the 11th and 14th centuries. Later, in the 16th century, works such as those of Calepino (1502), Estienne (1539), and Nicot (1606) flourished, coinciding

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with the rise of travel, a multicultural Europe, and the affirmation of vernacular languages.

The first Chinese dictionaries appeared much earlier than their Western counterparts. The ancient Chinese dictionaries, known as 字书 *zìshū* '*Books of Chinese Characters*' or dictionaries today, date back to the Qin Dynasty (221 – 206 BC). To meet educational needs, the ancients compiled and organized the characters into works called ⊠⊠ zìshū 'Books of Chinese Characters' , which are teaching books of Chinese characters. One of the most famous is the *Shǐzhòupiān* 史籀篇 '*Book of Shizhoupian'*, compiled by the chief historian during the reign of Zhou Xuanwang (827 – 781 BC) (Zhang 2010; Liu 2015; Xu 2016). This book is considered one of the earliest collections of characters in China, serving as a reference for the linguistic and scriptural norm of the time. Before the unification by the Qin (221 – 206 BC), the characters used in the ancient seven kingdoms were dissimilar. Prime Minister Li Si (280 – 208 BC) standardized the characters, and xiǎozhuàn 小篆 'small seal script' became the official typeface. Li Si also wrote the *Cāngjiépiān* 仓颉篇 *'Book of Cangjie'*, which is considered a model and basis for literacy, as well as a standard for Chinese characters used in the Qin and Han dynasties.

From the first century CE (around 220), four types of Chinese dictionaries developed. The first category, inheriting from the *Shuōwén jiězì* 说文解字 'Graphics and Interpretation of the Sinograms', published in 100 CE, was compiled by Xu Shen (许慎, 58–147), a specialist in the Five Classics (canonical works in China whose content is considered "permanent"). This dictionary classifies words according to radicals and explains the composition of the characters. It is a fundamental work of graphic etymology in the history of Chinese lexicography. Xu Shen's system of classifying characters by radicals would be widely used in later Chinese dictionaries (Bottéro 2011: 47–48). The second category, derived from the *Erya* 尔雅 *'T*he Ready Guide', adopts a semantic classification and an encyclopedic approach. The third category, derived from the *Fangyan* 方言 'Dictionary of Regional Languages/Dialects', concerns specialized dictionaries, particularly those focused on ancient and Buddhist texts. Finally, the fourth category approaches words from their phonetic aspect, similar to the *Shìmíng* 释名'Explaining terms', using rhyme books that employ the fǎnqiè ⊠⊠ method, a traditional phonetic system that indicates the pronunciation of a character by combining the initial consonant of one character with the final of another.

The period of exploration and development of dictionaries continued under the Wei, Jin, and Southern and Northern Dynasties (220–589 CE), while the mature period was characterized by the Sui, Tang, and Five Dynasties (618–907 CE).

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During this time, the Chinese language underwent significant changes, influenced by the fusion of the Confucian, Buddhist, and Taoist schools of thought, as well as the emergence of many neologisms. This era also saw the appearance of the first bilingual dictionaries, which translated Sanskrit into Chinese, such as *Yīqièjīng yīnyì* 一切經音義 'Phonetic Explanations of All the Scriptures' and *Huāyánjīng yīnyì* 華嚴經音義 'Phonetic Explanations of the Huayan Sutra'.

During the dictionary boom period, spanning the Song, Liao, Jin, and Yuan dynasties (960–1368 CE) and continuing into the early and middle Ming period (14th–16th centuries CE), the role of dictionaries as cultural artifacts became increasingly important.

In this century, the Yǒnglè dàdiǎn 永乐大典 'Yongle Encyclopedia', literally 'The Great Canon' or 'The Vast Documents of the Yongle Era' was compiled on the orders of the Yongle Emperor of the Ming dynasty. The work, produced between 1403 and 1408, brought together the knowledge of the time, including the Confucian canon, the arts, and both the human and exact sciences. According to the Encyclopedia Britannica, it was the largest encyclopedia then known and one of the earliest works of its kind.

Chinese and European lexicography follow common principles, with the initial function of dictionaries being educational tools. Dictionaries played a key role in promoting vernacular languages alongside academic or liturgical ones. In England and France, this contributed to the stabilization of French and English as dominant languages, while in China, the use of Chinese characters continued to evolve while remaining deeply rooted in written culture. Another notable difference lies in the organization of dictionaries. European dictionaries were initially ordered by occurrence in texts (e.g., *Glossarium Monacense*), then by the first letter (e.g., Johannes Balbus's *Catholicon*, 1286), before adopting full alphabetical order in the late Middle Ages (e.g., Robert Estienne, *Dictionarium Latinogallicum*, 1539; Robert Cawdrey, *Table Alphabeticall*, 1604). In China, the classification of characters was based on radicals (e.g., *Shuōwén Jiězì* 说文解字, compiled by Xu Shen around 100 CE, which organized about 9,000 characters under 540 radicals), an approach that prefigured modern systems. This structural difference reflects divergent conceptions of language: phonetic and alphabetic in Europe, morphological and logographic in China.

3.2 The 16th Century

Between the 14th and 16th centuries, Europe was dominated by feudal ideology. The merchant economy was beginning to show its first signs; capitalism was germinating and developing, and the Renaissance movement was underway. In the

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16th century, French and English competed with Latin. The Tudor dynasty of the 16th century was a period of great transitional importance in British history. Industrialization facilitated trade markets and urbanization. National economic development pushed Britain to expand overseas. In the conflict between the English Crown and papal authority, the sovereignty of the English state was gradually strengthened, paving the way for the consolidation of national consciousness. The linguistic and cultural context of the 16th century (Shakespeare's works), combined with the influence of the Renaissance movement, brought about significant changes in linguistic dynamics. From the emergence of Modern English to the standardization of the writing system and the expansion of vocabulary, English evolved alongside other European languages.

Among the earliest milestones in English lexicography was *Ortus Vocabulorum* (c. 1500), which served as the basis for later works. In 1538, Sir Thomas Elyot's *The Dictionary of Sir Thomas Eliot* marked a significant advance by incorporating extensive Latin vocabulary into English. Soon after, John Withals's *A Shorte Dictionarie for Yonge Beginners* (1553) provided a practical tool for learners. In 1542, Robert Estienne (Stephanus) produced the *Dictionarium puerorum Latino-Gallicum*, while in 1565, Thomas Cooper's *Thesaurus Linguae Romanae et Britannicae* established a major bridge between Latin and English. The period also saw innovative works such as *The Manipulus Vocabulorum* (1570), noted as the first English–Latin dictionary arranged primarily by rhyme. John Baret's *An Alvearie or Quadruple Dictionarie* (1573) and Thomas Thomas's *Dictionarium Linguae Latinae et Anglicanae* (1587), also known as the *Bibliotheca Scholastica*, further expanded English–Latin lexicography. Collectively, these dictionaries—monolingual, bilingual, and pedagogical—demonstrate how Renaissance scholarship and continental traditions shaped the development of English lexicography in the sixteenth century.

The first French-Latin dictionary, *Dictionarium latino-gallicum* (1539), created by Robert Estienne, marks the beginning of French lexicography. Moreover, in 1539, the same Robert Estienne had the innovative idea of reversing the presentation of the languages, resulting in our first dictionary, this time French-Latin. In the 16th century, French dictionaries emerged in parallel with important linguistic and political reforms, initiated by the Ordinance of Villers-Cotterêts of François I in 1539, which imposed French as the official language of the state, weakening regional languages and Latin.

This was followed by works such as Jean Nicot's *Thrésor de la langue françoyse* (1573) , which, although mainly bilingual, begins to document French autonomously. All that remains is to move from the "false bilingual dictionary" (Quemada 1968, Pruvost 2000/2021), characterized by a French word followed by

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its Latin equivalent, accompanied by comments in French, to the monolingual dictionary, where each article presents a French word followed by explanations in French without referencing Latin. Bilingual dictionaries, such as *Randle Cotgrave's French-English* (1611), testify to the growing influence of French in Europe. These works demonstrate an evolution toward a standardized and lexicographically documented French language, aided by the printers and scholars of the time, preparing the ground for the monolingual dictionaries and the linguistic unity of the "Grand Siècle" (Pruvost 2000/2021: 21).

In China, during the Ming Dynasty (1368 – 1644), the development of dictionaries became increasingly mature, along with the emergence of various types of dictionaries. As Western knowledge spread to the East, people became aware of the coexistence of various civilizations in the world and the need to learn about and understand the ideas, cultures, and scientific advancements of Western nations. Significant advances were made in various fields of linguistic research. Dictionary compilation became both comprehensive and pragmatic, with improved methods that paid attention to the inherent laws of language development. Rules regarding layout, font, pronunciation, citation, and definitions—including the relationship between form, sound, and meaning—were systematized. The arrangement of strokes evolved from the formal structure of the *Shuowen Jiezi* 说文解字 'Explaining Graphs and Analyzing Characters', compiled in 100 CE, Eastern Han) to the methodical organization of the *Zìhuì* 字汇 '*V*ocabulary of Characters' (1615). Polysemous words were explained through layered meanings, and book and chapter titles were added to facilitate the verification of sources. During this period, about 500 Chinese dictionaries of various types were compiled, and several iconic works emerged.

Bilingual dictionaries other than Sanskrit also appeared during this period. In 1575, the Spanish Augustinian cleric Rada compiled the *Huáyǔ yùn biān* 华语韵编 'Chinese Rhymes', which was compiled in Spanish and based on the Hokkien dialect. Between 1583 and 1588, the Italian Jesuit missionaries Ruggieri and Ricci created the *Púhàn cídiǎn* 葡汉辞典 'Portuguese-Chinese Dictionary'. The impact of foreign dictionaries and their compilation methods, introduced through the diffusion of Xīxué dōng jiān 西学东渐 'Eastward spread of Western learning' (More precisely 1628 to 1700), was evident not only in the Chinese-foreign dictionaries compiled by missionaries but also in the profound evolution of the compilation concepts of modern Chinese dictionaries. This influence allowed the compilation of Chinese dictionaries to draw on European and American methods, as well as integrating elements of traditional calligraphy, rhymes, and classical texts. Thus, it paved the way for the modernization of Chinese dictionaries.

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In the 16th century, the rise of nation-states and the consolidation of national sovereignty had a significant impact on the evolution of languages and lexicography (e.g., the Ordinance of Villers-Cotterêts, Tudors). While England and France followed a similar path, evolving from the Latin-bilingual model toward a lexicography more focused on their national languages, China maintained a more traditional approach, privileging philological analysis and the preservation of knowledge. Under the Ming Dynasty, lexicography developed in parallel with the expansion of knowledge and the diffusion of European ideas. However, in all three cases, lexicography reflected the socio-political and cultural transformations of the time, testifying to the growing importance of vernacular languages in constructing national and intellectual identities. Despite these parallels, major differences exist. In Europe, the Renaissance and printing favored linguistic standardization, while in China, lexicography remained influenced by philological traditions and the study of Chinese characters, placing an emphasis on the relationship between form, sound, and meaning.

3.3 The 17th century

In Europe, the 17th century marked a significant transition from bilingual to monolingual dictionaries. In England, this boom was closely linked to major historical events, such as the establishment of the East India Company, the creation of colonies in North America, and the impact of the Stuart monarchies on language and culture, all of which influenced the language and culture of the time. Internal conflicts, such as the English Civil War and the formation of the Commonwealth of England, also played a fundamental role in this linguistic evolution. According to Osselton (2009: 131), hard-word dictionaries were mainly created in the first half of the seventeenth century. They covered almost all of what were considered "learned" headwords. Encyclopedic dictionaries, by contrast, were mainly produced in the second half of the century, with all encyclopedic headwords organized within an alphabetical macrostructure in the same way as common words. Although 17th-century English dictionaries were still dominated by Latin-English and English-Latin bilingual dictionaries, there were also a limited number of new multilingual dictionaries that combined English with French and Dutch. Under the influence of the Renaissance, Britain experienced significant cultural, scientific, and technological advances, marked by the founding of the Royal Society, which emphasized the importance of science and technology. The British population increased dramatically, fostering growth in elementary and higher education, which led to a demand for the compilation

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of dictionaries. In England, although lacking a formal academy, intensive discussions about linguistic norms and purity stimulated dictionary compilation, laying the groundwork for reference works such as the Oxford Dictionary. In this century, the process of developing English lexicography drew on a legacy of centuries of lexicographical traditions in both Europe and the Middle East.

The emergence of the first monolingual dictionaries in English, initiated through the integration of Latin and French glossaries into the texts, was marked by works such as Robert Cawdrey's *A Table Alphabeticall* in 1604, which is considered the first monolingual English dictionary. The first hard-word dictionary after Cawdrey was John Bullokar's *The English Expositour* (1616), followed by Henry Cockeram's *The English Dictionarie: or, An interpreter of hard English vvords* (1623). This hard-word tradition culminated in Thomas Blount's *Glossographia* (1656) and Edward Philips's *New World of English Words* (c. 1630–1696). Coles then published *An English Dictionary* (1676), which introduced slang and dialects. The era of difficult words in English lexicography gradually came to an end with the publication of *Gazophylactium Anglicanum* (1689), marking the beginning of English philology and lexicography. During this time, interest in English dialects took shape through the works of Laurence Nowell and John Ray, laying the groundwork for dialect dictionaries in the 18th century. Additionally, bilingual teaching textbooks helped standardize English spelling, with works such as *Vocabula* by John Stanbridge and *The Writing Schoolmaister* (1596) by Peter Bale. They played a crucial role in laying the foundations for the later development of English lexicography, with notable advances in dictionary structure and increasing attention to the quality of definitions and grammatical annotations. Compilers, often with university education and teaching experience, contributed to the evolution of dictionaries of the period, laying the foundations for modern lexicography (Yong & Peng 2022).

In France, the centralization of power in the hands of the king is part of what came to be known as "absolute monarchy" under Kings Louis XIII and Louis XIV. They sought a strong, centralized state, which consequently required a strong language—specifically, a dominant "state language." To achieve this, a common code for the French language was necessary. At the same time, the emergence of monolingual French dictionaries marked a significant turning point in the evolution of the language. Influential figures such as Malherbe advocated for a purified and standardized language, emphasizing clarity, conciseness, and precision in French words. It was from this need that the three key dictionaries in our history were developed: the first three monolingual dictionaries, which appeared successively in the last twenty years of the 17th century, known in France as the "Grand Siècle".

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In 1635, under Louis XIII, the Académie française was established with one objective: to create a completely monolingual dictionary for France. This dictionary aimed to formally record the French language of a great nation and to reduce the dominance of Latin as the international language, making French the preferred language in Europe instead. The *Dictionnaire de l'Académie*, begun in 1635, would not be published until 1694. Two other monolingual dictionaries were released before this date: first, the *Dictionnaire françois* by Richelet (1680), which clearly defines French words, often with illustrative quotes. This work serves as a language dictionary that describes words in their usage; it is essentially the ancestor of the *Petit Robert* and the *Littré*. In 1690, the second dictionary of the trilogy, the *Dictionnaire universel* by Furetière, was published. This dictionary provided not only definitions of words but also encyclopedic information, including geographical, historical, and cultural details related to the terms described. It represents the first encyclopedic dictionary and can be considered the ancestor of the *Petit Larousse*. Finally, in 1694, the third component of the founding triptych of monolingual lexicography was released: the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie française*. This work presents correct and elegant usage, featuring numerous examples written in high-quality French by the Academicians, though it does not include quotes from literary authors.

In China, during the 17th century under the Ming dynasty, notable advances in lexicography also took place, with works such as the *Zìhuì* 字汇 'Collection of Characters', published in 1615. Its fame is attributed to two lexicographical innovations still in use today: a simplified Chinese character indexing system comprising 214 radicals, compared to the 540 in the classical dictionary *Shuōwén jiězì* 说文解字'Explanation of Graphics and Interpretation of Chinese Characters' (100 CE), and a method of sorting radicals and characters according to the number of strokes. Other dictionaries, such as the *Zhèngzìtōng* 正字通 'Comprehensive [dictionary] of orthodox characters' (1627), and the *Tōngyǎ* 通雅 'Comprehensive correct [dictionary]' (1659), illustrate efforts to catalog and standardize the Chinese lexicon.

The socio-political context in England, particularly the Civil War and the Glorious Revolution, influenced lexicography by reinforcing the need for standardization and clarification of the language. In France, the centralization of power under Louis XIV favored the codification of French as the state language. In China, during the Ming (1368–1644) and Qing (1644–1912) dynasties, lexicography accompanied efforts of cultural and administrative consolidation. The differences concern the objectives and functions of the dictionaries. In England, dictionaries of "difficult words" aim to make scholarly terms accessible to a wider audience while integrating encyclopedic elements (e.g., *The English Dictionary* by Henry

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Cockeram, 1623). In France, the dictionary serves as an instrument of linguistic prescription, aiming to establish "correct usage." In China, dictionaries are primarily tools for learning and clarifying Chinese characters, focusing more on writing and reading than on the definition of words. Their methods of classification are different. In England and France, monolingual dictionaries adopt alphabetical order. In China, dictionaries rely on classification by radicals and the number of strokes, facilitating the identification of characters rather than their lexical definitions. Although these three lexicographic traditions share the goals of standardization and the dissemination of knowledge, they are distinguished by their socio-political contexts and methodologies. England favors a pragmatic approach, France adopts a prescriptive and centralized perspective, and China pursues a millennia-old tradition of character organization. These differences and convergences have shaped the modern evolution of lexicography in their respective countries.

3.4 The 18th century

The 18th century represents a turning point toward scientific and structured lexicography, laying the foundations for modern dictionaries. In England, the Age of Enlightenment brought a major transformation in the study and compilation of languages through the development of socio-lexicography, influenced by key stages such as the Industrial Revolution of the 1750s. Influenced by institutions in other European countries, such as the Académie française (1635), Great Britain also hoped to create similar institutions. In the 18th centurary, Great Britain experienced significant events that had important, profound, and lasting repercussions on British political and sociocultural life, such as industrialization, the creation of the United Kingdom of Great Britain 1707, the Franco-British wars waged overseas, and the annexation of Indian territories. Captain Cook's voyage to Australia and the victory in the American War of Independence radically transformed the distribution of English-speaking areas throughout the world, making English a language spoken in all major parts of the globe. The favorable circumstances both inside and outside Great Britain led to English becoming an international language in the true sense of the term. For this reason, a succession of authoritative dictionaries began to emerge in the 18th century, notably *Johnson's Dictionary* (1755), as well as early dictionaries like Kersey's augmented edition of *A New English Dictionary* (1702), which was the first dictionary to cover American usage, and *Glossographia Anglicana Nova* (1707), the first English dictionary to include engraved illustrations. These dictionaries reflected transformations in the compilation of concepts, moving beyond the hard-word tradition that

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had mainly addressed anxieties over Latinate, Greek, and other foreign terms. In 1728, *Cyclopædia: or, An Universal Dictionary of Arts and Sciences* was published. In 1755, Samuel Johnson published his famous *Dictionary of the English Language*, which had a lasting impact on the English language. Other notable contributions include Joseph Nicol Scott's *New Universal Etymological English Dictionary* (1755) and the *Encyclopædia Britannica*, published between 1768 and 1771. These dictionaries emphasized etymology and word usage, thus facilitating their understanding.

The 18th century also saw significant initiatives in France. This period was ended with the French Revolution, enrichment took place in two ways. First, it was the confirmation of the genres born at the end of the 17th century: the "language dictionary" and the "encyclopedic dictionary." On the language dictionary side, the selective approaches specific to the Academy were developed and refined with no fewer than four editions of the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie française* during the 18th century, while Richelet's *Dictionnaire françois*, based on the wealth of nomenclature and quotations from the outset, continued to flourish through various reissues. This then marked the birth of a new genre, the "encyclopedia", whose seeds borrowed from England took on exceptional vigor in France with the *Encyclopédie of Diderot and d'Alembert* (1751), a monumental work, decisive in editorial know-how, capable of definitively integrating lexicography into the history of ideas. In fact, it is a new lexicographic and dictionary genre that has just been born with the "encyclopedia": these are effectively thematically organized words that are described at length. As the perception of the meanings of words is refined, so too is the understanding of ideas, which, through numerous articles, testifies to a sensitive openness and perhaps unknowingly prepares the way for the French Revolution that broke out in 1789.

A number of small, specific dictionaries also appeared during the 18th century. These were then "specialized dictionaries of the language," particularly those dealing with synonyms, neologisms, proverbs, difficult words, slang words. A second mission was to improve general knowledge of specialized vocabularies, as science and technology were in full swing during the Age of Enlightenment. Nor should we forget Girard's dictionary of synonyms, which first appeared in 1718 under the title *Justesse de la langue françoise* or the *Différences significations des mots* which pass for being synonyms, a work followed in 1736 by an expanded edition called *Synonymes françois, leurs différents significations et le choix qu'il faut faire pour parler avec justement.*

Meanwhile, in China, the Qing Dynasty ruled the country from 1644 to 1912, and lexicography continued to evolve. A new dynasty in Chinese history is usually marked by its representative dictionary, which makes it different and supe-

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rior to previous dynasties. Stimulated by Western learning, the Chinese aimed to create dictionaries as large and comprehensive as possible. The first dictionary named *Dictionary of Chinese Characters* 'Zìdiǎn 字典' was the *Kāngxī zìdiǎn* 康熙字典 'Dictionary of Chinese Characters of the Kāngxī Era' (1716). *Dictionary of Kāngxī* was the standard Chinese character dictionary of the 18th and 19th centuries. It contains 49,030 characters (including 1,995 variants), classified under 214 keys, then by number of strokes.

In addition, works such as *Pèiwényùnfǔ* 佩文韵府 'Rime Storehouse of Esteemed Phrases' (1711) and *tōngsúbiān* 通俗编 'Compilation of Popular Literature' (1711) added to the enrichment of the Chinese lexicon, illustrating the systematization and standardization of language during this period. Other compilations, such as *jīngjízuǎn gǔ* 经籍纂诂 (1798) and *piánzìlèibiān'* 骈字类编 'Collected Explanations of the Classics' (1726), demonstrate the attention paid to the evolution and documentation of vernacular languages. This period also saw a shift toward more accessible lexicographic works, catering to the needs of a wider audience.

Thus, the 18th century was marked by a desire to structure and standardize the language in three countries: France, Great Britain, and China. In each of these countries, important dictionaries were published to codify and preserve the language. In France, the creation of specialized dictionaries responded to a growing demand for precision. In Great Britain, lexicography evolved from a focus on rare words to dictionaries designed for the user, while in China, the systematic approach of *Dictionary of Kāngxī* facilitated the learning of Chinese characters. The rise of lexicography in these countries is also linked to social and political transformations. In France, the ideals of the Enlightenment influenced encyclopedias, such as those of Diderot and d'Alembert, while in Great Britain, colonial expansion and the Industrial Revolution favored the production of dictionaries. In China, lexicography emerged as a means of preserving cultural heritage in the face of the growing influence of Western knowledge.

However, there are notable differences in the nature and objectives of dictionaries. In France, the emphasis is on encyclopedism and the dissemination of Enlightenment ideas, while in Britain, lexicography focuses on the standardization of English. In China, the main objective is to catalogue and preserve linguistic heritage. Methodologically, French lexicography is evolving towards an encyclopedic model, while in Britain it favors an etymological and descriptive approach. In China, the structure is based on a system of keys and features to classify sinograms. Finally, the impact of lexicography on society also varied across regions. In France, works such as the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie française* (1694) not only standardized the national language but also played a role in shaping Enlightenment and revolutionary discourse. In Britain, Samuel Johnson's *A*

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Dictionary of the English Language (1755) reinforced the prestige of English and contributed to its spread as an international language of science and culture. In China, monumental projects such as the *Kāngxī zìdiǎn* 康熙字典 (1716) helped preserve linguistic and cultural traditions by systematizing the written language and transmitting classical knowledge. Each country used lexicography to assert its national identity, with France seeking to structure universal knowledge, Britain standardizing English in an imperial context, and China reinforcing its cultural heritage. Thus, lexicography emerged as a powerful tool of power and control, accompanying political and social change in France and Britain, while in China it reflected a desire for preservation under a dynasty seeking stability.

3.5 The 19th century

In the 19th century, industrialization played a notable role in England and France, coupled with linguistic reforms and the evolution of lexicographic practices. However, their motivations diverged: England was driven by the need for systematization and an international standard, while France aimed to democratize knowledge after social upheavals. China, on the other hand, was on the cusp of increasing interaction with the West, using bilingual lexicographies to address foreign linguistic influences.

England was marked by political and social stability, in contrast to the turbulence of the earlier period. Industrialization, scientific and technological advances, and urbanization reinforced England's status as the first industrialized and urbanized society. The English language spread globally through British colonial expansion, and iconic writers such as Jane Austen, Charles Dickens, and Thomas Hardy enriched English literature during their time. The establishment of the Philological Society of London in 1842 led to the compilation of the *Oxford English Dictionary (OED)*, marking the apogee of English lexicography in the 19th century.

The establishment of the Philological Society in 1842 in London marked a turning point for the study of the English language. Notable achievements included John Ogilvie's *The Imperial Dictionary of the English Language* (1847–1850) and the *Oxford English Dictionary* (1884), both of which set new standards. At this time, English lexicography was evolving considerably under the influence of European philology and the innovative concepts that led to the creation of the *New English Dictionary on Historical Principles* (NED) between 1884 and 1928, which highlighted the importance of the history of words and later became known as the OED. Other contributions include Robert Hunter's *The Encyclopædic Dictionary* (1879–1888) and the *New English Dictionary on Historical Principles* (1859),

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which enriched the understanding of the lexicon through an encyclopedic and historical approach. New types of dictionaries emerged, such as encyclopedic dictionaries in English, bilingual English dictionaries, and dialect dictionaries. In addition, synonym, slang, quotation, and etymological dictionaries also emerged.

In 19th-century France, the French Revolution brought a major linguistic boost, marked by the democratization of the language and the introduction of new words. Romantic influences enriched literature with a colorful and diverse vocabulary, transcending the barriers of classical words. This development spawned a new interest in lexicography, with, on the one hand, a tendency to accumulate large numbers of words, exemplified by works like Boiste's *Dictionnaire universel de la langue française* (1800) and Nodier's *Pan-Lexique* (1800–1857), which aimed to collect the greatest possible number of words, regardless of the quality of the information, to respond to the encyclopedic momentum of the time. The *Dictionnaire général de la langue française du début du XVIIe siècle jusqu'à nos jours*, initiated in 1871 and published in two volumes in 1890 and 1900, played a significant role in 20th-century lexicography. In the wake of the French Revolution, dictionaries became more widely available. Thus, a huge number of "portable" dictionaries appeared, including "specialized dictionaries of the language" (Pruvost 2000/2021), such as new dictionaries of synonyms, dictionaries of neologisms, spelling dictionaries, etc. Among the "language dictionaries" of large format but also of small format, taking the name of their author, the Bescherelle, among others, accumulated many words without being of high quality in the definitions proposed.

In the 19th century in France, the creation of major dictionaries by *Littré* marked an important period in lexicographical history. With his monumental *Dictionnaire de la langue française*, published between 1863 and 1873, he illustrated philological and historical lexicography with a rich nomenclature over three centuries, abundant quotations and a historical approach. On the other hand, *Larousse*, with its *Grand Dictionnaire universel du XIXe siècle*, opted for a two-part formula: language and encyclopedic aspects. The *Larousse* dictionary, although more extensive than *Littré's*, was able to integrate elements of comparative linguistics and made extensive use of the writings of 19th-century writers, adopting an eclecticism in the selection of quotations.

During this period of the Qing Dynasty, China experienced domestic military conflicts and foreign aggressions, such as the Taiping Rebellion, the Opium War, the Sino-Japanese War, and other influences. However, due to the influence of foreign languages, bilingual dictionaries continued to develop. It was in this context that the first English-Chinese bilingual dictionary appeared. During this period, China began to establish linguistic ties with the West. The *Huáyīng zìdiǎn* 华英字

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典 *Chinese-English Dictionary* (1815–1823) was the first bilingual English-Chinese dictionary, facilitating the cultural and linguistic exchange between the two worlds through an innovative bilingual approach. These contributions marked a period of intense lexicographical activity, laying the foundations for the modernization and internationalization of language studies.

The political and social context, such as revolutions, wars, and imperial expansions, directly influences lexicographic orientations and priorities, ranging from preservation, expansion, and linguistic innovation. The interaction between nationalism and lexicography can be observed, where languages become symbols of cultural identity and criteria of international prestige, while adapting to or resisting global changes.

3.6 The 20th Century

The socio-lexicography of the 20th century was marked by significant advances in the creation of modern dictionaries, influenced by social, technological, and cultural changes. Each country has produced influential lexicographical works that have set the linguistic standards for their respective languages. In England, the 20th century saw the publication of dictionaries that refined the understanding and use of the English language. Essential resources were provided by *The Concise Oxford Dictionary of Current English* (1911) and the *Chambers Twentieth Century Dictionary* (1901). In 1942, *The Advanced Learner's Dictionary of Current English* was introduced, making learning English easier for a wider audience. Publications such as the *Oxford Compact English Dictionary* (1996) and Lesley Brown's *The New Shorter Oxford English Dictionary (*1993) have ensured the continuation of this comprehensive lexicographical tradition.

The first half of the 20th century is marked by the growing presence of *Larousse* editions in various markets. From 1898 to 1904, the *Nouveau larousse illustré* 'New Illustrated Larousse Dictionary', published in 7 volumes, represented the first eponymous work of the Maison Larousse, directed by Claude Augé. In 1905, the *Petit larousse illustré* was born, achieving immediate success and never being denied thereafter. As for the French Academy, faithful to its lexicographical mission, it published the eighth edition of its dictionary in 1935, following the sixth edition published in 1835 and the seventh in 1878. These successive editions continued the Academy's long-standing aim of codifying "bon usage" ('good usage') through carefully selected examples and prescriptive definitions, as explicitly stated in the prefaces to each edition (Académie française, 1835/1878/1935).

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With the second half of the 20th century, another period began that is often called the "Golden century", as it proved to be revolutionary for lexicography stimulated by computers: we gradually moved from paper to computer media, first to CD-ROM and then directly to the Internet, facilitating wider distribution.

In fact, four major language dictionaries stand out: the *Dictionnaire alphabétique et analogique* by Paul Robert, in 6 volumes, completed in 1964; the *Grand Larousse de la langue française*, completed in 1978; the *Trésor de la langue française*, with 16 volumes completed in 1994; and the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie française*, published in the following century in 2025.

Starting in 1971, the adventure of the *Trésor de la langue française* (TLF) began under the CNRS, initially directed by Paul Imbs and later by Bernard Quemada. From the outset, computing played a role in the creation of the TLF, and later became freely accessible online with a powerful search engine. At the same time, the *Dictionnaire alphabétique et analogique de la langue française*, commonly called the "Grand Robert", was also computerized for public access and quickly became available in digital form on computers and mobile devices. There was also the Hachette multimedia version, which was very prominent on CD-ROM for a long time. However, another great era began with the Internet, and the 21st century corresponded to a significant revolution in the world of dictionaries.

In China, the 20th century was a period of linguistic transformations. This era was marked by significant changes due to political and social influences, notably with the publication of 辞海 *Cíhǎi* 'Sea of Words' (1915), one of the first complete dictionaries. Between 1949 and 1965, in order to respond to urgent literacy needs, practical dictionaries with new form and content emerged. However, there was a time when the development of dictionaries was not going well. The 文化大革命 Wénhuà dàgémìng 'Cultural Revolution' from 1966 to 1977 caused a regression, since for ten years the only dictionary available was *Xīnhuá zìdiǎn* 新华字典 'Xinhua Dictionary', which became an essential reference work. In July 1967, even *Cíhǎi* 辭海 'Sea of Words' faced severe criticism from the Central organization for propaganda and publication during the Cultural Revolution. After the Cultural Revolution, dictionaries were reborn. Technological innovations also saw the creation of x*iàndài hànyǔ yǔfǎ xìnxī cídiǎn* 现代汉语语法信息词典 'Modern chinese grammar information dictionary' (1977), integrating elements of modern grammar.

In the 20th century, the shift to digital media transformed the compilation and access to dictionaries in all countries. The integration of computer technology and digitalization played a crucial role in transforming traditional lexicographical processes (compilation, organization, research using digital tools). The transition to electronic media greatly influenced French and English lexicography,

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marked by the introduction of electronic dictionaries and CD-ROM editions. Although it started slightly later, China also embraced electronic dictionaries and online databases, particularly with the development of bilingual dictionaries and machine translation projects.

During the 20th century, Britain, France, and China each produced significant lexicographical works that became foundational texts for their respective languages (*OED*, *TLF*, *Hànzì dà cídiǎn* 汉字大词典 'Great Chinese Dictionary of Sinograms'), which were driven by socio-political and cultural changes. The use of corpora for dictionary compilation became a common practice across these nations, enhancing the richness and accessibility of their linguistic resources.

Despite these similarities, the historical context and motivations behind lexicographical developments differed significantly among the three countries. In Britain, the global rise of English as an international language, propelled by economic and political power, expanded the necessity for comprehensive English dictionaries. In France, the development of educational and democratic dictionaries was driven by the legacy of the 19th century, particularly the *Guizot Law* (1833), which aimed to reflect evolving linguistic and cultural norms. Conversely, China's dictionary compilation rapidly evolved due to dramatic socio-political changes, including the influence of Western thought and the establishment of the People's Republic of China, which aligned with modern linguistic developments.

The types of dictionaries produced also varied widely. Britain saw the rise of diverse dictionaries, including learner's dictionaries, electronic formats, and specialized references such as thesauruses. In France, there was a focus on comprehensive and regularly updated dictionaries that reflected the current state of language and knowledge, alongside a strong tradition of large, multi-volume works. In China, there was an emphasis on creating bilingual dictionaries to facilitate the integration of Western knowledge and promote Mandarin, particularly in response to literacy and educational needs. Institutional influence also played distinct roles in each country, with Britain relying on entities like the Oxford University Press and the Survey of English Usage, while France's contributions largely came from private organizations like Larousse, especially in the first half of the 20th century. In China, the state had a significant impact on lexicography, particularly after 1949, focusing on standardizing and promoting modern Chinese through state-sponsored dictionaries.

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4 Conclusion

Dictionary development does not occur in a vacuum; it reflects and shapes society in a variety of ways. Dictionaries encapsulate a society's linguistic identity and cultural essence, documenting norms and standardization while adapting to changes in language use. They serve as essential educational tools that support language acquisition and literacy. Additionally, dictionaries reflect changes in political landscapes and societal values, often incorporating religious terms that impact communication within the culture. They record the language of civil interactions and societal norms, facilitating communication between countries and fostering understanding across language barriers. The advent of digital technology—and in particular Artificial Intelligence (AI)—has transformed the way dictionaries are compiled and used, making them more accessible and dynamic (Rundell 2023, De Schryver 2023d,b,c,a, Chen et al. 2024). The study of dictionaries is not limited to words; it is a profound exploration of human society, reflecting the evolution of our language, culture, and social structures over time. In this light, dictionaries serve as essential artifacts of our collective heritage, embodying the complexities of human expression and interaction. All three countries demonstrate that their lexicographic development is the result of a complex interaction between history, culture, and educational needs. England and France were influenced by political turbulence and power shifts that directly impacted language and writing media, while China advances with a more ancient cultural and historical continuity, highlighting the diversity of lexicographic experiences around the world.

Today, with the emergence of AI, lexicography in England, France, and China has undergone significant developments, marked by social, political, and technological transformations. All three countries have shared a tendency to adopt technological innovations, such as digitalization and computerization, to improve access to and use of dictionaries.

The original contribution of this paper lies in tracing these developments across three major lexicographic traditions within a single comparative framework. By examining England, France, and China side by side, it highlights both common trends—such as the drive to standardize language and to modernize reference tools—and the distinctive cultural and institutional contexts that shaped their trajectories. The significance of this approach is to broaden our understanding of lexicography as both a linguistic and cultural practice, revealing how dictionaries serve as mirrors of national identity as well as vehicles of communication.

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Part II

Creating dictionaries for learners: Historical lexicographical strategies for language learning

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Chapter 8

Unveiling the significance of formulaic knowledge in a Portuguese enlightenment dictionary

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This study explores the integration of proverbs into Raphael Bluteau's *Vocabulario Portuguez e Latino* (1712–1728), a pivotal lexicographic work of the Portuguese Enlightenment. By compiling definitions, etymologies, and a wide range of explanatory information, the work supports instruction and the dissemination of learning. Although still influenced by religious tradition, it anticipates Enlightenment principles by emphasizing reason, clarity, and the educational purpose of knowledge. While primarily a dictionary, Bluteau's vocabulary incorporates over a thousand proverbs that serve multiple purposes: they illustrate definitions, clarify ambiguous meanings, and occasionally allow the preservation of archaic words within the Portuguese lexicon. By examining both the macro- and microstructural organization of these entries, this study reveals Bluteau's systematic approach to categorization and his use of proverbs to connect Portuguese with other linguistic traditions, such as Latin, Castilian, and French.

Bluteau's inclusion of proverbs reflects his appreciation for their stylistic and rhetorical qualities, such as rhyme, symmetry, and metaphorical resonance. Furthermore, his engagement with classical and contemporary sources, including works by Delicado (1651) and Pereira (1655), highlights his reliance on established collections while expanding the repertoire to enhance his dictionary's comprehensiveness. This study argues that Bluteau's methodology, deeply rooted in Enlightenment ideals and classical traditions, elevates proverbs beyond mere linguistic artifacts to tools for intellectual and moral instruction, independently of their scientific merit. Ultimately, this analysis underscores the enduring value of formulaic knowledge in early modern lexicography and its role in bridging past and present cultural narratives.

Historical lexicography; Enlightenment lexicography; Bluteau; Formulaic knowledge; Proverbs

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1 Introduction

In the late 17th and early 18th centuries, the collection and documentation of proverbs played a peculiar role in the development of European lexicography. Proverbs, as succinct and often witty expressions of shared knowledge or moral teachings, encapsulated the wisdom of both ancestral and contemporary communities. Their alleged stylistic elegance captivated scholars and lexicographers alike, and while some of these proverbs have fallen into obscurity, their enduring appeal is evident in their continued use.[1] Although their meanings remain unchanged, many are now expressed in slightly altered formulations (1a, 1b and footnote 2) or subject to playful manipulation - either by subverting their initial meaning (1c, 1d) or transforming the original sentence into a nonsensical phrase (1e, 1f). The examples in (1a, 1b) were sourced from Bluteau's *Vocabulario* (Bluteau 1712–1728), while the remaining two reflect familiar expressions in contemporary European Portuguese, easily documented on social media.

(1) a. anda o carro diante dos bois[2] (s.v. **andar** 'to go')
goes the car ahead of bulls
'don't put the cart before the horse'[3]

b. quem engana ao ladrão, cem dias merece de perdão (s.v.
who cheats the thieve, hundred days deserves of pardon

[1]The proverb *Cada bofarinheiro louva seus alfinetes*, listed in Bluteau (1712–1728) under *alfinete* ('pin'), has fallen out of use. While the term *bufarinheiro* ('pitchman') is now obsolete, the meaning of the proverb remains accessible. It conveys the idea that people tend to value their own possessions, even if these are of little worth (cf. '*every peddler praises his wares*'). Another example is the proverb *Casaras, & amansaras*, listed in Bluteau (1712–1728) under *amansar* ('to tame'), which can still be found in some contemporary collections (cf. Santos 2014). However, it has largely faded from collective memory, and its likely meaning ('you shall marry and be tamed') is now mostly uninterpretable. Notably, the *Refranero multilingüe* (Centro Virtual Cervantes 1997) links a similar Castilian proverb to a 13th-century tale from the *Libro de los enxiemplos del Conde Lucanor et de Patronio*, titled *De lo que contesçió a un mançebo que casó con una muger muy fuerte et muy brava* ('*What happened to a young man who married a strong and ill-tempered woman*'). This story is believed to have inspired Shakespeare's *The Taming of the Shrew* (1594), underscoring the historical resonance of the proverb. Its widespread influence in Western culture persisted at least until the release of the 1967 film adaptation of the Shakespeare's play.

[3]All translations are ours unless so indicated.

[3]The following versions are attested in the *Refranero multilingüe* (Centro Virtual Cervantes 1997): *não coloque a carroça na frente dos bois*; *não ponha o carro adiante dos bois*; (não se deve) *pôr o carro na frente dos bois*; *não vá o carro adiante dos bois*; *o carro não anda à frente dos bois.*

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perdão 'pardon')
'It's no sin to cheat the cheater.'

c. no melhor pano cai a nódoa
in_the best cloth falls the stain
'A good marksman may miss.'

d. na melhor nódoa cai o pano
in_the best stain falls the cloth

e. quem sai aos seus não degenera
who take_after their own does not degenerate
'The apple doesn't fall far from the tree.'

f. quem sai aos seus não é de Genebra
who take_after their own is_not from Geneva

The origins and trajectories of proverbs—their persistence, obsolescence, and innovation—are not easy to trace. In this study, we have sought out their earliest attestations, particularly where these intersect with lexicographic sources. Some of the early Portuguese lexicographers, notably Antonio Delicado, compiler of *Adagios Portuguezes* (Delicado 1651), and Bento Pereira, author of *Adagios* (Pereira 1655), paid meticulous attention to proverbs, recording the rich tapestry of this formulaic knowledge.

Among them was the French Theatine priest Raphael Bluteau, who compiled the monumental *Vocabulario Portuguez e Latino* between 1712 and 1728. Bluteau's *Vocabulario* is not a collection of proverbs; it is a lexicographic achievement that seeks to demonstrate the linguistic wealth of the Portuguese language while fostering the education of its readers. However, his strategic inclusion of proverbs - which challenge contemporary intellectual trends such as the rise of Enlightenment thought and the growing influence of scientific discourse on lexicography - warrants analysis. Why should these sentences find a place in a dictionary, a resource dedicated to words? This study seeks to elucidate Bluteau's rationale for compiling such a comprehensive body of proverbs and to examine how he incorporated them into his lexicographic framework, in particular his intent to produce a pedagogically useful tool. To this end, we conducted a survey of dictionary entries in which the terms **ditado**, **paremia**, **provérbio**, **rifão**, and **adágio** occur, using the automatic search tools of the *Corpus Lexicográfico do Português* (https://clp.dlc.ua.pt/inicio.aspx).

The following sections outline a brief introduction to Bluteau and the relationship between his *Vocabulario* and other seminal works, such as Française (1694a),

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in Section 2. Subsequent sections discuss the inclusion of proverbs in the *Vocabulario* (Section 3), Bluteau's terminological choices (Section 4), and his sources (Section 5). The final sections present observations on proverbs in the macro and microstructure of the *Vocabulario* (Section 6), followed by reflections on Bluteau's motivations for including proverbs in his work (Sections 7 and 8).

2 Bluteau in his time

Raphael Bluteau was a French Theatine priest sent to Lisbon at the age of 30, in 1668.[4] Fluent in French, Italian, Castilian, and Latin, he had to learn Portuguese upon his arrival, likely relying on existing textbooks and dictionaries. For fifteen years, Bluteau gained prominence as a preacher, closely connected to the Portuguese court, and an active participant in Lisbon's literary salons. However, following the death of his patron, the French-born Queen Marie Françoise de Savoie, in 1683, Bluteau was forced into exile and chose Paris as his refuge.

During his time in Paris, the French were experiencing significant lexicographic activity, including the compilation of Furetière (1690) and the dictionary of the Française (1694a). It is likely that Bluteau interacted with members of the French Académie during his stay in Paris, as he references both dictionaries in his work.[5] The works of Furetière, the Academicians, and others, prefigured the *Encyclopédie*, by Diderot & d'Alembert (1751), published in the third quarter of the 18th century, which sought to change the way people think, gain knowledge, and learn about things. Like these French models, Bluteau (1712–1728) aimed to achieve comparable goals.

Although much of Bluteau's dictionary was compiled during his stay in Paris, its completion awaited his return to Portugal in 1704. Publication was delayed further until new Portuguese rulers agreed to sponsor it. The ten volumes of the *Vocabulario* were finally published between 1712 and 1728 and the impact of this monumental work was profound: it is recognized as the first monolingual Portuguese dictionary and a landmark achievement in Portuguese and European lexicography.

[4]Further details on Bluteau's biography can be found in Silvestre (2008: 19–50).

[5]See the Appendix for two pieces of evidence of Bluteau's interaction with the French Académie - one is related to the discussion of **movimento perpétuo** 'perpetual motion' and the other to **pedra filosofal** 'philosopher's stone'.

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3 Bluteau's proverbs

Bluteau's dictionary encompasses a vast array of entries, including common and proper nouns, attested words, and neologisms that the author estimated necessary or unnecessary. Consider the discussion about the relevance of French loanwords such as *affâres* or *dessert*:

> **affâres**. Palavra Franceza, derivada de Affaires, que val o mesmo, que negocios. Querem alguns introduzir na lingoa Portugueza esta palavra, como necessaria, quando se falla em negocios politicos; & jà a vejo impressa [...] Sem a experiencia dos Affares publicos.} Porem a muitos parece superflua a introducção desta nova palavra.
>
> > 'A French word, derived from Affaires, which means the same as business. Some want to introduce this word into the Portuguese language as necessary when talking about political matters; & I can already see it in print [...] Without the experience of public Affares.} But to many, the introduction of this new word seems superfluous.'
>
> **dessert**. He palavra Franceza, que há pouco se começa na Corte. Val o mesmo que sobremesa.
>
> > 'It is a French word, which has just recently started to be used at Court. It means dessert.'

His definitions strive to incorporate the scientific advancements of the late 17th century while also reflecting his personal viewpoints, often aligned with the dominant values of his time. Among the diverse information provided, the entries include more than one thousand proverbs. In the section of the prologue addressed to 'the foreign reader', Bluteau (1712–1728: I: 35) claims that Portuguese has more proverbs than comparable languages:

> Tem mais adagios, e sentenças, que todas as vulgares em fé de sua antiguidade
>
> > 'It has more adages and sentences than all the languages in faith of their antiquity'

Bluteau's comparison of Portuguese to other languages, along with his claim of its superior abundance of proverbs and sayings, was likely influenced by the disdain he encountered when announcing his intention to compile a Portuguese dictionary. In the same prologue, Bluteau justifies the monumental effort of documenting a language often dismissed as unworthy of such an undertaking (Silvestre 2001: 94).

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> Tambem houve, quem com rustica simplicidade me disse, que **naõ merecia a lingoa Portugueza tanto trabalho**. A rezaõ deste disparate he; que na opiniaõ da maior Parte dos Estrangeiros, a lingoa Portugueza naõ he lingoa de por si, como he o Francez, o Italiano, & c. mas lingoa enxacoca, & corrupçam do Castelhano, como os Dialectos, ou lingoagens particulares das provincias, que saõ corrupçoens da lingoa, que se falla na Corte.
>
> > 'There were also those who told me, with rustic simplicity, that the Portuguese language did not deserve so much work. The reason of this nonsense is that, in the opinion of most foreigners, the Portuguese language is not a language in its own right, like French or Italian, but a mixed language, a corruption of Castilian, similar to the dialects, or local languages of the provinces, which are corruptions of the language spoken at Court'

Bluteau seemingly regarded the richness of Portuguese proverbs as a compelling testament to the greatness of the language. But did he truly achieve that goal, and how did he approach it? The following sections delve into Bluteau's lexicographic treatment of proverbs in detail.

4 Proverbs and other terms

A comprehensive digital search of the digitized edition of Bluteau's *Vocabulario* shows that his treatment of proverbs encompasses several terms, including **ditado**, **paremia**, **provérbio**, **rifão** and **adagio**. Among these, **adagio** is the most frequently used, appearing over a thousand times.[6] This is the term Bluteau employed at the end of each entry to list the proverbs that include the headword:

> **rede**. Instrumento de fios tecidos em malhas, do qual usaõ pescadores, & caçadores. [...] § Adagios Portuguezes da rede. Cahio na rede. Andar às redes

[6]Although this is not the focus of the present study, it is worth noting that Bluteau occasionally classifies proverbs into typological categories, such as language-specific or evaluative groupings. These include, for instance, Portuguese, Castilian, or Latin proverbs, as well as categories such as *rude*, *galant*, *old*, or *ignominious* proverbs. Illustrative examples include: *antigo adágio dos caçadores Castelhanos* ('an old adage of Castilian hunters'); *Há hum adágio francês...* ('There is a French adage...'); *Tinhaõ os Gregos outro proverbio antigo...* ('The Greeks had another ancient proverb...'); *Têm os hebreus um galante adágio...* ('The Hebrews have an elegant adage...'); and *Diz o proverbio vulgar...* ('As the common proverb says...').

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> 'Instrument made of yarn woven into meshes, used by fishermen, & hunters. [...] § Portuguese proverbs for rede. Fall in the net. Taking care of the nets'

The entry for **adagio** defines it as a concise common saying that conveys popular knowledge:

> **adágio**. Sentença commum, popular, & breve com alluzão a alguma cousa. [...] Vid. Proverbio
>
> 'A common, popular, & brief sentence with allusion to something [...] See Proverbio'
>
> **sentença** [...] ditto grave, de poucas palavras, & com algum documento moral
>
> 'A brief and serious saying, consisting of few words, with some moral instruction'
>
> **ditto** [...] cousa bem ditta, ou seja grave, como as sentenças, ou aguda & maliciosa [...] & chamase Ditto porque diz em huma sô palavra, ou em muito poucas, muito de entendimento, de graça, ou de malicia.
>
> 'something well said whether serious, like sentences, or witty and malicious [...] It is called Ditto because, in a single word or very few, it conveys a great deal of understanding, wit, or malice'
>
> **grave** [...] serio [...] 'serious'
>
> **documento** [...] instrucçaõ 'instruction'

The term **sentença**, used in the definition of **adagio**, warrants attention because it narrows the scope. It specifically refers to a brief, serious saying with a moral instruction. Its definition further employs the term **ditto**, which Bluteau defines as something well said (*bem ditta*) that, in a single word or a few, imparts knowledge, wit, or malice. Synthesizing these definitions, we can infer that Bluteau valued the linguistic quality of the *adagios* as highly as, if not more than, their quantity.

The term **proverbio** appears less frequently than **adagio**, occurring just around sixty times, and is often used to introduce proverbs that help elucidate a concept.

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> **cóbra**. Proverbialmente. De quem muyto sabe, dizemos, que sabe mais, que as cóbras. Veyo este proverbio da prudencia, com que a cóbra, sentindose cansada, & pesada com frio, & rigor do Inverno, se dispoem com o succo do funcho, para despir a pélle na Primavera.
>
> 'Proverbially. Of those who know a lot, we say 'they know more than snakes'. This proverb originates from the prudence with which a snake, feeling tired and heavy from the cold and rigor of winter, uses fennel juice to shed its skin in spring.'

The entry for **proverbio** lacks a standalone definition, instead redirecting readers to **adagio** and **rifão**. The terms **ditado**, **paremia** and **rifaõ** are simply listed with brief cross-references:

> **proverbio**. Adagio. Rifaõ. Vid. nos seus lugares.
>
> 'Adagio. Rifão. See these terms in their respective entries.
>
> **dictado**, ou **ditado**. Sentença, Proverbio. [...] Vid. Adagio. [...] Proverbio.
>
> 'Sentence, Proverb. [...] See Adagio. [...] Proverbio.'
>
> **paremia**. [...] vem a ser o mesmo, que Sentença commua, publica, vulgar, ou Adagio trivial [...] proverbio
>
> 'Equivalent to a common sentence, public, vulgar, or trivial Adagio [...] proverbio'
>
> **rifaõ**. Adagio. [...] Vid. Adagio.
>
> 'Adage. [...] See Adagio.'

From a diachronic perspective, **rifão** is a Castilian loanword (from *refrán*), first attested in the 15th century. The other three words have Latin origins, but they are also loanwords: **provérbio** (from PROVERBIU-) and **ditado** (from DICTĀTU-) are attested since the 14th century, while **adagio** (from ADAGĬU-) appears later, in the 17th century. Although Bluteau uses all these terms, his favorite is the most recent **adagio**. It may have still been a neologism in Bluteau's time and possibly inspired by Erasmus.[7] This preference is surprising, given that later usage favored proverbs over adages.[8]

[7]In the early 16th century, Erasmus compiled and published two collections of Greek and Latin proverbs, totaling over three thousand, under the title *Adagia* (1508). This collection became quite popular in Western Europe. Some of the proverbs listed by Bluteau can already be found in Erasmus' *Adagia* - for instance, Bluteau's *Qual o pay, tal o Filho* is Erasmus' *Qualis pater, talis filius*, a proverb first listed in Polydorus' *Adagia* (B247), which can be consulted at latinviaproverbs.blogspot.com/2010/07/talis.html.

[8]In the entry for **adage**, Furetière (1690), Furetière & de Bauval (1701) and the lexicographers

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5 Bluteau's sources

In the second part of the entry for **proverbio**, Bluteau provides a reference list of prominent collections of proverbs, ranging from ancient to more contemporary sources. These include biblical authorities, classical philosophers, and clergy:

> **proverbio** [...] Na sagrada Escritura o livro dos Proverbios tem trinta & hum capitulos de sentenças de Salamão. [...] Aristoteles compuzera hum livro de Proverbios; Chrysippo compoz dous, Cleantes, Theophrasto, Demosthenes, & outros muytos antigos Filosofos compiláraõ em differentes livros os Proverbios mais usados dos Egypcios, Gregos, & Romanos. O Padre del Rio, da Companhia de Jesus ajuntou, & interpretou os mais selectos adagios de hum, & outro Testamento. O P. Luis Novarino [...] explicou doutamente os Proverbios, que se achaõ nas obras dos Santos Padres. Joseph Schaligero fez huma versaõ de Proverbios Arabicos [...]. O P. André Schor [...] traduzio a mayor parte dos Proverbios Gregos, tomados de Zenobio, ou Zenodoto, Diogeniano, Suidas, etc. Andaõ em hum livro de folha os Proverbios de Erasmo.
>
> 'In the Holy Scripture, the book of proverbs has thirty-one chapters of Salomon's sentences. [...] Aristotle composed a book of Proverbs; Chrysippus composed two, Cleanthes, Theophrastus, Demosthenes, and many other ancient philosophers compiled in different books the most widely used proverbs of the Egyptians, Greeks, and Romans. Father del Rio, of the Society of Jesus, gathered and interpreted a selection of proverbs from both Testament. Fr. Luis Novarino [...] explained the proverbs found in the works of the Holy Fathers. Joseph Schalige made a version of Arabic Proverbs [...]. Fr. André Schor [...] translated the largest part of the Greek Proverbs, taken from Zenobius, or Zenodotus, Diogenianus, Suidas, etc. There is a leaflet of proverbs by Erasmus.'

Interestingly, no Portuguese authors are cited under *proverbio*. However, in the second part of the entry **adagio**, Bluteau references the collection of Delicado (1651), *Adagios Portuguezes Reduzidos a Lugares Communs*.[9]

of the French Academy note that this term is rarely used, except in the phrase *Les Adages d'Erasme*. Other uses are pejorative: "Autrement on ne le dit qu'en badinant, ou pour mepriser un ouvrage chargé de vieux proverbes. C'est un viel adage." 'Otherwise, it is only used in jest or to disparage a work filled with old proverbs: It's an old adage.'

[9]Delicado's reference to *lugares comuns* may allude to Melanchthon's *Loci Communes* (1521), a seminal work respected among Lutherans. However, there is no solid evidence of a direct connection.

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> **adágio**. [...] segundo a definição do Lecenciado Antonio Delicado, que reduziu a lugares communs os adagios Portuguezes, os Adagios saõ as mais approvadas sentenças, que a experiencia achou nas acçoens humanas, dittas em breves & eloquentes palavras.'according to the definition of the graduate Antonio Delicado, who reduced the Portuguese adages to common places, the adages are the most approved sentences that experience found in human actions, expressed in brief & eloquent words. [...]'
>
> > 'according to the definition of the graduate Antonio Delicado, who reduced the Portuguese adages to common places, the adages are the most approved sentences that experience found in human actions, expressed in brief & eloquent words. [...]'

Furthermore, Delicado (1651) is the only author mentioned in the 'Catalogue of Portuguese authors, according to the subjects they dealt with' (Bluteau 1712–1728, I: 94), in connection with proverbs, suggesting that his work was a significant influence on Bluteau:

> **ADAGIOS**. Vid. Antonio Delicado.

Delicado, a priest from a southern Portuguese parish, authored an innovative compilation of Portuguese proverbs in 1651. In the prologue, he explains that his work was inspired by similar collections in classical and modern languages, asserting that Portuguese proverbs are equally, if not more, abundant. Bluteau echoes Delicado's emphasis on the quantity of Portuguese proverbs, viewing it as a testament to the richness and relevance of the language.

Delicado (1651: a3) highlights his selection criteria, prioritizing 'decency and public utility' and choosing proverbs that embody praised moral values, distilled human experience, and linguistic elegance. He viewed proverbs as profound thoughts that could be expanded upon by others to enrich the Portuguese language and moral doctrine.

A notable aspect of Delicado's prologue is his acknowledgment of the uncertainties surrounding the meaning of proverbs, due to their varied origins and interpretations. To address this, he adopts a maximalist approach, including all proverbs he deems worthy and organizing them thematically to facilitate their use in speeches or specific contexts. This thematic typology is presented in alphabetical order.

Bluteau, by contrast, appends proverbs to specific entries. A comparison based on textual identity shows that the proverb that the proverb *Como me cresceram favores, me recresceram as dores* ('As my favours grew, so did my sorrows'; 'Great

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honours are great burdens') is listed by Delicado (1651) under the topic *affeiçam* 'affection', while Bluteau lists it under *como* ('as'), *dor* ('pain') and *favor* ('favour'). Other examples of the different approach:

1. *Em tempo de figos não ha amigos*
   In time of figues no are friends 'In fig season, there are no friends'

   Delicado lists this proverb under the topic *amizade* 'friendship'

   Bluteau lists it under *amigo* 'friend' and under *figo* 'fig'

2. *Quem Ama a molher casada traz a vida emprestada*
   Who loves the woman married brings the life borrowed 'He who loves a married woman is borrowing his life'

   Delicado lists this proverb under the topic *affeiçam* 'affection'

   Bluteau lists it under *amar 'to love'* and under *emprestar 'to loan'*

Bluteau's selection and presentation strategies appear to build upon and expand Delicado's foundational work. As previously noted, in Bluteau's catalogue of Portuguese authors (Bluteau 1712–1728, I), Delicado is the sole name cited in relation to proverbs. However, Pereira (1655) is acknowledged in Bluteau's second supplement, indicating that this collection of proverbs may also have influenced Bluteau's work, though only in the post-1697 additions. This dating corresponds to the edition of the *Adagios* that Bluteau references.

Pereira's work, first published in 1655 and reissued multiple times, reached a broad audience. According to Verdelho & Silvestre (2007: 198), thousands of students memorized these proverbs to enrich their vocabulary and master elegant syntactic structures. In the prologue to his *Adágios*, Pereira addresses the 'curious reader' and cites Quintilian's assertion that 'the body of eloquence is the sentence'. This inspired Pereira to compile and publish an extensive collection of approximately 1,500 Portuguese proverbs, organized alphabetically by the first word, with each accompanied by a Latin translation. While Pereira's compilation does not introduce innovative methods, it serves as a valuable supplement to earlier collections, likely motivating Bluteau to include it among his sources.

Pereira's work also serves as a source for explaining and justifying the inclusion of entries and their meanings. For instance:

> **nacîdo, ou nascido** [...] O P. Bento Pereira explica este modo de fallar com este adagio Latino, Albae gallinae filius, tomado da gallinha branca, que no collo de Livia deixou cahir a Aguia, porque os Romanos tinhão o branco por symbolo de prosperidades.

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> 'P. Bento Pereira explains this manner of speaking with the Latin adage *Albae gallinae filius*, derived from the white hen that the eagle dropped on Livia's lap, as the Romans considered white a symbol of prosperity.'

frigir [...] Nos Adagios Portuguezes traz o Padre Bento Pereira outro Adagio, que diz: Ao frigir o veremos, e no Latim poem Cuncta numerabimus exta.

> 'In Adágios Portugueses, Father Bento Pereira presents another adage that says: "Ao frigir o veremos" ('We will see when it fries'), and in Latin, it is expressed as Cuncta numerabimus exta'

lastar. Lançar lastro ao navio. Vid. Lastrar.§ No Thesouro da lingua Portugueza o P. Bento Pereira traduz este verbo neste Latim, Calamitatibus opprimi. Ser opprimido de calamidades.

> 'To throw ballast onto the ship. See Lastrar. § In the Tesouro da Língua Portuguesa, Father Bento Pereira translates this verb into Latin as Calamitatibus opprimi, meaning 'to be oppressed by calamities'

gladiar. He tomado do Latim Gladiari, esgrimir, pelejar à espada. Na sua Prosodia, o Padre Bento Pereira, declarando em Portuguez a palavra Latina, Bustuarii diz, homens armados, que andavao gladiando em roda dos sepulchros nobres.

> 'Taken from the Latin Gladiari, meaning to fence or fight with a sword. In his Prosodia, Father Bento Pereira, explaining the Latin word Bustuarii in Portuguese, says it refers to armed men who would gladiate around noble tombs.'

Bluteau demonstrates his reliance on Delicado (1651) and Pereira (1655) while also offering unique modifications. The following proverb has no direct English equivalents, but it conveys the idea that challenges are proportional to one's capacity to face them.[10] Bluteau presents four variants:

Dá Deos a roupa, segundo é o frio —also listed by Delicado (1651)
Dá Deos a roupa, segundo é o frio —also listed by Delicado (1651)

[10]It is worth noting that this proverb has survived over time and that its evolution in contemporary usage reflects new variations (e.g., *Deus dá o frio conforme a roupa* in European Portuguese and *Deus dá o frio conforme o cobertor* in Brazilian Portuguese).

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§ Adagios Portuguezes de Deos (s.v. **Deos**)
'Portuguese proverbs for God.'

§ Adagios Portuguezes da Roupa (s.v. **Roupa**)
'Portuguese proverbs for clothing.'

Dá Deos o frio conforme a roupa — variant found in Pereira (1655)
'God gives the cold according to the clothing.'

§ Adagios Portuguezes da Roupa. (s.v. **Roupa**)
'Portuguese proverbs for clothing.'

A cada qual dá Deos o frio conforme o vestido — new version[11]
'To each, God gives the cold according to their attire.'

§ Adagios Portuguezes do Frio. (s.v. **Frio**)
'Portuguese proverbs for cold.'

Cada hum sente o frio como anda vestido — new version[12]
'Each person feels the cold according to how they are dressed.'

§ Adagios Portuguezes do Frio. (s.v. **Frio**)
'Portuguese proverbs for cold.'

§ Adagios Portuguezes do vestido. (s.v. **Vestido**)
'Portuguese proverbs for dressed.'

Bluteau's reliance on the collections of Pereira and Delicado is consistent with his broader effort to inventory the lexicon. The differences between these works are primarily structural and thematic. Bluteau takes into account the keyword of the utterance, with the aim of documentation rather than of clarifying the meaning of the lemma. Moreover, his indiscriminate incorporation of proverbs departs from the moral concerns prioritized by Delicado.

Bluteau's inclusion of classical references further differentiates his work from that of his predecessors. For example, the proverb *Os bêbados não se podem ter em pé* 'drunkards cannot stand on their feet' is paired with Plautus' Latin equivalent *Pedes ebriis non stant*, showcasing Bluteau's encyclopedic approach and his ability to situate Portuguese proverbs within a broader intellectual tradition. Finally,

[11]This version, possibly reflecting Bluteau's attempt to refine the phrase, may have been influenced by the Spanish proverb 'A cada cual da Dios frío como anda vestido'. (Panizo Rodriguez 1989)

[12]This version is semantically different, since it omits the reference to God and emphasizes individual responsibility.

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it is noteworthy that proverbs are also present in Furetière (1690)[13], particularly as glosses or idioms, and in the French Academy dictionary[14].

6 Proverbs in the macro- and microstructure of the Vocabulario

Bluteau often employs proverbs to illuminate definitions, as demonstrated in the entry for **roupa**, a word with two meanings: *clothing* and *linen*.

> **roupa** [...]. Algüas vezes quer dizer o vestido, sobre a que està justa ao corpo, donde se diz bem, ou mal enroupado; & daqui nasceo o adagio: Dà Deos o frio conforme a roupa; outras vezes val o mesmo, que os lançoens, & cobertores da cama; & daqui procedeo o proverbio: Não hajas dò de quem tem muyta roupa, & faz mà cama
>
> > 'Sometimes it refers to garments, specifically those that fit closely to the body, as in the expressions *bem enroupado* ('well-dressed') or *mal enroupado* ('poorly dressed'). From this meaning arose the saying: *Dá Deus o frio conforme a roupa* ('God gives the cold according to the clothing'). Other times, it signifies bed linens, such as sheets and blankets, from which originates the proverb: *Não hajas dó de quem tem muita roupa e faz má cama* ('Do not pity those who have plenty of bedding but make a poor bed').

The 'clothing' meaning is illustrated by the proverb *Dá Deos o frio conforme a roupa*,'*God sends the cold according to the clothing*' while the 'linen' meaning is clarified through the other proverb (*Não haja dó de quem tem muita roupa, e faz má cama.* 'Do not pity those who have plenty of bedding but make a poor bed.').

Most of Bluteau's proverbs, however, appear at the end of entries and are directly related to the headword, a method previously used by Furetière (1690) and by the French Academy lexicographers (Française 1694a). Unlike Bluteau, the French lexicographers include a brief explanation of each proverb:

[13]"[…] femme, se dit proverbialement en ces phrases. C'est un appétit de femme grosse, pour dire, un appétit dereglé", s.v. **femme**. '*Femme* is used proverbially in these phrases: 'It's an appetite of a pregnant woman', meaning an unrestrained appetite.'

[14]"On dit proverbialement. Tout par amour & rien par force. Il n'est point de belles prisons ny de laides amours. " s.v. **amour**. 'It is said proverbially: Everything by love and nothing by force. There are no nice prisons nor ugly loves.'

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> "On dit prov. & figurement. Aller son chemin, pour dire, Faire des progrez dans ses affaires. Aller son grand chemin, pour dire, Agir sans artifice. Aller à tout vent, pour dire, N'avoir point de resolution. […]", s.v. aller.
>
> 'It is said proverbially and figuratively: Go one's way, meaning to make progress in one's affairs. Go one's great way, meaning to act without artifice. Go with the wind, meaning to have no resolution'.

The integration of proverbs into definitions does not preclude their inclusion in the appendices. For example, under **roupa** ('clothing'), Bluteau lists:

Não haja dó de quem tem muita roupa, e faz má cama.

'Do not pity those who have plenty of bedding but make a poor bed.'

Bem estamos de roupa, se nos não molharmos.

'We are fine with our clothing, as long as we don't get wet.'

Dá Deos o frio conforme a roupa.

'God gives the cold according to the clothing.'

Dá Deos a roupa, segundo é o frio.

'God gives the clothing according to the cold.'

This method allows the same proverb to appear multiple times, and as seen above, not necessarily in the same form. A further example of repetition occurs with the proverb *'a scalded cat fears cold water'*, which is listed three times, under **agoa** ('water'), **gato** ('cat'), and **escaldado** ('scalded'):

agoa [...] *Gato escaldado da agoa fria há medo.*

gato [...] *Gato escaldado, da agoa fria tem medo.*

escaldado [...] *Gato escaldado da agoa fria há medo.*

Although the predicative verb varies slightly, with *há* in one instance and *tem* in another, the most notable difference occurs in the entry **escaldado**. Here, the Portuguese proverb is translated into Latin and further explained in Latin, showcasing Bluteau's expertise:

Latin translation - Fervida perfusus aqua, frigidam formidat felis

Latin explanation - Semel multatus; ou deprehensus imposterum cavet

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7 The relevance of proverbs

Thus far, it has been observed that Bluteau includes proverbs not only to praise the Portuguese language but also to elucidate ambiguous meanings. Additionally, he attempts to indicate their provenance. Were there further motivations for incorporating such an extensive collection of proverbs in the *Vocabulario*? While Bluteau's commitment to scientific inquiry is not in question, the prominence of proverbs in his dictionary raises intriguing questions about their role in an age increasingly shaped by the Enlightenment and modern science. The Enlightenment marked a pivotal shift toward empirical reasoning and scientific discourse. Why, then, did Bluteau choose to include proverbs - and such a vast number of them - in his *Vocabulario*?

Most likely, Bluteau's inclusion of proverbs reflects his attention to the linguistic and stylistic standards of his era. A notable example appears under the entry for **avença**, where Bluteau includes the proverb:

> **avença** [...] Mais val má avença, que boa sentença porque lançada a conta, ao que se tem gasto com Letrados, Procuradores, & Escrivaens, se achará, que se tem consumido quasi tanto, como se tira com sentença em favor.
>
> > 'A bad agreement is better than a good sentence because once the accounts are done, considering what has been spent on lawyers, attorneys, and clerks, one will find that almost as much has been consumed as is gained with a judgement in one's favor.'

Stylistically, the proverb (Mais val má avença, que boa sentença) is compelling: the rhyme between *avença* and *sentença* draws attention, while the structure offers a balanced comparison between a negative (*má avença*) and a positive concept (*boa sentença*). However, Bluteau clarifies the meaning, explaining that the costs of pursuing a favorable sentence through legal means often outweigh the gains, making even a bad agreement preferable. This suggests that the proverb's form is significantly more relevant than its content, which is quite opaque.

Other examples underscore the relevance of rhyme:

> **agosto** [...] *Não há bom mosto colhido em Agosto*
>
> 'there is no good must harvested in August'

> **espelho** [...] *O que te disser o espelho, não to dirão em conselho.*
>
> 'what the mirror tells you, will not be told in advice'

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In the first case, the rhyme between *mosto* ('must') and *Agosto* ('August') enhances the proverb's memorability and lyrical quality. In the second case, the rhyme between *espelho* ('mirror') and *conselho* ('advice') gives the proverb a rhythmic elegance.

Bluteau also highlights the use of structural symmetry in proverbs, as seen in:

> **escoxar** [...] *Agoa fria, sarna cria; Agoa roxa, sarna escoxa*
>
> 'to clean' [...] 'Cold water breeds scabies; warm water scrapes scabies'

In this case, both sentences begin with *agoa*, feature *sarna* ('scabies') as the direct object, and use verbs that rhyme with the final syllable of the subject noun phrase. This symmetry emphasizes contrasting ideas: cold water as harmful versus warm water as curative.

Lastly, Bluteau's integration of proverbs serves as a tool to preserve otherwise archaic words.[15] Words don't just disappear from a language's lexicon; they may fall out of regular use. While dictionaries can record these unused words, they cannot revive their usage alone. Proverbs, however, crystallize and maintain the usage of such words.

Bluteau highlights several cases. The word *arrefentar* ('to cool'), for instance, is one of them. He marks it as largely obsolete, preserved exclusively in a proverb:

> **arrefentar**. Naõ he usado senaõ no adagio, que se segue. [..] Entendimento há cà de casta da boca da Raposa, de quem dizem as velhas, que aquenta, & Arrefenta.
>
> 'It is not used except in the adage that follows. [...] There is an understanding here that there is a kind of foxes, of whom the old women say, they warm up and cool down'.

Arrefentar remains unused in contemporary Portuguese, but a closely related phrase survives in the idiom *não me aquenta nem me arrefenta*. The meaning (i.e.,

[15] A similar strategy is observed in the French Academy dictionary (Française 1694a):

> "**aller**, Est quelquefois substantif masculin, & n'a guere d'usage que dans les proverbes suivans. *Au long aller petit fardeau pese. Il a eu l'aller pour le venir,* pour dire, Il n'a rien fait de ce qu'il pretendoit faire où il estoit allé. *Donner l'aller & le venir,* pour dire, Donner deux soufflets tout de suite.' s.v. **aller**" ('**Aller** is sometimes a masculine noun, rarely used except in the following proverbs: A small burden weighs heavily over a long journey. He got the 'going' for the 'coming', to say that someone has done nothing of what they intended to do or achieve where they went. To give the going and coming, meaning to give two slaps at once').

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'indifferent') is not literal, and it tends to be conveyed by a version of the proverb that uses modern vocabulary (i.e., *não me aquece nem me arrefece*).[16] However, the older version can still be found, likely due to its appearance in the proverb.

A final example is given by the word **lastimeiro** ('pitiful'):

> **lastimeiro**. He usado neste adagio do vulgo, Não ha mal tam lastimeiro como não ter dinheiro. Vid. Lastimoso
>
> 'It is used in this adage of the people, There is no such pitiful misfortune as not having money. See lastimoso.'

Bluteau notes that *lastimeiro* is primarily used in a proverb meaning that not having money is a very regrettable misfortune. According to Bluteau, this derived adjective was replaced by the derivative **lastimoso** (Digno de compayxão 'worthy of compassion'), both derived from *lástima* ('pity'). *Lastimeiro* no longer appears in contemporary dictionaries, while *lastimoso* (and *lastimável* 'pitiful') are listed with a different meaning. In the *Vocabulario*, *lastimoso* means 'worthy of compassion' whereas in contemporary dictionaries, it is defined as 'complaining'. The word *lastimeiro* has fallen out of use, its meaning has changed, and the original proverb, now absent, would likely be misunderstood today.

8 Concluding remarks

To conclude, the survey of proverbs in Bluteau's *Vocabulario* suggests that their inclusion goes beyond their apparent value. Rather than conveying dogmatic truths or strict moral guidelines, proverbs primarily fulfil lexical functions. They provide clear examples of word usage; help to disambiguate meanings; and preserve and explain otherwise obsolete words. Additionally, they aid in training Latin students and contribute to the creation of a repertoire of rhetorically effective phrases.[17] In this sense, Bluteau's Vocabulario plays a significant role in language learning, as it records words, expressions, and their meanings while

[16] Literally, 'it doesn't warm me up nor cool me down'. *Aquecer*, instead of *aquentar*, and *arrefecer*, instead of *arrefentar*, were also commonly used in the early 18th century, as evidenced by Bluteau's entries:

> **arrefecer** Abaixarse a fervura. 'to lower the boil.'
> **aquecer** Fazerse quente. 'to become hot.'

[17] According to Mieder (2004: 147), "Proverbs have also been employed in native language instruction and to bring cultural traditions to foreign-language classes. […] Latin proverbs were used for translation exercises and to teach children moral precepts. This pedagogical and didactic use of proverbs continued well into the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries".

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reflecting the historical, cultural, and intellectual context of early 18th-century Portugal. In addition to expanding vocabulary and presenting etymologies and usage examples from literary and scholarly sources, the work provides meaningful illustrations of the Portuguese language in practice. By allowing the analysis of semantic evolution and linguistic variation, it contributes to the development of a critical and contextualized understanding of the Portuguese language, bridging traditional knowledge and the emerging Enlightenment ideals.

While some aspects of proverbs in this early dictionary may have been overlooked, the analysis still offers valuable insights—or may even spark the impulse to dispute their wisdom—such as the following lesson in prudence and the cautionary nature of our desires:

Prudencia he nam querer o que nam se pode haver (s.v. **querer**)
'Prudence is not wanting what one cannot have'

Appendix

In the extensive entry **movimento**, recounts a visit he paid to the French Academy of Sciences, to witness an experiment on perpetual motion:[18]

> **movimento**. Mudança de lugar, por impulso proprio, ou alheyo. […]. Na segunda jornada que fiz a Pariz, fui convidado para ir ver huma demonstração do **movimento continuo**, em hüa maquina inventada por hum Francez, natural da Provincia de Provença, que havia tido a habilidade de persuadir aos da Academia Real das Sciencias, que elle tinha achado o movimento continuo artificial. Appareceo o artifice no congresso dos curiosos, lançou huma bala de latão em huns paos concavos, a qual parando, deo por razão, que se estava acabando na casa de hum official o engenho, com que havia a bala de continuar o movimento. Todos os circunstantes ficarão bestas, & o movimento continuo passou para os pès do fantastico engenheiro, que sem ter os talares de Mercurio, voou, & fugio tão longe, que nunca mais o virão.

[18] A resolution by the French Academy regarding perpetual motion, dated May 3rd, 1755, is referenced by Berthon (1989: 115–121). This resolution prohibits academicians from examining any perpetual motion device, or solutions to classical mathematical problems, such as squaring the circle, doubling the cube or trisecting an angle - problems that had perplexed scholars for centuries. Indirectly, this resolution lends credibility to Bluteau's account or, at the very least, makes it more plausible.

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> 'Change of place, either by one's own impulse or that of another. [...] On my second trip to Paris, I was invited to witness a demonstration of perpetual motion in a machine invented by a Frenchman from Provence. He had managed to convince the members of the Royal Academy of Sciences that he had discovered artificial perpetual motion. The craftsman appeared at the gathering of curious minds, launched a brass ball into some concave beams, and when it stopped, he explained that the mechanism enabling the ball to continue moving was still being completed at an artisan's workshop. All those present were dumbfounded, and perpetual motion fell at the feet of the fantastical engineer, who, without Mercury's winged sandals, flew and fled so far that he was never seen again. [...]'

Beyond attending events at the French Academy, the *Vocabulario* also engages with both the first edition of the *Dictionnaire Universel* (Furetière 1690), the second edition, edited by Basnage (Furetière & de Bauval 1701), and the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie Française* (Française 1694a), as traceable through his entries. Furetière (1690) addresses the concept of perpetual motion under **mouvement** and **perpetuel**. In the first entry, the concept is introduced and rejected, while the second presents it as a famous problem:

> **mouvement** [...] Le gran problème du mouvement perpetuel est de trouver une machine qui ait en elle-même le principe de son mouvement [...] ce qui ne se trouvera jamais [...] Mr. de la Hire en a demontré l'impossibilité, parce qu'il faudroit qu'un même corps fût en même temps plus leger et plus pesant. Le Pere Pardies soutient aussi l'impossibilité du mouvement perpetuel.
>
> > 'The great problem of perpetual motion is to find a machine that contains within itself the principle of its own motion [...] which will never be found [...] Mr. de la Hire demonstrated its impossibility, because it would require the same body to be at once lighter and heavier. Father Pardies also upholds the impossibility of perpetual motion'
>
> **perpetuel** [...] le mouvement perpetuel, un mouvement qui se renouvelle de luy même [...] Le mouvement perpetuel est un probleme fameux que tous les sçavants mathematiciens one cherché depuis deux mille ans.
>
> > 'perpetual motion, a motion that renews itself [...] Perpetual motion is a famous problem that all learned mathematicians have been looking for two thousand years.'

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The first edition of the *Dictionnaire de l'Académie Française* (Française 1694a) similarly includes *mouvement perpetuel* under **mouvement** and **perpétuel**, but it does not debate the issue of its existence:

> **mouvement**. [...] Action d'um corps qui se meut, ou qui est meu. Mouvement lent, rapide, [...] le mouvement perpetual
>
> > 'Action of a body that moves or is moved. Slow movement, rapid movement, [...] perpetual motion.'
>
> **perpétuel**. Continuel, qui ne celle point, que dure tousjours. On entend un bruit perpetuel dans cette maison, mouvement perpetuel, prison perpetuelle
>
> > 'Continuous, that does not cease, that lasts forever. One hears a perpetual noise in this house, perpetual motion, perpetual imprisonment.'

The debate resurfaces in the second edition of the *Dictionnaire Universel* (Furetière & de Bauval 1701), again under **mouvement** and **perpétuel**. The entry for **perpétuel** remains unchanged, but under **mouvement**, Basnage reproduces Furetière's original entry, and expands it. A new paragraph describes various attempts to construct machines that could prove perpetual motion, including one built in Cassel, followed by further arguments refuting its possibility:

> **mouvement** [...] En 1700, il se repandit un bruit que le mouvement perpetual etoit trouvé. Peu de temps après l'éclat que fit cette découverte, le mouvement perpetuel disparut avec son auteur.[19] A cette occasion, M. Parent en prouva l'impossibilité par cette seule raison, que toutes les parties d'une machine ont un centre de gravité commun.
>
> > 'In 1700, a rumor spread that perpetual motion had been discovered. Shortly after the sensation caused by this discovery, perpetual motion disappeared along with its author. On this occasion, Mr. Parent proved its impossibility with a single argument: all parts of a machine share a common center of gravity.'

Bluteau may well have visited the Académie during the perpetual motion demonstration he describes, but it is the *Dictionnaire Universel* that he directly evokes by incorporating and revisiting this unresolved debate.

[19] Although it cannot be confirmed whether the episode Bluteau describes is the same one mentioned in these sources, it remains plausible.

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Another relevant interaction regards the subentry **pedra philosophal** ('philosopher's stone'). Bluteau digresses extensively about its existence and tends to accept it based on authorities that he respects. Interestingly, after a long discussion, he brings a final twist that seeks to legitimate the philosopher's stone phenomenon as a manifestation of divine grace:

> **pedra philosophal**. Se houve, ou se ha tal pedra no mundo, naõ he propriamente pedra, mas he a materia, com que alguns Philosophos, ou Alchimistas, pertendem fazer artificialmente ouro. O mayor argumento, com que se costuma impugnar a possibilidade deste artificio, he que não se póde naturalmente mudar huma cousa de huma especie para outra, como he fazer do estanho prata, ou da prata ouro. [...] Verdade he, que algüas experiencias, que parecem abonos desta arte, bem consideradas, & examinadas, saõ enganos. [...] A verdadeyra pedra Philosophal, he a graça de Deos, que communica à alma a virtude de purificar os metaes dos cinco sentidos, & converter em prata, & ouro para a coroa da gloria as nossas obras.
>
> 'If there was, or is, such a stone in the world, it is not really a stone but the matter with which some philosophers, or alchemists, intend to make gold artificially. The greatest argument against this artifice is that one thing cannot naturally be changed from one kind to another, such as turning tin into silver or silver into gold. [...] It is true that some experiments that seem to support this art, when well considered and examined, are mistakes. [...] The true philosopher's stone is the grace of God, which imparts to the soul the virtue of purifying the metals of the five senses, converting them into silver and gold for the crown of glory to our works.

In favor of his evaluation of the philosopher's stone, Bluteau brings the Académie's 1694 account of Flamel's mythical achievements around the turn of the 15th century.[20] Interestingly, Bluteau also mentions Furetière (1690) as an

[20]Bluteau references *Le dictionnaire des arts et des sciences* (Française 1694b: 212), which provides the following definition:
"**pierre philosophale.** [...] C'est le secret de faire de l'or par art. Le mercure des Philosophes dont on forme la Pierre Philosophale, supposé qu'elle soit possible, ne se tire d'aucun metal parfait, mais de la matière premiere & prochaine des metaux. Quand ils disent que la matière de la Pierre Philosophale se trouve par tout, qu'elle est jusque dans les étables, & que chacun la porte avec soi, ils parlent de la matiere éloignée, c'est-à-dire, de l'Esprit du monde, qui dispose les semences metalliques à la perfection des metaux. Il y en a qui cherchent la Pierre Philosophale dans le vitriol, trompez par ce verset Latin, don't toutes les lettres que commencent les mots,

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opponent to the idea of a philosopher's stone, a skeptical opinion that Bluteau seems to respect but doesn't follow.[21]

> **pedra philosophal** [...] naõ faltão homens de bom juizo, que lhe dem algum credito, & ainda que o Abbade Furetiere, no seu Diccionario Francez a despreze, como delirio da imaginaçaõ, & occupaçaõ de loucos, parece quiz a Academia Real de França dar a esta arte alguma probabilidade no seu famoso Diccionario, pag. 212. aonde diz, que Nicolao Flamel, Francez de naçaõ, com a intelligencia de hum livro, que lhe communicàra hum Judeo, chamado Abraham, chegou a fazer ouro em taõ grande quantidade, que dotâra com boas rendas quatorze Igrejas, & outros tantos Hospitaes em França, & que vivendo em hum tempo, em que era muyto mais raro, que hoje, o dinheyro, a saber, nos annos de 1393. & 1413. gastára em obras pias mais de dous milhões de cruzados.

forment celuy de Vitriolum [...] Quelques-uns croient que Nicolas ou Colin Flamel a possedé le secret de la Pierre Philosophale [...]. Il fut Maistre Maistre Ecrivain à Paris, Peintre, Philosophe, Mathematicien, Architecte, & sur tout grand Alchymiste. [...] Le livre par lequel Flamel dit qu'il est parvenu au grand oeuvre estoit d'Abraham le Juif."

> 'It is the secret of making gold through art. The Philosophers' Mercury, from which the Philosopher's Stone is formed —assuming its existence is possible—is not derived from any perfected metal but from the first and immediate matter of metals. When they say that the matter of the Philosopher's Stone can be found everywhere, that it is even in stables, and that everyone carries it with them, they are speaking of the distant matter —that is, the Spirit of the World, which prepares the metallic seeds for the perfection of metals. Some seek the Philosopher's Stone in vitriol, deceived by the Latin verse whose initial letters of each word spell out Vitriolum [...]. Some believe that Nicolas or Colin Flamel possessed the secret of the Philosopher's Stone [...]. He was a Maitre Ecrivain in Paris, a painter, philosopher, mathematician, architect, and above all, a great alchemist. [...] The book by which Flamel claimed to have achieved the Great Work was authored by Abraham the Jew.'

[21]"**pierre philosophale** que les Chymistes appellent [...] absolument *la Pierre*, est le secret de faire de l'or par art, qu'il y a long temps qu'on cherche, et qu'on ne trouvera jamais. Il y a une infinité de Livres de la *Pierre Philosophale* que personne n'entend; & quand on veut bien mépriser un Chymiste, ou l'apelle un *souffleur*, *un chercheur de Pierre Philosophale*. On fait accroire que [...] Nicolas Flamel [...] ont eu la *Pierre Philosophale*. On dit, lors qu'un homme a trouvé quelque commerce ou autre invention pour faire de grands gains, qu'il a trouvé la *Pierre Philosophale*" (s.v. *pierre*).

> **pierre philosophale** 'that chemists call [...] simply the Stone, is the secret of making gold through art, a pursuit that has been sought for a long time and will never be found. There is an infinity of books about the Philosopher's Stone that no one understands; and when one wants to disdain a chemist, they call him a blower, a seeker of the Philosopher's Stone. It is claimed that [...] Nicolas Flamel [...] possessed the Philosopher's Stone. People say, when a man has discovered some trade or other invention to make great profits, that he has found the Philosopher's Stone.' (s.v. *pierre*).

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> 'there is no shortage of reasonable men who give it some credence. Even though Abbé Furetière, in his French dictionary, dismisses it as a product of delirium and an occupation for madmen, it seems that the French Royal Academy sought to lend this art some credibility in its famous dictionary, page 212. There, it states that Nicolas Flamel, a Frenchman by birth, through the knowledge of a book shared with him by a Jew named Abraham, managed to produce gold in such great quantities that he endowed fourteen churches and an equal number of hospitals in France with substantial revenues. Living in a time when money was far rarer than today—namely, in the years 1393 and 1413—he spent more than two million cruzados on pious works.

This interplay clearly demonstrates Bluteau's familiarity with his French predecessors' work that has likely inspired him to compile a similar dictionary for Portuguese.

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Chapter 9

The emergence of learners' dictionaries in the 18th century in France and England: Brady's *Dictionnaire de prononciation angloise* (1756) and Buchanan's dictionaries (1757, 1766)

Franck Zumstein & Jean-Louis Duchet

The aim of the present chapter is to trace the origins of the pronouncing dictionary format, defined as a word list presenting for each entry the spelling and the representation of pronunciation without any semantic content. The absence of definitions saves space and allows learners to find easily pronunciation information about a lexical unit with which they may be already familiar. Two authors in the 1750s were motivated by their practice as teachers in France and England to show more boldness to emancipate themselves from the spelling to indicate pronunciation and pave the way to what was to become phonemic transcription.

Independently from each other, aiming at different public, but both in a school setting, their didactic aims led them to provide a more realistic representation of pronunciation than other pronouncing dictionaries of the time on the following points: – vowel quality thanks to vowel diacritics, special characters, italics for mute consonants; – respelling of words whenever the spelling does not predict the appropriate pronunciation; – weak forms of vowels; – proper perception of syllabic sonorants (n, l). Evidence of possible sources of their books is suggested and a typology of pronouncing dictionaries is put forward to distinguish these two authors from the next generation of orthoepists.

Twentieth-century dictionaries successfully reused the format and innovations of these eighteenth-century forerunners in the design of their pronunciation dictionaries.

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orthoepy, pronouncing dictionary, learner's dictionary, phonemic transcription, stress, syllable,respelling

Index of main authors: Brady, Buchanan, Kenrick, Mather Flint, Newbery, Walker

Dictionaries of the early years of the 18th century do not offer the orthoepic indications which will become crucial from the 1760s. But by the end of the century and at the beginning of the next, no dictionary could find a market if it was not a *pronouncing* dictionary, as shown by their titles.

Joan Beal (2009: 149) notices "a progression from the first appearance of accentuation in Dyche's (1723) *Dictionary of All the Words Commonly Used in the English Tongue*, to the cluster of self-proclaimed 'pronouncing dictionaries' which appeared in the last quarter of the century."

Emsley (1940: 1162), adds that "Thomas Dyche's A Dictionary of All the Words Commonly Used in the English Tongue (1723) was the first to provide any guidance to the pronunciation of words, in that it marked accentuation."

A further step is made by Bailey's dictionary, as of the 1740 edition, in which the placement of the stress-mark provides a clear indication of the short or long value of the preceding vowel, as reported by Sheldon (1946). Kenrick (1773) made further progress by generalizing superscript numbers to transcribe vowel qualities and boldly decided to represent syllables boundaries by hyphens.

But as early as the late 1740s and early 1750s, a few dictionary authors felt the need to produce dictionaries intended for learners, rather than for the general public's occasional reference. This involved tools to provide learners with an easy access to rules and representations of the pronunciation of English.

The research reported here focuses on handbooks aimed at both foreign and native learners which have long been overlooked because they were not dictionaries in the traditional sense of the word: they had no semantic content and gave no definition of the entries. This is probably why no mention is made of Buchanan's *New Pocket-Book for Young Gentlemen and Ladies* (1757b) in Cowie (2009). Starnes & Noyes (1946) do not devote a single chapter to Buchanan, the author of three books, two of which have not even been called dictionaries by their author himself: the *New Pocket-book* (1757b) and the *Essay towards Establishing a Standard for an Elegant and Uniform Pronunciation of the English Language* (1766). Thirty-five years after Buchanan's first dictionaries, Walker (1791) refers occasionally to Buchanan, but only to his "proper" dictionary entitled *Linguæ Britannicæ Vera Pronunciatio: Or a New English Dictionary* (1757a), and never to the *New Pocket-Book* (1757b) or to the *Essay* (1766) in spite of their distinct relevance to the study of pronunciation. These handbooks emerged as a new genre

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later called 'pronouncing dictionary'. Writing for a French public of learners of English in the same period of time, Brady was bold enough to call his book a *Dictionnaire* (1756).

Brady's *Dictionnaire de la prononciation angloise*, published in France one year before Buchanan's *New Pocket-Book* had a similar fate: both works considered as unworthy of the dictionary status, were published in two different countries almost at the same time, to fill a similar gap by offering a phonetic description of the English lexicon but both failed to gain recognition.

Brady & O'Reilly (1756), aimed at a French public of young learners attending school in France and Buchanan (1757a), aimed at an English public of learners attending English schools where no Latin was taught, appeared in two different contexts. After a separate historical and lexicographic analysis of each of them, we intend to characterise the features they have in common.

Both are schoolbooks designed by relatively marginal authors and this is due to the social and historical context in which they designed their books. Both were teachers and relied on the realisation that pronunciation should be taught, and that a new type of handbook was necessary to concentrate on this skill and present lexical entries without definitions. They invented the pronouncing dictionary format which reappeared in print only 150 years later. Indeed after Kenrick (1773) and before D. Jones (1917), the dictionary pattern prevailed and orthoepic information was only added to the dictionary structure. Both were based on a similar need to gain independence from the spelling to represent vowel quality, stress placement and syllable structure. Any attempt at changing the spelling was unwelcome by the public of the time, especially in dictionaries, but the efforts to develop handbooks for native and foreign *learners* revealed the need for all kinds of graphic devices to represent the pronunciation of English. They initiated respellings which were to become the phonemic transcription of later pronouncing dictionaries.

1 Brady's *Dictionnaire de la prononciation angloise*, 1756

1.1 Authorship

This unidentified object (a dictionary without definitions) is also the work of an unidentified author.

According to the catalogue of the Bibliothèque Nationale de France[1] the author

[1]https://catalogue.bnf.fr/ark:/12148/cb31039334f

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is "O'Reilly (17..-17.. ; active in 1756), or Brady (17..-17..? ; active in 1756), or also Mather Flint, on the basis of 18th century sources: O'Reilly according to Barbier and according to Quérard who describes as Irish, a teacher of English in Paris and author in 1767 of a comedy, *L'Heureux divorce*. The attribution to Brady by the *Mémoires de Trévoux*[2], is contemporary with the publication of the book (October1756).

Given the paucity of bibliographic references attributed to O'Reilly and Brady, it is likely that these were pseudonyms adopted for the sole purpose of having this book published, under English or Irish surnames which conferred upon it some kind of native-speaker authority, or disguised the true name of an English-speaking Jacobite exile. Robert Brady, MD (1627–1700) was an English academic and historical writer supporting the royalist position in the reigns of Charles II and James II. He was also a physician, later referred to[3] as "Historien anglais ; médecin ordinaire de Jacques II, professeur de médecine à Cambridge." This could suggest that our author was related to Robert Brady and was staying in France among followers of the Old and of the Young Pretenders and making a living teaching English to French learners. These circumstances also apply to another suspected author, Mather Flint[4]. The *Oxford Dictionary of National Biography* indicates that at the age of eleven, in 1720, he accompanied his uncle George Flint to France. George Flint (1714–1750) was a Jacobite printer and political writer. Mather Flint settled in Paris in 1734, and between 1750 and 1756 he published several works on English grammar and pronunciation. His daughter Louisa (1749–1821), a translator, married Antoine de Rivarol, the author of the *Discours sur l'universalité de la langue française*.

1.2 Source and structure

Brady's dictionary deserves attention because it offers the first example of a pronouncing dictionary for the words of a foreign language (English) for the benefit of French learners. Its title tries to be explicit in this regard: *Dictionnaire de la prononciation angloise, dans lequel on a effayé de peindre les vrais fons de la Langue Angloise*[5].

It is based on the word-list of a French dictionary of the time, the *Traité de l'orthographe françoise, en forme de dictionnaire,* published in Poitiers[6].

[2] *Mémoires pour l'histoire des sciences et des beaux-arts*, Trévoux, octobre 1756.

[3] See Guérin 1889.

[4] See Kökeritz 1944, p. v and pp. xiv-xxiii.

[5] A Pronouncing Dictionary of English, in which the author has attempted to depict the true sounds of the English language (our translation).

[6] Leroy de la Corbinaye (1742), 4th edn revised by Pierre Restaut (1755).

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The borrowing is explicitly acknowledged, a rare occurrence among dictionary compilers:

> "La première colonne de ce volume a été faire sur la dernière édition du Dictionnaire de l'orthographe Françoise, imprimé à Poitiers, avec cette différence que toutes les fois que le mot Anglois de la seconde colonne ne rend point toutes les significations du mot François, tant au propre qu'au figuré, j'ai eu soin de répéter l'un & l'autre." (Preface, i).[7]

Brady acknowledges this French spelling dictionary as the source of his word-list and the sample examined in Table 1 provides further evidence of this:

Brady ignores two of the entries of the original word-list (*conformé* and *conformiste*), probably because these were difficult words for his public and because he was unsure of what the English equivalent would be. This small sample also reveals the use of pre-phonetic symbols, a distinct innovation at the time, e.g.:

å to represent a vowel like [ɑ], â for the same vowel when lengthened by the following r (*Conformably:* Cånnfâ*r*me*b*lĭ), ē for the monophthongal realization of the present-day [eɪ] diphthong in *aid*, the typically French digraph <ou> for [u] but with a breve on the <u> to refer to the short [ʊ] (*to:* toŭ), and the use of italics to indicate reduced realizations of vowels or even consonants, including post-vocalic [r][8] and possible syncopes, elisions and the syllabic realisation of consonants.

1.3 Reception

Brady's intention was practical for his French learners of English, but misunderstood by traditional lexicographers, like Boyer whose preface to his *Dictionnaire François-Anglois et Anglois- François* (nouvelle édition, Lyon: Bruyser Frères, 1792, x–xi) misses the point of Brady's pedagogical purpose which he does not seem to understand:

> "On a publié à Paris, à peu près dans le même temps, un Dictionnaire de la prononciation Angloise, ouvrage d'un travail considérable, mais dans lequel

[7] The first column of the present volume has been drafted on the basis of the latest edition of the Dictionnaire de l'Orthographe française, printed in Poitiers, but each time the English word does not render all the senses, both proper and figurative, of the French word, I have repeated the entry (our translation).

[8] This brings evidence of a non-rhotic pronunciation at a rather early stage, at least in dictionaries.

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Table 1: The word-list of Brady's Dictionnaire and its source

Restaut, *Traité de l'orthographe françoise,* Poitiers, 1755	Brady, *Dictionnaire de la prononciation angloise,* 1756		
Confondre, v. a.	Confondre, v. a.	*To confound.*	Toŭ cånnfåoŭnd.
Confondu, ue, part. paſ. & adj.	Confondu, ue, p.p.	*Confounded.*	Cånnfåoŭnd.
Conformation, ſ. f.	Conformation, ſ. f.	*Conformation*	Cånnfârmē′ch*iu*nn.
Conforme, adj. de tout genre	Conforme, adj.	*Conform*	Cånnfârm.
Conformé, ée, part. paſ. & adj.			
Conformément, adv.	Conformément, adv.	*Conformably*	Cånnfârm*e*blĭ.
Conformer, v. a.	Conformer, v. a.	*To conform*	Toŭ cånnfârm.
Conformiſte, ſ. m.			
Conformité, ſ. f.	Conformité, ſ. f.	*Conformity*	Cånnfârm*i*tĭ.
Confort, ſ. m. Il eſt vieux.	Confort, ſ. m. *il eſt vieux*	*Aid.*	ē′d.
Confortatif, ive, adj. Il eſt auſſi ſubſtantif.	Confortatif, ve, adj. & ſ. m.& f.	*Strengthening*	Strénnθ-n*in.*

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> l'Auteur lui-même contrarie, par le plan qu'il a suivi, le but qu'il s'était proposé ; il en a fait un Dictionnaire François-Anglois, tandis qu'il fallait en faire simplement un Dictionnaire Anglois ou Anglois-François.
> Cette bizarre disposition a rendu absolument inutile un Ouvrage dont on devoit se promettre les plus grands avantages : il en résulte que le commençant qui chercher la prononciation d'un mot doit absolument en connoître la prononciation Françoise pour trouver la manière dont il doit être prononcé[9]."

It can be seen that, on the contrary, the beginners start from what is most familiar to them, i.e. a word in their native language and discover the English equivalent in its written form (in italics) and the way it should be pronounced thanks to a phonemic transcription.

Its structure follows the French learners' path to the discovery of the spoken equivalent in English:

Table 2: Brady: From the French written word to the English spoken word

Entry in French	*Entry in English*	Pronunciation
Belle-Mere, f. f.	*Mother in Law.*	Mŏđr'nlâ

Devoid of any semantic description of its entries, Brady's *Dictionnaire* is not a dictionary in the traditional sense, but rather a pronouncing glossary, possibly inspired by Newbery 1752 (see below, in 2.4) and Buchanan 1757a (*A Pocketbook…*) which will be described and discussed further down.

1.4 Differences with competing dictionaries of the time

Brady certainly found inspiration in Mather Flint (1740), a treatise in French on the pronunciation of English but not a lexicon arranged alphabetically. Mather Flint provides examples such as this:

[9]"A Dictionnaire de la prononciation Angloise, the product of a considerable amount of work, was published in Paris around that time, but the author's plan goes against the goal he was aiming at: he has produced a French-English dictionary, while what was needed was merely an English dictionary or an English-French dictionary. This bizarre structure has made totally useless a book which was expected to provide many advantages. The result is that the beginner must look up for the pronunciation of a word must know the French pronunciation of its equivalent to find out its proper pronunciation."

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Table 3: Mather Flint: From the English written word to the English spoken word

Entry in English	*Entry in French*	Pronunciation
quake	*trembler*	couaīke
quéstion	*question*	couesst*io*nn
néighbour	*voisin*	naīb*o*r

The rewriting of the word to suggest English pronunciation through French graphemic conventions and the use of italics for reduced vowels and glides are the most obvious common features. Both features are major innovations to represent pronunciation. But the marking of stress is a diacritic, an acute accent on the stressed vowel[10], whereas Brady places the stress mark after the syllable, thus paving the way to the separation of syllables in orthoepic dictionaries, marked by a hyphen as of Kenrick 1773. The palatalisation in Brady's Cånnfå*r*mē´ch*iu*nn is not yet to be found in Mather Flint's couesst*io*nn, a difference which may be attributed either to the fact that they *are* two different authors or that the phonetic change began to be noticed and accepted around 1750.

Brady's *Dictionnaire* is contemporary with Johnson's *Dictionary*, and he was aware of the work in progress: "Lorſque j'aurai ſes déciſions ſur ce premier volume, je mettrai ſous preſſe le ſecond qui eſt fait ſur le Dictionnaire de M. Johnſon". (Preface, page x[11]). But the *Dictionnaire* published in 1756 had no relation to Johnson's *Dictionary* since, being intended for French learners, it was based on the word-list of the French *Dictionnaire de Poitiers,* 4th edn. published in 1742. Brady's volume 2 was never published and we do not know what its would have been, once based on Johnson's word list.

1.5 Brady and the pronunciation of English

Brady gives us access to a treasure trove of phonetic facts rarely reported in other dictionaries as he was concentrating on the spoken word as it appears orally in the learner's context rather than complying with regular patterns rationally generalized through analogy, as later orthoepists were led to do.

[10]This is the convention adopted by Buchanan 1766: neíbour naibŭr. See 2.4 below.

[11]After receiving [the readers'] decisions on the present volume, I will send to the press the second volume based on Mr Johnson's Dictionary (our translation). Brady's *Dictionnaire* is presented as volume 1 in its title page. No trace of a Volume 2 can be retrieved.

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1.5.1 Sociolinguistic observations

A sociolinguistic observation about *a* shows the social origin of the fronting of the vowel transcribed by [æ] which has been prone to dialectal and diachronic variation in both directions:

> "Quoique la plûpart des Anglois prononcent leur a bref comme un a bref, on peut dire cependant à ceux qui le trouveront mal imité par un è, qu'on ne doit pas suivre en fait de prononciation le grand nombre du peuple, mais le grand nombre des personnes qui parlent conformement au langage de la Cour, du Théâtre ou du Barreau ; toutes ces personnes-là donnent à l'a Anglois bref un son mitoyen entre ceux de l'a François bref & de l'è prononcé un peu plus ouvertement ; excepté, lorsqu'il est devant l, r,... [12]"

1.5.2 Contrastive phonetics of English and French

Brady provided explanations which facilitate the recognition and the production of the foreign sound by native speakers of French. The short open back vowel [ɑ], as in *pot*, which was standard in 18th century British English (and is standard in present-day American English) is explained as follows: "By pronouncing *pâte* open and short at the same time thus: pått, you will produce precisely the sound of o in *pot*, which must be half as long as the a in *pâte*; this must be kept in mind to avoid any confusion between these two sounds and that of the French a in *patte*." (Brady & O'Reilly 1756: vj).

The specific needs of a foreign public turns the teacher into an insightful observer of phonetic reality.

A similar example is offered by the observation of the English diphthong [aɪ]: "The sound of i in high, hire, & c., although comprised of that of short a and i produce the impression of a single [monosyllabic] diphthong, whereas when pronouncing the French words *haï* and *haïr*, I spend some time to separate the two syllables ha-ï, ha-ïr; hence the two dots above the ï in the French transcription of *high* ***haï***, *hire*, ***haïr*** are meant to indicate the union between the two vowels and not their separation."(Brady & O'Reilly 1756: vj–vij)

[12] Although most English speakers pronounce their short a as short a, it may be said to the readers who would find it misrepresented by è that one should not follow the the pronunciation of the large majority of the people, but rather the large number of persons who conform to the language of the Court, the Stage or the Bar; these persons pronounce the English short a with a sound halfway between that of the French short a and that of the French è pronounced slightly more open, except when followed by l, r ...." (our translation).

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The author here shows a mastery of syllabic differences between French and English, of spelling conventions in French and a proper awareness of the limitations of the transcription conventions he uses: he makes explicit that the diaeresis borrowed from the French spelling of *haï* indicating two separate syllables nuclei should be interpreted differently when applied to the transcription of the English word *high,* where it is meant to indicate their union in one syllable.

1.5.3 An accurate observation of vowel weakening and syllabic sonorants

Brady had a keen sense of reduced vowels and syllabic sonorants, probably because, as a teacher, he noticed that these were a major cause of the obstacles to the proper comprehension of spoken English by his students. In his Preface (1756: vij) he insists on the fact that "a Frenchman may well know how to read English, hardly will he be able to recognize in familiar conversation the very same sounds that he read so easily in the books, because of the difference in English between formal speech which pronounces each word with its syllabic content, and familiar speech which is regulated by the accidental value of pronunciation."

Brady's transcriptions seem both accurate and unusual:

- *Intestate* Ntéſtett

Brady's accuracy is shown by the syllabic nature of the initial nasal and the vowel reduction of the unstressed syllable marked both by its quality (a short vowel and not a diphthong) and its italicized letter which is meant to indicate a very short sound.

- *Ability* ebĭ'l*i*tĭ

Italicized symbols again clearly indicate unstressed syllables, and no macron or breve is combined with them as opposed to the full vowels which are here indicated as short.

1.5.4 A careful observation of palatalisation, slightly different from Buchanan's

Synaeresis of *i* and yod insertion (but no yod deletion yet) are clearly legible in:

Beatification B*i*ètifikē´ch*iu*nn

However after a consonant cluster palatalization is still blocked:

Combuſtion Cŏmbeŭſſt*iu*nn

The voiced sibilant may also be palatalized:

Invaſion Nvē´-g*iu*n

The syllabic nasal sonorant in the first syllable has a realistic transcription by a syllabic consonant. The French pronunciation of <g> before a front vowel,

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[ʒ], provides an easy access to its pronunciation by a French learner. It should be noted that Buchanan does not allow palatalisation after a voiced consonant and offer a different transcription of the same word: 4 invä´ſion, with number 4 indicating the number of syllables, the vowel *i* being syllabic and leaving the consonant *s* unpalatalised.

1.6 Conventions used and the way they represent spoken English

The vowel symbols adopted by Brady are made explicit in the following table: The use of breves as in θŏm or Bĭtt and of macrons as in Mīt to distinguish

Table 4: *Brady's transcription of vowel sounds* (1756: xj–xij)

	Short vowels		Long vowels		Digraphs	
a	*Fat*	Fètt	*Fate*	Fē´t	*Cause*	Câze
					Join	Djaïn
					Doubt	Dåoŭtt
e	*Dress*	Dréſſ	*Meat*	Mīt	*Hair*	Hē´r
					Reign	Rē´ne
i	*Bit*	Bĭtt	*Tithe*	Taïđ	*Cæſar*	Cīzr
o	*Not*	Nått	*Note*	Nōt	*Beauty*	Bioût*i*
					Coat	Côt
u	*Thumb*	θŏm	*Tune*	Tioûne	*Fool*	Fûl

between lax and tense vowels is an innovation also shared by Buchanan. The breve is replaced by accents over the vowel *e* to distinguish between the vowel of *dress* and the vowel of *fat*, the choice of è for the latter being dictated by the fact that native speakers of French perceive this vowel as closer to the French [ɛ] than to the French [a].

The digraph <ou> is used without any diacritic when it is a semi-consonant (*Twelve* Touélv) and has a breve on the u when it transcribes a short [ʊ] (*Foot* foŭt), or the second element of a closing diphthong (*Doubt* Dåoŭt).

A detailed coverage of the exceptions is dealt with in five short pages for vowels (p. xiij–xvij) and four pages (p. xviij–xxj) for consonants (mainly mute consonants), and is hardly different in content from the handbooks published since his time.

The transcriptions of the entries may present occasional inconsistencies: it is difficult to interpret the long ā of *Part* Pārt and the short ă of *Partition* Părtĭch*iu*nn.

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But it is relevant to observe that *Mourner* Môrner has a stressed vowel different from that of *Morning* Mårning, a distinction still present in American English in the first half of the 20th century (['mornər] vs ['mɔrniŋ]). And one may wonder why *Formal* Fårml has the same vowel as *Martyr* Mårtr.

The electronic edition of the dictionary we are conducting will reveal the extent to which it is consistent and accurate in the observation of facts which may have escaped the attention of Brady's contemporaries.

A contemporary counterpart of Brady's *Dictionnaire*, published the following year, is also the work of an educationalist but who teaches native learners rather than foreign learners, in Britain rather than abroad, James Buchanan, who published two different works in 1757.

2 Buchanan's *Linguæ Britannicæ Vera Pronunciatio* and *New Pocket-book for Young Gentlemen and Ladies*, 1757

James Buchanan was a British "grammarian, orthoepist, and educationalist" (Dossena 2023) in the second half of the eighteenth century. These three words actually summarize a description made by Emsley (1933: 1154) in an article entirely devoted to this author:

> Buchanan, besides being an original worker in pronunciation, also wrote several grammars which reflect contemporary ideas, and a *Plan of Education*. The latter tract, though not original, was at least based on practical experience. The author was a schoolmaster engaged in one of the most arduous problems of regulation.

He was first and foremost an educationalist, "Maſter of the Boarding-School at *Loughbury-Houſe*, oppoſite *Stockwell*, in *Surry*" (Buchanan 1757a: title page). He published *The English Complete Scholar* (Buchanan 1753) and thought that the content of "[…] this Book may be thought ſufficient for a thorough Engliſh Education, without the Help, or Expence of any other." (Buchanan 1753: xvii)

As a grammarian, he also published later *The British Grammar* (Buchanan 1762) though his name does not appear in the title page.[13] The latter also mentions that it was "[f]or the Uſe of Schools of Great-Britain and Ireland and of Private Young Gentlemen and Ladies" and the author also describes the content as having

[13]See Kennedy (1926): 388–391, for the question of authorship.

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been "[…] gleaned either from a Courſe of Reading, or deduced from a Series of Obſervations, the Reſult of many Years Practice [as a teacher]" (Buchanan, 1762: i). This is evidence that the grammar was written by an educationalist.

In the works mentioned above, Buchanan devoted large parts to orthoepic accounts of the English language as Emsley (1933: 1156) puts it: "Interest in pronunciation is also apparent from the first to the last of the books".

2.1 Buchanan's dictionaries

Little wonder then that, as an orthoepist, he published three dictionaries that were later called "pronunciation dictionaries". His first dictionary (Buchanan 1757b) is regularly referred to as "the first English pronunciation dictionary" (Dossena 2023) and therefore it is also the first reference work, and the only one by the author, to be part of the *Eighteenth-Century English Phonology Database* (ECEP) (Beal et al. 2015). It is also the most cited in research works on 18th century pronunciation (Jones 2006; Mugglestone 2003; Beal 1999). The long title ends as follows: "A Work intirely new, and deſigned for the Uſe of Schools, and of Foreigners, as well as Natives who would ſpeak, read, and write Engliſh with Propriety and Accuracy". This, of course, is consistent with Buchanan's enterprise as an educationalist referring to himself as "Northern Briton" addressing mainly native speakers for whom a proper command of the standard language was highly desirable.

Interestingly enough, the second (Buchanan 1757a) and third (Buchanan 1766) dictionaries are not re-prints or new editions of the first with additions and improvements, like most other dictionaries at the time. The second dictionary is similar to the first regarding the representation of the headwords' pronunciation but rather different with respect to the information layout. The third resembles the second in terms of information layout but greatly departs from it (and thus from the first) as to the notational system used to render the pronunciation of the headwords.

We contend that such an evolution over a 10-year period of time reflects the author's intention, as an educationalist, to provide the learners of English with a tool tailored to suit their needs in terms of orthoepy whether they are native speakers or foreigners, as expounded in the preface of the third dictionary (Buchanan 1766: viii).

In the following work the columns with the initial letters over them ſhew the true orthography, and the oppoſite columns the true pronunciation, in the moſt ſimple and eaſy manner, according to the beſt verbal expreſſion. [...] The ſpelling

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and pronouncing columns being face to face, will prevent thoſe who have made but ſmall progreſs in orthography from ſpelling as they uſed to pronounce.

It must be added that "true spelling" by 1766 referred to the spelling of Johnson (1755) which set a standard for most subsequent lexicographers. But "true pronunciation" may be attributed to Buchanan's own improvements in the representation of pronunciation, his main center of interest.

The description of the dictionaries' contents in sections 2.2 and 2.3 below show that the focus is gradually put on the pronunciation of the headwords, by eliminating all unrelated information so as to make "the true pronunciation" available to the user in "the most simple and easy manner". In subsection 2.3, we comment on the genesis of Buchanan (1757a) followed by the publication of Buchanan (1766). We assume that the latter is one step further towards the new genre of pronouncing dictionary which later flourished at the dawn of the 20th century.

2.2 *Linguæ Britannicæ Vera Pronunciatio: Or, A New English Dictionary* (Buchanan 1757b)

The first dictionary has a traditional structure in which a typical entry includes a headword, a single letter abbreviation referring to its part of speech, a definition that may be split into several items due to polysemy and another letter that informs the reader about the foreign language from which the word was borrowed. Like other dictionaries of the first half of the 18th century, an accent after the stressed vowel appears in most headwords.

Table 5: The entry layout in Buchanan (1757b)

Buchanan (1757b)
ā́gĕncy, (N.) 1. Acting. 2. Doing buſineſs for another. 3. The reward paid for doing ſuch buſineſs. L.

The innovative feature of this dictionary, shared with Brady's, is that most vowels have superscript diacritics that indicate the vowel phonetic quality: a macron for a tense vowel and a breve for a lax vowel.

The dictionary also used vowels with superscripted dots to:

1. show that the pronunciation of the digraphs <ow> and <ou> is different: [aʊ̈] and not [oʊ̈].

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Table 6: Buchanan's vowel symbols

Buchanan (1757b)			
Lax vowels	**As in**	**Tense vowels**	**As in**
ă	*Embắff ădor*	ā	*Abā́fe*
ĕ	*Bĕ́nĕfit*	ē	*ăccḗde*
ĭ	*Crĭ́mĭnal*	ī	*Pī́lot*
ŏ	*Prŏ́fŏdy*	ō	*Dĭplṓma*
ŭ	*Sŭ́bŭrbs*	ū	*Trū́ly*
ў	*Pŏlўfўllable*	ȳ	*Prŏtŏtȳ́pe*

Table 7: Diacritics for digraphs with and without a diaeresis

Buchanan (1757b)	
Sȯẇ ("female ſwine")	*Sȯȕth*
Sow ("To ſtrew ſeed on the ground...")	*Soup*

2. indicate disyllabicity in all other combination of such vowels.

Table 8: Diacritics to mark two syllables

Buchanan (1757b)	
Cȯėfĭ́cĭent	*Cȯȧlĕ́ſce*
Crėȧ́te	*Herȯic*[14]

Buchanan uses an alternate transcription, fully compatible with his principles : herṓĭcal, Stṓĭcs.

Buchanan did not deal with the pronunciation of consonants except for silent letters which are highlighted via non-italicised letters in the headword (otherwise always in italics).

The same system of representation for silent vowels is also at play.

Occasionally, some pronunciation re-spellings carrying the diacritics appear between brackets in the word entry as in *beau*, (*bō*); *flambeau*, (*flambō*); *enough*, (*enŭff*); *goal*, (*jail*), *debaucheé* (*deboſheé*), & c. Buchanan made this practice explicit in his preface (Buchanan 1757b: xiii, Buchanan 1757a: xii):

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Table 9: Mute consonants

Buchanan (1757b)	
*Condĕ´m***n**	*ă´nărc***h***y*
*Affĭ´***g***n*	**K***nī***gh***t*

Table 10: Silent vowels

Buchanan (1757b)	
*Blĭ´fl***e***r*	*Brū***i***fe*
*Ca***e***¯´far*	*Co***u***˘´ntry*

> But when the pronunciation is quite different from the manner of ſpelling the word, I have repreſented its true pronunciation within brackets, thus, *beau*, [*bo*] *flambeau*, [*flambo*] *enough*, [*enŭff*] *goal*, [*jail*] & c.

A symbolic innovation is here the use of square brackets to mark up these respellings which are true forerunners of 19th century phonemic transcription.

2.3 The *New Pocket-book for Young Gentlemen and Ladies: Or, a Spelling Dictionary of the English Language* (Buchanan 1757a)

Buchanan's next work was published in the same year, was explicitly intended for young learners, and it showed the author's determination to concentrate on the spoken word. Restricting the information provided to pronunciation he reduced the size of the volume while preserving the number of entries (see Table 19 below).

We have been able to determined that it was published after the *Vera Pronunciatio*, because Buchanan inserted the following footnote in its preface (Buchanan 1757a: v):

> But as no perſon ought to be without ſome English dictionary or other, I am of opinion, that none who is able to ſpare five ſhillings for my *Engliſh Dictionary* lately publiſhed [i.e. Buchanan 1757b], will, or, at leaſt, ought to want it: And therefore I refer to the diſſertation on the ſpecies of ſounds prefixed to that work, with obſervations at large on the various powers and formations of the letters, & c.

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He re-used exactly the same representational system with respect to the pronunciation of headwords as in the first dictionary. When comparing the first pages of both dictionaries, the addition of new headwords is evident. Yet, the second dictionary is neither a re-print nor a second edition of the first because the layouts differ significantly. Indeed, each word entry is prefixed with a figure that indicates the number of syllables of the headword and no definitions appear in the second dictionary (Buchanan 1757a).

Table 11: A comparison of entries between Buchanan (1757b) and Buchanan (1757a)

Buchanan (1757b)	Buchanan (1757a)
Ab (S.) The eleventh month of the civil year according to the computation of the Hebrews; it anſwers to the moon of July, and has thirty days in it.	x
Ab or, *Abs* A Latin prepoſition uſed in the compoſition of Engliſh words, and ſignifies from.	x
ăbăcŭs, (S.) In architecture, is the uppermoſt part of the capital of a column.	3 a′băcus, ſ.
ābă′ft, (P.) The ſame as aft, that part of the ſhip towards the ſtern.	2 ăbă′ft, p.
x	3 ăbai′ſănce, ſ. F.
ābă′ndon, (V.), 1. To forſake utterly. 2. To give tip one's ſelf without reſtraint. F.	3 ābă′ndon, v. F.

2.4 The *Essay Towards Establishing a Standard for an Elegant and Uniform Pronunciation of the English Language, Throughout the British Dominions* (Buchanan 1766)

In his third work, Buchanan does not mention the word "dictionary" in the title either. He probably wanted to avoid any controversy about this new book because he went yet a step further regarding the content. Definitions, systematic indications of the part-of-speech of headwords and the occasional etymological information are absent in all entries. Each entry is comprised of the spelling of the headword to which a stress mark is added above the stressed vowel, followed by a phonetic re-spelling of the entry word.

The layout of the *Essay*, 1766, placing stress on the spelling and then adding a transcription of the pronunciation was adopted seven years later by Kenrick

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Table 12: Entry layout of the three Buchanan dictionaries

Buchanan 1757b	Buchanan 1757a	Buchanan 1766
ā´gĕncy, (N.) 1. Acting. 2. Doing buſineſs for another. 3. The reward paid for doing ſuch buſineſs. L.	3 ā´gĕncy, ſ. L.	ágency **aijĕnsў**

(1773), a major innovator in the history of orthoepic dictionaries who introduced superscript vowels to establish vowel phonemes and hyphens to mark syllable boundaries (see Table 13). The next generation of orthoepists, especially Walker (1791), never resorted to a modified spelling to indicate pronunciation but made use of Kenrick's superscript figures above the spelling left untouched, while generalising Kenrick's syllable boundaries with hyphens. Phonetic transcription initiated by Brady and Buchanan will appear more than one century later with Sweet (1877) and Jones (1917).

Table 13: Entry layout of Kenrick's dictionary 1773

To COMMA'ND — COM-MAND *v a.*	To COMMU'NICATE — COM-MU-NI-CATE *v a.*
Spelling with stress mark – superscript numbers for vowel qualities (e.g. 1 for ə, 10 for ɑ) – part of speech	Grave accent to mark stress after the stressed vowel, hyphens to mark syllables, 7 for ɒ, 12 for eɪ, etc.

Whenever necessary, Buchanan (1766) indicates the part of speech for homographic pairs with stress differentiation.

Table 14: Stress alternation according to the part of speech

Buchanan, 1766			
ábsent **N.**	ăbsĭnt	fréquent **Adj.**	freĕquĭnt
absént **V.**	ăbsĕnt	frequént **V.**	freĕquĕnt

Buchanan 1766 still made use of macrons but only for the tense vowels <i> and <o> since he replaced /ā/, /ē/, /ū/ by /ai/ (IPA /eɪ/) as in *make*, /ee/ (IPA /iː/) as in

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machine and /eu/ (IPA /juː/) as in *tune* or /oo/ (IPA /uː/) as in *brute* respectively. As for the diacritics over lax vowels, he kept the breve symbol. The new diacritics /â/ (IPA /ɑː/) and /ô/ (IPA /ɔː/) made their appearance in this dictionary. They stand for the stressed vowel of words such as in *father, almond, far* and *fork, brought* respectively. He also dealt with the pronunciation of the consonants as table 12 shows above: <g> and <c> have their "soft sounds" re-spelt /j/ (IPA /ʤ/) and /s/ (IPA /s/) respectively. Syllabicity of <i> is marked with the help of hyphens, which emerge here for the first time as syllable boundary markers.

Table 15: Syllabicity of <i> before vowels

Buchanan, 1766	
crúciate kroosĭ-ait	píety pī-ĭtў

2.5 The idea of a true pronunciation dictionary

As mentioned earlier, Buchanan published two distinct dictionaries within the same year which is quite a performance if we consider the material conditions of the time and the fact that Buchanan had a full-time job as the master of a school he owned and where he taught. Yet, it must be reminded here that, in Buchanan (1757a), he freely re-used most of the data included in his first dictionary, with minor changes. The question is whether the drastic change of information layout in Buchanan (1757a) was his own idea or an idea taken from a former piece of work. There are no clues in the dictionary that could help answer the question as there is no preface and only "General Observations" (Buchanan 1757a: iii–xii) in which he describes the pronunciation of vowels, consonants and stressed syllables, and explains the diacritics and symbols used in the dictionary.

The title mentions that it is a "spelling dictionary" and when searching for such types of dictionaries published before 1757, we came across Newbery's *A Spelling-dictionary of the English Language, on a New Plan. For the Uſe of Young Gentlemen, Ladies, and Foreigners*[15]. Some bibliographical information is available via the Hockliffe Project[16] at The Centre for Textual Studies (CTS) at De

[15]We have not been able to locate the very first edition of this dictionary but the second (Newbery 1752) is available on the web though the quality of its PDF file is very poor: https://archive.org/details/bim_eighteenth-century_an-east-spelling-dictio_newbery-john_1748. It is also available from the Wellcome collection: https://wellcomecollection.org/works/kubrxb9m.

[16]See Books of Instruction. 0605: Anon. (John Newbery?), https://hockliffe.dmu.ac.uk/items/0605.html.

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Montfort University.[17]

> According to S. Roscoe, *A Spelling-Dictionary of the English language* was first published in 1745 as volume three of the *Circle of the Sciences*. For this second edition, of which the Hockliffe Collection has the only known copy, the work was removed from the series and issued as an independent publication. Nine further editions followed, one every other year on average, until 1770, after which only four more were published between then and the final edition of 1786 for Thomas Carnan. The attribution of the work to John Newbery himself seems, according to Roscoe, 'to be no more than guess-work', and he doubts that the mercurial disposition which Newbery is generally supposed to have possessed would have equipped him for writing such a dull and laborious text. The dedication, however, is signed by John Newbery (Roscoe [*John Newbery and his successors, 1740–1814: a bibliography.*] 1973: 201–203).

Interestingly, important words appearing in the title of Newbery's dictionary are present in the title of Buchanan (1757a): "spelling dictionary" and "for Young Gentlemen and Ladies"). Buchanan, as headmaster of a school, may have used the dictionary published by Newbery who was a flourishing bookseller of children literature.

While Newbery was not the first to publish books for children [...] he was the first to create a separate list of works for children and regularly to employ or commission illustrators and authors, although he himself was almost certainly the author of some of the titles. Newbery was an imaginative publicist, advertising widely in newspapers in Britain and North America, offering discounts for teachers buying in bulk, and making use of promotional offers (Maxted 2004: entry Newbery).

In addition, we can definitely demonstrate that Newbery's dictionary was a source of inspiration to Buchanan by comparing some successive entries.

As shown in the table above, Newbery systematically indicated the stressed syllable with an acute accent over the vowel or digraph. Yet, the stressed vowel of some other words are marked differently as shown in the table below.

Newbery does not account for such a distinction in the marking of stressed vowels in the preface of the dictionary, but after a close inspection of a sample of entries, we came to the conclusion that the use of different symbols is significant as it helps to determine the phonetic value of the vowel as shown in the table below.

[17] See https://cts.dmu.ac.uk/index.html.

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Table 16: A comparison of entries in Newbery (1752) and Buchanan (1757a)

Newbery, 1748 (2nd ed.)	Buchanan (1757a)
2 accóſt, v	2 ăccŏ´ſt, v., F.
2 accoúnt, v	2 ăccȯu´nt n., F.
4 accoúntable, a	4 ăccȯu´ntable, a.
3 accoúntant, ſ	3 ăccȯu´ntănt, n.
3 accoútre, v	3 ăccȯu´tre, v., F.
4 accoútrement, ſ	4 ăccȯu´trements, n., F.

Table 17: Newbery's short stressed vowels

Newbery, 1748 (2nd ed.)	
á´	2 á´gile, a
é´	3 é´lephant, ſ
í´	4 commí´ferate, v
ó´	5 díabó´lical, a
ú´	2 pú´niſh, v

We do not know whether Buchanan managed to decipher such a scheme or not. It is thus impossible to assess the influence of Newbery on the pronunciation of headwords in Buchanan (1757a) until we undertake a cross-examination of Buchanan's and Newbery's dictionaries[18]. Buchanan's third dictionary (Buchanan 1766) has also been digitized so that we can recapitulate the total number of entries in each of Buchanan's dictionaries.

Buchanan (1766) clearly outnumbers its predecessors in terms of entries. Despite this progress, the *Essay* is not mentioned by Esther Sheldon (1946) when she suggests a typology to classify pronouncing systems used by 18th century lexicographers though she does classify Buchanan's (1757b) system as follows:

Actually Buchanan's system is far from complete, and really represents an

[18]Such a task will be possible since Buchanan (1757b) and Buchanan (1757a) have been digitized and edited and Newbery, 1752 (the 3rd edition being of a better typographic quality) is being digitized as computer-searchable file. This is part of an ongoing research project at the University of Poitiers (UR15076 FORELLIS) which aims at digitizing pronunciation dictionaries of English published from the 18th century onwards.

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Table 18: Newbery long and short vowels under stress

Stressed vowels	Newbery, 1748 (2nd ed.) Pattern (C = consonant; C2 = consonant cluster; V = vowel; # = end of the word)	Examples
á, é, í, ó, ú	Stressed tense vowels if followed by <CV> or <CVe#> (open syllables)	extréme bohémia
	stressed lax vowels if followed by consonant cluster <C2> or <C#> (checked syllables	énvy besét
á́, é́, í́, ó́, ú́	stressed lax vowels if followed by <CV>: lax vowels in open syllables	extré́mity fó́reſt

Table 19: Total number of entries in Buchanan's dictionaries

Dictionaries	Total number of word entries
Buchanan 1757b	17,431
Buchanan 1757a	15,908
Buchanan 1766	26,268

> intermediary stage between Type II [i.e. "accent mark over the stressed part of the word, placed so as to indicate 'long' or 'short' vowel preceding"] and Type III [i.e. "diacritical system, showing stressed syllables, quality of all or most vowels, pronunciation of consonants, etc."]. Instead of shifting the accent for long and short syllables, he substitutes a macron for long vowels and a breve for short, but has no way of showing a third or fourth quality for any vowel, any more than the accentual system. […] Buchanan's system however makes two distinctly important advances over Type II: it marks some of the unaccented vowels, and it indicates silent letters by using Roman type (the entries are in italic). (Sheldon 1946: 32)

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If we consider the pronunciation system of Buchanan (1766), it also fits in "Type III" as shown in subsection 2.3. Sheldon further refers to Johnston's dictionary (1764), as "purely a pronouncing dictionary; no definitions are given" (Sheldon 1946: 33)[19].

3 Conclusion

Sheldon could have given the same description for Newbery (1752) and Buchanan (1757a, 1766). In this respect, this new line of descent among dictionaries of English stands as the true ancestors of a new genre of dictionaries that started as learning tools for schools in the middle of the 18th century. We may thus add a "Type IV" to Sheldon's classification in which Buchanan, 1766, well before the others, is an exemplar and stands out among all the other pronunciation dictionaries of the second half of the 18th century. The intent for such "Type IV" dictionaries is to provide learners of English, as well as native speakers, with a tool that allows an easy and unambiguous access to the pronunciation of an exhaustive list of words. With the same ambition dictionaries gained considerable credit at the beginning of the 20th century with the further progress of the symbols of the International Phonetic Association. After Afzelius's *Concise Pronouncing Dictionary of Modern English* (Afzelius 1909), who used Sweet's transcription system, D. Jones used the IPA transcriptions in his *English Pronouncing Dictionaries*, first published in 1917 and which ran through eighteen editions up to 2011. Wells followed suit with the *Longman Pronunciation Dictionary* through three editions (1990, 2000 and 2008) and the latest heir to this line is *The Routledge Dictionary of Pronunciation for Current English*, authored in 2017 by Upton and Kretzschmar.

Brady & O'Reilly's (1756) *Dictionnaire* was contemporary with Buchanan's (1757b) *New English Dictionary* and Buchanan's (1757a) *Pocket Book*. Like Buchanan, Brady was a teacher, aiming at school learners rather than at a learned public as did later orthoepists at the end of the century such as Kenrick, Sheridan and Walker.

But unlike Buchanan, Brady was aiming at *foreign* learners of English. However, similar educational situations in both countries at the same time seem to have shown the need for a type of dictionary that would be a learners' dictionary and that would help learners to improve their command of the *spoken* language. To this end Brady and Buchanan seem to have invented independently the concept of a pronouncing dictionary, defined as having no ambition to provide

[19]But Johnston (1764) is only a Type I dictionary ("simply placing an accent mark over the stressed part of the word").

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meanings, and therefore being a portable book, or a "pocket-book", and specifically aimed at representing the spoken word.

Brady seems to have been especially bold in his use of respelling. He invented original conventions to represent the sounds of English, whereas Buchanan, who was attempting to combine a spelling dictionary with his two pronunciation handbooks, had to strike a balance between traditional spelling and diacritics or conventions to represent stress and vowel qualities.

But both authors are the first lexicographers to use pre-phonetic symbols such as đ, å, θ, and re-use quantity markers as vowel quality symbols like the macron, the breve and the circumflex. They improvised two symbols for specific purposes, the hyphen and the square bracket which were thereafter generalised to indicate syllable boundaries and pronunciation.

Both used respellings at least occasionally which paved the way to phonemic transcription (Brady's ăĭneŭff and Buchanan's enŭff for *enough*). Brady and Buchanan (as of 1766) are sensitive to palatalisation: préch*ieu*ss and prĕ́ſhŭs are their respective transcriptions for *precious*. The variation which appears in Buchanan's works between 1757 and 1766 may provide evidence of the change in progress at the time.

Both authors were aware of the importance of the syllable as shown by Brady's distinction between French *haï* and English *high*, and Buchanan's use of a distributed diaeresis on two successive vowels as in *Cȯȧlĕ́ſce* and *Crëȧ́te*. They did not generalize syllable boundary marking, which became a regular feature of orthoepic dictionaries as of Kenrick (1773). But one may suspect that the traditional dictionary format with added pronunciation and syllabic information may have inhibited the realistic attention to reduced forms of vowels and to syllabic sonorants by suggesting to its readers that each syllable should be clearly separated and fully pronounced. This temptation was avoided by Brady and Buchanan, who eventually appear as better informants about the spoken language in its real use.

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Chapter 10

English/German dictionaries, language learning, and the problem of pronunciation

Nicola McLelland

This article examines English/German dictionaries in the eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries with a particular emphasis on how they describe and/or prescribe pronunciation. Beginning with the 1706 *Dictionary English, German, and French*, produced by the Leipzig-based teacher of English Christian Ludwig, the compilers of these English/German dictionaries were, to start with, all teachers of English in Germany. Only at the very end of the eighteenth century did dictionary compilers begin to take into account the needs of English learners of German; English-speaking compilers only entered the market in the nineteenth century. I demonstrate how examining pronunciation in these bi- and multilingual dictionaries can illuminate English and German language history, as well the history of language learning and teaching. After an overview of the history of English/German dictionaries, I examine the reception of English orthoepic prescriptions in Germany, and then analyse the dictionaries' accounts of German pronunciation at a time before German monolingual sources had seriously begun grappling with the problem. I also show what the transcription systems used reveal about change and variation in English and German pronunciation at the time; and I show to what extent ideologies of correctness familiar from monolingual sources are also present in these bilingual materials: strongly so for English, less so for German.

Bilingual dictionaries; history of language learning and teaching (HoLLT); prescriptivism; pronunciation; orthoepy

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Nicola McLelland

1 Introduction

The "multilingual turn" has underlined the importance of multilingual sources for language histories and (historical) sociolinguistics (e.g. Pahta et al. 2018; Pavlenko 2023; Franceschini et al. 2023). This chapter exemplifies that point, by focussing in particular on the question of pronunciation, to demonstrate how English/German bi- and multilingual dictionaries of the eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries can illuminate English and German language history, as well as the history of language learning and teaching. After an overview of the history of English/German dictionaries, I first examine the reception of English orthoepy in Germany, considering what the transcription systems used reveal about change and variation in English pronunciation at the time, as well as to what extent ideologies of correctness familiar from monolingual sources (see e.g. Auer 2009) also permeate these bilingual materials. I then turn to the bilingual dictionaries' accounts of German pronunciation, incidentally showing that they anticipate any serious discussion of the question in monolingual German sources.

While dictionaries and vocabularies have always had a place in research on the history of language learning and teaching (e.g. on bi- and plurilingual texts involving German, Rossebastiano Bart 1983, 1984), they have tended to be overshadowed by other materials such as dialogues, grammars, and full language manuals. My own history of the teaching and learning of German in Britain since 1500 effectively dismissed dictionaries with the remark that "dictionaries are not textbooks", merely noting some dictionaries "in passing" (McLelland 2015: 14). Yet dictionaries are more often consulted than grammars, even for grammatical queries, in modern times at least (McLelland 2021: 282). In the nineteenth century, bilingual lexicographers seem to have realized this too. Whitney's German/English dictionary (1877) was one of many dictionaries that included tables of irregular verbs, recognizing and marketing their status as first points of reference for language learners. In the late seventeenth century, the Royal Society owned no grammar of German, though at least three existed, all in Latin (McLelland 2001), but it seems to have held two German/Latin dictionaries, and to have been eagerly awaiting a dictionary of German promised by the German Fruitbearing-Society (Van der Lubbe 2007a: 39). And already Offelen (1687: 37) assumed in his *Double Grammar of German and English* that readers would consult dictionaries, saying "You will find in the Dictionary Reich, Rich […]".

In fact, in Offelen's time, no German–English dictionary yet existed (Offelen's own brief vocabulary is only English–German, Offelen 1687: 159–188). In 1705, a model letter in Christian Ludwig's *Choise* [*sic*] *English and High-Dutch Dialogues*

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and Letters lamented the lack of any English–German dictionary. Two English–French dictionaries were recommended *faute de mieux* (Ludwig 1705: 80), and the following year one of them formed the basis of Ludwig's *Dictionary English, German and French* (1706), aimed at German learners of English, followed by a German–English volume in 1716 (McLelland 2024b). On the English-speaking side, and some decades later, Wendeborn's *Elements of German Grammar* recommended recent editions of Ludwig's and of his competitor Arnold's German–English dictionaries (Rogler 1765; Klausing 1770; see Wendeborn 1774: 156).

All this suggests that bilingual vernacular dictionaries deserve our attention in the history of language learning and teaching. However, I shall also show their value for language history and historical sociolinguistics. While monolingual dictionaries have been extensively mined for language history and national-cultural histories, bilingual works have tended to be overlooked. For example, the English–German dictionary of the famous German lexicographer Adelung has been largely ignored. Yet it now seems clear that Adelung's experience of how bilingual dictionaries treated pronunciation influenced the second and definitive edition of his highly regarded monolingual German dictionary, after Adelung had paid pronunciation *zu wenig* ('too little') attention in the first edition (Adelung 1793–1801: v; see McLelland 2024a). In bilingual dictionaries, by contrast, pronunciation of the target language was a particular concern, and that is my focus here: the treatment of pronunciation in the English/German bilingual lexicographical tradition.

A nascent interest among Germans and English speakers in learning each others' languages is evidenced by the publication in the 1680s of two English/German language manuals. However, Anglophilia in Germany, where English became available in most universities by 1800 (Klippel 2019: 83), emerged earlier and was stronger than English speakers' interest in German. In the British Isles, the first grammar of German (Aedler 1680) admittedly pre-dates Offelen's 1687 English–German *Double Grammar*, but it was so unsuccessful that it bankrupted Aedler (Van der Lubbe 2007a: 72, 104). In 1731, Benedictus Beiler's *New German Grammar* (1731) was the first manual for English speakers to mention reading German literature. It was not until the 1770s that Wendeborn dared claim that although "[a]mong the English the German has been hitherto very little known", yet "there is reason to expect, that within a few years, [...] the language and the literature of the Germans will no more be looked upon with indifference" (Wendeborn 1774: viii).

That skewing of interest is reflected in English/German dictionary production too, which remained until the nineteenth century almost entirely in the hands of teachers of English living in Germany. (The exception is Adelung, not a teacher of

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English but still, like all those before him, a German native speaker). There is also a quantitative difference: 5000 English–German dictionary pages were produced by the first four lexicographers up to 1790 (Ludwig 1705, 1706, 1716, Arnold 1736, 1739, 1757, Prager 1757, Prager 1768, and Adelung, excluding re-editions), compared to only about 2500 German–English dictionary pages (McLelland 2024c: 5). Lexicographers only began to pay explicit attention to the needs of English learners at the very end of the eighteenth century, as we shall see below.

2 The problem of pronunciation for teachers and learners of English in Germany

At the very outset of the English/German dictionary tradition, Christian Ludwig (1706), a teacher of English in Halle, not only marked English word stress, but also distinguished long and short vowels in stressed syllables, e.g. *Cán* but *Càne*, *Mét* but *Mète*, *Wín* and *Wínd* ('movement of air') but *Wìne* and *To wìnd* ('to turn'), *Bónd* but *Bòne*, *Tún* but *Tùne*. (In some cases, there is also a difference in vowel quality that goes unrecognized by Ludwig, e.g. the long *i* in *wine* is not simply long, but is a diphthong, while *tune* includes a palatal glide; the long *o* in *bone* was, on the other hand, not yet diphthongized but simply a long /o/; see Beal 2004: 158–160).[1] Ludwig followed here the pioneering example of his source, Boyer's English/French dictionary (1700). Boyer's indication of accent in all English words was "never attempted before, and now perform'd with great exactness by an English Gentleman, in order to facilitate the Pronunciation of the English Tongue to Strangers" (Boyer 1700, first page of preface, unnumbered). This innovation in bilingual lexicography, first by Boyer and then by Ludwig, precedes the first marking of accentuation in the English *mono*lingual tradition, in Dyche's *Dictionary of all Words Commonly Used in the English Tongue* (1723) (Hausmann & Cop 1985: 186). Ludwig did not just copy Boyer: he (or his printer) used slightly different printing conventions, and his markings for individual words sometimes differed from Boyer's. Ludwig's account referred, more accurately, to vowel quantity: "short & quick" vs "long Accent", compared to Boyer's account of "elevation" or "falling" of the voice. (See McLelland 2024b: 8).

From Ludwig onwards, many English–German dictionary titles mentioned pronunciation as a selling-point, for English pronunciation was clearly reck-

[1] In other cases, vowels that are today marked long are not distinguished. For example, Boyer and Ludwig (and later, Walker 1791) render the vowels in words like *cat* and *cast* (today /kæt/ and /kɑːst/) identically as a "short" *á*; Walker (1791) also rendered both identically, as his a^4.

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oned a challenge for Germans.[2] The first competitor to Ludwig's dictionary, by Theodor Arnold, another teacher of English based in Leipzig, was sold as "showing both the orthography and the orthoepia" of English by "[a]ccents placed on each word, directing to their true pronunciation" (Arnold 1736, title, following the wording in his source, Bailey's 1727 orthographical dictionary). In practice, Arnold offered less help than had Ludwig. Arnold only marked stress on words of more than one syllable, and did not distinguish vowel length at all, simply adopting the use of ' to mark word-stress (e.g. *CANA'RY*), as in his source, Bailey (1727). However, Arnold also evidently cross-checked Bailey's markings of stress (in which he found *viele Druckfehler* 'many printing errors', Arnold 1736: Preface, [16]) against other authorities in the English monolingual tradition (Dyche & Pardon 1735; Bailey's etymological dictionary of 1721; Dyche's "spelling dictionary", presumably Dyche 1723), as well as Boyer (1700). Where he found differing views, Arnold had *das meiste zugetrauet* 'most trusted' Boyer and Pardon, the two he considered *am richtigsten* 'the most correct' (Arnold 1736: [18]). However, in 1752, Arnold's second edition mentioned only Pardon as his authority in cases of doubt; Boyer was quietly dropped.

Arnold (1752) conceded the potential usefulness of acute and grave accents to distinguish vowel length (as his competitor Ludwig had done), but to do so would have caused *im Druck zu viel Schwierigkeit* 'too much difficulty in printing' (Arnold 1752: preface [v]), and after all, his monolingual English authorities Pardon, Bailey and Dyche also only used one accent. Instead, where he considered it helpful, Arnold spelled out the pronunciation using German spelling, thus *shall* as *schall*, *call* as *kahl*, *cold* as *cohld*, etc. (Arnold 1752: preface [v]). (The transcriptions use German black letter type, which I have not reproduced here, but which makes them readily distinguishable from the lemma itself.) For example, we now find *CA'NE (kähn)* (although the introduction of a stress marking rather unhelpfully suggests the word is bisyllabic). *WI'ND* in the sense of movement of air is wrongly rendered *weind*, identical with *To WIND*. Transcription is generally omitted where a related entry gives a pronunciation, e.g. *APPROA'CHLESS* after *To APPRO'ACH* [sic], *(approhdsch […])*, but many other lemmas also lack any indication (e.g. within *apr-* to *arb-*: *April, apt, aquatic, arable, arbiter*). Nevertheless, and for all its flaws, the practising teacher Arnold's intralingual transcriptions were a significant innovation, and pre-date the first dictionary in Britain to indicate the segmental phonology of English, James Buchanan's *Linguae Britannicae Vera Pronunciatio* (1757) (Beal 2008: 152–153).[3] Of course, as a German looking in

[2]Between 1770 and 1840, some 33 English pronunciation guides were published in Germany, or about one every two years (Klippel 1994: 109, citing the bibliography of Schröder 1975).

[3]The Scot Buchanan's motivation was similar to Arnold's, observing that "the people of North

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on English from outside, so to speak, Arnold had the advantage of using German spelling as an obvious and familiar meta-system to describe English pronunciation.

In the same year as Buchanan's work, Arnold's *Compleat Vocabulary* (Arnold 1757), intended for *Anfänger[n] und Reisende[n]* ('beginners and travellers', title), gave a transcription for every word without exception, using principles familiar from German spelling, such as an *-h* to indicate a preceding long vowel, and double consonants to indicate a preceding short vowel (e.g. *'ähprill* for 'April'). Silent letters are not transcribed; other difficult letter-sound correspondences are also dealt with straightforwardly, e.g *Do'ubt, dauht*, and *to la'ugh, lahf*. There remain obvious flaws, e.g. while voiceless *th* /θ/ is rendered *th-*, as in *Thursday, thursdäh*, voiced *th* /ð/ is variously represented: *th-* as in *thoff* 'thus'; *-(d)dh-* as in *modher* 'mother' and *weddher* 'weather' in 1752, but in 1757 *modth'r* and *wedth'r*.[4]

2.1 English orthoepy in Germany

The 1770s onwards saw a proliferation of English pronunciation guides, catering to the upwardly mobile but linguistically insecure in Britain and beyond (Beal 2008: 156). Best known are the guides of the Irish elocutionist Thomas Sheridan (1780, 2nd edn. 1789) and of John Walker (1791) (see Beal 2008: 164–174). Within two years, the 1789 edition of Sheridan's guide had been translated into German by Johann Ernst von Gruner (1791), but omitting what Gruner considered the *sehr mangelhaft* ('very inadequate') definitions (Gruner 1791: iii, ix), as well as sections on elocution and on common faults of Scots and Irish (a cut regretted by a reviewer, Anon 1793: col. 643). Gruner welcomed the *feste[n] Bestimmung* 'firm determination' of English pronunciation by Sheridan, an *unentbehrlich* 'indispensable' guide to the pronunciation of the *Claße von Leuten* 'class of people' amongst whom one must seek the *ächte Aussprache* 'real pronunciation' (Gruner 1791: viii). Evidently Gruner hoped his version of Sheridan's guide (apparently largely unobtainable in the original in Germany) would sit alongside Moritz's English grammar and Adelung's (at the time still incomplete) English dictionary (Moritz 1784, Adelung 1783 (A-J), 1796 (K-Z)), each of which Gruner explicitly recommended as the best available (Gruner 1791: iii, iv). [5]

Britain seem, in general, to be almost at as great a loss for proper accent and just pronunciation as foreigners" (Buchanan 1757: xv, cited by Beal 2008: 153).

[4]The practice was inconsistent, however: in 1757 we still find for grandmother *grandmo**ddh**er*, and for godmother *ghaddmo**dh**er* (my emphasis).

[5]It seems that in the end Adelung or his publisher delegated the second volume of his English dictionary to another compiler, as Gruner had feared might happen (Gruner 1791: x, McLelland

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While noting the call in a review of another dictionary to adopt Sheridan's notation in Germany (i.e. a^1, a^2, a^3 for different phonemic values of the grapheme <a> etc.), Gruner nevertheless continued the now established model of interlingual transcription in German spelling. While any transcription offered *nur Schattenritze des Tons* 'only shadowy approximations of the sound', it would still be valuable to readers familiar with English pronunciation who, after their initial training in English, lacked the opportunity to hear *den wahren Ton* 'the true sound' of English again (Gruner 1791: x–xi). A reviewer criticized Gruner's sometimes ambiguous and/or inaccurate translations of Sheridan's instructions for pronunciation. For example, Sheridan's "sides of the tongue" in discussion of the lateral *l* becomes the unclear *Stellen der Zunge*, literally 'places of the tongue' (Anon 1793: col. 644; Gruner 1791: xix). In other cases, slavishly following Sheridan's notation, rather than the sound itself, caused confusion. For example, Sheridan notated *Sirop/ Sirup* as *su*^{1}*r-ru*^{1}*p*; Gruner translated that *u*^{1} into German *or*, yielding *sorrop*. Yet Sheridan's *u*^{1}*r* stood for the *ir* sound as in *bird*, for which German *ö* was perceived by the reviewer as a closer match,even though *ö* is a front rounded vowel – and in fact, English learners of German today do tend to produce the vowel in *bird* when aiming for the target *ö*. Indeed, elsewhere Gruner did translate Sheridan's *bird bu*^{1}*rd* into *börrd*, using the transcription preferred by the reviewer. The reviewer also criticized Gruner's apparent unawareness of corrections made to Sheridan in published reviews, and his ignorance of Walker's dictionary (which, to be fair to Gruner, itself only appeared in 1791).

Adelung (1783 (A-J), 1796 (K-Z)) and Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z)) were the first English–German dictionary compilers to whom Sheridan's and Walker's pronouncing dictionaries were, in theory, available. Adelung used or mentioned neither,[6] but Ebers emphasized that he had used both, among other dictionaries too (Ebers 1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z): x–xi). Similarities in Ebers's German wording suggest that Ebers (also?) accessed Sheridan's work via Gruner's German translation, but Ebers's interlingual transcriptions seem largely independent of Gruner. Compare for example, under English *general*, Ebers's bisyllabic *dschen'=räll* with

2024a). A reviewer of Gruner's work (Anon 1793: col. 641) incidentally vehemently objected to Gruner's praise of Moritz's grammar.

[6] Adelung (1783 (A-J), 1796 (K-Z): iii–xi) criticized the lack of detail on pronunciation given by his source, the dictionary of Johnson (who had merely followed Bailey), specifically the failure to indicate whether stressed syllables were short or long (Adelung 1783 (A-J), 1796 (K-Z): v–vi). However, this weakness seems to have occurred to Adelung only once he realized – part-way through his work on his English–German dictionary – that such a distinction was already routinely made in English–German dictionaries (see McLelland 2024a: 70–71). Adelung himself accordingly marked word-stress, using the by now usual acute/ grave notation to distinguish vowel quantity.

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Gruner's three syllables in *dschenneräl*. However, Ebers did introduce a refinement in notation from Sheridan, using the positioning of the accent-marking either *on* or *after* a vowel to differentiate vowel quality, such as *e'r* for 'ear' (with a vowel similar to German *ihr),* by contrast with *er'ly* to mark the different sound in 'early'.[7]

Besides Sheridan, Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z)) also used, and in places critiqued, Walker's 1791 dictionary. For example, regarding Walker's pronunciation of the first *e* in *eternal* like *i*, thus *iternäll* (in practice representing an /ɪ/ ? see Beal 2004: 175) Ebers judged it *besser* 'better' to pronounce it as a *ein[en] Zwischenton von e und i* 'a sound between e and i', notated in his dictionary by *ê*, as in *êtern'=näll* (Ebers 1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z): [4]) – compare Sheridan's seemingly somewhat more open e^2,[8] which Gruner rendered in German spelling as *ehterrnal*.

Details of interlingual transcriptions of English pronunciations were regularly criticized in dictionary prefaces and reviews. Ebers – who intended his own 1800 dictionary to indicate the pronunciation of *der Sprachgelehrte, der Redner* 'the language scholar, the [professional?] speaker' (Ebers 1800, 1802: i) – criticized Fahrenkrüger's dictionary (1796–97) for its *zum Teil ganz willkührlich* ('sometimes quite arbitrary') transcriptions, e.g. *lenient* as *lennient* rather than *lih'=nient* (Ebers 1800, 1802: iv).[9] A reviewer in turn criticized Ebers for rendering *abbacy* as *äb'bäsi*, where Ebers replaced Walker's vowels a^4 and e^1 with Ebers' German approximations *ä* and *i*, but left the consonants untouched. As the reviewer pointed out, a German would incorrectly read the *s* as voiced (*sehr weich,* literally 'very soft') rather than unvoiced (*scharf*, lit. 'sharp') (Anon 1800: col. 574).[10]

It took until the nineteenth century for the Sheridan–Walker notation of numbered vowels to find its way into English–German dictionaries, first in Hilpert (1828–1833, 1845), who adapted Walker's system of numbered vowels (using

[7]Ebers had earlier explained the principle in his grammar (Ebers 1792: iii–v). As Ebers explained it, this was at least partly a question of "length": an accent on the vowel itself meant the vowel should be pronounced "long". Ebers also gave the example *hinder*, where *hinder* would wrongly indicate a diphthongal *aɪ* in the first syllable (*heinder* in his interlingual German transcription). Rather, the correct transcription is *hin'der*.

[8]Sheridan (1789): x) considered that a2 in *hate* to be the same as e2 in *bear*, i.e. /e:/, a more open sound than /ɪ/.

[9]Fahrenkrüger changed the transcriptions in these entries in his next edition (Fahrenkrüger 1801), and made many other changes too.

[10]In other cases, however, Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z)) used *ß* to indicate a soft s, e.g. *nohß* for *nose*.

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Walker's 27th edition), as shown in Figure 1. (On English–German dictionaries of the nineteenth century, see McLelland 2025.)

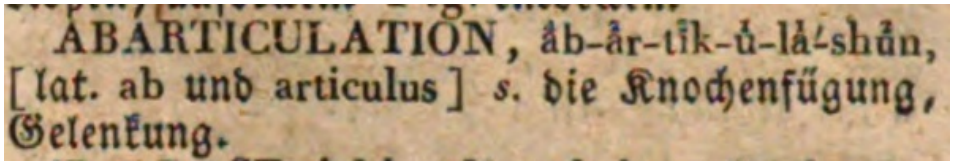
ABARTICULATION, åb-år-tik-ú-lá-shůn,
[lat. ab und articulus] s. die Knochenfügung,
Gelenkung.

Figure 1: Hilpert (1828–1833, 1845), s.v. *abarticulation*

For his German readers, Hilpert replaced Walker's descriptions of the sounds, substituting the *oft irrig angegebenen französischen Laute* 'often misleadingly given French sounds' that Walker used as points of comparison with *ähnlichere deutsche* 'more similar German ones' (Hilpert 1828–1833, 1845: xiii) (Figure 2).[11] For a small number of vowel sounds, Hilpert added descriptions of his own tailored to German speakers, as shown in Table 1. Hilpert did not make explicit what he meant by the "full" "half" and "double" sounds of the vowels, but for the vowel sound in *fall, wall,* for example, the advice to combine "full" *a* with "half" *o* seems to indicate raising and backing the vowel from the "full" German *a* somewhat in the direction of *o* to arrive at /ɔː/; in *fat, mat*, adding the "half" *e* suggests fronting the same vowel *a* in the direction of [ɛ] or [e] to arrive at /æ/. What the "double" sound of *o* might mean for the vowel in *got*, as distinct from merely the "full" sound, is not clear to me, however.

Flügel & Sporschil (1830) and Lucas (1854–1868) used a similar numbering system of notation. Such systems later ceded, however, to others in effect reintroducing forms of interlingual transcription, such as the so-called Toussaint–Langenscheidt system, first developed for an English correspondence course in the 1830s (see Graver (n.d.)) and used by Muret & Sanders (1891). These in turn ultimately yielded to IPA phonetic script which became standard in the twentieth century.

2.2 Variation and change in transcription systems

Across the transcriptions of the various dictionaries, vowel quality was rendered in varying ways. Using a double consonant to indicate a preceding short vowel,

[11] Hilpert re-used Walker's example words, though often reducing their number. However, in two instances he added his own, adding *far* alongside *father* for Walker's "long Italian" a^2, and adding *tup* and *but* alongside cup for the "short simple" u^2. (I have not been able to consult Walker's 27th edition, but Taylor (n.d.) indicates it is a stereotype edition.)

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Table 1: Hilpert's descriptions of five English vowel sounds compared with Walker

	Walker's description (omitted by Hilpert)	Hilpert's examples, from Walker 1791 (Walker's French examples, omitted by Hilpert, are listed in brackets)	Hilpert's German examples and descriptions (my translation, German original in brackets)
a[3]	The broad German *a*	fall, wall (French: âge, Châlons)	the full sound of *a*, combined with the half-sound of *o*, like in the Austrian word *halter* ['holder'] (*der volle Ton des a, in Verbindung mit dem halben Ton des o, wie in dem österreichischen Wort* halter)
a[4]	The short sound of this Italian *a*	fat, mat (French: fat, matin)	the full sound of *a*, combined with the half-sound of *e*, like the a in *Gatte* ['spouse'] (*der volle Ton des a, verbunden mit dem halben Ton des e, wie etwa das a in* Gatte)
o[4]	The short broad *o*	got, hot, not (French: hotte, cotte)	the double sound of o, combined with the half-sound of a, quite like the o in *gesotten* ['boiled'] (*der doppelte Ton des o, in Verbindung mit dem halben Ton des a, fast wie das o in* gesotten)
u[2]	The short simple *u*	*tup*, cup, *but* [the two examples in italics are Hilpert's own additions] (French: neuf, veuf)	the full sound of o in combination with the half-sound of e, somewhat like ö in *Köpfe* ['heads'] (*der volle Ton des o in Verbindung mit dem halben Ton des e, etwa wie ö in* Köpfe)
o[3] u[3]	The long broad o[3] and the middle obtuse u[3]	thou, pound, sound (French: Aoûté)	The half-sound of a, combined with au; it has some similarity with the au in *Thau* ['rope'] (*der halbe Ton des a, verbunden mit au; es hat einige Ähnlichkeit mit dem au in* Thau)

Taken from Hilpert (1828–1833, 1845: xv), as shown in Figure 2, and Walker (1791: xvi).

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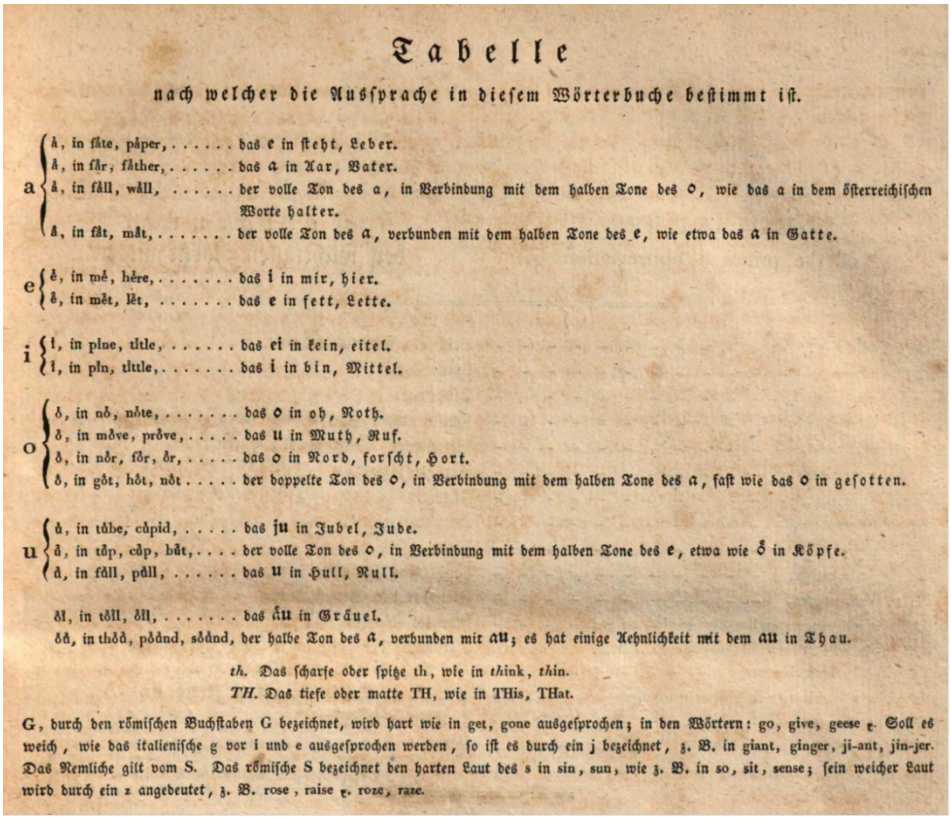

Tabelle

nach welcher die Aussprache in diesem Wörterbuche bestimmt ist.

a { ȧ, in fȧte, pȧper, ... das e in steht, Leber.
ā, in fār, fāther, ... das a in Aar, Vater.
ă, in făll, wăll, ... der volle Ton des a, in Verbindung mit dem halben Tone des o, wie das a in dem österreichischen Worte halter.
ä, in fät, mät, ... der volle Ton des a, verbunden mit dem halben Tone des e, wie etwa das a in Gatte.

e { ē, in mē, hēre, ... das i in mir, hier.
ĕ, in mĕt, lĕt, ... das e in fett, Lette.

i { ī, in pīne, tītle, ... das ei in kein, eitel.
ĭ, in pĭn, tĭtle, ... das i in bin, Mittel.

o { ō, in nō, nōte, ... das o in oh, Noth.
ŏ, in mŏve, prŏve, ... das u in Muth, Ruf.
ô, in nôr, fôr, ôr, ... das o in Nord, forscht, Hort.
o͝o, in go͝ot, ho͝ot, no͝ot . . . . . der doppelte Ton des o, in Verbindung mit dem halben Tone des a, fast wie das o in gesotten.

u { ū, in tūbe, cūpid, ... das ju in Jubel, Jude.
ŭ, in tŭp, cŭp, bŭt, ... der volle Ton des o, in Verbindung mit dem halben Tone des e, etwa wie ö in Köpfe.
u͝u, in fu͝ll, pu͝ll, ... das u in Hull, Null.

o͞u, in to͞ll, o͞ll, ... das äu in Gräuel.
o͝u, in tho͝u, po͝und, so͝und, der halbe Ton des a, verbunden mit au; es hat einige Aehnlichkeit mit dem au in Thau.

th. Das scharfe oder spitze th, wie in *th*ink, *th*in.
TH. Das tiefe oder matte TH, wie in THis, THat.

G, durch den römischen Buchstaben G bezeichnet, wird hart wie in get, gone ausgesprochen; in den Wörtern: go, give, geese ꝛc. Soll es weich, wie das italienische g vor i und e ausgesprochen werden, so ist es durch ein j bezeichnet, z. B. in giant, ginger, ji-ant, jin-jer. Das Nemliche gilt vom S. Das römische S bezeichnet den harten Laut des s in sin, sun, wie z. B. in so, sit, sense; sein weicher Laut wird durch ein z angedeutet, z. B. rose, raise ꝛc. roze, raze.

Figure 2: Walker's table of English sounds, as adapted by Hilpert (1828–1833, 1845: xv)

as in *bett* for English *bet* (Arnold 1752: 64) was standard, e.g. in Rogler (1777), Klausing (1770), Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z)) and Fahrenkrüger (1796–1797). All agreed that the best equivalent for the vowel in a word like *rain* (at the time still a long monophthong) was the long German monophthong *äh* (only Ebers 1796–1799 gave *rehn*, and amended it to *rähn* in 1801). Marking vowel length with *-h* was widespread, but not all used *-h* after diphthongs, which are by definition long: Ebers did not, Fahrenkrüger (1796–1797) did. In other cases, variations in transcription reflect changes in English, whether still underway or complete but not yet recognized by the German lexicographers. Four such instances are *kn-*, *wh-*, the *strut* vowel, and short *o*. In the late eighteenth century, Sheridan, and following him, Gruner, recognized that in initial *kn-* in English, *zwey Buchstaben [werden] dem Auge vorgemahlet werden , und doch nur einer gehöret* 'two letters are presented to the eye, but only one is heard' (Gruner 1791: xxxiv; see also xxix);

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Gruner gave 'knife' as an example, transcribing *neihf*. Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z)) similarly specified under the headword for *K* that *k* is silent in this context, and accordingly transcribed simply *n-*, e.g. *nabb* for 'knob'. Nevertheless, other late eighteenth-century dictionaries still transcribed English *kn-* for Germans as *dn-* : Rogler (1777) and – at odds with his statement just quoted – Gruner himself, e.g. 'knot', *no*^{1}*t', dnatt* (Gruner 1791: 223), or as *nn-*, e.g. *nnähv* for 'knave' (thus the unknown compiler of the second volume of Adelung's English dictionary, in 1796). Kökeritz (1944: 145–146) suggested that the *dn-* notation used in German works in the eighteenth centuries was descended from Offelen (1687), whose transcription of *kn-* as *dn-* is one of many attestations for the reduction of English *kn-* to *n-* via intermediate stages in the course of the seventeenth century. Kökeritz was, however, "convinced" that by the early eighteenth century, "educated Londoners had ceased to pronounce k and g in kn, gn", and "the uneducated considerably earlier", although dialectal *tn* and *dn* might still be found (Kökeritz 1944: 147). There is no evidence that Gruner ever spent time in England, so his use of *dn-* for *kn-* (where Sheridan indicated *n-*) probably indeed relied on an earlier source, such as Rogler (1777). Just a few years after Gruner, Fahrenkrüger (1796–1797) used plain *n-*, e.g. *Knit, 'nitt.*

Changing transcriptions of initial *wh-* as in *when, what, whip*, etc., reflect a somewhat later change underway in English, as the aspiration was "gradually lost in in the colloquial language toward the end of the eighteenth century" (Boggs 1964: 131). Arnold (1752) was still clear that *wh-* was pronounced *als ob das h vor dem w stünde* 'as if the h preceded the w' (Arnold 1752: 762, s.v. *W*). Walker (1791: 52) still transcribed *wh-* as *hw-*, but noted the loss of aspiration, "particularly in the capital, where we do not find the least distinction between *while* and *wile*, *whet* and *wet*" (Walker 1791: xiii). Only a few years later, Fahrenkrüger (1796–1797) was seemingly the first English–German lexicographer to transcribe *w-* and *wh-* identically, rendering both *wet* and *whet* as *uett.*

As for vowel changes, we can trace the *FOOT–STRUT split* in southern English (see Beal 2004: 167), a distinction not yet made by Arnold (1752), and only inconsistently by Arnold (1757) and Rogler (1777). Although they already represented *foot* as *futt*, presumably representing /ʊ/, both authors still gave the same vowel for each of *strut, cup* and *put*, rendered *-ott* in all cases, an approximation of the modern English STRUT-vowel /ʌ/. (In modern German spelling, at least, *-ott* represents /ɔ/, similar to the vowel in modern English *got, not* but somewhat closer and more rounded.) In the 1790s, however, Ebers and Fahrenkrüger made the *FOOT–STRUT* distinction consistently, e.g. 'cup' as *kopp*, 'put' as *putt* (Ebers 1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z)). In this, though, these lexicographers merely played catch-up with the English orthoepists.

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An interesting case is the short *o* in English. Arnold had noted that in words like *modest* and *odd*, the vowel *kommt dem a sehr nahe* 'comes very close to the a' (Arnold 1752: 452, *s.v. O*), and did not equate it with the German short *o* (as in *Gott*, 'god') with which it is identical today. Gruner (1791) similarly transcribed *ko*^{1}*t* as *katt*; *ko*^{1}*tn'n* as *kattn*, etc., likewise Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z), 1800, 1802). Schade (1805: VI–VII) noted cases "when the ***o*** partakes of the sound of ***a*** in the pronunciation, and when I could not otherwise mark its articulation, than by ***a***" (e.g. *Cót,* transcribed *kat*; *Cótton,* transcribed *katt'n*).[12] Fick (1802) and the second edition by Fick & Fick's (1823) son followed suit. However, a change of practice seems to have been underway from around 1800. An 1803 review of Ebers' revised English grammar considered it *unmöglich* 'impossible' to accept the interlingual transcriptions "*dall, glass, hatt, ladsch, mack* etc." instead of *doll, gloss, hot, lodge, mock* (Anon 1803, col. 37). Already in 1801, Fahrenkrüger, updating his 1796–1797 dictionary for republication, consistently changed his transcriptions from *-a-* to *-o-* in these contexts, giving *nott* rather than *natt* for English 'not', etc. (also in the next edition, that of Wagner & Fahrenkrüger 1810). Hilpert (1828–1833, 1845) still asserted that the short English o in *hot* (o^{4}) had an element of *a*: *der doppelte Ton des o, in Verbindung mit dem halben Ton des a, fast wie das o in* gesotten 'the double sound of o, combined with the half-sound of a', but he now described the sound as very similar to the short *o* (/ɔ/) in German *gesotten* (refer back to Table 1).

We have no evidence that Fahrenkrüger knew English or England better than his predecessors and contemporaries,[13] but it is striking that on all four pronunciation points examined here (*kn-*, *wh-*, *strut* vs *put*, and *o*) he was an 'early adopter' of changes. He seemed confident in his own judgement too: he noted that *Walker hat dabei immer vor mir gelegen* 'Walker always lay before me', but he deviated from Walker *wenn er die seltenere Aussprache der gewöhnlichen vorzieht* 'when he prefers the rarer pronunciation to the usual one' (Fahrenkrüger 1796–1797, preface, last page).

2.3 Importing an ideology of correct pronunciation?

So much for reflections of variation and change in English phonetics and phonology in these English–German dictionaries. At least as significant, though – as

[12] An exception is Ebers's (1800, 1802) notation of *doll*, which has -o- rather than *-a-* (the only one among the example words mentioned by the reviewer where the transcription changed from Ebers (1793 (A-J), 1794 (K-Z))). The *-o-* there is also an outlier among the *do-* entries (e.g. *dog*, etc.), so is possibly merely a typographical error.

[13] The biographical entry on Fahrenkrüger in Schröder (1987–1999, vol. 2, 80–81) makes no mention of his having spent time in England.

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part of the history of how language ideologies migrate through language contact (McLelland & Zhao 2021: 3–4) – is tracing how the desire emerged among German lexicographers to achieve clarity about prescribed norms in English. There is a notable evolution here. Arnold (1757: iv) took a practical approach: learners should know the *corrupte Pronunciation vom gemeinen Volk im Lande* 'corrupt pronunciation of the ordinary [or common] people in the country', giving examples of how *gemein* 'ordinary' people pronounced words in ways one might not expect.[14] (Many of Arnold's words contain examples of reduced vowel pronunciations that became the norm, but the pronunciation of *Nature* as *Nätscjör* was – or became – sociolinguistically marked, and was commented on by English orthoepists, as we shall see below.) However, in the later eighteenth century, once prescriptions of pronunciation were available, Germans seem to have embraced them very readily, an understandable response from learners keen to speak a language "correctly". Gruner accepted Sheridan's authority simply as a speaker of English (what we might today recognize as the native-speaker ideology (Holliday 2015, Truan 2024): *die Sache beruht doch hier lediglich auf Autorität: wir wollen von dem Fremden selbst wissen, wie er seine Sprache ausgesprochen haben will* 'the matter rests purely on authority: we want to know from the foreigner how he wants his language pronounced' (Gruner 1791: x).[15] Gruner considered it unnecessary to rehearse Sheridan's arguments about the need for pronunciation norms, taking it for granted that any thoughtful German reader would already be convinced of the problem of variation in Germany, where *Müntz und Aussprache durch eine unendliche Verschiedenheit gleich comisch und lästig sind* 'the unending variety of coinage and of pronunciation are equally comic and annoying' (Gruner 1791: vi), even though there was no such comparable systematic drive to establish a unified norm for German pronunciation.[16] Others followed suit in applying the prescriptivist ideology of minimum variation to pronunciation of English. In 1800, a reviewer of Ebers's dictionary (cited above) singled out the *-ture* pronunciation, noting that *Abature* was transcribed by Ebers as *äb'ätschorr*, but that Walker warned in several places against the pronunciation of the final syllable *ure* as *or*. The pronunciation as *-tsch**o**r* (which Arnold had recommended

[14]Further examples include "A'lgebra, alldschibrä …. Bre'akfast, breckfast …. Chair, tschähr, insgemein tschihr", i.e. ' A'lgebra, alldschibrä …. Bre'akfast, breckfast …. Chair, tschähr, generally tschihr' (Arnold 1757: [vii]).

[15]In fact, Sheridan's Irish origins gave grounds for contemporary criticism and even ridicule (Beal 2008: 166).

[16]On accounts of German pronunciation in the monolingual tradition (in orthographies, primers, grammars, etc.), see Jellinek (1913–1914: vol. II, pp. 9–49); see also Polenz & Moulin (2013: 159–178, 213–215).

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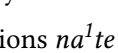
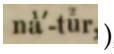
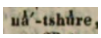
learning, in order to understand ordinary English speakers) was now undesirable, precisely because it was heard *nur im Munde des Pöbels* 'only in the mouths of the common people'; a *schnelles* 'swift' *-tschur* was to be preferred (Anon 1800: col. 574).

Thirty years after Ebers, Flügel & Sporschil (1830: vol.1, xiv) was concerned not with the vowel quality in *-ture*, but with the consonant palatalization. He contrasted the pronunciations *na^{1}te'-yu^{1}re* and *na^{1}'-tu^{2}r* ( and ), calling the first "affected" (or "geziert" in the parallel German version of his prologue), the second used "vulgarly" ("im gemeinen Leben"). In such cases, Fluegel preferred "the habitual pronunciation of polite life" ("die gewöhnliche (edlere) Aussprache"). It is not immediately obvious which pronunciation (out of "affected" and "vulgar") Fluegel would consider "habitual in polite life". In practice, it turns out to be the variant used "vulgarly", i.e. the version with the palatalized consonant, thus resisting the "conservative influence rejecting the palatal affricate" in everyday words: *na^{1}'-tshu^{2}re*  (similarly *picture*; Trapateau & Duchet 2019: 327–328). Still, like Walker, Fluegel preferred the non-palatalized form for words such as *discomfiture* used in more "learned circles" (Trapateau & Duchet 2019: 328). Fluegel's son Felix Fluegel, praised his father's taking into account of English orthoepists' views a *Leuchtturm im ungewissen Meer der englischen Aussprache*, a "lighthouse in the uncertain sea of English pronunciation" (Fluegel 1851: 252; see also 288), but otherwise considered all English-German dictionaries until very recently *ganz unbrauchbar* "completely useless" regarding English pronunciation. A high point in German experts' desire both to eliminate variation and to determine correctness in English is found in Grieb's conscientious "synopsis" of seven orthoepists' differing recommendations in his 1842 bilingual dictionary (Grieb 1842: vol. 1, 1123–1140), comparing seven of the *besten und neusten* 'best and most recent' orthoepists' renderings of some 800 or so words (Grieb 1842: VI) (see Figure 3).[17] In the *-ture* case, three of Grieb's (1842) orthoepic authorities listed *only* a palatalized *-ch-* pronunciation in the word *nature*, while two preferred *-t-*; only Jameson included a *-y-* after the *t*. Grieb himself gave the palatalized *na^{1}'tschu^{1}re*. [18]

Another item in Grieb's list of words with differing recommended pronunciations is *bitumen*. Arnold (1752, 1757) placed the stress on the first syllable, but

[17] Jean-Louis Duchet (p.c.) tells me that such synoptic tables are common in dictionaries in the later nineteenth century, but this is the earliest instance he is aware of.

[18] Grieb (1842: VI) explained that in his own notation in the dictionary itself, he *hauptsächlich* 'mainly' followed Walker, but also considering others such as Jameson and Webster, though he added that he often drew on his own research (*oft liegen derselben auch eigene Forschungen zu Grunde*).

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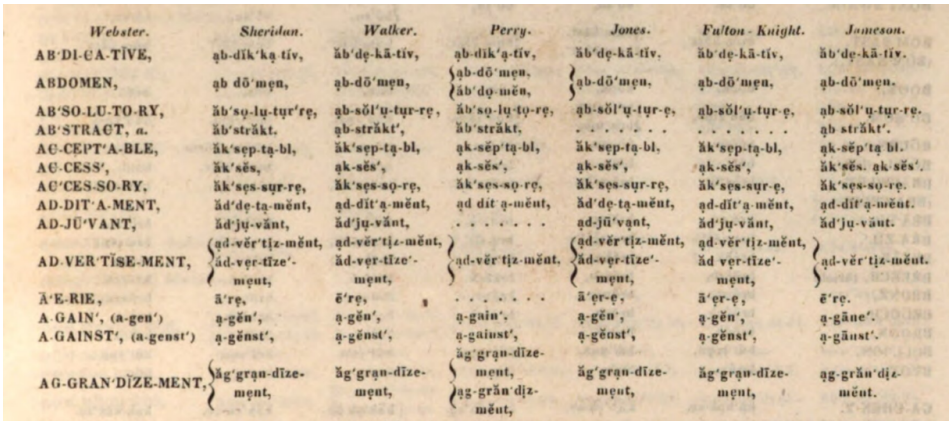

Webster.	*Sheridan.*	*Walker.*	*Perry.*	*Jones.*	*Fulton - Knight.*	*Jameson.*
AB·DI·CA·TĪVE,	ạb·dik'ạ·tiv,	ăb'dę·kā·tiv,	ạb·dik'ạ·tiv,	ăb'dę·kā·tiv.	ăb'dę·kā·tiv,	ăb'dę·kā·tiv.
ABDOMEN,	ạb dō'mẹn,	ạb·dō'mẹn,	ạb·dō'mẹn, / ăb'dọ·mẽn,	ạb·dō'mẹn,	ạb·dō'mẹn,	ạb·dō'mẹn.
AB·SO·LU·TO·RY,	ăb'sọ·lụ·tụr'rẹ,	ạb·sōl'ụ·tụr·rẹ,	ăb'sọ·lụ·tọ·rẹ,	ạb·sōl'ụ·tụr·ẹ,	ạb·sōl'ụ·tụr·ẹ,	ạb·sōl'ụ·tụr·rẹ.
AB·STRACT, *a.*	ăb'străkt.	ạb·străkt',	ăb'străkt,	. . . . .	. . . . .	ạb străkt'.
AC·CEPT'A·BLE,	ăk'sẹp·tạ·bl,	ăk'sẹp·tạ·bl,	ạk·sẽp'tạ·bl,	ăk'sẹp·tạ·bl,	ăk'sẹp·tạ·bl,	ạk·sẽp'tạ bl.
AC·CESS',	ăk'sẽs,	ăk·sẽs',	ạk·sẽs',	ạk·sẽs',	ạk·sẽs',	ăk'sẽs. ạk·sẽs'.
AC'CES·SO·RY,	ăk'sẹs·sụr·rẹ,	ăk'sẹs·sọ·rẹ,	ăk'sẹs·sọ·rẹ,	ăk'sẹs·sụr·rẹ,	ăk'sẹs·sụr·ẹ,	ăk'sẹs·sọ·rẹ.
AD·DIT'A·MENT,	ăd'dẹ·tạ·mẽnt,	ạd·dit'ạ·mẽnt,	ạd dit ạ·mẽnt,	ăd'dẹ·tạ·mẽnt,	ạd·dit'ạ·mẽnt,	ạd·dit'ạ·mẽnt.
AD·JU'VANT,	ăd'jụ·vănt,	ăd'jụ·vănt,	. . . . .	ạd·jū'vạnt,	ăd'jụ·vănt,	ăd'jụ·vănt.
AD·VER·TĪSE·MENT,	ạd·vẽr'tīz·mẽnt, / ăd·vẹr·tīze'·mẹnt,	ạd·vẽr'tīz·mẽnt, / ăd·vẹr·tīze'·mẹnt,	ạd·vẽr'tīz·mẽnt.	ạd·vẽr'tīz·mẽnt, / ăd·vẹr·tīze'·mẹnt,	ạd·vẽr'tīz·mẽnt, / ăd vẹr·tīze'·mẹnt,	ạd·vẽr'tīz·mẽnt.
Ä'E·RIE,	ā'rẹ,	ẽ'rẹ,	. . . . .	ā'ẹr·ẹ,	ā'ẹr·ẹ,	ẽ'rẹ.
A·GAIN', (a·gen')	ạ·gẽn',	ạ·gẽn',	ạ·gain',	ạ·gẽn',	ạ·gẽn',	ạ·gāne'.
A·GAINST', (a·genst')	ạ·gẽnst',	ạ·gẽnst',	ạ·gainst',	ạ·gẽnst',	ạ·gẽnst',	ạ·gāust'.
AG·GRAN'DIZE·MENT,	ăg'grạn·dīze·mẹnt,	ăg'grạn·dīze·mẹnt,	ăg'grạn·dīze·mẹnt, / ạg·grăn'dịz·mẽnt,	ăg'grạn·dīze·mẹnt,	ăg'grạn·dīze·mẹnt,	ạg·grăn'dịz·mẽnt.

Figure 3: Extract from Grieb 1842: vol. 1, 1123–1140, "Synopsis of Words differently pronounced by different Orthoëpists", here p. 1123).

in Rogler's (1777) revision of the *Vocabulary*, Rogler instead placed the stress on the second syllable, thus anticipating all seven English orthoepists in Grieb's synopsis, including Walker. According to Trapateau & Duchet, stress on the antepenultimate was "the most common, though not the most learned pronunciation" (Trapateau & Duchet 2019: 326, citing Walker 1809, s.v. BITUMEN). They report Walker's opinion that *bitumen* (and other words) would have had "the accent on the first syllable if the learned had not stepped in to rescue these classical words from the invasion of the Gothic accent and to preserve the stress inviolably on the second syllable" (Walker 1809, Principle 503, *b*, cited by Trapateau & Duchet 2019: 326). Arnold, then, seems to have given the common pronunciation; Rogler (1777) then yielded to the learned prescription from above, stressing the second syllable, as did all Grieb's orthoepists.

3 German pronunciation

I turn now to German pronunciation in bilingual dictionaries. German pronunciation was discussed in German–English language manuals from the start, beginning with Aedler (1680), who already attempted an English-spelling transcription of German sounds in two short illustrative passages, and where rendering German *an* and *Vater* as *aun* and *Vàuter* suggests the pronunciation common in Saxony, Aedler's home region (Van der Lubbe 2007b: 145; see McLelland 2026: tbc). Offelen, by contrast, betrays a North German pronunciation with frication of word-final *-g*, when he presents *Aug* (modern German *das Auge*) 'eye' and

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Auch 'also' as homophones "that have the same Sound, and yet are different in Spelling" (Offelen 1687: 140). Despite these early indications, and the attention paid to the value of the letters in manuals for learning German thereafter, no attention was paid to German pronunciation in German–English dictionaries at all until the nineteenth century, some two centuries later than for English. The topic was similarly neglected among Germans themselves, however. Even in Adelung's groundbreaking German monolingual dictionaries (Adelung 1774–1786, 1793–1801), published during the decades when English elocution and pronunciation guides were really taking off (Beal 2008: 156), Adelung included only very few indications of German pronunciation, as noted above (see also McLelland 2024a). Theodor Heinsius could still say in 1818, *Beides* [*die Bezeichnung der Aussprache und des Worttons*] *hat der Deutsche mehr als irgend ein Volk vernachlässigt, da er mehr schreibt als spricht*, 'both [the indication of pronunciation and of word-stress] have been neglected by the Germans more than by any other people, since Germans write more than they speak' (Heinsius 1818: xvii). German pronunciation was only occasionally discussed in passing in dictionaries, making them *für den Ausländer fast gar nicht brauchbar* 'largely useless for the foreigner', as Heinsius noted. Yet German contained traps for unsuspecting foreigners, for example when faced with words such as *E'rlenstrauch* 'alder bush' but *erl'ernbar* 'learnable', superficially similar, but composed of different morphemes and therefore with different stress patterns (Heinsius 1818: xvii; viii).

The first attempts to indicate pronunciation for each German lemma in German–English dictionaries did not begin until after 1800, but do at least pre-date Heinsius's stated sympathy with learners of German. In reducing his two English–German and German–English dictionaries into a combined shorter *Handwörterbuch*, Ebers (1800, 1802) introduced the *genaueſte[r] Accentuation und beygefügte[r] ganz richtige[r] Ausſprache jedes engliſchen Wortes* 'the most accurate accentuation and very correct pronunciation of every English word' (Ebers 1800, 1802: iii). As in the English–German tradition nearly 100 years earlier, the first step was to indicate vowel length on the stressed syllable, using an acute for a stressed short vowel, and a grave for a stressed long vowel or diphthong, e.g. *Bùch* 'book' but *Búcht* 'bay'. Thieme (1844b) was another (relatively) early adopter,[19] also making the point that such notation helpfully distinguished minimal pairs such as *um'gehen* ('circulate') and *umge'hen* ('evade') (Thieme 1844a: viii). For any unstressed syllables, however, Thieme still gave no guidance, e.g. for the quantity of the first vowel in *Bana'ne.*

[19]Thieme used a different notation, however, relying just on an apostrophe. After a vowel, the apostrophe indicated a long vowel (e.g. *Balla'de*, 'ballad'); after one or more consonants, it indicated a short vowel (e.g. *Bag'ger*, 'dredger').

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The first full transcriptions of German lemmas are found in pronouncing dictionaries published in the USA in the mid-nineteenth century, as immigration from Germany meant that English-speakers and German-speakers were increasingly encountering each other in real life, not merely through reading each others' writings (see e.g. Horner 2011). The pioneer was James Oehlschläger, who was, according to the title page of his dictionary, "Professor of modern Languages in Philadelphia, formerly Professor of the English language in the College of Quebec". For his earlier guide to English pronunciation,[20] Oehlschläger had been able to draw on "numerous reliable sources" (Oehlschläger 1862: iii), but

> in German no such work exists, and the pronunciation differs so much in the various parts, that few letters retain their original sound all over Germany. It has often been stated that this is only the case with the uneducated and the illiterate, but no, the clergyman in the pulpit, the lawyer at the bar, the actor on the stage, pronounce very differently in Austria from what they do in the North of Germany, nay, the differences often become perceptible after travelling a few miles. I was therefore thrown entirely on my own resources.
> Oehlschläger (1862: iii–iv).

Oehlschläger sought to present a pronunciation of German "as free of provincialisms as possible", although generally giving "the pronunciation of the North of Germany" (Oehlschläger 1862: iv). He drew his authority from his experience teaching English to a wide range of Germans, affording him "opportunities, which few can enjoy, of distinguishing that in which all Germans agree, from that which is peculiar to certain districts and localities". His aim was to ensure that anyone using the pronunciation he gave "will be understood by all classes of Germans, however differently they themselves may pronounce" (Oehlschläger 1862: iv). The non-judgemental acceptance of differing German regional pronunciations forms a striking contrast to attitudes to English pronunciation that we have seen above.

Oehlschläger seems to have drawn on his practical experience of learners' difficulties, as a "Professor of modern Languages". For example, he sometimes deliberately went against traditional German syllabification rules in spelling to avoid

[20] Oehlschläger's English pronouncing dictionary (with its first edition in 1850 [?]), had sold well in six editions, and "lately 5000 copies have been ordered for Germany, an event which forms rather a new era in the history of the American book trade" (Oehlschläger 1862: iii). I quote here from the ninth, 1862 edition of the German pronouncing dictionary, but the preface I quote mentions 1850 as being two years ago, so can be dated to 1852.

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leading dictionary users into a mispronunciation, "thus, *lenken, Lenkung*, should be divided into *len'-ken, len'-kŏonk*, but as the pronunciation would be inaccurate [by encouraging a pronunciation of *n-k* rather than velar nasal *ŋ* followed by *k*], it has been divided lenk'en, lenk'-ŏŏnk" [sic] (Oehlschläger 1862: vii).

Köhler & Witter's (1867) *Pronouncing German Dictionary* followed Oehlschläger, but with some differences. Witter was embedded in the teaching of German in what he called *deutsch–amerikanischen Schulen* 'German–American schools', for which he published a reader in 1865 in Missouri (Witter 1865), where the pronouncing dictionary was also published. The preface claims that the pronunciation given is "strictly in accordance with the spoken language of the educated classes of the German nation" (Köhler & Witter 1867: viii), but some aspects of Witter and Köhler's indicated pronunciations are, by today's norms, consistently non-standard. In particular, instead of the now standard plosive *g*, the authors regularly give the velar fricative for intervocalic <g> in *abbiegen* and *abbeugen*: *ap"bee'chen* and *ab"boi'chen* (transcribed in English spelling by Oehlschläger and later Cassell as *-ghen* (where the following *h* ensures the *g* is not pronounced 'soft' before *e*).

The first "mainstream" bilingual German–English dictionary with full transcriptions of German lemmas was that published by Morwitz [publisher] (1883), whose stated aim was "teaching the student English and German as they are spoken in America" (Morwitz [publisher] 1883: 527). All of this codification of course still precedes the first comparable codification of German pronunciation for native speakers, Theodor Siebs's *Deutsche Bühnenaussprache* (1898) (Seifert 2015, 2020). Indeed, a version of Siebs's guide with a word-list giving pronunciations for individual lemmas did not appear until the twentieth century, in 1910 (Mangold 2003: 1804–1805). Some examples of Oehlschläger's and Morwitz's transcriptions are given in parallel in Table 2. Oehlschläger's transcriptions seem better thought-through. Note, for example, Oehlschläger's indication of regular de-voicing of morpheme-final *b* in the *ab-* of *abbiegen* and of *-d* in *Land*, overlooked by Morwitz.

Among these sparse lexicographical attestations of German pronunciation, some hints of variation in German and of differing target norms can be gleaned. Oehlschläger's transcriptions regularly render syllable-final <*ng*> as *-nk*, rather than retaining *-ng*, as Morwitz does. Since pronunciation of *-ng* as *ŋ* is familiar to English speakers, the choice of *-nk* surely reflects an intended target pronunciation of *ŋk* (rather than *ŋ*), more typical of southern German varieties (also in Oehlschläger's example of *Lenkung* above). Perhaps the use of *-ai* for the final unstressed *-e* in *Eisenware* and *Singstimme* indicates a southern short tense *e* in

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this context, rather than schwa. However, Oehlschläger also treats the *g* in the suffix *-ig* of *widrig* as a fricative, in contrast to the plosive in Morwitz's *-ig*.

Table 2: Transcriptions of selected words by Oehlschläger (1862) and Morwitz [publisher] (1883)

Lemma	Oehlschläger (1862)	Morwitz [publisher] (1883)
abbiegen 'to turn'	Âp"-bee'-ghen	âb- bee'-gĕn
Brezel (*Bretzel* in Morwitz [publisher] 1883) 'pretzel'	brai'tsel	brèt- sèl
Cassendiebstahl (*Kassendiebstahl* in Morwitz [publisher] 1883) 'theft from a till'	kass"-sen-deep'-stâhl,	kăs- sĕn + –deeb stāl
du 'you (sg.)'	doo	doo
Eisenware 'hardware, ironware'	i"-zen-vâ'-rai	ī- zĕn + –vă rĕ
Land 'land'	lânt'	lând
Singstimme 'land'	zink"-stim'-mai	zing + –stĭm mĕ
sittsam 'modest, demure'	zit'-zâhm	zit + –zām
Strang 'string'	stránk	străng
widrig 'adverse'	vee'-drich	vee drig

Another area of variation and/ or uncertainty in German pronunciation was foreign words, and Ebers's (1800, 1802) indications do not always agree with those in Adelung's (1793–1801)Adelung's German dictionary. For example, Ebers's short final vowel in *Appetít* is at odds with Adelung's *Appetīt*, and where Adelung gave only *Cōcusbaum* with a long first vowel, Ebers allowed *der Cócusbaum oder Còcusbaum.* Stress patterns could also differ. Where Adelung gave *Astronomīe* with final-syllable stress, Ebers indicated *Astrónomie* (yet *Physiognomìe*, *Physiologìe*). Where Adelung gave *Athei'st*, Ebers offered *'Atheist.*

The borrowed suffix *-ei* (a Middle High German borrowing from French *-ie*) was another area of variation. Heinsius noted that speakers of *Märkisch* (i.e. in the border region between Berlin and to today's border with Poland) placed the stress on the *-ei*, although such words *sollten* 'should' have it on the first

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syllable (Heinsius 1818: xviii). Ebers' (1800, 1802) inconsistency in marking *-ei* words may well reflect contemporary variation and uncertainty among Germans, with a change in progress from the principle of stress on the final syllable in words borrowed from French to following the native rule of initial stress. Ebers marked initial-syllable stress in *die Jägerey* à, as Heinsius would have expected, and similarly *die Zánkerei*, but Ebers also gave *Fischerey* ` [sic], with final stress, the pattern that would become standard in German.[21]

In one aspect, the marking of German pronunciation in bilingual dictionaries, otherwise lagging behind that for English, surprisingly overtakes it: the marking of secondary stress. In the German grammatical tradition, it had been known since Schöpf (1625) that some words had two accents, and that there were differing degrees of accent, as Aichinger (1754: §65) articulated (Jellinek 1913–1914: vol. 2, 39–49). Aedler (1680: 32) had already noted, in the first grammar of German for English learners, that long compounds "seem to have more than one such accent". Heinsius noted the multiple word-stresses in longer words such as *Erblandpostmeister* with more than one *Wortton* 'word-stress', but he considered this more to do with the *Redeton mehr als dem Wortton* 'the speaking tone more than the word-stress' (Heinsius 1818: xix). In his dictionary entries, Heinsius only marked the main stress (*Hauptton*). It seems, then, that the marking of secondary stress was, like marking stress itself, first introduced in a *bilingual* dictionary, Oehlschläger's (1852) pronouncing dictionary. Oehlschläger distinguished two levels of word-stress in compounds, using ‘ and “ (where the double accent “ marked the primary stress) as in *Aufschütteln*, *ouf“’shüt’-teln* (Oehlschläger 1852: vii). Oehlschläger thus applied to German the notation system introduced by Sheridan (1789) for English.[22] The 1854 Cassell *German Pronouncing Dictionary* took its guidance on pronunciation (given there on pages 1–2) verbatim from Oehlschläger (1852: vi–vii), and also used a double accent for the "chief stress" and single accent for the weaker stress (Cassell, Ltd 1854: iv), as in *ouf“’shüt’-*

[21]Other *-ei* words, such as *Bäckerey* and *Wäscherei*, appear in Ebers' entries for *Bäcker, Wäscher*, but have no stress marking.

[22]At least one edition of Sheridan's work was printed in Philadelphia (Beal 2008: 166). Neither Sheridan nor Walker distinguished primary and secondary stress in their dictionary entries, but Sheridan introduced both the concept and the notation in his section "Of Accent" (Sheridan 1789: xxxvi–xxxvii), observing that

> in some of our longer polysyllables, there are two accents to be perceived; one stronger, the other fainter. Thus, in the word expos"tulator'y, the stronger accent is on the syllable pos"; but there is a fainter one of the last syllable but one, sounded tur', expos"tulatur'y: but this makes no difference with regard to the rule, as the primary accent is so much more forcible than the secondary one, as evidently to shew that it is but one word which contains both (Sheridan 1789: xxxvii).

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teln for *aufschütteln*, 'to shake up' (identical with Oehlschläger) and *eck'-ser-tsee"-tsee-ŏŏm* for *Exercitium* 'exercise' (not listed by Oehlschläger).[23] By contrast with Heinsius, who seems to have considered secondary stress relevant only to long compound words, these pronouncing dictionaries applied the notation to all words of more than two syllables.

4 Conclusion

From the start of English/German lexicography in the early eighteenth century, bilingual lexicographers sought ways to reduce the challenge of English pronunciation, initially by marking word-stress and vowel quantity (albeit largely conflated with aspects of vowel quality), and then, from the 1730s, giving approximate transcriptions using German spelling. The various approaches taken reflect variation and change underway in English, as in the case of *kn-*, *wh-*, *strut* vs *put*, and the quality of the vowel in *doll*. However, for English learners of German – a far smaller market at first – there was no equivalent guidance until the very end of the eighteenth century. For one thing, lexicographers were, until the mid-nineteenth century, Germans who lacked the outsider's perspective on the difficulties of their own language (McLelland 2024c: 9–10). Nor was the local climate favourable: virtually no attention was paid by German speakers themselves to norms of German pronunciation. Towards the end of the eighteenth century, Gruner (1791: vi) assumed Germans would agree that the extent of variation in their pronunciation was "comic and annoying". Yet a corresponding ideological drive to change that state of affairs by prescribing a norm for German was strikingly lacking, a situation strangely at odds with their hyper-awareness of discussions of orthoepy in English. The pronouncing dictionaries produced in the USA in the mid-nineteenth century for learners of German (presumably also including "heritage speakers", i.e. second- and third-generation descendants of migrants) thus pre-date anything equivalent in the German-speaking countries of Europe by about fifty years. It is in America too that the marking of primary and secondary stress on German lemmas first emerged. It is probably no accident that these developments began there rather than in Britain. The frequent

[23]The Cassell dictionary duplicates this explanation in the preface: "When two syllables in a word are accented, that upon which the double accent is placed should receive the chief stress, and the other less prominent emphasis. We may give as examples of this subordinate accent the first syllable words *indispensable, supernumerary, contradiction*, and others of a similar class" (p. iv). The examples given in the preface are in English, but the system is implemented only for German lemmas. The preface also misleadingly states that ' is used for primary and " for secondary stress; the reverse is the case.

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English/German language contact and the bilingualism of migrants and their descendants surely provided a favourable climate for innovation (see McLelland 2024c: 25). Oehlschläger is a case in point: his German pronouncing dictionary was preceded by, and inspired by, his pronouncing dictionary of English. It is worth adding, as another example of such innovation, that America was also the source of the earliest attempt to describe German intonation in any detail: Conrad Witter's highly innovative account is contained in his reader intended for use in German–American schools (Witter 1865; see McLelland 2015: 217). Once again in the history of language description and codification, then, we see the key role played in language description and prescription by "outsiders", many of them with teaching experience of teaching the language to non-native speakers.

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Chapter 11

Catchphrases as Cultural Vocabulary: The case of Jacob van Maerlant

Gert Loosen

Learners of Dutch as a foreign language - or any foreign language for that matter - often study the basics: grammar, vocabulary, communication, and at academic departments also 'higher' literature. In the huge gap between those two are catchphrases, sayings that have caught on and please the public. They originate in literature, as well in television series and movies, ads, quotes from celebrities of many kinds, (children's) songs, etc.

Learning catchphrases, their meaning, their usage, their origin and history (in that order) improve one's language skills and ability of participating in the all-day culture of the learned language. They form what could be called a cultural vocabulary.

In this article, two well-known Flemish catchphrases are analysed, originating in the twelfth century, written by the same author, Jacob van Maerlant. Their diachrony shows an interesting semantic shift, far away from the original meaning, but both with the same purpose: finding medieval recognition, even justification, for contemporary nationalistic feelings. Meanwhile, work is ongoing on other examples, and a later stage will explore how these catchphrases can be utilized in language teaching.

NVT, NT2, Dutch as a Foreign Language, didactics, catchphrases, nationalism, Maerlant, cultural vocabulary

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Gert Loosen

Part 1: Dutch as a foreign language didactics and catchphrases

1 Dutch as a foreign or second language

What is the difference between Dutch as a Foreign Language and Dutch as a Second Language? The discussion that started in the 1960s came to a consensus with Piet de Kleijn (1995: 12):

For Dutch learned and taught outside the Netherlands and Flanders, the term Dutch as a foreign language is commonly used. If language acquisition takes place in an endless lowland (meaning: Flanders or The Netherlands – GL) then it is referred to as a second language — except when your first teacher is your mother.

The terms foreign and second language are clear and useful as long as they are defined by geographic boundaries. However, when focusing on the learning process itself, they — especially second language — become much harder to apply, as they obscure what the learner's native language (mostly mother tongue), father tongue, home language, or school language is. Moreover, they do not answer the question of whether the learning process is guided or unguided. When these two factors — language environment and guided or unguided learning — are combined, the reality becomes exponentially more nuanced than the terms foreign and second initially suggest (de Kleijn 1995).

For the sake of our topic, we can roughly say that the level of participation in the culture of the low Countries defines the boundary between NVT (Nederlands als Vreemde Taal / Dutch as a Foreign Language) and NT2 (Nederlands als Tweede Taal / Dutch as a second Language)).

2 Denotation and connotation of catchphrases

The curriculum of Dutch as a Foreign Language (NVT) – or any foreign language for that matter – in Dutch Departments extra muros roughly consists of two blocks of topics: language acquisition on one hand, starting with simple interactions with strong emphasis on denotation and practical applicability (consistent with the Common European Framework of Reference for Languages (CEFRL)) on one hand, and highbrow culture: literature, art, on the other. Advanced students then learn expressions, proverbs, and idioms. But even then, there remains a large gap between advanced language knowledge and efficient participation in

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the culture of the language in question. One group of inhabitants of that gap is catchphrases. A few examples:

- At least a few times a month, one or the other Flemish or Dutch newspaper or magazine mentions (at least partly) the phrase "tussen droom en daad staan wetten in de weg, en praktische bezwaren" (in between dream and act there are hindering laws and practical issues) – a quotation of two verses from a Flemish poem written in 1910.
- Where does the running gag originate from a regular customer in a bar asking for a daily menu and receiving a pint of lager?
- Why would someone want to call Apeldoorn (a city in the Netherlands) when he's witness to an accident as funny as it is serious? ("Even Apeldoorn bellen!")

Students recognize the words but do not understand the meaning of the expression in the given context; the connotation, the cultural reference of these expressions are a larger part of their meaning than the denotative sum of the words. Understanding the reference and the ability of implementing it in everyday speech contexts help the learner of Dutch participating in Dutch/Flemish culture. Thus, catchphrases can be seen as cultural vocabulary.

3 List of catchphrases in Dutch

An unexpected pleasure, and a great inspiration source and research starting point is the Wiki list I discovered with over 300 older and more recent Dutch and Flemish catchphrases: Wikipedia:Humor en onzin/Lijst met catchphrases uit Nederlandstalig taalgebied

As a corpus, the list is far from exhaustive. The explanations also leave much to be desired, as many are rather superfluous. For the sake of our argument, we present the example

"Al wat wals is, vals is! Sla dood!" - leuze uit Hendrik Consciences boek De leeuw van Vlaanderen (1838), toegeschreven aan de Vlaamse troepen tijdens de Guldensporenslag (1302). ("Wals" betekent hier "Waals").

("All that is Wals is false! Strike it dead!" - slogan from Hendrik Conscience's book The Lion of Flanders (1838), attributed to the Flemish troops during the Battle of the Golden Spurs (1302). ("Wals" here means "Walloon").

In this article, I will demonstrate how poor this explanation is and how it ignores an exciting and complex diachrony.

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4 A working definition of catchphrases

What are catchphrases? Traditional dictionaries vary slightly in their specific definitions, though not in their tendency to restrict. There is no definitive definition of 'catchphrase' however, some dictionaries provide the following definitions: However, here are some reliable sources where you can find definitions of "catchphrase":

1. According to the Oxford English Dictionary (OED), a catchphrase is "a well-known sentence or phrase, typically one that is associated with a particular famous person" (Oxford English Dictionary)

2. Merriam-Webster Dictionary: "A phrase or expression that is used repeatedly and becomes associated with a particular person, group, or activity." (Merriam-Webster)

3. Cambridge Dictionary narrows it down: "A sentence or phrase, especially one from a television program, that many people repeat because they have heard it so often." (Cambridge Dictionary)

4. Collins English Dictionary: "A catchphrase is a sentence or phrase that becomes popular or well-known, often because it is frequently used by a famous person." (Collins Dictionary)

These definitions restrict catchphrases to their sender (the person, or group it is associated with), the medium (television) or context (activity). Less institutionalised, free online dictionaries tend to borrow definitions from the ones mentioned above, or to give broader, more flexible definitions:

5. Dictionary.com: "A phrase, as a slogan, that comes to be widely known and recognized, often through repeated use." (Dictionary, based on Random House Unabridged Dictionary)

6. "A phrase in popular or common use, especially one associated with a particular group, speaker, or context." (Free Dictionary)

7. "A well-known sentence or phrase, typically one that is associated with a particular famous person, group, or activity." (YourDictionary)

I thus agree with Partridge (2003) when he says: "Consult the standard dictionaries, the best and the greatest: you will notice that they tacitly admit the impossibility of precise definition." He proposes as a definition for catchphrases:

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"A catchphrase is a saying that has caught on and pleases the public."

He says that a catchphrase is a *saying* - that's broader than a phrase, since also peculiar non-semantic interjections can be catchphrases (e.g., Dr. Lecompte's confirming nasally toned "Ah jaaaa").

In addition to lexicon entries, two academic definitions from recent works can also be identified:

8. In his work Political Catchphrases and Contemporary History, Gupta (n.d.) provides a systematic theoretical definition based on usage frequency and social uptake. He proposes that catchphrases have two definitive features:
   - Traceable Origin: Their connotations can usually be traced to a specific social juncture, involving either an existing word acquiring a new sense or a neologism that "catches on" .
   - Significant Uptake: "Catching on" is defined by a sustained, steady growth in usage frequency over a discernible time period. This growth can be extensive (spread across various domains) and/or intensive (high frequency within a specific context). When this growth period ends, the phrase ceases to be a catchphrase.
9. Johnson & Johnson (2018) define a catchphrase from a sociolinguistic perspective: "A catchphrase is a phrase used so frequently by particular individuals, groups, or cultural entities that it locks onto people's attention and becomes part of the linguistic landscape"

Based on these explanations, my working definition of catchphrases could be:

Catchphrases are sayings that can originate from a broad range of communication domains. They have cultural connotations that can be traced to a specific social juncture. They grow over a period of time and can disappear again.

Part 2: The Case Jacob van Maerlant

5 Who was Jacob van Maerlant?

Jacob van Maerlant (c. 1230–c. 1300) was a pioneering Flemish poet and one of the most important Middle Dutch writers. Jan van Boendaele (Antwerp poet, 14th Century) called him the die vader (…) der Dietsche(r) dichtren algader": (Boendale 1970, 163) Jacob van Maerlant who is "father of all Diets poets altogether" – with Diets being Dutch, that is to say: the language of the people, in contrast to

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Latin)): he played a crucial role in making knowledge accessible in the vernacular at a time when Latin dominated intellectual life. His works cover a wide range of subjects, from history and science to religion and chivalry.

Notably, Der Naturen Bloeme" (ca.1266) is an early encyclopaedia, while Spieghel Historiael (ca. 1285–1325) provides a grand historical overview. Van Maerlant is also critical of corruption in the Church, as seen in Van den Lande van Overzee" (1250–1300) His writings blend scholarship with storytelling, influencing later Dutch literature and culture. (all works by Jacob van Maerlant: DBNL)

By translating and adapting Latin and French sources, he helps shape a literary tradition in the Low Countries, making knowledge available to a broader audience and laying the foundation for Dutch literary history.

Maerlant's debut Alexanders geesten ("Alexander's Great Deeds") (thirteenth century) is an epic of 14,000 verses about Alexander the Great, the legendary conqueror of antiquity. His subsequent works also follow the tradition of the chivalric romance, including tales of the search for the Grail (the dish of the Last Supper) and the adventures of the young King Arthur. While living on Voorne,(province South-Holland, The Netherlands) he wrote his final chivalric romance, Historie van Troyen (ca.1264), again based on a French example. This work, like his others, demonstrates van Maerlant's remarkable historical knowledge (Winkel 1970, 477).. van Oostrom (2013: 307) details how Maerlant, through works like the Spiegel Historiael and Der Naturen Bloeme (The Flower of Nature) (ca.1266), sought to create a vernacular summa of contemporaneous knowledge for the nobility and emerging urban elite of Flanders and Holland. He is portrayed as the "knowledge broker" of his age. (all works by Jacob van Maerlant: DBNL) For his Historie van den Grale (ca.1261) Van Maerlant primarily relied on French sources, though he later realized that *not all of them were entirely accurate*[1]. (Literatuurmuseum). In the Rijmbijbel, (1275–1300) he expresses his regret for having engaged with Merlin and similar fictional tales; he does the same in Sinte-Franciscus Leven (1276–1283) (all works by Jacob van Maerlant: DBNL). From that time, he distanced himself from French romances! He expresses his frustration like this: Wat Wals es, vals es (Everything Walloon/French is false) (Laan & Roelandt 1952).

The inaccuracy of French sources, that is where the rub is for Maerlant. In his opus about world history, the Spieghel Historiael, he even fulminates against the frivolous bon mots of the French, who he thinks often change the content of their narrative, because the truth of their words was subordinate to the beautiful wording:

[1]Own italics.

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Vraye ystorien [Zy] vermorden / Met scone rime, met scoenre tale, / Omdat die worden luden wale / Entie materie es scone ende claer / So doen sise verstaen vor waer. ('They kill true stories, with nice rhymes and beautiful language; and when their material sounds well, they present it as the truth.') (Maerlant, cited by Mierlo 1946: 64, own translation)

Not so Jacob! He only writes about what he holds for truth! "Jacob en dicht niet daernaer / Anders dan hi hout over waer" (Jacob does not write or he holds it for true (own translation)). (Historie van Troyen vs. 1927–1928, cited by Van Mierlo 1946: 64) and "Nieman en wane no en peinse / Dat ic dit in boerden veinse" (Spieghel Historiael, prologue 19–20, cited by Mierlo 1946: 64): No one should think that I am telling lies in *boerden*[2]. The boerde was a narrative form in Middle Dutch literature during the fourteenth and early fifteenth centuries, performed by traveling or resident sprookspreker (storytellers). Boerden are considered a subtype of the sproke and share the same structure: a short, rhyming tale in rhyming couplets. However, unlike the sproke, boerden feature a comical-erotic content. They are the Middle Dutch equivalent of the French fabliaux and the German Schwankmären. (van Oostrom 2013: 420) Van Maerlant considers the French writers not literally as boerden tellers, but he hates that they prioritize the harmonious narration over the story being told, so he mocks with what he considers an insult those: scone walsche valsche poeten / die meer rimen dan si weten (Mierlo 1946: 63–64) (those fair french poets, who rather rime than that they know their stuff: that their text rhymes is more important than that it bares truth. Text, line numbers, edition. Van Maerlant uses the old Dutch word Walsch here, in reference to the French language. Wallonia continues to be used to refer to the French speaking part of Belgium, with the term Walloons used in reference to its inhabitants. In other words: I; Jacob, write the truth — and I despise the frivolous French fashion of fiction (the French word for novel is roman: chivalry fiction written in Roman language).

6 Hendrik Conscience writes De Leeuw van Vlaanderen (The Lion of Flanders)

In more or less the same region, six centuries later in 1830, Belgium has just been invented and that young new country is in search of an identity. Hendrik Conscience (1812–1883) was a Belgian romantic novelist who so dominated the birth and development of the Flemish novel that it was said he "taught his people

[2]Own italics.

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to read[3]." He was fascinated by his country's Flemish past and wrote in Flemish Offering a romanticized account of the Flemish victory over the French during the 1302 Battle of the Spurs, Conscience's novel is presumably the most important literary work of the Flemish Movement's symbolic and mythological repertory throughout the nineteenth and twentieth centuries. (Willems 2014: 2) During the battle, the Flemish militia had trouble keeping up: the French army was too strong. The odds changed when the Golden Knight (the Lion of Flanders) appears, boosting the morale of the Flemish:

Eene algemeene moordery ving aen op de gansche lengte des legers; de Vlamingen deden niets dan dooden, en sprongen over groote hoopen lyken om de verdere vyanden aen te vallen. Nu werd er niet meer Noël! geschreeuwd; de kreet Vlaenderen den Leeuw! Wat walsch is valsch is! [own bold] Slaet al dood! beheerste alle ander gerucht, en de stryders werden zoo doof dat zy de slagen hunner eigene wapens niet meer hooren konden. (Conscience 2012: 123) (A general massacre began along the entire length of the army; the Flemings did nothing but kill, leaping over great heaps of corpses to attack the remaining enemies. No longer was Noël! shouted; instead, the cry Flanders the Lion! What is French is false! [own bold] Strike them all down! Drowned out all other sounds, and the warriors became so deafened that they could no longer hear the blows of their own weapons.) (Own translation.)

Jacob van Maerlant, the thirteenth-century, proud, self-confident writer of history and truth who expressly condemned chivalric fiction writers from France is wrongly quoted — not in wording but meaning — in The Lion of Flanders by Hendrik Conscience, a nineteenth Century nationalistic novel about… a medieval conflict that took place only a short time after van Maerlant's death. That novel went on to inspire the Flemish nationalistic hymn The Flemish Lion, and its quote Wat wals is, vals is, is still being used in right-wing Flemish circles, who want to cut ties with their French speaking compatriots and strive towards an independent Flanders.

Comment under a Facebook post by Theo Francken (a cartoon where Flemish politicians hunt the Belgian prime minister Elio Di Rupo): "Vlaanderen de leeuw! wat wals is, vals is! dat was vroeger zo en zal nooit veranderen." (Facebook - Theo Francken 2019)

On the Apache website for independent research journalism, the progressive-left Flemish nationalist politician Bert Anciaux attacks the identity politics of

[3]Hendrik Conscience was widely honoured during his lifetime with awards, street names, and a statue. At its unveiling, Jan Van Beers spoke the famous words, which were coined by his wife: "He taught his people to read."(EHC)

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the newly formed Flemish government (Apache, 2019), which is actively fighting pluralism and interculturality: 'Wat wals is, vals is?' Sinds ik het Vlaamse regeerakkoord onderging, dreunt deze slogan als een mantra door mijn systeem. Het is de strijdkreet die Hendrik Conscience aan de Guldensporenslag koppelde. Koene Vlamingen hakten er succesvol in op pretentieuze Franse ridders. Een schone mythe, waarvan we ondertussen weten dat het verhaal lekt als een vergiet. ("Wat walsch is, valsch is?" Since I endured the Flemish coalition agreement, this slogan has been echoing through my system like a mantra. It is the battle cry that Hendrik Conscience linked to the Battle of the Golden Spurs. Brave Flemings successfully struck down pretentious French knights. A fine myth, though by now we know that the story leaks like a sieve) (Anciaux 2019),

Maerlant's words are also cited at the opening of a touristic "Maerlant Route" and Lion of Flanders-like combativeness is attributed to him: Jacob Van Maerlant was ook bemiddelaar in het geschil tussen de kloosters en vaandeldrager van het Vlaams bewustzijn. Hij streed met hart en ziel tegen de elitaire Fransen. Zijn leuze was dan ook "wat wals is, vals is". (Jacob van Maerlant was also a mediator in disputes among monasteries and a key figure in fostering Flemish identity. He passionately opposed the French elite, embodying the slogan: "Wat Wals is, vals is") (Pascal 2012: page)

Also, on Politics.be, we find a thread under the name Omdat alles "Wat Wals (waals) is, vals is"... (Because everything that comes from Wallonia is treacherous). Here they are explicitly referencing the French speaking community in the southern part of Belgium, not the French. (Anoniem 2008)

Jacob van Maerlant wrote "wat wals is, vals is". Seven centuries later Hendrik Conscience reuses but reinterprets the quote and almost two centuries after his novel the quote is still used, now in an internal-Belgian context by extreme nationalist Flemish to express their aversion towards their French speaking compatriots. "It is an echo of history that will be new to most Dutch [meaning: from the Netherlands - GL] readers." (Eskes 2024) This eight century old catchphrase evokes a piece of history and cultural history in the Low Countries, illustrating how The Netherlands and Flanders are "divided by the same language" thus illustrating how this token of cultural vocabulary becomes clear and is being used by people knowing its historical context – or at least parts of it. The way it deviates from its original, often forgotten meaning teaches learners of Dutch as a Foreign Language not only a still heard saying, but also literary, cultural, political context of the language.

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7 Flanders, my country - Because I'm Flemish

Interestingly, *Wat Wals is, vals is* is not the only quote by Jacob van Maerlant that changed its meaning throughout the centuries – and the way it's being used in the twentieth century shows the same deliberately nationalistic reinterpretation as the next catchphrase: Because I'm Flemish.

Will Tura is a songwriter, singer, musician who released hundreds of singles and albums that cover a wide variety of styles - even rock-'n-roll, gospel and rap in his West-Flemish dialect. The Emperor of the Flemish song is the most successful Flemish singer of the twentieth century. (Kluger 2023) His huge talent, hard work and impeccable intuition for musical trends and lyrics that speak to the public let him manoeuvre successfully the ever-changing musical landscape in the second half of the 20th Century.

In the 1960s, Flemish nationalists recovered from the dark years in and after World War II and federalist parties, discontent with the centrally governed Belgian state, gained huge political success. " In 1970 the unitary Belgian state went to its grave. (...) [t]he dedicated federalist Wilfried Martens (...) was the chief architect of the 1977 'Egmont Pact' which, with support from the VU [the Volksunie, the People's Union, the Flemish-nationalist party - GL] and the Socialist Party, transformed Belgium into a federal state." (Bouveroux date:144) Flemish nationalism wasn't a marginalised radicalist phenomenon anymore, and many Dutch-speaking Belgians, even when not connected to the Flemish nationalist party (or since 1979 parties) enjoyed a sense of pride about being Flemish.

In that social and cultural atmosphere, Will Tura published in 1977 the LP Vlaanderen mijn land (Swido), with traditional folk songs, regional hymns and newly written songs with lots of trumpets about how magically wonderful Flanders is - the title song dates back to 1969. It was also released as B-side of the 45-rpm single *Omdat ik Vlaming ben*.

That song has a specific structure. In each stanza, self-reflective questions are asked in which the narrator searches for the cause of his well-being on the North Sea beach, in the Flemish historical cities, at the Bruges Minnewater etc. Joyfully, the chorus provides the answer: "Because I am Flemish, and I love my country with heart and soul".

Waarom loop ik toch zo graag / Met de zeewind in m'n haar / Langs het Noordzeestrand te dromen / In de winter, in de zomer / Dikwijls stel ik mij die vraag // Waarom voel ik mij zo blij / Steeds zo veilig en zo vrij / Als ik wandel door de steden / Die getuigen van 't verleden / 't Antwoord vind ik diep in mij:

Omdat ik Vlaming ben / Omdat ik Vlaming ben / En ik m'n land bemin / Met hart en ziel

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('Why do I like to walk so much / With the sea breeze in my hair / Dreaming along the North Sea beach / In the winter, in the summer / I often ask myself that question // Why do I feel so happy / Always so safe and so free / When I walk through the cities / Those witnesses of the past / I find the answer deep within me:

Because I am Flemish / Because I am Flemish / And I love my country / With heart and soul') (Own translation.)

How well the song is known by the public becomes clear when watching the registration of concerts where he brings it: the people know the chorus and sing it along with the singer.

8 Omdat ik Vlaming ben - By Lambrecht Lambrechts

In old song books of Flemish student associations (Heyndrickx (1899), as cited by Van Aken (2018) e find the early twentieth century song Omdat ik Vlaming ben, lyrics by Lambrecht Lambrechts, musical score by Maria Matthijssens. Not only does the title sound familiar, when we look at the structure of the lyrics, it becomes clear that Will Tura's song is inspired by it. A slight difference though: every stanza in this text consists of questions and they are answered in every last line:

> Waarom (ter) ik voor geen vreemden buig, / Waarom ik met van Maerlant juich, / Zijn leuze voor de mijn erken? / Omdat ik Vlaming ben! //
>
> Waarom ik bij mijn stillen haard / De taal der vaadren heb bewaard, / En aan geen andren toon gewen? / Omdat ik Vlaming ben! //
>
> Waarom ik aan mijn kindren leer: / Maakt Vlaand'ren groot gelijk weleer! / Waarom ik, hopend, juich met hen? / Omdat ik Vlaming ben! //
>
> Waarom ik 't goede Vlaamse diet / Mijn hart blijf schenken en mijn lied, / Mijn adem en mijn wakkre pen? / Omdat ik Vlaming ben! //
>
> (Why do I not bow to strangers, / Why do I rejoice with Van Maerlant, / And recognize his motto as my own? / Because I am Flemish! //
>
> Why have I preserved / The language of my ancestors by my quiet hearth, / And grown accustomed to no other tongue? / Because I am Flemish! //
>
> Why do I teach my children: / Make Flanders great as it once was! / Why do I, hopeful, rejoice with them? / Because I am Flemish! //
>
> Why do I give my heart / To the good Flemish people, my song, / My breath, and my steadfast pen? / Because I am Flemish! //) (Van Aken 2018)

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The very first stanza is of course the most interesting one, since Jacob van Maerlant is named: "Why do I not bow to strangers, / Why do I rejoice with Van Maerlant, / And recognize his motto as my own? / Because I am Flemish!" The lyricist literally recognizes the anaphoric conclusion Because I am Flemish! is borrowed from Jacob van Maerlant. The question arises: is it really something the Father of all Dutch [writing] poets wrote? Because, when it is, it may be de schoonste hulde, welke men onzen grooten dichter zeker wel heeft kunnen bewijzen, (...) dat van hem gezongen wordt in een Vlaamsch volkslied, tevens strijdlied, ook in het Noorden wèl bekend ((...) the most beautiful tribute that one could certainly pay to our great poet is that he is sung in a Flemish folk song, also a battle song, well known in the North.) the author of a 1929 article proudly states, reflecting the Zeitgeist. (Schaap 1929)

And yes, he did indeed - verbatim - be it of course in an older variety of Dutch:

> Ende omdat ic Vlaminc ben
>
> Met goeder herte biddic hen,
>
> Die dit Dietsche sullen lesen,
>
> Dat si mijns genadich wesen;
>
> Ende lesen sire in somich woort,
>
> Dat in haer lant es ongehoort,
>
> Men moet om de rime souken
>
> Messelike tonghe in bouken (Schaap 1929, 88)
>
> ('And because I'm Flemish / with a true heart I'm begging / to whomever reads this Dutch: / have mercy on me! / You might read here some words / that in your region hasn't been heard of / but I have to find words that rhyme / and I have to look for them / in books, so my language will be mixed') (Own translation.)

What is happening here? Jacob van Maerlant, who wrote a whole library on his own, also wanted to reach as wide an audience as possible and therefore wrote as best he could in a more or less supra-regional language. However, because he wrote in paired rhymes, he sometimes had to choose less widespread words. Here he apologizes to his readers for occurring dialectalisms; sometimes it may be that they do not understand a single one of them, due to Reimzwang chosen word, that is "because I am Flemish".

Seven hundred years later Lambrecht Lambrechts, a high school teacher in the coastal city Blankenberge uses the quote "Omdat ik Vlaminc ben" in a poem,

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explicitly mentioning Van Maerlant wrote it - en passant changing its meaning to a proud reasoning that explains character, behaviour, feelings of the lyrical I. The poem has been set to music and became a popular song with Flemish nationalistic student associations. Seven decades later, the Flemish singer Will Tura elaborates the same reasoning and structure of the poem to a full blown (literally: lots of trumpets) heartwarming, nostalgic, and proud well-known song about Flanders' appealing charms and qualities.

The exploitation of the quote does not end there. In 1980, there was a stained-glass panel for sale in Diksmuide (home of the Yser Tower, the Flemish nationalistic monument) with that particular quote on it (Vlaams Historisch Archief) and in 2015, Eddy Adriaens writes an apologetical romanticised biography of Florine De Pauw, whose dreams of a unified Dietsland with the help of the German occupier in World War II do not end well; the book has the very same title: Omdat ik Vlaming ben(Adriaens 2015). Two quotes by Jacob van Maerlant centuries after their first appearances transformed into Flemish nationalistic catchphrases. They became part of the collective cultural literary memory of Flemish nationalists. This movement is not a marginal phenomenon: Belgian's Prime Minister since February 2025 belongs to Belgium's biggest political party, the Flemish nationalist NVA. Quotes that have become a part of the cultural vocabulary in the form of catchphrases, that are still used in printed or social media, and that reveal a lot about the history of Flanders, Belgium, the Low Countries.

9 Conclusion

This article studies two medieval quotes that have become a piece of cultural vocabulary, in the form of catchphrases, in Flanders. During that process, their initial meaning has shifted and has been given an extra layer of chauvinism and nationalism — a semantical shift that is hardly known by who uses or knows the quotes. Deconstructing that shift illustrates how literature can inspire and influence politics and vice versa — and how little die-hard nationalists sometimes seem to know about the region and its culture they are so eager to uphold and defend. On a broader scale, these examples illustrate the importance of background knowledge of such catchphrases, and the possibilities of also sharing cultural backgrounds in language lessons that help to better understand the language. And by covering these interesting semantic shifts, the learners read poetry, get to know popular music, read social media posts, blogs, newspapers - the specific didactic approach can vary according to the age, the intellectual background and the language skills of the students. Catchphrases like these appear

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only in an informal, incomplete, vague Wikipedia list, but they deserve more and better. Goal of my research about individual catchphrases in Dutch is to make a more thorough list and to develop didactical material for learners of Dutch as a Foreign Language, so they do not just learn the language, but are provided with a broader and more nuanced cultural context, so they can integrate easier into the culture of Dutch speaking regions. In other words: I'm busy describing sets of catchphrases thus developing a cultural vocabulary.

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Chapter 12

Linguistic labels and language learning: A comparative study of Greek dictionary practices in the twentieth century

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This study investigates the lexicographic treatment of linguistic labels in two prominent Greek dictionaries from the first half of the twentieth century, with particular emphasis on attitude labels and their implications for lexicography. Through comparative analysis of label inventories and specific entry samples, the research examines trends in labeling practices, focusing especially on attitude markers that have proven valuable for language learning while presenting persistent challenges for lexicographers. The study evaluates standardization and consistency in label application across both dictionaries and extends the analysis to contemporary Greek dictionaries to track evolutionary changes in vocabulary labeling approaches. The findings reveal patterns in historical labeling practices and their relationship to modern lexicographic conventions, contributing to our understanding of how linguistic labeling in dictionaries has developed over time. The study provides useful insights in an underrepresented research area, particularly regarding the standardization of attitude labels and their role in supporting language learning. It also highlights the need for clearer explanation and greater visibility of linguistic labels in digital dictionary platforms, where transparent and accessible labeling can support informed language learning and interpretation.

1 Linguistic labeling in dictionaries: Typology, format, and significance

Dictionaries have consistently been acknowledged as vital tools in language learning (Béjoint & Moulin 1987, Chen 2010, Boulton & de Cock 2017). They can

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provide useful tools for both decoding and encoding, among their known contributions being vocabulary building, providing information on pronunciation and phonetics, guidance as to grammar and usage, insights on collocation patterns, idioms and other multiword expressions as well as support on understanding cultural details that pertain to the use of a language. Cultural pointers, in particular, can be found in several parts of dictionaries; among them are attitude labels that typically convey negative connotations of lexical items (Efthymiou et al. 2014) and point to the appropriate usage of words and expressions in different contexts. As Brewer points out, linguistic labels represent "a judgement about usage rather than a judgement about meaning" (Brewer 2016: 492).

As far as general language dictionaries are concerned, labels may include broad categories such as domain or field (e.g., "Chemistry", "Sport"), region or geography (e.g., British English, Pontic Greek), register (e.g., formal, informal), style (e.g., technical, literary), time or period (e.g., ancient, medieval), attitude (e.g., approving, disapproving), meaning type (e.g., literally, figuratively), grammar (e.g., verb, transitive), currency or temporality (e.g., obsolete, neologism), frequency (either corpus-based or more arbitrarily labeled), and origin or etymology (e.g., Arabic, Latin). This typology is far from fixed among both lexicographers and metalexicographers, but it covers a broad spectrum of lexicographic labeling. Nonetheless, different labels may correspond to different categories depending on editorial choices, and some categories may overlap with each other. Although some of the choices may occasionally seem arbitrary, they could reflect trends and ideologies of lexicographers, publishers, or of their historical framework.

Moving from label typology to format, dictionaries follow a number of formatting conventions for labels. These are usually explained in detail in each dictionary's editorial Style Guide, which indicates how these labels are to be used by lexicographers. Labels are usually abbreviated and can be highlighted using *italics*, **bold**, CAPS, or SMALL CAPS, sometimes enclosed in parentheses. Less commonly, certain symbols are used instead of full words or abbreviations, such as the exclamation mark that is often employed to indicate taboo lexical items. Every abbreviation and symbol is (or, at least, should be) included in a dedicated list, usually in the front matter of printed dictionaries, along with the full form of abbreviations and a single-word explanation of symbols.

Beyond classifying word and phrase usage in dictionaries, labels carry substantial value for language learning. They not only warn users against inappropriate usage but also reflect sociohistorical trends and ideologies associated with lexicographers, publishing companies, and the broader social context at the time of publication. This is why the study of labels holds particular significance in metalexicography, critical lexicography, and language learning. Language users

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adjust their discourse to fit various social settings, such as family gatherings, workplaces, or public settings, by employing different registers that align with the norms of each domain, and dictionaries support this process by providing register labels that guide appropriate word choice. For language learners, these labels are especially valuable as they offer crucial insights into the degrees of formality and context, helping them master effective communication across diverse social environments.

To help learners grasp such linguistic and cultural shades, lexicographers treat unmarked words as the standard everyday language and then indicate when alternatives fall outside this norm in any way. This method helps learners select vocabulary that fits the social context, as seen in distinctions such as "buy" to serve as the neutral term, "grab" to indicate a more casual register, and "purchase" to be used in formal contexts. Apart from marking variances in register, attitude labels can also be valuable in understanding subtle differences depending on the context in which each lexical item is used. In fact, some words and phrases that describe groups of people in negative, or even offensive, ways are sometimes used by in-group members when addressing each other to show affection or amusement (Landau 1991: 187; Norri 2000: 72–73). Therefore, labels can also provide insights to usage contexts, as well as stylistic or pragmatic restrictions. In general, linguistic labels are much more than just linguistic markers; they are windows into cultural communication, helping learners navigate the complex social dimensions of language use.

2 Scope and methodology

This paper examines the lexicographic inclusion and treatment of linguistic labels based on a case study of two dominant dictionaries from the first half of the twentieth century. First, the list of labels used and included on the list of abbreviations in the front matter of each dictionary are compared with each other to pinpoint possible trends of the time of publication. The focus of the paper then shifts to labels that can be argued to depict attitude, as this may fall under the broader category of register, which has been reported as particularly useful for language learning (Kirkpatrick 1985: 12), while, at the same time, it has proven more challenging for lexicographers more than other types of labels (Atkins & Rundell 2008: 185). The same sample entries are looked up in the two works to investigate similarities and differences, as well as define possible patterns. Crucial lexicographic issues such as standardization and consistency are also explored. Finally, the labels that are chosen for inclusion in the two dictionaries are com-

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pared to the linguistic labels used by Greek dictionaries that are currently in circulation to determine whether and how attitudes towards labeling vocabulary items have changed over time.

The research employed a comprehensive, multi-stage comparative methodology to analyze linguistic labeling practices in the selected dictionaries. The approach was designed to provide a layered exploration of lexicographic labeling techniques in Greek lexicography during the first half of the twentieth century.

2.1 Selection of the dictionaries

This study examines two major Greek dictionaries from the period between the 1930s and the 1950s, often referred to as the "golden era" of Greek lexicography, as there was a lexicographic boom with at least four major dictionaries of modern Greek (Babiniotis 2019: 50). These dictionaries are: the *Dictionary of Modern Greek Language* (*Proias* 1933) and the *Great Dictionary of the Greek Language* (*Dimitrakos* 1936–1950, which took fourteen years to complete and was republished in 1964). While both are general language dictionaries, they differ significantly in scope and size: *Proias* consists of three volumes and focuses on synchronic (1930s) usage, while *Dimitrakos* comprises nine volumes and takes a diachronic approach. A common feature of both works — one that also determined their selection for this study — is their lasting influence in the field of Greek lexicography, as they remain historically crucial and continue to be used as reference works today. Table 1 shows a schematic comparison of the two dictionaries' typological details partly based on the list of properties set in Atkins & Rundell (2008: 24–26).

In particular, *Proias* follows a synchronic approach, deliberately excluding rare lexical items and drawing its macrostructure from contemporary sources across various domains. Therefore, *Proias* can justifiably be considered the first published dictionary focusing on Modern Greek, which later served as a reference for subsequent works, including *Dimitrakos* (ibid., pp. 240–242).

Dimitrakos, on the other hand, looks at the Greek language as a continuum from the Homeric times through the time of its compilation. It claims to be structured according to "historical principles", listing the meanings of lexical items based on the time of their occurrence with an emphasis on written sources. Apart from ancient Greek literature, its corpus includes inscriptions and papyri, a variety of medieval works across several domains, as well as contemporary research that was going to lead to the publication of the *Historical Dictionary of Modern Greek* by the Academy of Athens (Perakis 1994: 244–246).

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Table 1: A typological comparison of the two dictionarie

Title / Properties	*Dimitrakos*	*Proias*
Number of languages	monolingual (Greek)	
Coverage	general language	
	diachronic	synchronic
Size	collegiate	
	9 volumes	3 volumes
Medium	print	
Organization	word-to-meaning	
Use	decoding	
Time of publication	first half of the 20th century	

2.2 External and internal label comparison

The initial phase of the research focused on compiling an inventory of the linguistic labels used in both dictionaries. Since labeling systems typically differ from one dictionary to another, the two abbreviation lists were examined and compared in a mutual comparison to identify shared and unique labeling conventions. This inventory provided a foundational understanding of the labeling practices employed in these historical lexicographic works. Subsequent analysis concentrated specifically on the existence of any labels that may be taken as depicting attitude (mainly on the disapproving end of the spectrum), as these have been recognized as a critical aspect of linguistic labeling. As they are more idiosyncratic, they are potentially more revealing of any underlying ideological trends. Beyond this foundational comparison, the study incorporated both intra-dictionary and inter-dictionary examinations, ensuring a multi-layered approach to labeling practices.

The study then shifted from the analysis of abbreviation lists to examining how labels are presented in the microstructure of the two dictionaries. To ensure a balanced comparison between them, the analysis focused on lexical senses that reflect synchronic language use, specifically examining entries from the first four volumes of *Dimitrakos* alongside the corresponding entries in *Proias*. The comparison was conducted at the sense level rather than the entry level, as attitude labels are typically attached to specific senses rather than entire entries. This approach enabled a finer-grained analysis of how the dictionaries use labels of this type.

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Table 2: The reference set of contemporary Greek dictionaries

Abbreviation	Title	Type
LKN	*Modern Greek Dictionary*	Print & online (static)
LNEG	*Dictionary of Modern Greek*	Print (static)
HLNG	*Practical Dictionary of Modern Greek*	Print & online (static)
MILNEG	*Big Electronic Dictionary of Modern Greek*	Online (continuously developing)

In particular, each labeled sense in *Dimitrakos* was cross-checked in *Proias* to determine (a) whether the sense was present or absent, (b) whether it was explicitly labeled or not, and (c) any discrepancies in labeling between the two dictionaries. Instances of both convergent and divergent labeling practices were documented, with particular attention to cases where the same word received different attitude markers in each of the dictionaries.

This stage of the research concluded with an internal consistency check within each dictionary to assess how systematically its labeling practices were applied. More specifically, this process involved comparing the presence of attitude labels in the lists of abbreviations with their actual application within the dictionaries' microstructures.

Finally, the inclusion and treatment of the same senses in the findings were examined across a reference set of four contemporary Modern Greek dictionaries to identify any diachronic shifts in attitude labeling. All four dictionaries (listed in Table 2) are currently in circulation. One exists exclusively in print, another is available strictly online and undergoes continuous development, while the remaining two are found in both print and online formats, with each edition remaining static. To ensure a multidirectional comparative perspective, the findings from *Dimitrakos* and *Proias* were assessed against these modern dictionaries, not only to evaluate contemporary labeling conventions but also to identify possible continuities and deviations from historical lexicographic practices.

3 Results

3.1 Labels in the abbreviation lists

The comparison of the abbreviation lists in the two dictionaries revealed a striking disparity in the dictionaries' editorial acknowledgment of attitude labels.

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This was evident from the considerable numerical supremacy of *Dimitrakos*, which contains 264 abbreviations (excluding a 22-page, double-column list of source abbreviations), compared to the more economical *Proias*, which includes 132 abbreviations — exactly half as many.

Surprisingly, when examining which of the included linguistic labels convey attitude, it was revealed that only two out of the 264 abbreviations in *Dimitrakos* and one out of the 132 items in *Proias* could be argued to depict attitude (shown in Table 3). Of these, the label *eirwn.* (ironic) is shared by both dictionaries in an identical format, whereas the label *eufhm.* (euphemism) is present only in *Dimitrakos*.

Table 3: Inclusion of attitude labels in the dictionaries' abbreviations lists

Dimitrakos (264 total abbreviations)	**Proias (66 total abbreviations)**
eirwn. (ironic)	*eirwn.* (ironic)
eufhm. (euphemism)	–

3.2 Labels in the dictionaries' microstructure

Despite their limited representation in abbreviation lists, microstructural analysis revealed a considerably more extensive use of attitude labels at the microstructural level in both dictionaries (shown in Table 4). In the sample under examination, *Dimitrakos* includes 54 senses (across a variety of lexical items) marked with attitude labels, while *Proias* applies corresponding labels to 11 of these senses. Among the remaining senses found in *Dimitrakos*, 20 appear unlabeled in *Proias*, while 14 are entirely absent from the dictionary (symbolized by a dash in Table 4). Finally, nine senses are labeled in both dictionaries but in divergent ways.

3.3 Label variation and consistency

Beyond the differences in how attitude labels are included or treated in the two dictionaries, one of the most striking results of the microstructural comparison is the extensive application of a number of labels that are not included in their list of abbreviations. In fact, the only attitude label that is present in both dictionaries is "ironic," while "euphemism" also appears on the *Dimitrakos* list.

Furthermore, when examining each of the ten distinct attitude labels individually to assess the consistency of their treatment, the study identified several

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Table 4: Comparing attitude labels in the two dictionaries' microstructures

EL item	**Meaning in EN**	**Dimitrakos**	**Proias**
aggelokrousm'enoc	consumed by lust	insulting	no label
'ame(te) sto di'aolo	go to hell	insulting	no label
ton kak'o sou ton 'ampaka	damn you	insulting	–
anajematism'ene	damn	insulting	no label
ac p'aei ston 'anemo	may (s)he/ it go to hell	insulting	euphemistic
anemosk'orpistoc na g'inhc	go to hell	curse	no label
o Je'oc na sou to antapod'wsh	may God punish you accordingly	curse	no label
ap'okrufa	genitals	euphemistic	–
e'inai ap'olausic aut'oc o 'anjrwpoc	he is a piece of work	contemptuous	ironic
aradi'azomai	flop down	ironic	–
areim'anioc	fierce	contemptuous	ironic
areiman'iwc	fiercely	teasing	–
ar'ida	leg	contemptuous	taunting
ari'otriqoc	patchy-haired	contemptuous	no label
arrib'arw (arib'arw)	arrive	contemptuous	contemptuous
arr'wstou qe'ilia fa'inontai kai nhstiko'u mago'ulec	he is a malingerer	contemptuous	no label
aulojer'apwn	sycophant	contemptuous	contemptuous
austriak'oc	opportunistic	contemptuous	ironic
aut'oc	to emphasize an ironic characterization	scornful or ironic	no label
bloghm'enoc (euloghm'enoc)	damned	euphemistic	euphemistic
bres'idi	a louse	euphemistic	–
br'wma (br'oma)	a slut	mocking	no label
buzantinism'oc	traditionalist rigidity	contemptuous	metaf.
ga"itan'ac	a corporal	contemptuous	–
genn'adac	an insolent person	contemptuous	ironic
ger'ontio	old person	scornful, contemptuous	no label

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EL item	Meaning in EN	Dimitrakos	Proias
ger'ontio	old person	scornful, contemptuous	no label
geroxo'urac	old person	insulting	scornful
gia ta panhg'uria	a laughingstock	ironically teasing	no label
gia thn yuq'h tou pat'era tou (thc m'anac mou)	for no or very little money	ironic	–
gkl'aba	the mind	teasing	teasing
gluk'adi(on)	vinegar	euphemistic	euphemistic
gluk'u	epilepsy	euphemistic	euphemistic
gra'"idio(n)	old woman	contemptuous or insulting	no label
grammatizo'umenoc	educated person	contemptuous	–
grojopatin'ada (gronjopatin'ada)	a fist fight	ironic	ironic
gunaik'ario(n)	little woman	contemptuous	no label
de br'azei o'ute me 'enan t'ono k'arbouna	for someone who has issues with sexual performance	contemptuous	no label
dhmosiograf'iskoc	an inexperienced journalist	scornful, ironic	–
di'adoqoc	a heir	ironic	–
egwist'akoc	an egoist	contemptuous	–
ejn'arion	a little nation	contemptuous	no label
eikon'odouloc	an iconolater	contemptuous	no label
'ektrwma	used to insult someone	humiliating or insulting	no label
el'ogou	used to refer someone teasingly	teasing or ironic	no label
exapod'w	devil	euphemistic	admonitory
kal'e 'antec	showing disbelief	contemptuous or derisive	ironic
k'ati tr'eqei sta g'uftika	to underestimate something	scornful	–
mou 'ekane th doulei'a (thn 'ekane th doulei'a)	someone harmed me	ironic	–
na mac gr'afhc (gr'afeic)	showing disregard for someone who is leaving	ironic	ironic
na pac kai na mh gur'ishc (gur'iseic)	go to hell	curse	curse

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EL item	Meaning in EN	Dimitrakos	Proias
na se br'asw | na br'asw ta left'a tou	I want nothing to do with you / your money	mocking or scornful	no label
nhste'uei o do'uloc tou Jeo'u giat'i ywm'i den 'eqei	about someone who practices restraint out of necessity	ironic	ironic
o 'enac ki o 'alloc	unimportant people	scornful	–
qa'ire b'ajoc am'etrhton	for something inexplicable	ironic	no label

variant forms across both dictionaries. Notable variations in label presentation were observed, as shown in Table 5.

3.4 Diachronic shifts

To trace the evolution of labeling practices, the study extended to a reference set of contemporary Greek dictionaries (shown in Table 2). An notable diachronic shift in all four contemporary dictionaries is the inclusion of a broader range of labels in their lists of abbreviations to account for diverse attitudes, as shown in Table 6.[1] This represents a clear expansion beyond merely including the labels "ironic" and "euphemism" (even though the research revealed additional labels in the dictionaries' microstructure that were not mentioned in the front matter lists). Moving on to the next stages of the research, the diachronic comparison uncovered three primary patterns in how words and expressions have been labeled over time.

The first pattern involved retained labels, where certain terms maintained their original stylistic markers. For instance, the word "bloghm'enoc" (literal meaning: blessed), traditionally used euphemistically to mean "damn," has preserved its original label. Similarly, the phrase "gia ta panhg'uria" (literal translation: for the festivals), which is used ironically to mean "a laughingstock," continues to be labeled as such, indicating consistency in the treatment of these expressions.

The second pattern concerned delabeled entries, where some lexical items lost their stylistic markers altogether. Examples include "areiman'iwc" (literal meaning: with the fury of Ares) and "di'adoqoc" (literal meaning: heir, used ironically

[1]The *Big Electronic Dictionary of Modern Greek (MILNEG) is not included in this table, as it did not provide a list of abbreviations at the time of the research.*

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Table 5: Presentation variations of attitude labels in the two dictionaries

Attitude label	Dimitrakos	Proias
ironic (eirwnik'o)	iron., ironically, in an ironic meaning, ironically teasing	iron., ironically
teasing (skwptik'o)	ironically teasing, in a teasing meaning, teasingly, teas., teasing	teas., teasingly
humiliating (tapeinwtik'o)	in a humiliating expression	–
contemptuous (skwptik'o)	in a contemptuous mean., contemt., contemptuously, to declare contempt	contemptuously, contemt.
insulting (ubristik'o)	insulting, insult., as an insult, insultingly	–
euphemistic (eufhmistik'o)	as a euphemism, euph.	euphemistically, euph., as a euphemism
curse (kat'ara)	curs., curse	–
mocking (oneidistik'o)	mockingly	–
scornful (perifronhtik'oc)	scornfully, to declare scorn	scornfully, scorn.
derisive	to ridicule	–

for "son"), both of which no longer carry the labels that previously signaled their specific tone or connotation. This absence of labeling may reflect shifts in usage, where the intended meaning has either become more neutral or is now inferred through context rather than explicit markers.

The third and most notable pattern was the evolution of labels, particularly in terms related to people, especially women and the elderly. Senses that were once categorized as "teasing" or "mocking" have increasingly been reclassified under stronger labels such as "derogatory" or "insulting." This shift suggests a growing sensitivity to biased or stereotypical language, aligning contemporary dictionary practices with modern attitudes toward inclusivity and social awareness.

These findings highlight how language evolves alongside cultural and social changes, with dictionaries playing a crucial role in reflecting and reinforcing

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shifts in perception and usage. This evolution is particularly significant in the context of language learning, as it reveals valuable insights into the underlying culture. Understanding how words are labeled over time gives learners insights not only into linguistic distinctions but also into societal attitudes and historical contexts that shape meaning. By recognizing shifts in labeling (such as the transition from "teasing" to "derogatory" for certain terms) deeper awareness of social norms, respectfulness in communication, and the impact of language on identity and inclusion can be gained. Thus, beyond vocabulary acquisition, the study of labeling practices offers a window into cultural values, highlighting the intricate relationship between language and society.

Table 6: Attitude labels in the lists of abbreviations in the reference set of dictionaries

Abbreviations / Dictionary	*LKN (Total: 392)*	*LNEG (Total: 417)*	*HLNG (Total: 306)*
arnht. / arnht. sunupod. (negative)	✓	✓	✓
eir. / eirwn. (ironic)	✓	✓	✓
euf. / eufhm. (euphemistic)	✓	✓	✓
euqet. (optative)		✓	✓
jet. (positive)	✓		✓
kak'os. (pejorative)		✓	
meiwt. (derogatory)	✓	✓	✓
skwpt. (contemptuous)	✓	✓	
sunaisj. (emotionally loaded)	✓		
ubr. / ubrist. (insulting)	✓	✓	✓
qa" ideut. (affectionate)		✓	

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4 Discussion and suggestions for further research

For linguistic labels to serve as windows into usage contexts, and stylistic and pragmatic restrictions for language learners, they need to be clearly explained and consistently used throughout a dictionary. This comparative analysis reveals significant inconsistencies in label application both between different dictionaries and within individual dictionaries while highlighting broader sociolinguistic shifts across time.

Dictionaries are known to apply different labeling systems. This also applies to the modern works such as the ones shown in Table 2, used here to explore diachronic shifts in labeling. Differences in treatment may vary not only in choosing to mark specific lexical items or not but also in the specific labels that are ascribed to them (Efthymiou et al. 2014, pp. 30–31, 37–38). Apart from the practical fact that dictionaries are based on preset criteria which distinguish them from other contemporary works, this inconsistency could partly be attributed to lack of uniform criteria in constructing labeling systems.

The comparison of the early twentieth-century works with their more modern counterparts revealed a clear tendency towards creating more finely tuned labeling systems, at least in the lists of abbreviations. Thus, modern dictionaries have expanded their abbreviation lists to capture the subtler variations in language that recent dictionary writing systems and linguistic research have revealed. Advances in linguistic studies have uncovered finer distinctions in register, style, and usage that modern dictionaries now reflect by using a broader array of labels. As social realities and language usage change, linguistic labels also need to be updated. Research on dictionary use has also contributed to this trend, based on the premise that detailed labels help users make more informed choices about language, leading to the choice of more appropriate words, both socially and contextually. It has been reported that the absence of suitable labeling in some dictionaries has led to users feeling "cheated" as they believe to be missing important usage context (Norri 2000: 71).

The evolution in the practice of attitude labeling for certain terms demonstrates how lexicographic practices reflect changing social attitudes, particularly regarding gender and age-related language. In particular, the findings suggest that while early twentieth-century Greek lexicography showed limited standardization in attitude labeling, contemporary dictionaries exhibit greater awareness of sociolinguistic implications, particularly in marking potentially offensive terminology. This trend is aligned with research results that point to the necessity of using attitude labels (particularly those carrying negative connotations) in certain semantic categories, including those related to sex and age (Norri 2000:

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87–88; Efthymiou et al. 2014: 31, 33–37). This shift also aligns with broader societal movements toward more inclusive and respectful language use.

To address these challenges and further improve the role of linguistic labels in modern lexicography, it is crucial for each dictionary to set up a comprehensive labeling system that can accommodate the evolving needs of language users. Such a system must not only be detailed and flexible enough to reflect the changing nature of language but also ensure consistency in labeling across the microstructure of the dictionary. Consistency in the application of labels is essential to avoid confusion and to ensure that language learners and users can trust the system to guide them accurately. Furthermore, lexicographers must be attentive to the dynamic nature of language by considering any changes in word usage over time and acknowledging context-dependent meanings that may differ based on social or cultural factors. This includes being sensitive to emerging social issues, such as gender, race, class, or sexual orientation, which can affect how words and expressions are perceived in various contexts. Ensuring that dictionaries evolve in response to these factors will improve their usefulness and relevance in language learning in an ever-changing linguistic landscape.

In order to further enhance the accuracy and objectivity of linguistic labeling, it is essential for lexicographers to consult reliable sources, such as synchronic language corpora, to support label assignments. Relying on real-world data from corpora helps ensure that the labels reflect actual language use rather than subjective interpretations. This approach minimizes personal bias and strengthens the credibility of the dictionary by grounding labels in empirical evidence of how words are used in various contexts.

To support the learning process further, labels should also be made more visible and understandable, particularly in digital dictionaries, where there are no space constraints. In the digital format, there is ample opportunity to provide clearer explanations and examples of each label's meaning and usage. By enhancing label visibility and providing more detailed information, digital dictionaries can improve user experience, making it easier for language learners and speakers to grasp the overtones of word usage and context. This approach would further bridge the gap between dictionary entries and real-world application promoting more informed language choices on the part of language learners. The educational impact of linguistic labeling in dictionaries could also benefit from adding multiple real use examples that reflect the attitude corresponding to each label, as several online dictionaries do these days.[2]

[2]Among others, Cambridge Dictionary (https://dictionary.cambridge.org), and Collins English Dictionary (https://www.collinsdictionary.com/dictionary/english/problematic).

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The results of this research contribute to our understanding of both historical lexicographic practices and the evolution of linguistic attitudes in Greek society, while highlighting the role of dictionaries as cultural documents that reflect changing social values. Further research could explore the connection of these labeling shifts with actual language use through corpus studies, examining whether changes in dictionary entries influence public perception and discourse. Additionally, comparative studies of other languages could provide a broader perspective on how different linguistic communities navigate similar sociolinguistic challenges. Investigating the role of digital and crowdsourced dictionaries in shaping modern attitude labeling would also offer valuable insights into contemporary lexicographic trends.

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Chapter 13

Language history – history of law – history of culture: Lessons from the *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch*

Stefaniya Ptashnyk

Cultural and historical learning are crucial aspects of language acquisition, both for native and non-native speakers. The *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch (DRW)* serves as a valuable tool for advanced language learning, particularly in the cultural and historical contextualization of language.

The DRW is the comprehensive dictionary of historical German and West Germanic legal terms. Its covers all legally relevant German terms from the beginning of Germanic written tradition (about 450 AD) up to 1815 (word occurrences in the online version until 1835) and comprises, in addition to modern German, other Western Germanic languages and language varieties, e.g. Old English, Lombardic, Old Frisian, Middle Dutch and Middle Low German. However, the target group of the Dictionary are not only lawyers. Its subject area includes language, law, social and cultural history. By using the DRW, one can explore words not only as linguistic units but also in relation to culture, law and history simultaneously.

In this paper, I aim to emphasize the importance of integrating world and encyclopedic knowledge into the explanation of meaning, as well as into the other structural components of a dictionary entry. Analyzing the lemma *Titularbuch* ('book of titles') I will demonstrate the lexicographical handling of the semantic complexity of legal terms in the DRW. Specifically, the thoughtful selection of quotations from historical sources ensures concise entries that not only convey cultural knowledge but also retain specific information about historical legal subjects, facts, and circumstances.

cultural learning, legal terms, linguistic knowledge, encyclopedic knowledge, language history

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Stefaniya Ptashnyk

1 Language acquisition, learner's dictionaries and dictionaries as tools for language learning

In considering the intersection of lexicography and language acquisition, learner's dictionaries are the foremost example that comes to mind. The learner's dictionary as a specific dictionary type or genre includes a wide range of dictionaries that are orientated towards the needs of language learners (Runte 2015: 132–140). According to Wirag, a learner's dictionary "is directed at a target audience of non-native, foreign-language users" (Wirag 2021: 43). In his understanding, the learner's dictionary is designed as a "resource book" for foreign language teaching and foreign language learning that teachers might "employ for classroom instruction" or that students might "consult for independent study" (Wirag 2021: 46). In contrast to Wirag, Heuberger suggests that the target audience of a learner's dictionary includes not only foreign language learners but also native language learners, acknowledging that the demands of foreign language learners on a dictionary differ fundamentally from those of native speakers (Heuberger 2016: 25; see also Herbst 1990: 1379). Tarp similarly asserts that a learner's dictionary is "especially designed to assist learners of languages whether a native or a foreign language" (Tarp 2011: 223).

Linguistic and metalexicographic research indicates that learners are primarily interested in word definitions as well as usage information, such as syntax and collocation (Humble 2001: 35). This has led to the fact, that learner's dictionaries are mostly synchronic monolingual dictionaries (Herbst 1991: 1379). They present "the current, contemporary form(s) and meaning(s)" and they omit "diachronic information on spelling or etymology" (Wirag 2021: 48–49).

In addition to the main didactic functions of a learner's dictionary, such as helping to decode the meaning of lexemes and to produce texts (e.g., finding collocations, synonyms, antonyms, hypernyms, checking spelling, grammar or pronunciation), Wirag emphasizes that lexicographic work can also play a valuable role in "cultural learning" Wirag (2021: 48). Linguistic research has frequently highlighted the direct link between language and culture, and the need to take cultural factors into account in language acquisition (see, for example, Kramsch 2009; Steinhoff 2009; Arabski & Wojtaszek 2011; Ekinci 2015; **Paul2016** and others). As Gouws rightly argues: "There is an interactive relation between language and culture and familiarity with many aspects of this relation can be regarded as necessary for the best possible comprehension of language and the appropriate use of language in typical situations of use" (Gouws 2020: 3). Nomdedeu Rull even goes so far as to say that each word and expression used in a language "is strongly related to culture" (Nomdedeu Rull 2020: 40).

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In my view, cultural and historical learning are essential components of language acquisition, benefiting both native and non-native speakers. Cultural and historical knowledge provides learners with a deeper comprehension of the language's nuances, idiomatic expressions, and pragmatic uses. Furthermore, being familiar with the own or target culture's history, customs, and values enables learners to better appreciate the language's evolution and development over time. This, in turn, facilitates more effective communication, as learners can avoid cultural misunderstandings and misinterpretations. Additionally, learning about a culture's historical events, figures, and traditions helps learners to contextualize linguistic elements, such as idioms, proverbs, and references, which are often rooted in the culture's past. By incorporating cultural and historical aspects into language resources, a more holistic understanding of the language can be promoted. This can foster intercultural competence among learners and their ability to communicate effectively and appropriately in diverse social contexts.

To summarise, acquiring a second language as well as deepening the knowledge of the native language involves not only mastering its grammatical structures and vocabulary but also understanding the cultural context in which it is spoken. This statement can also be applied to historical contextual knowledge: For learning purposes, not only synchronic monolingual dictionaries serve as a helpful tool; historical dictionaries also offer unique benefits for advanced language learning in different ways.

Many historical dictionaries reflect the aspects of the relation between language and culture, and so they include and present cultural data in the best possible way. On this subject, Kämper offers the following perspective:

> „Unter der Voraussetzung eines weiten Kulturkonzepts ist jedes Wörterbuch kulturanalytisch lesbar, dessen Inhalt (Lemmaansätze, Paraphrasen und gegebenenfalls zitierte Belege) als wortbezogene Repräsentation kulturgeschichtlichen Wissens verstanden wird" (**Kamper2016**).
>
> 'Every dictionary can be interpreted from a cultural-analytical perspective if we adopt a broad conception of culture, because its content (headword entries, paraphrases, and where applicable, cited examples) can be understood as a word-based representation of cultural and historical knowledge.'

However, this means that users must learn to read dictionaries carefully and make effective use of the resources they offer.

In this paper, when I discuss the benefits of historical dictionaries for language learning, I consider both native and non-native speakers, as dictionaries can be a very useful tool for a wide range of language-learning situations, whether one is

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learning a foreign language or broadening one's own knowledge of one's mother tongue. It is evident that the focus of this study will not be limited to learner's dictionaries. Other types of dictionaries, notably historical ones, can also support language acquisition in various ways, as the paper goes on to demonstrate. The primary focus of this analysis is on the aspects of cultural learning, specifically examining how lexicographic methods can make important historical and cultural information accessible to dictionary users. Using the historical dictionary of German legal terms *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch* as a case study, I will analyse the role of semantic explanations and quotations in the language learning process. In particular, I will explore how linguistic knowledge and world knowledge are interconnected, demonstrating why language learning is inextricably linked to understanding the world and its history.

2 Linguistic knowledge and world knowledge from a lexicographical perspective

The explanation the semantic spectrum of every expression is one the main tasks of the most dictionaries. According to Haß-Zumkehr (2001: 27), semantic explanation of words is the centerpiece of every article from a lexicographical point of view. However, the way to a good definition of a lexeme or a successful explanation of a word's meaning is very complex, as any lexicographer working in practice would certainly confirm. The reason for this is that lexicographers must make many generalisations by analysing a large number of tokens or numerous occurrences of the lexeme in the given text corpus (Haß-Zumkehr 2001: 28). This requires not only great capacity for interpretation and abstraction, but also metalexicographical reflection on what type of information is necessary, useful and/or desirable in the semantic explanation. One could say that this process requires a decision about which and how many features are needed for a good explanation of meaning.

In this context, the question of integrating world knowledge (or so-called encyclopedic knowledge) into the definition, as well as into the other structural parts of a dictionary article, arises. This integration can help to provide a maximum of knowledge to the users of a dictionary. I would like to emphasize this aspect of dictionary production because it is crucial for cultural learning (Gouws 2004: 266; Rothenhöfer 2014: 416; Tarp 2011: 225) and for understanding historical expressions (Prinsloo 2014: 510).

In linguistics in general and in lexicography in particular, many researchers have tried to keep linguistic and world knowledge separate, drawing a distinc-

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tion between dictionaries and encyclopedias. At the same time, it has been repeatedly underlined that world knowledge and linguistic knowledge are closely linked. Wiegand (1998: 774) proposed a model in which encyclopedic and semantic knowledge were conceptualised as two partially overlapping circles. Ulrike Haß further argues that a considerable number of words in the language dictionary automatically teach us something about the world we live in: "Im Sprachwörterbuch lernt man bei vielen Wörtern … automatisch etwas über die Welt, in der wir leben" (Haß-Zumkehr 2001: 291).

From the point of view of historical lexicography, it should also be noted that dictionaries of past centuries often followed the pre-scientific, i.e. non-systematic, scheme of definition; they practised a mixture of semantic and world knowledge. For this reason, both traditions - encyclopedic and linguistic lexicography - interact with each other. As a result, the history of the compilation of encyclopedias has helped to shape the expectations of the recipients of the dictionary as a genre (Haß-Zumkehr 2001: 291).

However, the encyclopedic knowledge is not solely carried by the semantic information alone. A significant amount of encyclopedic information is often " hidden" in other parts of the article structure, particularly in quotations or usage examples, as will be illustrated later on the basis of some concrete articles from the *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch.*

At this point, I would like to highlight another insight from the field of lexicography. As Harm and Kramer observe, lexicographers devote a significant part of their work to extracting information from sources, selecting examples, and providing references for them. However, this aspect of lexicographical work evidently plays hardly any role in the general perception (Harm & Kramer 2025: 3; see also Considine 2022: 133). Therefore, it is important to familiarise the audience with the role of examples in dictionaries. This is why I would also like to link the following analyses to the argument that the perspectives of lexicographers and dictionary users on the importance and usefulness of examples for language acquisition need to be reconciled more effectively.

3 The *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch* and its concept of legal terminology

The *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch* (DRW) is a comprehensive dictionary of historical German and West Germanic legal terms which is being created at the Heidelberg Academy of Sciences and Humanities. From a typological point of view, the DRW is an alphabetical, diachronic, cross-linguistic dictionary. It covers the West

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Germanic legal vocabulary from the beginnings of the Germanic written tradition (about 450 AD) up to the beginning of the 19th century; the *Allgemeines Landrecht für die Preußischen Staaten* (1794), the Austrian *Allgemeines bürgerliches Gesetzbuch* (1811) and Goethe's work form the upper time limit of the material covered. In addition to modern German, it comprises such Western Germanic languages and language varieties as Old English, Lombardic, Old Frisian, Middle Dutch and Middle Low German. The DRW project is still in progress. In 2024, volume XIV (up to the entry *Trittrecht*) was published in print. The online version can be used by following link: www.deutsches-rechtswoerterbuch.de (accessed 2026-04-15).

The corpus of the DRW includes legal texts (such as collections of laws, legal codes, law books, legal literature), historical sources such as chronicles, travelogues, account books etc., but also religious texts (Bible poetry, Bible translations, psalms, sermons), selected literary texts such as epics, doctrinal poetry, dramas as well es linguistic texts (dictionaries, collections of proverbs, philological studies), and much more.

The dictionary deals with legal language in the broader sense, considering both specialised legal language aspects and the legal relevance of vocabulary. Legal language is not necessarily to be understood in the narrow sense as the specialised language of lawyers. Not only legal terms, but also the written official language is covered by the DRW. Its lemma list depicts a wide range of legal practices and everyday historical and legal life and contents words which occur in legal contexts. For example, words like *Kuß* ('kiss'), *Schlaf* ('sleep'), *scharf* ('sharp'), *nackt* ('naked'), *Nonnenmacher* ('nun maker'), *Perückenmacher* ('wig maker'), *Heiligenkuh* ('holy cow'), *Herbstschwein* ('autumn pig'), *Haus* ('house'), *Hof* ('yard'), *Mondschein* ('moonshine'), *Schiff* ('ship') and many more can be found in the lemma list of the DRW as well as the designations for offices, courts, mercy or law.

One might be surprised to find a word like *naked* in the DRW. The reason for this is the specific meaning of *nackt* in legal contexts, namely that it can denote 'a state of nakedness as an indication of adultery', which is relevant to some legal situations and issues. The curious word *Nonnenmacher* ('nun maker') refers to a person who makes animals infertile, which is also of importance in legal contexts.

The subject area of the dictionary includes linguistic and legal history as well as social and cultural history. The target group of this dictionary is therefore not only legal experts or people interested in Germanic law. Using the DRW, one can deal with words as linguistic units, with legal terms and with social history simultaneously, and it is useful for understanding historical (legal) texts and related legal contexts of the past, regardless of the research question. In particular,

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the well-considered selection of quotations from historical sources helps to produce compact articles without losing specific encyclopedic information about the historical legal facts and circumstances.

Since it is largely a historical dictionary of legal terms (i.e., it concerns a specific domain of knowledge), the question of the integration of encyclopedic information into the explanation of meaning is relevant for the practical lexicographical work on the *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch*. The central question of lexicography, namely that of the balanced relationship between linguistic knowledge and world knowledge, thus proves to be even constitutive for the DRW.

In the next step, I will demonstrate these mentioned specific features and the lexicographical handling of the semantic complexity of legal terms in the DRW using the lemmas *Titel* and *Titularbuch* as well as other compounds and derivatives with *Titel-* as concrete examples.

The word *Titel* means 'title', and a *Titularbuch* is - in very general terms - a book containing the addresses of persons of high or low rank. The printed version of DRW contains 13 full articles for following entries: *Titel, Titelbischof, Titelbuch, Titelritter, Titular, Titularbediente, Titularbuch, Titularkämmerer, Titularrat, Titulation, Titulatur, Titulaturbuch* and *Titulieren.* In addition, there are a good three dozen so called Wortbelegungen ('word assignments'). Especially compounds that are only documented after 1700 (so they are "too young") and are therefore not included in the lemma list. They appear online only, in a short version. Among them is the entry *Titelseite* ('title page'). This long series of words in the dictionary is an indication of the importance of title practices in legal contexts, especially in official writing.

4 Semantic information in the DRW: Inclusion of world knowledge and linguistic knowledge for cultural learning

How are the articles of the DRW structured in general? I will show it using the example entry *Titel.* The semantic spectrum of this lexical unit includes six particular meanings: (1) 'main section, sub-chapter, esp. of a legal text'; (2) 'heading, designation; inscription'; (3) 'special form of address or formal addition to the name of a person to indicate their rank, status, office or dignity'; (4) 'formal legal ground; (justified) legal claim as well as a document proving this claim'; (5) 'a sub-item in an account'; and at least (6) 'a twelfth of a penny'.

Of course, the definitions belong to the central components of the microstructure in the vocabulary description. But the explanation of the semantic spectrum

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of every expression is not restricted to the definitions. A lot of semantic information can be carried by using of appropriate usage examples or quotations, and this is especially important for historical lexicography. According to Hawke, the quotation is "the bedrock of any historical dictionary" (Hawke 2016: 176), and there is a very close relationship between the definitions and the quotations.

In the DRW's article structure, quotations from legal sources serve to illustrate the specific use of lexical units as well as their usage contexts (see Figure 1 below). In addition, the selection of suitable quotations is an important technique to link the semantic information with the relevant world knowledge and with pragmatic aspects. I will show this by analysing the article *Titularbuch*, looking in particular at the integration of world knowledge into the microstructure of this article.

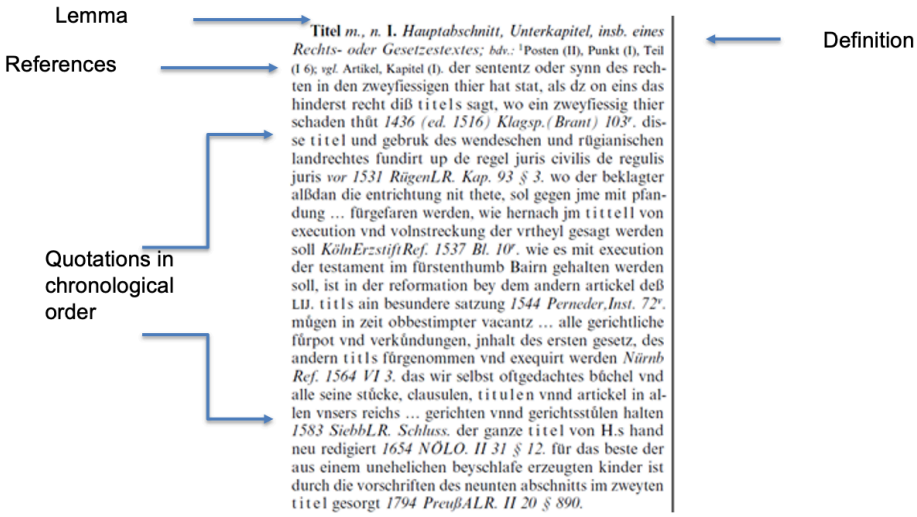

Figure 1: Article structure in the *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch*

The semantic definition of this word is relatively extensive in the DRW, as we can read in the meaning paraphrase in (1)[1]:

> **Titularbuch, n. I.** in Kanzleien und anderen Schreibinstitutionen verwendetes Sammelwerk mit Vorlagen für das Verfassen amtl. Schriften, insb. für gebräuchliche Anredeformeln und Titel (III) höher gestellter Personen; Kanzleibuch (I).

[1]See DRW online s.v. *Titularbuch*: https://drw-www.adw.uni-heidelberg.de/drw-cgi/zeige?index=lemmata& term=titularbuch#Titularbuch-1.0 (accessed 2026-04-15).

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> 'compendium of title formulations used in chanceries and writing institutions with templates for writing official documents, in particular for common forms how to address the higher-ranking persons; chancery book'

According to the lexicographical definition scheme *genus proximum et differentia specifica*, the obligatory components of the definition of a *Titularbuch* are 'a compilation of common formulae for person titles'. However, the dictionary also lists other features of a *Titularbuch* that are more likely to be categorised as world knowledge. For example, the semantic paraphrase tells us that the primary purpose of title books was to give the correct title of usually high-ranking persons or institutions. Besides that, the definition informs that books of titles were a kind of reference work written for chancelleries and administrations; these books were used as an instrument or even as a template for writing official documents.

But there is much more that can be said about the book of titles. The historical research on writing culture and on ceremony issues has provided evidence that these reference works contained helpful instructions for the correct use of titles. As such, they were designed to help letter writers ensure that a particular person or group of people was being addressed correctly. Inside, domestic courts, imperial and regional estates, electors, dukes and duchesses, princes and princesses, counts and countesses, universities, monasteries etc., as well as foreign emperors and kings such as those of France, England, Sweden etc. – they all were listed in the contemporary books of titles. Some of this information is provided in the DRW which can be find not obligatory in the definition. Several central features of books of titles that are not exclusively anchored in the semantic commentary, but rather in quotations (see Figure 2).

Titularbuch *n.* **I.** *in Kanzleien und anderen Schreibinstitutionen verwendetes Sammelwerk mit Vorlagen für das Verfassen amtl. Schriften, insb. für gebräuchliche Anredeformeln und* → Titel (III) *höher gestellter Personen;* → Kanzleibuch (I); *bdv.:* Titelbuch, Titulaturbuch; *vgl.* Kanzleiformular. was zierlicher red … nottûrfftig oder wie die jedem zugeben sein, hat mann sich zu vorderst zu jnngang meiner rhetorick vnd dann ausserm t i t u l a r b u c h, beyd in geystlichem vnnd weltlichem standt, wol zuersehen *1568 Zwengel 221r.* [*der Kammersekretär soll*] fleißige acht darauf geben, daß in den tituln nicht geirret, sondern dieselben altem stylo nach ungeändert gegeben und, wenn neue regenten in die regierung treten, deroselben namen unserm t i t u l a r b u c h e unnachlässig einverleibt werden mögen *1618 v.d.Ohe,LünebVerw. 146. 1628 Fellner-Kretschmayr II 454.* an höfen, wo grosse correspondenzen geführet werden, wird unten hin geschrieben, an wen der brief gehöret, damit die secretarii nach dem in der cantzley vorhandenen t i t u l a r - b u c h e die uberschrifft machen können *1720 Lünig,Kanzleizeremoniell 402.* jeder hof, jede canzley hat ihre besondere t i t u l a r - b û c h e r *1753 Pütter,JurPraxis I 49. 1798 Bischoff,Kanzlei. II 1 S. 126.*

II. *amtl. Hauptregister der Einkünfte aus Steuern und Abgaben; bdv.:* Steuerregister; *vgl.* Manual, Titel (V). ein t i t u l a r b u c h oder manual, worinnen aus dem journal die einnahme unter die gehörige titulos von den gefällen jedes amt und stadt zu übertragen ist, mit benennung, wie solche ad cassam gekommen *1726 ActaBoruss.BehO. IV 2 S. 53.*

Figure 2: The article *Titularbuch* in the *Deutsches Rechtswörterbuch*

So, we learn from the quotations from 1568 that in the tradition of the book of

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titles there was a traditional division into secular and ecclesiastical estates and the ranks of individuals and groups had to be considered carefully:

> was zierlicher red ... nottůrfftig oder wie die jedem zugeben sein, hat mann sich zu vorderst zu jnngang meiner rhetorick vnd dann ausserm titularbuch, beyd in geystlichem vnnd weltlichem standt, wol zuersehen (Zwengel 1568: 221[r])
>
> 'what is necessary to know about the dainty speech, or how it should be given to everyone, is to be seen first in the introduction to my course of rhetoric and then, additionally, in the book of titles, which contains two parts, concerning the sacred and the secular state'

The books of titles always had to be supplemented as you can read it in the quote from 1618:

> [der Kammersekretär soll] fleißige acht darauf geben, daß in den tituln nicht geirret, sondern dieselben altem stylo nach ungeändert gegeben und, wenn neue regenten in die regierung treten, deroselben namen unserm titular-buche unnachlässig einverleibt werden mögen (von der Ohe 1955: 146)
>
> '[the secretary of the chamber shall] take diligent care that the titles are not erred in, but that they are given unchanged according to the old style and, when new rulers enter into government, that their names are incorporated into our book of titles without neglect'

The quotations from the year 1753 tell us something about the target audience of these books: they were scribes in chancelleries in writing institutions as well as in private administrations, e.g. of merchants.

> jeder hof, jede canzley hat ihre besondere titular-bůcher (Pütter 1753: 49)
>
> 'each court, each chancery has its own special books of titles'

From today's perspective, books of titles reflect the secular and ecclesiastical hierarchies of the time, as well as diplomatic, religious and economic contacts (Denzler 2024). Their full significance and immense role, therefore, cannot be described in a single dictionary article. Nevertheless, as we can see, by studying not only the definition, but also other components of the article - especially the selected quotation - users of the DRW can get a comprehensive idea of what the books of titles are or were. They can learn not only the meaning of the

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single word, but also a lot about traditions of the compilation and use of books of titles. At the same time, they can gain an insight into historical communication traditions, social structures, and legal practices of the past, getting knowledge about the importance of titling and about the role of correct salutation of the addressee.

5 Some concluding remarks

Certain aspects of world knowledge can make a significant contribution to a successful dictionary article. It is crucial to select linguistic and encyclopedic information with the target audience in mind. This is especially important in specialised and historical lexicography. The combination of linguistic and world knowledge proves to be user-friendly and learner-friendly at the same time. Of course, it should be carefully considered how much world knowledge needs to be implemented in lexicographical works within the microstructure.

Above all, the importance of quotations from historical sources should be emphasized. Using historical dictionaries, one can learn much not only about vocabulary but also about social history and cultural history in general. This can be achieved by reading not only the definition or semantic explanation, but also other information about the given word. As Brewe rightly points out: "A historical dictionary … selects, records and comments on how words have been used during the course of a language's past, it tells a story – perhaps many stories – about the development not only of language but also of society and culture over the period in which that language has been used" (Brewer 2022: 375). The careful selection of examples by the lexicographer is pivotal in narrating a meaningful "story", thereby supporting the systematic acquisition of vocabulary while considering the necessary cultural and historical aspects.

My paper should have made it clear how much multifaceted information can be obtained from the quotations alone. Although this study focused on the analysis of a single article, numerous other examples from the DRW support this view. Similar examples can also be found in other historical dictionaries that concentrate on evidence derived from historical texts. These examples emphasise the value of historical dictionaries as a supplementary resource in the language acquisition process, as they enable the consideration of historical and cultural contexts.

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so in ... Cantzleyen, auch sonst in den Ampten ... Fürfallender geschäfft halben, bräuchlich seindt. Franckfurt am Meyn: Egenolff.

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Chapter 14

The achievements and shortcomings of the first comprehensive Tajik-English dictionary (2005)

Abdusalom Mamadnazarov

This article aims to analyze the macro- and microstructure of the first comprehensive *Tajik-English Dictionary* (TED) compiled by a Tajik and American team – Jahangir Mamatov, S. J. Harrell, Kathy Kehoe, and Karim Khodjibaev. This analysis's purpose is to determine TED's lexicographic features and its role, significance, and importance for the history of modern Tajik lexicography, highlighting both its comprehensiveness and potential shortcomings and make recommendations for further editions and new dictionaries alike.

The first comprehensive bilingual *Tajik-English Dictionary* was published in 2005 by Dunwoody Press, USA, and has not been the subject of a special lexicographic analysis despite being in circulation for almost 20 years. This paper is the first attempt to evaluate its macro- and microstructure as a learner's dictionary. The dictionary spans 741 pages and is printed in two columns with a fine, small font. Entries are arranged alphabetically according to the modern Tajik alphabet, and illustrative examples are drawn from various Tajik newspapers, including *Nerui Sukhan, Charogi Ruz, Minbari Halq, Tojikiston, Jumhuriat,* and others.

Using the American method of counting words, which includes lemma-internal phrases (Béjoint 2000: 44), the total number of words and phrases translated from Tajik into English is approximately 100,000, establishing it as the first comprehensive TED in the history of Tajik lexicography. Its outstanding feature is the extensive use of grammatical, lexical, and etymological labels. Etymological labels are applied not only to borrowed words but also to words from northern and southern dialects. A substantial number of stylistic labels are used, listed in the *Labels and Abbreviations* section.

Another notable feature of TED is the inclusion of sections entitled *A Short Introduction to Tajik Grammar* and *A Brief Introduction to Tajik Dialects*, innovations in

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Tajik lexicography. In these sections, the compilers furnish essential information regarding the *Tajik Grammar,* the primary southern dialect '*kulobi*' and the main northern '*khujandi'* one. These sections delineate distinctions from the literary language and present a list of commonly used literary words. This information proves invaluable for learners studying Tajik as a second language and improves its value as learners' dictionary. Regarding shortcomings, it can be noted that the absence of an editor of this TED with profound knowledge of Tajik, capable of proofreading the Tajik text and correcting quite sufficient number of misprints and grammatical mistakes, would make a significant difference and improve the overall quality of the dictionary.

macro- and microstructure, lexicography, dictionary, polysemy, labels

1 Introduction

After the collapse of the Soviet Union and Tajikistan's Independence in 1991 the wish of domestic and international lexicographers increased to compose bilingual English-Tajik and Tajik-English dictionaries. Tajikistan as an Independent Nation established diplomatic, cultural and economic cooperation with democratic countries, including USA, UK and other nations. Many international agencies started to open their offices in the country. All this and many other factors led to a new approach to English language as "linqua franca", learning and teaching English. Different kinks of dictionaries started to appear. This includes comprehensive English-Tajik dictionaries (e.g. Mamadnazarov 2011) with one hundred thousand words and phrases, Randal and Rachel Olsons' *Standard Tajik-English Dictionary* (2001), published in Bishkek and the *Tajik-English Dictionary* compiled by Jahangir Mamatov, S. J. Harrell, Kathy Kehoe, and Karim Khodjibaev in 2005, which is the subject of our research paper.

This article aims to analyze the macro- and microstructure of the first comprehensive *Tajik-English Dictionary* compiled by a mixed Tajik and American team – Jahangir Mamatov, S. J. Harrell, Kathy Kehoe, and Karim Khodjibaev – to determine its lexicographic features and its role, significance, and importance for the history of modern Tajik bilingual lexicography, highlighting both its comprehensiveness and potential shortcomings and make recommendations for further editions or new dictionaries to be made.

Literature review. The literature review shows that the first comprehensive bilingual *Tajik-English Dictionary* (hereunder TED), published in 2005 by Dunwoody Press, USA, has not been the subject of a lexicographic analysis despite

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being in circulation for almost 20 years. This paper represents the initial attempt to evaluate its macro- and microstructure as a learner's dictionary. In 2005 Dunwoody Press based in the Springfield, Virginia #give city/state published the third Tajik-English Dictionary, which was the most comprehensive and quite large in the history of modern bilingual Tajik-English dictionaries on 741 pages with small fonts divided into two columns. The compilers identify the number of the entries more than 29,000, though, applying the US criteria of counting entries in the dictionary (Béjoint 2000: 44), which includes both words and phrases within each of the entries that are translated and described in the dictionary, the total number of the words and phrases come to about hundred thousand units. For example:

(1) **айб** *n.* 1. mistake, error: Дар ин ҷумла ягон *айбе* нест. There is no *mistake* in this sentence. 2. defect, flaw: Ин мол ҳеч *айб* надорад. This item has no *defects.* 3. sin: Пурсидан *айб* нест. Asking a question is no s*in.* 4. misdeed, transgression, offense 5. shameful act, disgraceful act

(2) **Айб аст!** *phrase* For shame!/ Shame on you!: Бачам, ин кора накун, *айб acm*\ My child, don't do this, *shame on you!*

(3) **Айбе надорад.** *phrase* It's nothing./ It doesn't matter.: Парво накунед, *айбе надорад.* Don't worry, *it's nothing.*

(4) **айб ёфтан** *vb.* to look for something negative: Мунаққидон ҳамеша дар ҳар асар ягон *айбе меёбанд.* Critics always *find some fault* in any work.

(5) **айб кардан** *vb.* 1. to criticize, to disparage: Ҳамкоронаш ӯро барои чунин дағали *айб мекарданд.* His colleagues *criticized* him for his rudeness. 2. to blame, to judge: Ту худат нағз медонӣ, ман туро барои чї *айб мекунам.* You know very well what I'm *blaming* you for. Надониста, *айб накунед.* Don't *judge* without knowing the truth. 3. to excuse (with negative verb form): *Айб намекунед,* ман ҳоло ин забонро нағз намедонам. *Excuse* me, I don't know this language very well yet. *Айб* уамекууед-дия! You must *excuse* me!

(6) **айб мондан** *vb.* to make a negative judgment, to put a negative label on: Вай 2 рӯз кор накарда, шумо ба кораш *айб мемонед!* He hasn't even worked here two days and you *are complaining* about his work. (TED 2005: 11–12)

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(7) **гӯшт** *n.* 1. meat: *гӯшти* гов beef // *гӯшти* халол *meat* prepared according to Islamic law; 2. fruit pulp

(8) **гӯшт буридан** *vb.* to slice meat

(9) **гӯшт гирифтан** *vb.* 1. to gain weight, to put on weight: Дар як мох ин гов хеле *гӯшт гирифтааст.* This cow put on considerable weight within a month. 2. *fig.* to become happy: Вай аз ин гапхо кабат-кабат *гӯшт мегирифт.* He was happy to hear these words.

(10) **гӯшт бирён кардан** *vb.* to roast meat (TED 2005: 159)

In the entries above the head word **айб** 'mistake, error' ва **гӯшт** 'meat' inside the entries we find six English meanings for the word **айб**, phraseological units *айб аст, айб надорад, verbals айб ёфтан, айб кардан айб мондан, гӯшт буридан, гӯшт гирифтан* and some other meaning of the head words translated, and explained in English. Such entries comprise the majority of the entries, which indicates that the number of words and phrases translated from Tajik into English and described is substantial which makes this dictionary distinctive and unprecedented in the history of modern Tajik-English lexicography. In the introduction, the compilers themselves indicate that the corpus that this dictionary is based on contains approximately 600,000 words and phrases (TED 2005: p. iii).

Methodology/ materials and methods. By using general and comparative lexicographic methods of analyses and covering the entire macro- and microstructure of the dictionary, we found out the following characteristics of the dictionary.

The headwords and the illustrative examples in the dictionary are based on this corpus, which was drawn mainly from contemporary Tajik newspapers such as – *Nerui Sukhan, Charoghi Ruz, Minbari Khalq, Rusi Nav, Odamu Olam, Najot, Adolat, Ƒumhuriyat, Tokikiston, Zindagi* and others that were published since the years of Independence and we can say that the dictionary reflects modern Tajik language of mass print media. In addition, transcribed interviews with native Tajik speakers were included in the corpus, which adds… #please elaborate.

The compilers of the TED, Jahangir Mamatov, S. J. Harrell, Kathy Kehoe and Karim Khodjibaev, therefore made a great contribution to Tajik bilingual lexicography by creating the first comprehensive TED whose bulk of material covers Tajik and (American) English phraseology. "This dictionary", as underlined by the authors, "s intended for native speakers of English who are translating written Tajik texts into English: it is based primarily on written, rather than spoken, Tajik. However, it can also be useful for Tajiks who are studying the English

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language" (TED 2005: p. iii). We assume the authors targeted native speakers of English as the dictionary was published in the USA.

The authors did not specify in any form the illustrative materials used and collected from the newspapers and or from informants. We believe the spoken material that represent the northern and southern dialects can be attributed to spoken Tajik language, though not limited to.

This dictionary has a specific distinctive macrostructure consisting of a *Table of contents*, *Foreword*, *Labels and Abbreviations*, *The Tajik Alphabet*, *References*, *Introduction*, *A Short Introduction to Tajik Grammar*, *A brief Introduction to Tajik Dialects*, *Map of Tajikistan*, *The Dictionary itself and Appendix: Tajik Verbs*. The authors of the *Foreword* section identify the purpose of the dictionary, and provide information on the sources of its entries, headwords, illustrative examples and structure of the entries. The primary purse is "to provide a dictionary for native speakers of English who are translating written Tajik texts into English," (TED 2005: p. iii) ... #please offer a quote...

In the section of *Labels and Abbreviations,* the authors list 130 lexicographic labels and abbreviations in Tajik and English languages including: domain (i.e. terminological), register (grammar), origin and general labels. The references consists of five dictionaries and Tajik textbooks, including Tajik-Russian Dictionary by Muhammdjon Rahimy and Lidiya Vasilievna Ouspenskaya, which is considered one of the authoritative dictionaries of Tajik language. In a section called *Introduction* (p. IX–X) the authors of the TED provide a brief description of the history of the Tajik language, its peculiarities, its relations with Persian of Iran and Dari of Afghanistan, the influence of Arabic, Uzbek and Russian languages, information about modern Tajik literary language and its main dialectic forms that are useful for English speaking readers that use the dictionary. This historical account of Tajik for example emphasize that the official language of the country is Tajik/Farsi. This requires more detailed commentary. "There are two ideas concerning the naming of this language. The first avers that Tajik language is one of the major dialects of Farsi language. The supporters of this thesis believe that the language of the ethnic group calling themselves Tajiks is actually Farsi, just as the language of Belgians is French. In support of this they say: throughout all the history Tajik followed the rules and grammar of Farsi and only underwent certain changes in the last 70–80 years, particularly after the change of the alphabet.

Opponents believe in principle that Tajik is a fully independent language, although they do not deny the similarities of Tajik and Persian in primary linguistic features such as grammar and lexicon. The basis of their thesis is that Tajik has been separate from Farsi for a rather long time." (TED 2005: p. IX)

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, It is also emphasized that "[For] Almost 1000 years the Tajik language was used as an administrative instrument by governments located in modern-day of in India, Pakistan and Afghanistan, in the Empire of Tamerlane, and by the nomadic peoples of the Seven Rivers" (TED 2005: p. IX).

After the collapse of the USSR and the fall of the Iron Curtain, considerable? changes in the development of the Tajik language ensued. With the loss of the significance of Russian, the borrowings from Iranian Farsi and Afghani Dari have been increasing in the contemporary lexicon. On one hand this process is expanding the lexical baggage of Tajik, but on the other hand it is creating certain difficulties for its study. Farsi and Dari, for example, use a lot of Arabic borrowing which create difficulties for Tajiks as they do not study Arabic at high school. Moreover, perhaps for the first time direct borrowings from English can be seen in Tajik, such as: team 'тим', syllabus 'силабус', supervisor 'супервайзер' and others.

The section *A Short Introduction to Tajik Grammar*, which is designed for the English speaking users, provides useful and helpful information about all parts of speech, the main verb forms, the tenses and mood forms of Tajik verb and etc. in 33 pages with examples and descriptions for studying Tajik language.

The other distinctive features of this dictionary is that in a section called *A brief Introduction to Tajik Dialects* the compilers provide useful information about the main dialects – *kulobi* 'southern' and *khujandi* 'northern' (see Table 1), their distinctive features from Tajik literary language, the list of the most commonly used Selected Common Words and Phrases (literary and dialects), words distinctive to southern or northern dialects. There is no doubt that all this information benefits the English-speaking users. It should also be indicated that none of the bilingual translation dictionaries provide such information for the users. For example:

The headwords of the TED are arranged according the order of modern Tajik Cyrillic alphabet. In addition of 32 Cyrillic alphabet of the Russian language six more Tajik letters, not found in Russian have been added to express specific Tajik sounds with special signs. The Tajik Cyrillic alphabet reflects Soviet-era reforms aimed at: increasing literacy (phonetic spelling), breaking from Persian-Arabic orthographic tradition, aligning with Cyrillic typographic norms. Thus, the current alphabet is a hybrid system, preserving Persianate phonology but rendered through a Cyrillic script.

The microstructure of the entries consists mainly of the headword with bold lower case letters, grammatical labels, including the ones indicating the parts of speech and other grammatical or stylistic and terminological information, their semantically nearest English equivalent, usually with some synonyms and illus-

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Table 1: pls provide a caption

literary- адаби	southern – чануби	nothern – шимоли
агар	ага	ага
аз ки	ай ки	а ки
акнун	аку	акун
базуди	базути	тез
барин	борин	боин
барои он, ки	ин хел ки	чува ки
бисёр зиёд	икка	расо, чудо, тоза, мӯл
гурусна	гшна	гушна

trative examples and the translation of the examples into English language. For example:

(11) **азамат** *n.* 1. greatness, grandeur, magnificence, splendor: Аз *азамати* шаҳри пеш асаре намонда буд. There was no sign of the city's former *grandeur.* 2. power, might, force: Дарёи Амуро дида, мо қувват ва *азамати* ин дарёро мешунидем. Seeing the Amu-Darya River, we heard its power and *might.* 3. Azamat (masculine personal name)

(12) **азиз** 1. *adj.* dear, beloved: дӯсти *азиз* a *dear* friend 2. *adj.* valuable: Номҳои шоиронаи бисёр дарёчаҳо дар Тоҷикистон шоҳиди онанд, ки халқ обро чигуна *азиз* ва пурқимат мешуморад. The poetic names of many small rivers in Tajikistan demonstrate the fact that the people consider water very *valuable.* 3. *adj.* desired, wished for 4. *n.* Aziz (masculine personal name) (TED 2005: 9).

(13) **маҷалла** *n.* 1) magazine, journal: Ман дирӯз аввалин шумораи *маҷаллаи* нави барои занонро харида дар он мақолаи журналисти номдорро пайдо намудам. I bought the first issue of a new *magazine* for women and I found there an article about a well-known journalist // *маҷаллаи* телевизионӣ TV *journal* 2) collection, anthology (TED 2005: 334)

(14) **машғул** *adj.* 1) occupied, engaged, busy: Вай ду сол мешавад ки бо ин барномаи махсуси молї *машѓул* аст. He has been *occupied* with this special financial project for two years. 2) busy, occupied: Ду бор ба

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шумо занг задам аммо телефон *машғул* буд. I called you twice but the line was *busy.*

(15) **машгул шудан** *vb.* to be engaged, to be occupied: Илтимос бо ин кор худатон шахсан *машғул шавед.* Do me a favor; *take care of this business* personally. (TED 2005: 335)

The entries in TED consist not only of words and phrases of modern Tajik literary language, that were collected from the mass media since Independence but also the dialect words of the northern and southern regions of the Tajik language that were collected as a result of the interview with the native Tajiks. The fact that TED contains both the words of the modern Tajik literary language and dialect words can be considered as one of the helpful peculiarities strong suits? Exemplary features? of the dictionary. Of course, these peculiarities depend on who this dictionary is destined for. Because this dictionary is intended for native speakers of English, its treatment of dialect words enables readers to understand them without resorting to other specialized dialect dictionaries. In TED the pronunciation of the headwords is not directly transcribed as general information about the rules of pronunciation of Tajik words is provided in the Grammar of Tajik language section in the Introduction, which leaves more initiative, but also room for error, with the user.

The etymological labels in TED are used not only in relation to borrowed words from other languages but also with words from the northern or southern dialects. For example:

(16) **аг** *prep. dial,* from, of (a northern variant of the preposition ***аз*** 'of, from' which occurs when the following word begins with г): Кабоб *аг* гӯшти гов буд. The kabob was made *of* beef // *аг* гуҷо *from* where? (TED 2005: 5).

(17) **доллар** *n. Eng.* dollar: Нархи *доллар* имруз дар бозор чанд аст? What is the exchange rate of the *dollar* today at the market? (Mamatov et al. 2005: 200).

(18) **гастрол** *n. Germ.* tour: *гастролҳои* артисти номдор a popular performer's *tour*

(19) **гастроном** *n. Fr.* gourmet (TED 2005: 146)

(20) **қилич** *n. Uzbek* sword (TED 2005: 299)

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A good number of stylistic labels, fourteen, have been used in the dictionary the list of which one can find in the *Labels and Abbreviations section.* Among them the most commonly used are: *affect.* – *affectionate,* in friendly and loving meaning, *colloq.* – colloqual, *iron.* – ironical, *lity.* – literary, words used mainly in written literate not in oral language , *abus.* abusive, meaning rude and offensive and others. For example:

(21) **барало** *colloq. adv.* clearly, distinctly, definitely: Ўро *барало* дар хобам дидам. I saw him *clearly* in my dream (TED 2005: 54)

(22) **барандохтан** *vb. lity.* 1. to throw out, to expel. Чизу чораи кўҳнаашро *барандохту* рафт. He *threw out* his old belongings and gone. 2. to overthrow, to dispose. 3. to uproot, to tear up by roots. 4. to destroy, to obliterate, to eliminate (TED 2005: 55)

(23) **додарҷон** *n.* 1. *affec.* brother: Як бори дигар такрор кунед *додарҷон*! Say it again please, *brother!* 2. pal, buddy (a friendly term used to address strangers) (TED 2005: 199)

(24) **мабдаъ** *n. lity.* beginning, source, starting point, origin: *мабдаъи* таърих the *beginning* of history (TED 2005: 314)

(25) **мадхал** *n.* 1. introduction: *мадхали* адабиёт an *introduction* to literature 2. *lity.* entrance hall, vestibule 3. entry (TED 2005: 318)

The compilers also used the following stylistic labels, such as: *abus.* – abusive, *juv.* – juvenile, *sl.* – slang, jargon, *obs.* – obsolete and other labels. For example:

(26) **балогардон** *adj., obs.* protective, warding off misfortune or trouble. Он тўмори *балогардон* буд. That was a *protective* talisman. (TED 2005: 51)

(27) **бачағар** 1. *adj., abus.* illegitimate, born outside wedlock 2. *n.* mongrel (i.e., a dog) (TED 2005: 68)

(28) **лоло**[1] *n. obs.* 1. servant, manservant 2. slave

(29) **лоло**[2] *colloq.* 1. *adj.* shining, sparkling, glittering 2. *adj.* fresh, new 3. *n., juv.* new clothes (TED 2005: 312)

A great number of grammatical labels (46) have been used in this TED, which include *n. (noun), adj. (adjective), vb. (verb), adv. (adverb), pron. (pronoun)* and etc. and some other labels pointing to lexical and grammatical characteristics

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of the parts of speech: *sg.* (singular); *trans.* (transitive form of the verb), *intrans.* (intransitive form of the verb) and others. It should be noted that the use of the grammatical labels that indicate to the part of speech has not become a tradition so far in modern Tajik descriptive lexicography. In TED, however, one can find all grammatical labels indicating the parts of speech and other characteristics of the headwords. For example:

(30) **абгор** *adj. colloq.* 1. damaged, broken 2. destroyed, ruined: Дар натиљаи љанг зиндагиам *абгор* шуд. As a result of the war, my life was *ruined.* 3. beaten up (e.g., in a fight) 4. wounded, injured: Дасти ӯ дар авария *абгор* шуд. His hand was *injured* in the accident. 5. mutilated, maimed, crippled *var. of* афгор.

(31) **абгор кардан** *vb.* to injure, to hurt: Эҳтиёт шавед то ягон љоятонро *абгор накунед.* Be careful not to *hurt* yourself.

(32) **абгор намудан** *vb.* to injure, to hurt (TED 2005: 1)

(33) **луғат** *n.* 1. dictionary: *луғати* сезабона a trilingual *dictionary // луғати* тоҷикӣ-англисї a Tajik-English Dictionary 2. vocabulary: Имрӯз бо *луғатҳои* матни нав кор мекунем. Today we'll be working with the *vocabulary* of the new text. 3. word, term (TED 2005: 313)

From the above headwords, it is can be gleaned that the phrases employing the headwords are offered within the same entry. The meaning of the headwords and phrases of the entries are explained with an impressive? 21,361 illustrative examples, these are sentences that greatly facilitate the understanding of the numerous meanings semantic nuances. The headwords and phrases and their English equivalents are shown with italics. For example:

(34) **аввало** *adv.* 1. first of all: *Аввало* ин кори ман не. *First of all,* it is none of my business. // Қосимбой ки ба хонаи худ омад, маљбур шуд, ки *аввало* қарзҳои ҳамсоягонашро дода тамом кунад. When he returned home Qosimboy was *first of all* obliged to pay off the loans his neighbors had made. 2. originally, at first, in the beginning: *Аввало* у деҳконӣ мекард. *Originally,* he was a farmer. (TED 2005: 3)

(35) **лутф** *n.* 1. favor, good graces: У *лутфи* подишоҳро грифт. He is in the *good graces* of the king. // *Лутфи* шумо зиёд аст. It is very kind of you (a polite answer to rendered assistance). 2. mercy, forgiveness: Ман шаб дарс наомадам, аммо муаллим *луфт* кард. Yesterday I did not come to

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class, but my teacher *forgave* me. 3. tenderness, gentleness: Ман аз *лутфи* ҳамшира шифо ёфтам. My health was restored by the nurse's *gentleness;* 4. charm: Аз *лутфи* шумо маст шудам. I am intoxicated by your *charm.* 5. elegance, grace: Шумо *лутф* кардед ва ба маҷлиси мо омадед. You were *gracious* and came to our meeting. (TED 2005: 313)

Homonyms in TED are described as separate independent entries. Follwing standard lexicographical practice, every homonym is specified with Arabic superscript numbers. For example:

(36) **афсар**[1] *n. mil.* officer: кумондону *афсарони* қисмҳои сарҳадӣ commanders and *officers* of the border units // *афсару* аскарон *officers* and soldiers

(37) **афсар**[2] *n. lity.* crown, diadem

(38) **афт**[1] *n.* 1. face 2. facial expression 3. look, appearance: *афташ* хунук an unpleasant *look*

(39) **аз афташ** *adv.* apparently, seemingly, evidently: *Аз афташ* ӯ пагоҳ меояд. *Apparently* he will come tomorrow.

(40) **афт**[2] *Pres, stem of v.* афтидан

(41) **афт**[3] *Pres, stem of v.* афтодан (TED 2005: 36)

It is the core task of each bilingual translation dictionary, including TED, to translate the meaning of the headword and phrases of the Tajik language into English through identifying and finding its closest equivalents and explaining the shades of meaning of the source language into the target language. The authors of TED tried hard to ensure that the meaning of the headword is translated accurately to the degree that is possible. If there is no closer equivalent of the Tajik headword in English, the authors describe the meaning of the notion or use transliteration to render the headword. For example: **оббиёрак** *colloq. n. obbiyorak* (small vessel in which children carry water). In other words, the translation of the meaning of the headword from Tajik into English is presented in a number of ways, including: (a) by finding very close English equivalents; (b) by the ways of describing the meaning of the Tajik word in English; (c) through transliteration and by using many other devices. A few examples are presented below:

a) translation by finding the English equivalents;

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(42) **абрешимӣ** *adj.* silk, silken: куртаи *абрешимӣ* a *silk* dress *Also spelled* абрешимин

(43) **абрногузар** *adj.* cloud-capped: Кӯҳҳои *абрногузар* дар шарқи Тоҷикистон бисёранд There are many *cloud-capped* mountains in eastern Tajikistan (TED 2005: 2)

(44) **маҷалла** *n.* 1) magazine, journal: Ман дирӯз аввалин шумораи *маҷаллаи* нави барои занонро харида дар он мақолаи журналисти номдорро пайдо намудам. I bought the first issue of a new *magazine* for women and I found there an article about a well-known journalist. // *маҷаллаи* телевизионнӣ TV *journal* 2) collection, anthology (TED 2005: 334)

(45) **маҷмӯа** *n.* 1) anthology, literary miscellany 2) code (of laws) 3) collection (e.g., of paintings)

(46) **маҷмӯъ** 1) *n.* sum, total quantity, total amount: *Маҷмӯи* маблағҳои ҷамъшуда аз порсола ду баробар зиёд буд. The total *sum* of funds raised was twice as great as last year's. 2) *n.* collection, gathering 3) *adj.* collected, whole, entire (e.g., poems by a given author) 4) *adj., fin.* gross (e.g., income)

(47) **маҷоз** *n.* metaphor, figure, allegory

(48) **маҷозан** *adv.* metaphorically, figuratively: Қитъаи Амрикоро *маҷозан* Дунёи Нав номиданд. The American continent was *figuratively* named the New World. (TED 2005: 335)

b) Translation by description:

(49) **абрӯкамон** *n.* person with arched eyebrows (considered a mark of attractiveness in women)

(50) **Аваз**[2] *n.* 1) Avaz (an epic hero found in the folklore of Tajikistan and neighboring countries) 2) Avaz (masculine personal name)

(51) **аванс** *n. fin., Russ.* 1) advance (of money) 2) portion of one's monthly salary customarily paid at the first of the month (TED 2005: 2)

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(52) **маҷнунвор** *adj.* like a madman, as if crazy: рафтори *маҷнунвор* behavior *like that of a madman* (TED 2005: 335)

(53) **оббо** *intj.* 1) wow, hey (or similar exclamations that indicate joy or surprise): *Оббо,* ин китобро муфт аз даст доди! *Wow,* I'm surprised by how cheaply you're selling this book! 2) oh, ah (or similar exclamations that indicate annoyance or regret): *Оббо,* меҳмон ҳаст намегӯйи, баччем! *Oh,* my child, you are not thinking about the guest! (TED 2005: 413)

c) translation by transliteration:

(54) **абҷад** *n.* 1) *poet. abchad* (a system of representing numbers, whereby each Arabic letter is assigned a numerical value) 2) code, cipher: *Абҷад* насохта, балки рӯирост ган занед. Do not speak in *code,* speak plainly. (TED 2005: 2)

(55) **оббиёрак** *colloq.* 1) *n. obbiyorak* (small vessel in which children carry water) 2) *adj., fig.* having grown up, having grown bigger and stronger (i.e., children) (TED 2005: 413)

(56) **аваз**[1] *n. colloq.* exchange, swap: Ман пахтаро ба нон аваз кардаам. I *swapped* cotton for bread.

(57) **Аваз**[2] *n.* 1) Avaz (an epic hero found in the folklore of Tajikistan and neighboring countries) 2) Avaz (masculine personal name) (TED 2005: 2)

At the end of TED occurs the *Appendix: Tajik verbs* (p. 696–741). This section of the dictionary contains the sample verb *гуфтан* (to speak), fully exemplified in all possible forms as seen in the written/ broadcast Tajik literary language as well as the dominant southern and northern dialects (spoken language? – #please clarify). There are of course, many dialects of the Tajik language, including the dominant southern dialect, known as kulobi, and the dominant northern dialect, known as khujandi. In addition to these, there are the dialects of Karategin and Hisor regions, the Eastern dialect, and the dialects of Samarqand and Bukhara. Within the northern and southern groups, each district also has its own dialectal features, though these are less widespread and spoken by fewer people, and thus

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are not considered dominant. For the purposes of this dictionary the kulobi dialect of the south and the khujandi dialect of the north are exemplified. Because the dialects in question are conversational in nature, many of the literary verbal forms are not seen in these dialects. Twenty of the most common verbs in Tajik are listed in this appendix, conjugated fully in all tenses of Tajik language. These verbs were chosen based upon their frequency, their irregularity, or their suitability as models for similar verbs. To give just one example of the latter, the verb *даромадан 'to come out'*, which is not in this appendix, will follow the pattern of *баромадан* 'to go out' which is included here.

There is no doubt that all this information is very useful for the users of the dictionary. It should also be mentioned that this valuable dictionary meets all the demands of modern translation lexicography and can be used as an example from the point of view of its macro- and microstructure. That includes the general structure of the dictionary and the structure of the headwords of the dictionary, the formation of the entries, the selection of the illustrative examples and their translation into English and for compiling the next generation of Tajik-English dictionary, more comprehensive to meet the demand of translation dictionary.

Unfortunately, one can find also grammatical and spelling errors in the dictionary. The main reason, as we see it, is the absence of Tajik editor, responsible for proofreading to make sure that these errors are spotted and removed. After compiling the dictionary and the TED – 2005 should have been proofread by the Tajik editor. Just few examples:

(58) **дастуруламал додан** *vb.* to give instructions: *Ҷумхури Раис ба мо дастуруламал додан.* 'The President gave us an order.' (TED 2005: 185). In the above Tajik sentence, there are both grammatical and lexical errors.

(59) **кӯчондан** *vb.* 1. to move, to resettle 2. to move, to shift, to transfer: мизро *кӯчондан to move* a table 3. to throw over, to throw across: Баччаҳо тӯпро аз болои роҳ *кӯчондан.* The children *threw* the ball *across* the street. 4. to carry across, to carry from one place to another: Талабаҳо китобро ба дастаашон *кӯчондан.* The students *carried* the books in their hands. 5. to copy: Муаллим аз китоб ба дафтар *кӯчондан.* The teacher *copied* from the book to the notebook. *Also spelled* кӯчонидан. (TED 2005: 289)

In the sentence above "*Баччаҳо тӯпро аз болои роҳ кӯчондан.* The children *threw* the ball *across* the street." English translation is perfect but the Tajik original has some lexical and grammatical errors. Mistakenly instead the word *тӯб*

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'ball' the word *mӯn* 'heavy gun' is used. The Tajik word *кӯчондан* in this sentence wrongly used. And lastly the verb-predicate used in the form of the infinitive (*кӯчондан)* but should be used in the Past Indefinite form. Such grammatical and lexical errors can be found in the dictionary.

Finally, I would like to emphasize that, in spite of minor grammatical, lexical and print oversights, from the modern theoretical lexicographic point of view TED 2005 has both great practical and theoretical value. This dictionary is the most reliable Tajik-English dictionary among others published both domestically in Tajikistan and internationally. It is continuing to make a positive impact in the cultural life and educational life of the country. Unfortunately, because of the price it is not very well known in Tajikistan and we at Tajik National University are going to develop this dictionary with additional materials removing all the grammatical and lexical errors.

Digital dictionaries offer significant advantages over traditional printed editions, especially in terms of accessibility and dissemination. By placing a dictionary online, we make it available to a global audience, regardless of geographic location or access to physical libraries. Users can consult it at any time, from any device with an internet connection, ensuring that the dictionary serves not only scholars within the country but also diaspora communities, researchers abroad, and anyone interested in the Tajik language. This broader reach helps preserve linguistic heritage and promotes international engagement with our cultural and scholarly resources.

In addition to accessibility, digital dictionaries provide important functional benefits that paper-based versions cannot match. They allow for rapid searching, cross-referencing, and navigation through large bodies of lexical data, greatly improving the efficiency of research and study. Digital platforms also make it possible to incorporate updates, corrections, audio pronunciations, and multimedia examples in real time, ensuring that the resource remains accurate and current. Together, these advantages make the digital format an essential complement to printed dictionaries, enriching the user experience and strengthening the long-term value of this lexicographic project.

In conclusion, this dictionary fulfills most modern lexicographic requirements. It serves as a valuable sample, contributing significantly to the cultural and educational fields and providing a solid foundation for Tajik-to-English translation locally and internationally. It also can serve as the subject of in-depth research within the framework of a dissertation or multiple dissertations. It also provides a strong foundation for the development of more comprehensive Tajik–English dictionaries.

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Part III

Modern tools for modern users: Lexicography and modern language learning

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Chapter 15

Learning and preserving Croatian Church Slavonic through online resources: from dictionary to the classroom

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In this paper, we will briefly introduce the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* and the process of its digitization and retrodigitization. We will then present some of the efforts to make the lexical units more interesting for scholars, students, and the general public. In order to popularize the Croatian Church Slavonic language and its dictionary, various web games are currently being developed. Some games are compiled to facilitate learning of the Glagolitic script (letters and numbers) and others to make learning Croatian Church Slavonic words and grammar more interesting. The challenge in developing these games for learning purposes lies in the selection and presentation of dictionary content for different target groups (academics, elementary school, high school, and university students). In addition, the content needs to be modified based on game types (e.g. quizzes, memory) and game elements (e.g. scoring, levels) to fit the selected content and target groups. All these problems with possible solutions in the creation of an online dictionary and associated educational games are presented as models which shows how old language and dictionary content can be adapted to the online environment. To bring the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church Slavonic language closer to target users, other digital resources are also being developed such as the e-grammar of Croatian Church Slavonic, an interactive map of Glagolitic monuments, a timeline of the history of the usage of the Glagolitic script, software with which the users can create their own Glagolitic inscriptions, etc. As part of the project, outreach activities are being held in primary and secondary schools to introduce students to the Croatian Church Slavonic language and the Glagolitic script. During the lectures, games for learning various content are tested with the students.

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Croatian Church Slavonic, gamification, Glagolitic script, educational system, interactive content, online dictionary, online grammar

1 Introduction

The Old Church Slavonic Institute[1] in Zagreb is the central Croatian academic institution for the Croatian Glagolitic script and Glagolitism. Its main task is the preservation, research, and popularization of the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church Slavonic language. The Glagolitic script is an old Slavic alphabet created by St. Cyril (Constantine the Philosopher), a Greek from Thessaloniki, especially for the mission among the Moravian Slavs in the 9th century (HCJ 2014: 9). The Glagolitic script and Old Church Slavonic were further spread by the disciples of Cyril and Methodius. Following the expulsion of their disciples in the late 9th century, the use of the Glagolitic script gradually declined, as it was increasingly replaced by the Latin and Cyrillic scripts (Mihaljević et al. 2024: 17). Throughout history, the Glagolitic script was used in several European region (for more on the relationship between Croatian Church Slavonic and other recensions, see HCJ 2014. However, its longest period of continuous use was in Croatia, where it remained in religious and legal contexts until the 19th and early 20th centuries (Mihaljević et al. 2024: 17–18). After the 12th century, only the Croats used the Glagolitic script in its angular or Croatian form. Croatian Church Slavonic is the oldest Croatian literary language, which developed from the first Slavic literary language – Old Church Slavonic – which also emerged in the 9th century (HCJ 2014: 9). A special feature of Croatian Church Slavonic is the introduction of Chakavian[2] elements and the fact that most texts were either translated from Latin or adapted to Latin protographs. The Croatian edition of Church Slavonic differs from other redactions in that it has preserved the Glagolitic script and belongs to the Western Roman rite (HCJ 2014: 10). The Glagolitic script plays an important role in the history of Croatian culture and is a significant part of Croatian national and cultural identity (Mihaljević et al. 2024: 10).[3] The Glagolitic letters and their numerical value are shown in Figure 1.

[1]For more about the Old Church Slavonic institute, see Institute's website: https://stin.hr/en/.

[2]Chakavian is one of the three main dialects of the Croatian language, alongside Kajkavian and Štokavian. Today, Chakavian dialects are primarily spoken along the Adriatic coast and on the islands, with notable inland usage in regions such as Lika and Pokuplje. For more on the Chakavian dialect, see e.g. Lisac (2013).

[3]For more about the script and the history of Croatian Glagolitism see Damjanović 2002, Mihaljević 2020.

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ⰰ	ⰱ	ⰲ	ⰳ	ⰴ	ⰵ	ⰶ	ⰷ	ⰸ	ⰹ	ⰺ	ⰻ	ⰼ	ⰽ	ⰾ	ⰿ
a	b	v	g	d	e	ž	ʒ	z	ï	i	j, đ	k	l	m	n
1	2	3	4	5	6	7	8	9	10	20	30	40	50	60	70
ⱀ	ⱁ	ⱂ	ⱃ	ⱄ	ⱅ	ⱆ	ⱇ	ⱈ	ⱉ	ⱊ	ⱋ	ⱌ	ⱍ	ⱎ	ⱏ
o	p	r	s	t	u	f	h	ô	ć	c	č	š	ъ	ja, (i)je	ju
80	90	100	200	300	400	500	600	700	800	900	1000	2000	3000	4000	5000

Figure 1: Letters in the Glagolitic script with their numerical values

The compilation and publication of the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* (*Rječnik crkvenoslavenskoga jezika hrvatske redakcije*, RCJHR 2000) is a fundamental and long-term project of the Old Church Slavonic Institute. The dictionary was published in the printed form with entries up to the word *izgnilstvo* (RCJHR 2021). It is a dictionary with a very complex structure, containing five languages (Croatian Church Slavonic, Croatian, English, Latin, and Ancient Greek) and four scripts (Glagolitic, Old Cyrillic, Latin, and Greek).[4] In the following chapters, the DigiSTIN project is briefly introduced as the overarching framework of the presented activities. The development of the electronic version of the dictionary is then described, followed by an analysis of the creation of educational games aimed at the popularization of the Glagolitic script and an overview of additional interactive Glagolitic-related content. Furthermore, the potential of the dictionary as a teaching resource is examined. The paper concludes with a presentation of the project's collaboration with the educational system and its outreach activities, including lectures delivered in schools.

2 DigiSTIN project

The *DigiSTIN*[5] (*Development of the Digital Infrastructure Model of the Old Church Slavonic Institute*) project was launched in January 2024 and aims to establish the institutional domain stin.hr as a central hub for information and education about the Croatian Glagolitic script and its heritage.[6]

[4]For more about the dictionary see Nazor (2008, 2017), Vukoja (2012, 2014), Vukoja & Turkalj (2016), Šimić (2017).

[5]https://stin.hr/en/content/digistin-en/ (Accessed 10 February 2025).

[6]The project is funded by NextGeneration EU. The project leader is Ana Mihaljević, and the team consists of six researchers and three assistants from the Old Church Slavonic Institute,

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This project encompasses several goals, including the digitization and retrodigitization of the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic*, the publication of an e-grammar and the development of both internal and publicly accessible databases. In addition, the project focuses on the creation of educational games, virtual exhibitions, and a portal with educational material to popularize the Glagolitic script and heritage.

3 Creation of the digital version of the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* – overview of problems and current situation

The digital version of the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* is currently being developed online and is still in the demo phase.[7] The retrodigitization of the dictionary has faced many challenges, mainly because the dictionary entries contain texts written in the Latin, Glagolitic, Old Cyrillic, and Greek scripts, and the fact that we do not have all fascicles in the original Word format. Fascicles 1–12 are only available in a scanned PDF format, which could not be processed effectively with OCR because of the many languages and scripts. Fascicles 13–15 are available in Word, but without the Greek text, and the remaining fascicles are mostly fully available in Word documents.

WordPress was chosen as the primary system for developing the dictionary. Not only is it free, but it is also an open-source system that offers a wide range of customization options due to its extensive plugins and open code. Its large and active developer community also ensures continuous updates, security improvements and technical support, making it a reliable and scalable choice for the long-term development of the project (Cvitković 2023: 12). For the reasons for choosing this system and for the analysis of the DWS under consideration, see Mihaljević & Mihaljević (2024a). In the current phase of digitization, users can search for headwords or browse through the first letter. Clicking on the headword opens a specific PDF page where the full dictionary entry can be found. This approach was chosen to provide early access to specific entries before all fields in the dictionary entry structure have been completed, by linking the keywords directly to the already published version of the dictionary in the PDF format. These

one researcher from the Faculty of Humanities and Social Sciences in Zagreb, one postgraduate from the Faculty of Humanities and Social Sciences in Rijeka, and a Croatian language teacher from the Sv. Nedelja Elementary School.

[7] https://stin.hr/crkvenoslavenski-rjecnik (Accessed 5 March 2025).

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links redirect users to the page where the entry appears in the published document. In this way, users can also compare the changes between the published version of the dictionary and its online counterpart.

When creating the e-version of our dictionary, we were inspired by the experiences of our colleagues from Bulgaria and the Czech Republic. More about these projects can be found in Ganeva (2018), Pilát (2017, 2020), Pilát & Knoll (2017), Totomanova (2012, 2021), Tuček et al. (2018b,a). The retrodigitization of the dictionary is described in more detail in Mihaljević & Mihaljević (2024a,b).

The use of four different scripts in the content of the dictionary posed a major challenge in searching and indexing entry content and structuring entry data. All entries are written in the angular Glagolitic script, which poses a problem when browsing or searching entries, as this form of the Glagolitic script is still not available in a Unicode format. Therefore, users cannot rely on the standard text input methods to effectively browse or search for specific entries. Even if Unicode-supported Glagolitic symbols were used as an alternative, they would still pose accessibility issues as current keyboard layouts do not support direct input of these characters. The solution to this problem was to embed our custom font for the angular Glagolitic script designed by Frano Paro, called FSGLA, into WordPress. This turned the font used in the compilation of the printed version of the dictionary into a web font that can be typed and displayed on web pages.[8] With this font, standard Latin letters can be visually represented as their corresponding Glagolitic variants, allowing for easier text entry and search functionality without the need for Unicode support. By mapping the Glagolitic characters to the existing Latin keyboard layout, users can easily enter, view, and retrieve dictionary entries. A virtual keyboard has also been developed to help users enter certain Glagolitic letters that are not available on standard keyboards (e.g. / , ; , ⸢).

When creating the website and retrodigitizing the dictionary, special attention was paid to students and postgraduates as potential users of the dictionary, as well as to the general user who may not have extensive linguistic or lexicographical knowledge but is interested in the Glagolitic heritage. For users who are still learning the Glagolitic script or have difficulties with it, a tooltip function has been implemented. This function displays the headwords in the Latin script when the user moves the mouse over them. By providing all these additional accessibility options, users can navigate through the dictionary more efficiently. This approach helps to bridge the gap between the preservation of the historical script and the modern, user-friendly digital tools. In Figure 2, the virtual

[8] https://stin.hr/wp-content/uploads/2025/01/fsgla.ttf (Accessed 3 February 2025).

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Glagolitic keyboard is shown. Above the keyboard, there is the Word of the Day section.

Figure 2: Virtual keyboard used on the dictionary search bar, above it: Word of the Day

This e-dictionary is still in the early stages of development. However, the first demo version is publicly available. In addition, we plan to collect user feedback and data to further improve and refine this unique dictionary.

4 Creating Glagolitic games

Gamification is usually defined as the use of game design elements in non-game contexts (Deterding et al. 2011: 9). One of the forms of gamification that involves the use of games is referred to as game-based learning. Game-based learning refers to the use of game design elements and principles to create engaging learning experiences that promote motivation, problem solving, and knowledge acquisition. It differs from traditional gamification in that it involves full-fledged games and not simply the application of game mechanics in non-game contexts (Plass et al. 2015: 259). The idea of Glagolitic games is to promote the use of the Glagolitic script to a wider, potentially younger audience, and to make learning Glagolitic content entertaining and easy for users. Since younger generations (school children and students) spend more time on mobile phones and the internet, and use many different interactive apps and play games, it was important to evolve methods of teaching the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church

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Slavonic language through digital media. Games for learning the Glagolitic script and facts about Glagolitism have been developed since 2017. The first game was *Memory for learning the Glagolitic script*, in which players match Latin and Glagolitic variants of letters.[9] These games differ in the content they convey, the target group, and game type (see Table 1).

Most of the games are intended for younger players (elementary and high school students) and the general public, but there are also some games for college students, postgraduates, and young researchers, such as games for learning the declension of nouns in the Croatian Church Slavonic language. The games also vary in type – quizzes, memory games, word-finding games, and unique educational games inspired by popular commercial titles. The purpose of creating multiple game types for learning the same content (such as the Glagolitic letters) is to address diverse groups of users, who may prefer different types of games. This approach aims to increase motivation in the learning process among a wide range of learners. Moreover, offering varied game formats can also be beneficial for the same learner, as engaging with the same content through different games can enhance learning efficiency and accelerate the learning process. A Snake-inspired game, for example, helps players learn the Glagolitic letters by having the snake's head, marked with a Latin letter, eat the corresponding Glagolitic letter.[10] Flappy Glagolitic, which is inspired by *Flappy Bird*, allows players to write their own names in the Glagolitic script, which then serve as their lives in the game.[11] There are also shooting games, one modeled after *Space Shooter* and another inspired by *Superhot*, where time only advances when the player moves.[12,13] There is also a Tetris game, in which the player manipulates falling blocks with Glagolitic letters.[14] Their corresponding Latin letters are displayed on the side of the screen so that the player can learn and match the letters during the game. The idea of using commercial and popular arcade game types for educational purposes was to attract younger players that are already familiar with such games and would more easily accept them. Cai (2013: 2670) in her study in which the students used the Tetris game for learning words showed that retrieval practice in fast-paced games significantly enhances vocabulary acquisition compared to traditional studying. However, this benefit may come at the cost of reduced engagement, particularly for slower learners. While arcade-style games are less

[9] https://stin.hr/sadrzaj/memori-s-glagoljicom/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[10] https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljojed/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[11] https://zci.stin.hr/games/leteca-glagoljica/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[12] https://zci.stin.hr/games/svemirska-glagoljica/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[13] https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljatrix/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[14] https://zci.stin.hr/games/tetris-galgoljica/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).

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Table 1: Classification of current Glagolitic games on stin.hr

Game name	**Link**	**Game type**	**Content**	**Target audience**
Memory game	https://stin.hr/sadrzaj/memori-s-glagoljicom/	Memory/ Puzzle	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Glagolitic snake	https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljojed/	Arcade (inspired by Snake)	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Floppy Glagolitic	https://zci.stin.hr/games/leteca-glagoljica/	Arcade (inspired by Flappy Bird)	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Word-finding game	https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljosmjerka/	Word Puzzle	Recognizing Glagolitic letters and spelling words	Students and general public
Space Shooter	https://zci.stin.hr/games/svemirska-glagoljica/	Shooter	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Superhot Glagolitic	https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljatrix/	Shooter	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Tetris game	https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljojed/	Tetris game	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Guess the letter quiz	https://zci.stin.hr/games/glagoljicno-slovo/	Quiz	Glagolitic letters	Students and general public
Type the number written in Glagolitic script	https://stin.hr/igre/brojevi/	Fill in the blank quiz type game	Glagolitic numbers	Students and general public
Drag-n-drop game to learn the Glagolitic script	https://stin.hr/igre/dovuci-glagoljicna-slova/	Drag-n-drop game	Glagolitic letters and numbers	Students and general public
Glagolitic word of the month quiz	https://stin.hr/igre/rijec-mjeseca/	Quiz	Old Church Slavonic words	Students and general audience
Declension games	https://stin.hr/igre/glavna-sklonidba-imenica/, https://stin.hr/igre/sporedna-sklonidba-imenica/	Quiz	Learning noun declensions in Croatian Church Slavonic	College students, postgraduates, and young researchers

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commonly used in education than other types of educational games, the results of her study highlight their potential and the need to balance learning benefits with user enjoyment.

Most of the games are designed for learning the letters of the Glagolitic script, but recently we have also started developing games for learning Croatian Church Slavonic words. There are also games inspired by the content of the Glagolitic manuscripts, such as puzzles based on the manuscript illustrations, a memory game in which the aim is to match Glagolitic initials to the corresponding Latin letters, a text-ordering game in which players have to arrange Glagolitic texts correctly to form meaningful sentences, a rebus game and much more. In the future, we also plan to develop games for learning the history and heritage of the Glagolitic script and Glagolitism. Most of the games were primarily designed for upper primary school students (grades 5 to 8, approximately ages 11–14), as this age group in Croatia receives the most attention when it comes to learning the Glagolitic script.[15] In some schools, there are even special Glagolitic groups in the 6th grade where focused activities are dedicated to the script. However, all the games can also be played by older students and adults. For students of Slavic languages and young researchers, advanced-level quizzes have been developed, which are not suitable for the school-age audience. Based on Google Analytics data from the past five years (September 14, 2020, to September 14, 2025), our game page is currently the fifth most visited page on our site, with more than 5,000 visits and around 2,900 active users. The drag-and-drop game is currently the most played game (703 players recorded), followed by the *Word of the Month* quiz (328 players recorded).[16]

5 Other interactive Glagolitic content

Other interactive Glagolitic content on the stin.hr website includes an application for creating Glagolitic text images, virtual exhibitions and a database of Glagolitic chants. The application for creating Glagolitic texts is an interface that allows users to enter a text in the Latin script, which is then converted to the Glagolitic script in the image format (.png) for download (Figure 3).[17] The text in the image can also be visually customized by changing various attributes such as text color, border color, line width, text size, and text position. Certain parts of the text

[15] For more about the status of the Glagolitic script in the school system, see 7. From the dictionary and games to the education system.

[16] https://stin.hr/obrazovne-igre/ (Accessed 15 September 2025).

[17] https://stin.hr/stvori-sliku-s-tekstom-na-glagoljici/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).

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can also be highlighted or bolded for a better visual effect. The purpose of this application is to give users the ability to create customized Glagolitic signatures that can later be used as computer graphics or for printing purposes on items such as T-shirts, mugs, and other merchandise.

Figure 3: Application for creating custom Glagolitic texts as images

The Glagolitic chants database contains playable lists of Glagolitic chants dating back to 1954.[18] A Glagolitic chant is a special form of Croatian liturgical and non-liturgical chant that has developed as a part of the Glagolitic liturgy. The term includes chants in the Croatian Church Slavonic language and in the Chakavian based Croatian vernacular language. We plan to make this public database even more accessible in the future by providing additional information about specific Glagolitic chants, including details about their authors, their geographical origin, and their meaning. There are currently two virtual exhibitions on the stin.hr website. One about the *Missal of Duke Novak*and another about the *Žgombić Codex*.[19,20]

The virtual exhibition on the *Missal of Duke Novak* presents one of the most important Glagolitic manuscripts, written in 1368. This illuminated liturgical book

[18] https://stin.hr/glagoljasko-pjevanje/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[19] https://stin.hr/novakov-misal/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[20] https://stin.hr/zgombicev-zbornik/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).

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is an essential part of the Croatian Glagolitic heritage and serves as a valuable historical and linguistic source. The exhibition offers a detailed insight into the content, script, and artistic elements of the book and provides insights into its historical and cultural significance.

The virtual exhibition of the *Žgombić Codex* shows another important Glagolitic manuscript dating from the 16th century. This codex is a richly decorated collection of liturgical texts that reflects the continuity of the use of the Glagolitic script in the Croatian coastal region. The exhibition explores its textual, linguistic, and artistic features and emphasizes its importance for the study of the Croatian Glagolitic heritage. Both exhibitions are intended for researchers, students, and all those interested in Glagolitic heritage. They contain high-quality digital images of the manuscripts, transcriptions, expert analysis, and contextual explanation that enable a deeper understanding of these valuable historical documents. Both exhibitions also include interactive geographical maps that illustrate the journey of the manuscripts from their place of origin to their current location. We plan to create a new virtual exhibition linked to the research of the *Scientific Centre of Excellence for Croatian Glagolitism.*[21]

In addition, an interactive map of important Glagolitic monuments, including tablets, manuscripts, books, and other historical artifacts, is being developed together with a database of monuments. This resource will also serve as a teaching tool, helping students to explore the rich heritage of the Glagolitic script through engaging digital content and interactive learning activities.

6 The dictionary as an educational tool

Since Croatian Church Slavonic is a difficult language that is rarely learned – partly because of the limited availability of teaching materials, and conversely, because its marginal use in education has led to a lack of resources – it was decided that games based on the dictionary would be developed as part of the dictionary portal. The aim of the games is to facilitate the acquisition of basic dictionary content as well as the general learning of Croatian Church Slavonic. Various materials for learning Croatian Church Slavonic are also being created. These materials are primarily aimed at students, postgraduates, and young researchers. Games based on dictionary content can be integrated into the dictionary itself, similar to how Merriam-Webster has a page for games[22] or how the current demo version of the *Croatian Web Dictionary – Mrežnik* also offers a page for games[23]

[21] https://zci.stin.hr/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).

[22] https://www.merriam-webster.com/games (Accessed 11 February 2025).

[23] https://rjecnik.hr/igre (Accessed 11 February 2025).

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and also has game links integrated into the entry structure[24]. A quiz is currently being developed to help learn very common Croatian Church Slavonic words. An example from the quiz is shown in Figure 4. On the left-hand side, the word *abie* ('immediately') is given, and the user is asked to choose which of the given words (*sutra* 'tomorrow', *jučer* 'yesterday', *odmah* 'immediately', *kasnije* 'later') is its equivalent. On the right-hand side, the picture shows the feedback with the correct answer the user receives in case of an incorrect answer.

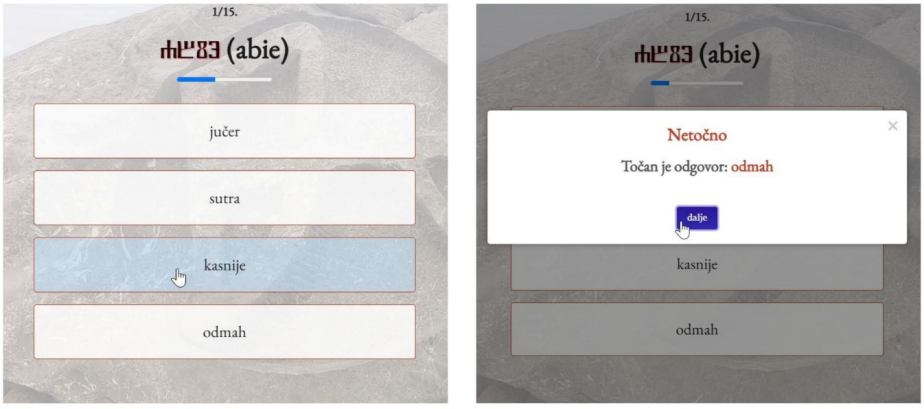

Figure 4: A quiz for learning Croatian Church Slavonic words from the *Dictionary of the Croatian redaction of Church Slavonic*

To further facilitate the acquisition of Croatian Church Slavonic, an e-grammar of Croatian Church Slavonic is being developed as part of the DigiSTIN project. This e-grammar is based on the Institute printed grammar *Hrvatski crkvenoslavenski jezik* ('Croatian Church Slavonic Language', HCJ 2014), but has been simplified and contains only basic information, tables of forms, and very simple rules. This grammar is primarily intended for students, postgraduates, and young researchers and is designed to facilitate the acquisition of the Croatian Church Slavonic language. In the e-grammar, links can also be used to refer from examples to individual dictionary entries in the e-version of the dictionary. Since the dictionary entry in the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* provides grammatical information on words, the dictionary portal will also contain a link to this e-grammar so that the user can easily check how a particular word, e.g., a noun, is declined, or a verb is conjugated. To make it easier for users to learn the declensions, a quiz has been developed to test their

[24]More about the current state of gamification in dictionaries and about *Mrežnik* can be found in Mihaljević (2022).

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knowledge of word forms.[25] The forms of each declension are presented on a separate level so that the users can choose which declension they want to learn. The user is given an example word for each declension and is asked to choose the correct form for the specific case from the options provided. In the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic*, the genitive suffix is given for each noun so that the user knows which declension the word belongs to. These genitive suffixes can be linked to the quiz for learning individual declensions. In parallel with the development of e-grammar, morphological games for learning grammatical content, such as the game for noun, declensions are developed.

Figure 5 shows a question from the quiz for learning the *ja*-declension. The word *svijeća* 'candle' is given. The correct form of the instrumental plural of the noun must be selected from the options. On the right-hand side, the feedback that the users receive when they answer correctly is displayed. This feedback contains a table with the complete paradigm.

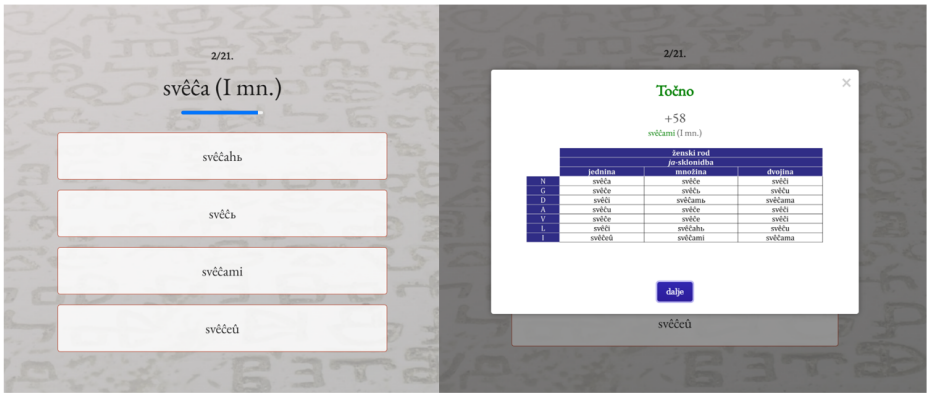

Figure 5: A quiz for learning declension paradigms.

To popularize the Glagolitic script and Glagolitism, as well as our dictionary, the next step was to create a quiz to learn the words selected in the *Glagolitic Word of the Month* section[26]. Under this title, every month, the word of the month was posted on Facebook[27] with a matching image, an example of its usage and an introductory text that either explained an interesting fact related to the specific word or connected it to the present day (Figure 6). This section has been very popular on Facebook, with an average post receiving around 151 likes, 46 shares,

[25] https://stin.hr/igre/glavna-sklonidba-imenica/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[26] https://stin.hr/igre/rijec-mjeseca/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[27] https://www.facebook.com/stin.hr (Accessed 5 February 2025).

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and 7 positive comments. All words of the month were also published in a gallery, which can be accessed via the link https://stin.hr/rijec-mjeseca/.

Figure 6: *Glagolitic Word of the Month* quiz to learn Croatian Church Slavonic words

Since the dictionary contains special entries for letters that represent numbers, as in Glagolitic, where numbers are denoted by Glagolitic letters, the portal will also provide links to games for recognizing numbers written in the Glagolitic script. The first is a drag-and-drop game that allows the player to learn letters and numbers of the Glagolitic script at the same time[28]. There is also a fill-in-the-blank game for learning numbers in the Glagolitic script[29], where the player is asked to enter the number shown on the screen in the Glagolitic script. Both games can be seen in Figure 7.

One of the goals of the DigiSTIN project is to develop new possibilities that can be used to popularize the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church Slavonic language. For example, a "Word of the day" section has been added to the dictionary. Every day, a word is automatically selected and presented as the word of the day. This can be seen under the search bar above the virtual keyboard in Figure 2.

7 From the dictionary and games to the education system

The use of digital tools (such as games, online applications, and interactive dictionaries) can make it easier for students of all ages to familiarize themselves with

[28] https://stin.hr/igre/dovuci-glagoljicna-slova/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).
[29] https://stin.hr/igre/brojevi/ (Accessed 5 February 2025).

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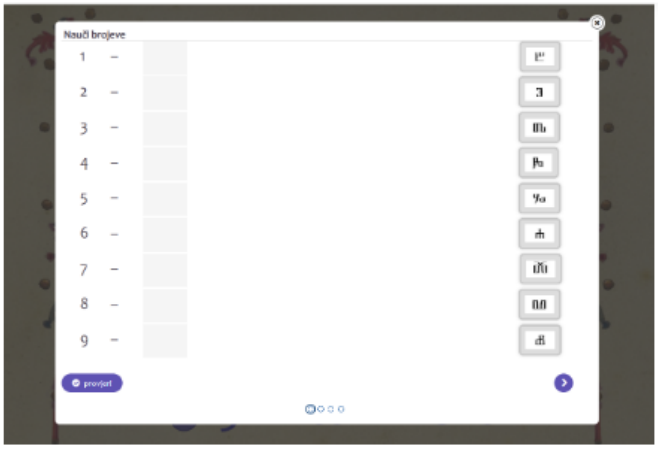

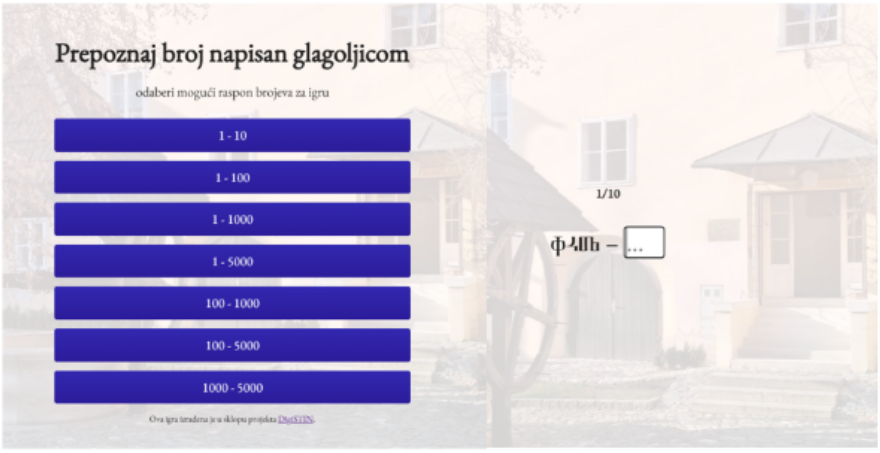

Figure 7: Games for learning numbers in the Glagolitic script.

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the Glagolitic heritage. More about the application and impact of gamification in education and learning can be found in, for example, Kapp (2012). Digitization and the creation of online content combine traditional approaches with modern educational methods, facilitating the development of cultural awareness among young people and thus contributing to the preservation of cultural heritage while strengthening digital literacy in the education system.

As part of the DigiSTIN project, efforts have been made to strengthen cooperation with the education system, especially in the grades where the Glagolitic script and Glagolitism appear in the curriculum, which is mainly the case in the sixth grade of elementary school. In the *Curriculum of the Croatian Language*,[30] this refers to the elementary school educational outcome of HJ A.6.6. in the area of Croatian language and communication, which emphasizes that the student observes the linguistic diversity of the Croatian language throughout Croatian history.[31] The breakdown of the outcome specifies that the student recognizes Croatian dialects and language patterns, becomes familiar with the concepts of trilingualism (Old Slavonic, Old Croatian, and Latin) and triliteracy (Glagolitic, Croatian Cyrillic, and Latin) throughout Croatian history, and learns about the monuments of Croatian medieval literacy and the first Croatian printed book – the Glagolitic missal, as well as the educational outcome of elementary school HJ B.6.4. in the field of literature and creativity, where it is stressed that students should create the Glagolitic script using various artistic techniques.[32]

The lesson is designed in such a way that students start by learning what the Glagolitic script is, how it was created, and what types of this script there are. They then embark on a journey through the history of Glagolitic monuments – stone inscriptions, fragments, manuscripts, printed texts, and graffiti –

[30] https://narodne-novine.nn.hr/clanci/sluzbeni/2019_01_10_215.html (Accessed 5 February 2025).

[31] HJ A.6.6. refers to a specific learning outcome defined in the *Curriculum of the Croatian Language* (2019), a national document adopted by the Ministry of Science and Education of the Republic of Croatia. The curriculum is based on outcome-oriented education and is structured into domains, achievement levels, and grade-specific codes. In this case, *HJ* stands for *Hrvatski jezik* 'Croatian language', *A* refers to the domain of *Language and communication*, the number 6 indicates the sixth grade of primary school, and the final 6 is the ordinal number of the outcome within that domain and grade. Learning outcomes describe what students are expected to know, understand, and be able to do after a period of instruction. Outcome HJ A.6.6. focuses on the historical and dialectal diversity of the Croatian language.

[32] After the elaboration of the lesson content developed by the project members, teaching materials were tested at the Sveta Nedelja elementary school, as one of the project collaborators is Iva Stamenković, a Croatian language teacher at this school who also has a degree in pedagogy. In addition to regular classes, she also leads an extracurricular activity – the Glagolitic group, in which motivated students learn more about the Glagolitic script.

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and discover the current position of the Glagolitic script. At the end of the lesson, they complete a worksheet or play games to learn the Glagolitic script or acquire Croatian Church Slavonic words. During the implementation of the lesson, the following games proved to be particularly suitable for teaching: *Memory with Glagolitic letters*, *Flying Glagolitic*, and *Quiz for learning the letters*. Figure 8 gives a slide from a presentation for schools showing examples of the use of the Glagolitic script today.

Figure 8: Slide from a presentation for schools – examples of the use of the Glagolitic script today

After a successful test phase, in a paper on the use of the Glagolitic script in schools published in the popular science magazine *Hrvatski jezik*, teachers were invited to get in touch if they wanted a free lecture to be organized in their school (Mihaljević & Stamenković 2024). This invitation was also repeated on the Facebook page of the Old Church Slavonic Institute on September 18, 2024. The online version of the paper has so far been downloaded around 180 times; the post has 161 likes and 42 shares. In 2024, 42 classes were held in 20 schools in two countries (Croatia and Bosnia and Herzegovina). In Figure 9 you can see one of the classrooms where the Glagolitic workshop took place.

For the summer semester, a total of 44 lectures have been arranged until now in 24 schools, two libraries, with students studying Croatian language at the Sapienza University in Rome, and three lectures for teachers and librarians at professional events. The invitation to teachers was not repeated on the Facebook

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Figure 9: One of the classrooms where the Glagolitic workshop took place.

page but new interested teachers continue to register on average once a week. Figure 10 shows the completed worksheet for the youngest. The worksheet on the left was completed by a 10-year-old student, the worksheet on the right by a 5-year-old pre-school child.

In addition to conducting lessons, a *Glagolitic Script in Schools* portal was launched, on which content intended for use in the classroom is published. Figure 11 shows the home page of the *Glagolitic Script in Schools* portal on the left and a slide from a presentation on learning ligatures available on the portal on the right.

8 Conclusion

The preservation and promotion of the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church Slavonic language are key priorities for the Old Church Slavonic Institute, aligning with broader efforts to protect and promote Croatian historical and cultural

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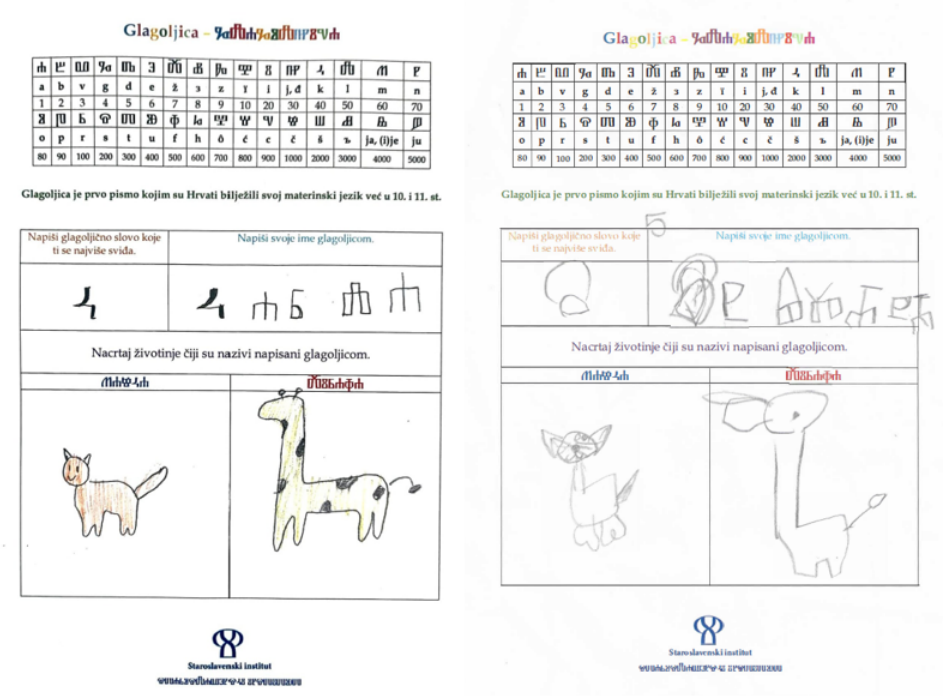

Figure 10: Examples of completed worksheets. Left: Klara, age 10; right: Snježana, age 5.

Figure 11: Left: Homepage of the Glagolitic in Schools portal. Right: A slide from a presentation on learning ligatures.

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heritage. The ongoing compilation of the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* and its transition into a digital format as a part of the *DigiSTIN* project mark significant steps toward making the Glagolitic heritage more accessible and usable. Despite the challenges posed by the dictionary's multilingual and multi-script nature, new technological solutions are being explored to facilitate indexing, search, and user interaction. New interactive content, including games, maps, virtual exhibitions, and various applications, is also being developed to bridge the gap between the past and the present. This newly developed content preserves and shares historical and cultural knowledge by presenting it engagingly and innovatively through digital formats, making it fun, interesting, and easily accessible. It particularly appeals to younger generations, from millennials to Gen Alpha, who have grown up in a digital world and are accustomed to interactive learning experiences. The work presented in this paper, developed as part of the DigiSTIN project, could serve as a foundation for creating further guidelines on digitizing and popularizing other ancient scripts and languages, as well as historical and cultural heritage content. Additionally, the guidelines established for the *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* could be beneficial to other institutions working on similar lexicographic publications, particularly those facing challenges related to implementing multiple ancient scripts in the digital format.

The DigiSTIN project represents a significant step in bridging the gap between the historical linguistic heritage and the needs of the contemporary educational system. In an era where digital literacy is a fundamental aspect of education, integrating various digital resources into modern curricula fosters engagement with the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church Slavonic language in innovative ways. This not only aids in the preservation of cultural heritage but also aligns with contemporary pedagogical approaches that emphasize interactivity, gamification, and digital learning environments. By making the dictionary an adaptable tool for language learning and historical research, the project contributes to the broader goal of popularizing the Glagolitic script and ensuring its continued relevance in both academic and public spheres. Based on visits to schools, it has been observed that students are most interested in games that are specifically designed for learning the Glagolitic script. There is also a great interest in the Glagolitic font and writing in the Glagolitic script online.

Since the Croatian language curriculum provides for an introduction to the history of the Croatian language as well as the chronological stratification of language, the digital *Dictionary of the Croatian Redaction of Church Slavonic* could be integrated into the curriculum in various ways to promote students' engagement with the Glagolitic heritage and script. For example, it could be used in

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language and history lessons through interactive lesson plans in which students explore Croatian Church Slavonic words and their meanings in context and compare them with modern Croatian equivalents. More intensive use is conceivable, especially at a higher level – in the teaching of Old Church Slavonic and the history of the language in Croatian and Slavonic studies courses. As the project DigiSTIN is only in its second year of implementation, most of the activities so far have focused on primary school students. However, some materials have also been adapted for high school students, and activities and material for college students are also planned. One application could be the development of digital exercises for the classroom in which students use the dictionary to decode historical texts, reconstruct missing words in sentences, or analyze how certain terms have evolved over time. In addition, quizzes and challenges based on dictionary entries could be implemented in history and language courses, encouraging students to familiarize themselves with the Glagolitic script and Croatian Church Slavonic grammar in an engaging way.

In addition, the digital dictionary could support transcribing and interpreting Glagolitic inscriptions and texts found in historical sources. Museum and field trip activities could also be enhanced by incorporating the dictionary into digital scavenger hunts where students search for and identify Glagolitic words in inscriptions, manuscripts, or monuments.

By incorporating the digital dictionary into various aspects of the curricula, students would not only gain a deeper understanding of the Glagolitic script and the Croatian Church Slavonic language, but also develop digital research skills, promoting an interactive and immersive approach to heritage and national identity.

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Chapter 16

Dictionary use and development of reference skills in the translation training programme

Authorname

Dictionary consultation constitutes a central activity in the use of reference skills and supports learners' interpretation of lexical meaning in context (Nesi 1999; Hartmann 1985). Recent research has further highlighted how digital dictionaries provide rapid access to usage information and corpus-based examples, while also requiring users to develop more advanced interpretive strategies to manage lexical and pragmatic complexity (Lew 2015: 3–5; Dziemianko 2018: 671–675). Within translation training, dictionary use therefore represents not only a tool for lexical retrieval but also a process of meaning negotiation across linguistic and cultural contexts. The present study investigates the lexical and pragmatic challenges encountered by trainee translators when interpreting selected collocations and idiomatic expressions during the translation of a journalistic film review published by *The Guardian*. The research focuses on how students consult monolingual and bilingual dictionaries, how they interpret figurative language, and what types of difficulties they report when dealing with culturally embedded and genre-specific expressions. Data were collected from thirteen non-native English-speaking students enrolled in the module English Language and Translation within a Master's degree programme in Languages for Communication and Cultural Services at Kore University of Enna (Italy). Participants completed a translation and back-translation task and responded to a structured questionnaire examining their dictionary consultation behaviour, perceived competence, and problem-solving strategies. Two research questions guided the analysis: 1) What receptive knowledge is involved in the effective use of monolingual dictionaries during translation tasks? 2) What reference skills support trainee translators in interpreting lexical and pragmatic information when translating idiomatic and culturally bound expressions? The findings indicate that students' main difficulties were related to lexical unfamiliarity, figurative meaning interpretation, and cultural context recognition rather

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than grammatical form. Dictionary consultation was frequent but not always systematic, suggesting a transitional stage in developing lexicographic competence. The results highlight the role of lexical awareness, contextual inference, and genre sensitivity in supporting dictionary use during translation tasks and provide pedagogical insights into how dictionary use can support the interpretation of complex journalistic discourse.

reference skills, monolingual dictionaries, translation training programme, pragmatic misinterpretation, translation misuse

1 Introduction

The use of lexical resources in translation tasks is a well-researched area in linguistics, translation studies, and language education. As a crucial aspect of language competence, vocabulary proficiency plays a significant role in various language-related tasks, including translation, reading comprehension, and communication. Scholars have extensively studied vocabulary proficiency in its components and implications for language learning and use. This competence encompasses the ability to interpret lexical items in context and select appropriate equivalents in the translation process.

Foundational research on the development of vocabulary knowledge distinguishes between 'breadth' referring to the number of lemmas memorised, known or recognised, and 'strength' concerning the degree of the vocabulary understood and utilised accordingly (Laufer & Goldstein 2004: 409). In this respect, 'computer adaptiveness' assessing L2 learners' performances in vocabulary tests (Laufer & Goldstein 2004: 409) checks the correctness of their answers, enabling or adapting the increase or decrease in the difficulty of the items assigned. Second language acquisition of vocabulary does not reflect the mere memorisation of word lists but the necessary acquisition of grammar and of the frequency of occurrences in a text, by suggesting the need for repetition (Milton 2009: 238–242). Furthermore, the vocabulary English Foreign Language (EFL) students develop can be observed by looking at 'depth', referring to collocations and idioms, thus different forms and meanings associated with and linking each other and 'width', concerning the extent and degree in which lexemes are related to other entries reflecting subtle differences in meaning (Milton 2009: 148–149). Similarly, the assessment of vocabulary knowledge requires an analysis of both receptive (understanding) and productive (use in communication and thus in translation) abilities, showing the learner's proficient competence in the language tested (Read 2000:

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36). These perspectives underline the necessity of developing specific reference skills to support effective use of online dictionaries during translation tasks.

Consulting dictionaries is essential to develop reference skills (Hartmann 1985; Nesi 1999). University students learning EFL are assessed on their ability to engage with functional aims by managing the appropriate pragmatic context (Hartmann 1981: 299). As research on vocabulary skills indicates, their needs and expectations should be investigated (Neubach & Cohen 1988: 2), including how the search for valuable information should be approached, evaluated, and employed efficiently (Nuccorini 1994: 586). In this sense, it has been noted that "even the best dictionaries will be useful only to the extent that the learner knows how to use them effectively" (Carduner 2003: 71). Dictionary entries are usually consulted to check their meaning, and widespread use may be perceived as time-consuming, thus leaving their full potential unexploited (Bishop 2001: 62). When consulting monolingual or bilingual dictionaries to perform their task, learners need to read the text, looking up unknown definitions of the lemmas occurring, and analyse their meanings often figurative or differing for subtleties (Nesi & Haill 2002: 299). For each entry, EFL learners have to choose the lexeme or phrase that is supposedly correct and use it appropriately in context in their translation. In doing so, they face several challenges in grasping the meaning consistent with the text they are translating.

Semantic theory has identified several layers of meaning (Leech [1974] 1981). Other scholars' perspectives could be included, bearing in mind that some are variably named, although slightly differing or conceptually overlapping. The extended list is: conceptual (Leech [1974] 1981) or denotative (Lyons 1977a,b; Cruse 1986); - connotative (Leech [1974] 1981) or connotational (Palmer [1976] 1981); - collocative (Firth 1957; Sinclair 1991); - stylistic (Crystal & Davy 1969; Halliday 1978); - affective (Leech [1974] 1981; Lyons 1977a,b); - reflected (Leech [1974] 1981); - thematic (Halliday [1985] 1994) - grammatical (Palmer [1976] 1981; Lyons 1977a,b); - cultural (Wierzbicka 1997; Kramsch 1998); - intended and interpretive (Leech [1974] 1981) or pragmatic (Grice [1975] 1996 or non-truth-conditional (Sperber & Wilson [1986] 1996). Although these categories originate in earlier semantic research, they remain useful for understanding how lexical items operate in discourse and how translators should negotiate multiple interpretive levels beyond denotation.

When navigating the different dimensions of meaning identified by semantic theory, students are required to negotiate beyond the surface denotation of words. The above distinctions demonstrate the multifaceted nature of lexical interpretation. For trainee translators, this multiplicity entails moving beyond single-word equivalence and engaging with the interpretative layers that shape

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how a lexical item functions within discourse. The same word may simultaneously carry conceptual precision, cultural resonance, and pragmatic intent, all of which can vary according to the collocational environment or genre-specific conventions. Negotiating these levels requires not only linguistic awareness but also critical skills in evaluating which aspects of meaning are most relevant in the translation task.

Over the past three decades, developments in corpus linguistics have significantly refined our understanding of vocabulary usage, particularly concerning frequency, collocation, phraseology and register (Sinclair 1991; McEnery & Hardie 2012). Corpus-based lexicography has influenced the design of modern learner dictionaries, beginning with the Collins COBUILD English Language Dictionary (Sinclair 1987), which systematically incorporated authentic corpus evidence. Such developments have contributed to a more nuanced representation of lexical patterns, including collocational behaviour and phraseological units, which are crucial for translation tasks.

In recent years, the shift from print to digital dictionaries has substantially changed how learners consult lexical resources. Digital formats provide faster access to lexical information, integrated examples, hyperlinks, and corpus-based evidence, which can support more efficient consultation strategies (Lew 2011: 1–4; Lew & de Schryver 2014: 349–352). Research has shown online dictionaries are often preferred by learners due to their accessibility and search functionalities, although the abundance of information may also increase cognitive load and require more advanced reference skills (Lew 2015: 3–5; Dziemianko 2018: 671–675).

To translate a text, EFL learners cope with the complexity of interpreting phrases and their meanings, checking all the facets they reflect, and utilising the selected ones properly by translating them into another language. Monolingual dictionaries can overwhelm learners with limited proficiency and thus be used less than bilingual dictionaries: even whether revealing useful for quick reference, the latter may encourage word-for-word translations to the detriment of the grasp of full semantic and pragmatic nuances (Tono 2001: 55). Accordingly, failure is likely to occur with collocational patterns or idiomatic expressions, especially when the information about their meaning, provided by dictionaries with few exemplifications, does not meet the learner's needs (Lew 2015: 4). In light of these considerations, the use of lexical knowledge by university EFL students requires in-depth observation at both competence-based and performance-based levels. Competence-based knowledge refers to the mental lexicon and the theoretical understanding of words and their relationships, while performance-based knowledge assesses actual usage in translation. Research has

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shown how the acquisition of productive knowledge is more challenging than receptive knowledge, as the latter requires the learner to actively integrate vocabulary into communicative contexts (Henriksen 1999: 313; Nation 2001: 271). This underscores the importance of targeted skills in dictionary use that support both recognition and appropriate application of vocabulary in translation tasks.

A classification of the challenges in students' development of reference skills reveals several areas lacking in the research literature. The investigation into how students' ability arises from dictionary consultation during translation tasks tends to focus on whether dictionaries should be consulted rather than on how learners utilise them to support comprehension and interpretation. To handle vocabulary learning, understanding the circumstances under which learners consult dictionaries, as opposed to employing other strategies like contextual inference, is thus deemed crucial (Prichard 2008: 217). Recent research has further demonstrated that dictionary consultation does not operate as an isolated skill but interacts dynamically with other vocabulary coping strategies. In task-based reading contexts, learners tend to combine dictionary lookup with inferencing, monitoring, and verification processes, using lexical resources as part of a broader problem-solving framework rather than as a standalone reference activity. In particular, Prichard (2023: 137–150) shows that the effectiveness of dictionary consultation depends on the learner's ability to coordinate lookup behaviour with contextual interpretation and strategic decision-making. This perspective supports the present study's focus on how trainee translators integrate dictionary consultation with contextual inference when interpreting idiomatic and culturally embedded expressions in translation tasks. A comprehensive classification of the strategic use to learn vocabulary categorises them into "discovery" and "consolidation" strategies and emphasises the role of cognitive strategies, such as the use of dictionaries for the effective acquisition and retention of vocabulary (Schmitt 1997: 208–217). Furthermore, a focus on metacognitive strategies in dictionary use, such as how learners evaluate the effectiveness of their dictionary-based decisions, is particularly provided by some recent studies that emphasise the evolving role of digital dictionaries (Lew & de Schryver 2014: 346–351). Hitherto, gaps remain in understanding how these resources influence learners' interpretation of lexical meaning during translation tasks.

Given the central role of lexical interpretation in translation tasks, it is essential to develop reference skills that support the effective use of dictionaries in context. The study therefore observed a group of learners utilising online dictionaries to perform a translation task under controlled classroom conditions designed to approximate authentic translation practice. This approach provided a

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realistic context to focus on the issues students encountered when looking up selected entries. As affected by multiple elements, some variables related to the students' prior language experience and training were not measured: for instance, the potential negative transfer of their first language in case of limited foreign language proficiency, or the level of language skills needed to consult dictionaries and the consequent choice of entries based on the search for the items to be interpreted, especially considering the complexity of the specialised language of the collocations and idiomatic expressions to be translated. Consequently, the study contributes to examining Italian students' receptive use of dictionaries by analysing the challenges they encountered during translation tasks.

Scholars have extensively documented the hurdles EFL students face in translation tasks, particularly when dealing with specialised or culturally rich content. The study was guided by two research questions: 1) What receptive knowledge is involved in the effective use of monolingual dictionaries during translation tasks? This question aimed to explore the skills required for effective dictionary use, particularly in the context of translation. 2) What reference skills support trainee translators in interpreting lexical and pragmatic information when translating idiomatic and culturally bound expressions?

This investigation sought to examine how dictionary skills are used by students when interpreting and translating complex lexical items. In this sense, the study focuses on the issues related to translating lexically dense and conceptually complex expressions by analysing the frequency and types of difficulties encountered by students. To achieve these objectives, a structured methodology was designed, involving participant selection, data collection through translation and back-translation tasks and compilation of a questionnaire, and a detailed analysis of the students' responses and translation outputs of collocations and idiomatic expressions.

2 Exploring Andrew Pulver's article

Selected collocations and idiomatic expressions were drawn from the journalistic text to be translated *Is Oppenheimer Christopher Nolan's finest film? All the director's movies – ranked!*, written by Andrew Pulver and published on The Guardian website on March 7, 2024. Christopher Nolan's filmic narratives offer compelling discourse on the pragmatic complexities of meaning-making, identity construction, and communicative intention of his protagonists, often solitary, fragmented, and cognitively burdened. The linguistic choices in dialogue, naming, and narrative framing reveal a conscious manipulation of register, deixis, and modality,

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emphasising the speaker's stance and the relational dynamics between interlocutors. The narrative contains complex thematic and stylistic elements that can increase interpretive difficulty for student translators. Nolan's films foreground the pragmatic implicatures of communication (Grice [1975] 1996; Sperber and Wilson, 1996), and the characters' interactions often flout the conversational maxims (Grice, 1996), producing inferences that reflect psychological dissonance or ethical ambivalence. These violations are not incidental: they rather develop deeper disruptions in the characters' internal coherence and the sociocultural discourses in which they are embedded. Approaching texts about Nolan's films requires interpreting layered meanings conveyed through visual, cultural, and linguistic references. This translational complexity is particularly salient and his narratives resist fixed interpretations, inviting the reader to act as an *interpretant*, a referential in meaning of a Peircean semiotic triad, constantly reconsidering meanings across shifting contexts (Jakobson 1971: 244).

Within this framework, writing about Nolan's oeuvre is equally challenging and provocative, as requiring the decryption of this translational opacity, where implicatures cannot provide transparent mapping between intentions and utterances. Pulver, film editor at *The Guardian* (guardian.co.uk), has enquired into linguistic, pragmatic, and semiotic structures, offering a comprehensive ranking of Nolan's filmography. The text of his article is characterised by a blend of analytical insight and engaging prose, effectively conveying the journalist's evaluations to the reader, stylistically informal yet critically incisive. Linguistically, the journalist adopts an informal register and a conversational tone with colloquial, fixed or idiomatic expressions and metaphors (e.g. "cheap-as-chips," "baby steps", "brain-battering") that are common in popular media discourse. They increase accessibility but complicate translation because they resist direct equivalence: translators should balance literal rendering with functional equivalence to preserve effect and tone.

Pulver's critiques are enriched with vivid imagery, as when he describes a scene from *Inception* as "the Paris street folding back over the horizon, like an Ozymandias for the digital age", effectively emphasising the film's visual impact. The journalist adopts a conversational style that appeals to a broad audience, employing colloquial and idiomatic expressions such as describing Nolan's debut as "cheap-as-chips" and noting that the film "showed undeniable promise". He also uses parenthetical comments to provide contextual or evaluative insights, for instance, referring to Robin Williams's "going very much against his normally chummy persona" in *Insomnia*. While acknowledging Nolan's achievements, Pulver offers balanced critiques, characterising *Tenet* as a "brain-battering time-travel yarn" with "something laboured about the narrative pacing", thereby sig-

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nalling both its ambition and narrative limitations. Cohesion is achieved through temporal and thematic sequencing, such as the progression "from head-razing sci-fi to superhero-defining blockbusters", which guides the reader through a structured overview of Nolan's career. References to actors and historical contexts further strengthen the analysis. By highlighting performances by Cillian Murphy and Robert Downey Jr. in *Oppenheimer*, the journalist provides concrete support for his evaluations and situates the films within broader cultural frameworks. Likewise, noting that *Dunkirk* was released "in the aftermath of the Brexit referendum" suggests resonance with contemporary political sentiments, adding interpretive depth to his critique. Pulver therefore positions the reader within a shared cultural framework: references to Kubrick, Brexit, or superhero conventions presuppose background knowledge. This pragmatic presupposition may not transfer seamlessly into Italian, requiring explicitness or cultural substitution to avoid opacity. The journalist's mixture of critical evaluation and informal register exemplifies why discourse is particularly demanding in translation training.

3 Method

The research observed the lexical challenges EFL students would tackle, focusing on collocations and idiomatic expressions in the translation of the journalistic article about Nolan's films from English into Italian. The choice was motivated by the unique set of challenges for EFL learners in approaching professional translation in the module 'English Language and Translation'.

The filmmaker's work is renowned for its intricate narratives, complex themes, and innovative storytelling techniques, often involving non-linear timelines, philosophical undertones, and dense technical jargon, all of which are echoed in the way Pulver writes about his work. These elements, while captivating, can pose significant difficulties for EFL students attempting to translate the text. The film editor often uses metaphorical, idiomatic, and stylistically rich language to capture the same complexity: for instance, "plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept", "brain-battering time-travel yarn", "furrowed-brow Bruce Wayne" may require strategies such as paraphrase, modulation, or metaphorical transposition to achieve naturalness in Italian.

For students, this means that translation involves not only conveying content but also transferring stylistic and evaluative force shaped by Nolan's own reputation. Pulver exploits this intertextuality to evaluate the filmmaker's cultural impact. Students therefore need to consider pragmatic equivalence when attempting to render these references accessible to Italian readers. Journalistic reviews of

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Nolan's style often employ creative collocations, such as "cheap-as-chips debut", "work of berserk gloriousness", mirroring the filmmaker's own inventive narrative strategies. These expressions may require strategies such as paraphrase, modulation, or metaphorical transposition to maintain evaluative and stylistic nuances. By dealing with a text inspired by Nolan's film style, students encounter authentic professional challenges: handling idiomaticity, metaphors, cultural allusions, and stylistic registers.

This approach aligns with the pedagogical objectives of translation training, which emphasise the integration of linguistic, pragmatic, and intercultural competence: developing competence-based knowledge, through theoretical grasp of lexical/pragmatic features, and performance-based knowledge, concerning actual translation practice in complex and genre-specific tasks. The process of translation, therefore, requires not only linguistic proficiency but also a deep understanding of cultural nuances, cinematic terminology, and the specific stylistic choices that define Nolan's oeuvre.

3.1 *Participants*

The research involved thirteen non-native English-speaking students enrolled in the first year of the Master's degree programme in Languages for Communication and Cultural Services at the University 'Kore' of Enna in Italy. They attended the annual module 'English Language and Translation', which provided a suitable context for data collection. Within this curricular framework, students were introduced to the translation of film reviews as a form of professional journalistic discourse, consistent with the established pedagogical progression of the Lettorato component at the C1 level of the Common European Framework of Reference (CEFR). At this stage, learners are expected to engage with complex authentic texts drawn from contemporary public discourse and to demonstrate the ability to interpret nuanced meanings, evaluative language, and culturally embedded references. Film reviews constitute a suitable genre for this purpose because they combine argumentative structure, descriptive language, and culturally situated commentary, thereby requiring the integration of linguistic, pragmatic, and intercultural competences developed across the module. Moreover, the translation of such texts aligns with the objectives of the Lettorato esercitazioni, which aim to equip students with the lexical and grammatical resources necessary to transfer content and context effectively between languages. The choice to work with film reviews, therefore, reflects standard practice in advanced language instruction, where exposure to authentic journalistic texts is used to consolidate

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C1-level comprehension, discourse awareness, and translation skills in realistic communicative settings.

3.2 *Procedure*

The data collection process was divided into two main phases: a translation task and a questionnaire. The translation task involved the students translating the aforementioned journalistic article, approximately 1,400 words long, from English into Italian, which was selected for its rich use of collocations, idiomatic expressions, and metaphoric language, posing significant challenges for the translation process. The students were given four hours, divided into two sessions, to complete the translation and back-translate it (from Italian into English) to exploit as a valuable didactic and diagnostic resource when checking the core propositional content of the original text. In so doing, they compiled a list of the most difficult words and phrases they had encountered in translating the text. The questionnaire was designed to address the research questions and objectives. Divided into two sections, the first aimed to gather information about the participants' perceived translation competence, their use of monolingual and bilingual dictionaries; the second section focused on identifying and analysing the lexical problems in interpreting and translating L2 selected lexical items or phrases.

The procedure was the following: 1) Translation Task from English into Italian. Students were allowed to use online dictionaries as the most up-to-date versions available, and the Internet. 2) Back-Translation from Italian into English and List Compilation of the most challenging lexical items. 3) Questionnaire Completion providing insights into their translation process, dictionary use, and the difficulties they encountered in interpreting and making decisions. The first section included eight questions, three of which were aligned with the *Common European Framework of Reference for Languages* (CEFR) categorised proficiency stages. These questions assessed the students' self-reported competence in English, their knowledge of English vocabulary, and their ability to perform translation tasks. Additionally, two questions explored their use of monolingual and bilingual dictionaries during translation. For the latter, participants were not explicitly restricted to specific bilingual dictionaries; however, their consultation behaviour reflects the reference practices established during their prior language training. Since their undergraduate studies, students enrolled in the Master's degree in English Language and Translation had been systematically trained in Lettorato classes to consult English-edited learner dictionaries, particularly the English–Italian and Italian–English sections of widely used resources

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such as the *Collins Cobuild English Dictionary* (COBUILD) and *Cambridge Dictionary of English* (CDE). These dictionaries are designed specifically for non-native speakers and prioritise natural, corpus-based examples, full-sentence definitions, and grammatical context. They provide detailed usage information, collocational patterns, and contextualised examples that support both comprehension and production tasks. By contrast, Italian bilingual dictionaries such as *Il Ragazzini Zanichelli* and *Garzanti Linguistica* are either not freely accessible online or offer more limited explanatory information. Consequently, students' reliance on English-edited dictionaries reflects established pedagogical practice, accessibility conditions, and the development of reference skills rather than arbitrary choice.

Another question asked their preferences for the online dictionaries *Collins Cobuild English Dictionary* (COBUILD)[1], *Oxford Advanced Learner's Dictionary* (OALD), *Cambridge Dictionary of English* (CDE)[2], and *Longman Dictionary of Contemporary English* (LDOCE) or others: if so, they would cross the box "other" and provide a reference in the space "specify". After handing their translations, back translations and questionnaire, collective discussions and peer-correction processes were undertaken. 4) Data Analysis of the students' responses, focusing on the L2 lexical items, to identify patterns in their translation challenges and strategies. At the time of data collection (October 2023 – March 2024), standard *Google* searches primarily returned lists of webpages rather than AI-generated explanations, which limited the possibility of recovering figurative meanings through automated summaries. Students, therefore, did not have AI support, as lexical searches returned only webpages. Consequently, their search for idioms mainly required interpretive explanation.

3.3 Text

The text of the article (Table 1) is here reproduced without the images appearing in the original text.[3] Twelve designated lexical items concerning collocations and idiomatic expressions are marked in bold in the text as follows:

[1]COBUILD has expanded the online dictionary and reference content to include the *COBUILD Advanced Learner's Dictionary* since 2007. https://www.collinsdictionary.com/about/

[2]CDE shows "the definitions and audio pronunciations of words, phrases, and idioms in British and American English from the three most popular Cambridge dictionaries of English with just one search: the Cambridge Advanced Learner's Dictionary, the Cambridge Academic Content Dictionary, and the Cambridge Business English Dictionary". https://dictionary.cambridge.org/dictionary/english/

[3]*Is Oppenheimer Christopher Nolan's finest film? All the director's movies – ranked!* https://www.theguardian.com/film/2024/mar/07/is-oppenheimer-christopher-nolans-finest-film-all-the-directors-movies-ranked

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Is Oppenheimer Christopher Nolan's finest film? All the director's movies – ranked!

The British film-maker is widely anticipated to clean up at the Oscars on Sunday. Ahead of his podium appearances, we rate the director's masterly oeuvre, from **head-razing sci-fi** to superhero-defining blockbusters

By Andrew Pulver

Thu 7 Mar 2024 14.24 CET

12. Following (1998)

Baby steps of course, but **Nolan's cheap-as-chips feature debut** showed undeniable promise. Shot on weekends on black-and-white stock, with Nolan operating the camera himself, it's **an interestingly loopy yarn with hairpin narrative bends**; a bit studenty, perhaps, but the kind of thing Nolan would refine in his later, more polished outings.

11. Insomnia (2002)

Nolan got his Hollywood entrée with this Alaska-set cop yarn about a sleep-deprived detective; he was in the room with studio royalty, having been supplied with Al Pacino and Robin Williams (going very much against **his normally chummy persona**). A remake of a cult Norwegian thriller from five years earlier, in some ways it's Nolan's least distinctive film – though he coped well with the labyrinthine, morally compromised plot line, and pulled off some excellent set-pieces.

10. The Prestige (2006)

Sandwiched between his first two Batman films, this always seemed like a bit of an outlier in the Nolanverse. Time hasn't really altered things. The tale of 19th-century stage magicians, played by Hugh Jackman and Christian Bale, who start a feud over an elaborate teleportation trick (which ends up involving early electricity's magic man, Nikola Tesla, as impersonated by David Bowie), The Prestige has a distinctly steampunk vibe. Despite Nolan's customary commitment to his material, in retrospect, he's not in his comfort zone.

9. Tenet (2020)

Nolan earned **thousands of brownie points** by releasing Tenet at the height of the Covid pandemic, when the shutdown of cinemas seemed to threaten the entire Hollywood ecosystem. But, of his three grandly realised, enormous-scale sci-fi spectacles, this is probably the least satisfying. A brain-battering time-travel yarn about a terror attack from the future and the secret organisation trying to thwart it, Nolan (as ever) puts his all into the **plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept**, but there's something laboured about the narrative pacing. Though an

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accomplished dramatic actor, John David Washington is bit of a blank space in the central role, too.

8. The Dark Knight Rises (2012)

Nolan put plenty of welly back into the Batman series – a relief to **a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros**, given the fan reaction to **Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts** in the 1990s – and finished off his Christian Bale trilogy with this walloping final section. Tom Hardy's somewhat unintelligible rasping – the result of his supervillain character Bane's Darth Vader-style respirator – caused Nolan some critical grief, but this was an otherwise reasonable wrap-up. By bringing Batman out of the self-imposed exile in which the previous instalment had stuck him, it left the franchise in a decent place.

7. Memento (2000)

The film with which Nolan truly announced his arrival, Memento is a fiendishly plotted noir that managed to find new life in the old memory-loss plotline, **a dogeared thriller standby** since the 1940s. Nolan showed he could handle top-notch performers: Guy Pearce (fresh from LA Confidential, looking like a cross of Brad Pitt and Don Johnson) is the revenger with "anterograde amnesia"; cue piles of Polaroids, myriad tattoos and hoards of notes to his future self. Using colour and black-and-white visuals to distinguish countervailing timelines (a technique he would return to), Nolan might notionally be examining themes of identity and self, but it's really all about the totally gripping presentation.

6. Batman Begins (2005)

It might be hard for young 'uns to understand just how nervous Warner Bros was about reviving Batman after its 90s implosion; it just had to get it right. Nolan's vision was a handbrake turn from Schumacher's second effort, Batman & Robin. He put up a furrowed-brow Bruce Wayne – incarnated by Christian Bale, **the scowliest actor of the era** – who goes on a Wagnerian journey across the globe to find himself, before returning to Gotham, the Batsuit and Batmobile. Gloomy and self-involved, this was a Batman who gave the film a seriousness the fans seemed to demand. It paid off handsomely.

5. Interstellar (2014)

This galactically conceived space travel saga was the closest Nolan came to ripping off his spiritual mentor Stanley Kubrick; such was his devotion to 2001: A Space Odyssey, he even engineered an "unrestored" rerelease a few years later. Interstellar is not dissimilar: a big-ticket sci-fi that uses elaborate VFX to delve into some unvarnished human emotions. Nolan's film doesn't reach the same epic dimensions as Kubrick's, but the exhaustively fleshed-out visions of alien landscapes and cosmic star fields are genuinely awe-inspiring.

4. The Dark Knight (2008)

The monumental cinematic architecture of Nolan's films can often overshadow and, occasionally, intimidate its human participants – but this was definitively not the case with the second chunk of his Batman series. In a line stretching from César Romero to Jack Nicholson to Joaquin Phoenix, the Joker has been a tremendous showcase for some very good performers, but Heath Ledger outdid them all with his paint-smeared, watch-the-world-burn acting fireworks, earning a posthumous best supporting actor Oscar in the process. Almost incidentally, with this – and its sequel – Nolan pushed the superhero film closer to a conventional big-budget thriller, helping it break out of comics-nerd territory and reach mass audiences.

3. Inception (2010)

Sometimes, however silly a film gets, you just have to hold your hands up and accept it's blown your mind. When all else has disintegrated into dust, humankind will still have a genetic memory of Inception's amazing, vertiginous shot of the Paris street folding back over the horizon, like an Ozymandias for the digital age. Leonardo DiCaprio (in his unreliable-narrator phase; see also Shutter Island) is the investigator/manipulator called in to act like he knows what's going on in

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Nolan's dizzying dreamscape. It's **a work of berserk gloriousness**: Nolan throws in every special effect known to humankind, conjuring up an entirely convincing cod-psych science with which to pummel the audience into submission. And boy, does it work.

2. Dunkirk (2017)

Nolan's first foray into more realist history brought some unexpected colours to his creative palette: finely judged, almost experimental shot-making, a decentred narrative path that doesn't prize any of the identifiable protagonists, and a relaxed appreciation of broader social forces at play in momentous historic events. Released in the aftermath of the Brexit referendum, its timing and themes meant it played into the hands of the anti-EU faction. Even so, this is a masterly film from an expert film-maker; a human (and humane) interpretation of the battlefield movie, equally interested in the boredom and terror of the ordinary soldier. There are brilliantly conceived combat scenes, of course, with thunderous artillery barrages and horrible deaths; but this is by no means a glorification of war, or even a love-letter to the plucky British spirit. Dunkirk shows simply the hell that people were put through, and how they responded.

1. Oppenheimer (2023)

Nolan's second bite at the second world war takes on a subject we can all relate to: the threat of imminent nuclear destruction. Amazingly, for a film about atom bombs, the actual explosion are sparing[4] – although when the big one arrives, it's pretty major. Instead, Nolan has created **a beautifully machine-tooled talking-shop**, fusing together timelines that take in J Robert Oppenheimer's scientific career, his political and personal loyalties (and disloyalties), his interventions in the corridors of power, and his attempts to defend himself from a political ambush. With fewer colossal set-pieces to deploy, Nolan instead provides room for two exceptional performers. Cillian Murphy is a revelation as Oppenheimer, his glitter-eyed, thousand-yard-stare prominently on display. But he is outdone by Robert Downey Jr's wonderfully crafted turn as Lewis Strauss, Oppenheimer's ally turned nemesis. It's almost shocking, in the age of Trump, to see how seriously the American political process is taken here – and drawing Americans' attention to the abuse of their institutions may prove to be Oppenheimer's most durable achievement.

Figure 1: The article from *the Guardian*

The following list summarises twelve collocations and idiomatic expressions from the text:

1) *head-razing sci-fi*;
2) *thousands of brownie points*;
3) *Nolan's cheap-as-chips feature debut*;
4) *an interestingly loopy yarn with hairpin narrative bends*;
5) *a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros*;
6) *Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts*;
7) *a beautifully machine-tooled talking-shop*;

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8) *his normally chummy persona*;

9) *a dogeared thriller standby*;

10) *the scowliest actor of the era*;

11) *a work of berserk gloriousness*;

12) *the plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept*.

3.4 Questionnaire Design (cf. Appendix 1)

The first section of the questionnaire aimed to collect information about participants' self-reported translation competence and their frequency and patterns of consultation of monolingual and bilingual dictionaries during translation tasks. The second section focused on their interpretation and translation of 12 lexical items and multi-word expressions selected from the article on the basis of their figurative meaning, collocational complexity, and potential translation difficulty. These items were chosen because they posed specific challenges in terms of semantic interpretation, pragmatic inference, and stylistic rendering. Students were asked to reflect on the difficulties they encountered when translating these expressions and to describe the strategies they used to resolve them.

4 Analysis and discussion

Considering the results of the first section of the questionnaire, the participants' proficiency levels of English communicative competence in English (question 1.1) for the majority, eleven students, representing 84.6%, indicated to be independent users (B1-B2 levels). Only two, namely 16.4%, specified to be proficient users (C1-C2 levels). All of them reported having a B1-B2 level of English vocabulary knowledge (question 1.2), and their self-assessed ability to perform translation tasks ranged from independent (9 students, 69.2%) to proficient (4 students, 30.8%) levels (question 1.3). Most participants identified themselves at the proficiency stage of independent users, both in general language competence and vocabulary knowledge: research has shown that students are typically aware of the benefits of dictionary use, though they may not always use them strategically or consistently.

Queries about the search for unknown words, in monolingual dictionaries (question 1.4) and bilingual dictionaries (question 1.5) when translating, brought the same answers: seven (53.8%) would consult monolingual or bilingual ones

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sometimes, three (23.1%) regularly, 2 (15.4%) hardly ever; one (7.7%) never. The fact that over half of the students consult both monolingual and bilingual dictionaries "sometimes" suggests a pragmatic and flexible approach yet also reveals a possible lack of systematic strategy. Only three (23.1%) reported regular use, indicating that dictionary consultation is not yet fully internalised as a habitual part of their translation training. Furthermore, in line with previous research, learners at intermediate levels tend to rely more on bilingual dictionaries due to comfort in their L1, while advanced users gradually shift toward monolingual resources as they seek greater depth and nuance (Tono 2001: 44).

The query about looking up unknown words in monolingual dictionaries when translating (question 1.6), reveals that eight (61.5%) would consult CDE, six (46.2%) OALD, five (38.5) COBUILD, one (7.7%) LDOCE. No one selected the box "other, specify". This trend highlights a preference for learner-oriented dictionaries such as *Cambridge Advanced Learner Dictionary* as part of CDE, *Oxford Advanced Learner's Dictionary* (OALD), and *Collins Advanced Learner's Dictionary* as part of COBUILD. These dictionaries are designed to provide clear, accessible definitions and rich usage information, which students find useful for tasks like translation.

Examining the query about the element(s) of an entry they would look at in an English monolingual dictionary to perform their translation task (and could tick more than one option) (question 1.7), eleven (84.6%) answered they would expect to identify its lexical meaning(s), ten (76.9%) its usage example(s); eight (61.5%) idioms and fixed expressions; seven (53.8) synonyms and antonyms; six (46.2%) collocations, with reference to which lexical items collocate; three (23.1%) word form(s) and grammatical categories; two (15.4%) its pronunciation; two (15.4%) its cultural and regional variations; one (7.7%) etymology. The prioritisation in consulting lexical meanings (11), usage examples (10), idioms/fixed expressions (8), and synonyms/antonyms (7) seems to confirm that learners value semantic clarity and contextual examples to support accurate translation. Pronunciation (2), cultural/regional variations (2), and etymology (1) would be rarely consulted. This indicates that learners may prioritise immediate semantic utility over deeper or broader linguistic insights.

In regard to the query about the element(s) of an entry they would look at in an English bilingual dictionary to perform their translation task (and could tick more than one option) (question 1.8), eleven (84.6%) answered they would expect to identify its lexical meaning(s), seven (53.8%) its usage example(s); six (46.2%) word form(s) and grammatical categories; six (46.2%) synonyms and antonyms; five (38.5%) collocations, with reference to which lexical items collocate; four

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(30.8%) idioms and fixed expressions; one (7.7%) its pronunciation; no one selected the answers cultural and regional variations, and etymology. Here, the emphasis was similar to consulting monolingual dictionaries, but slightly more grammar- and form-focused, as lexical meanings (11), usage examples (7), word forms and grammatical categories (6), and synonyms/antonyms (6). This suggests bilingual dictionaries are preferably used for rapid retrieval of equivalents, which would explain the stronger interest in grammatical categories and synonyms, aiding learners in achieving semantic and syntactic precision. This pattern is consistent with recent research indicating that dictionary consultation is typically integrated with inferencing and verification strategies rather than functioning as an isolated behaviour during task-based reading and translation activities (Prichard 2023).

Figure 2 shows the results from the comparison between the elements:

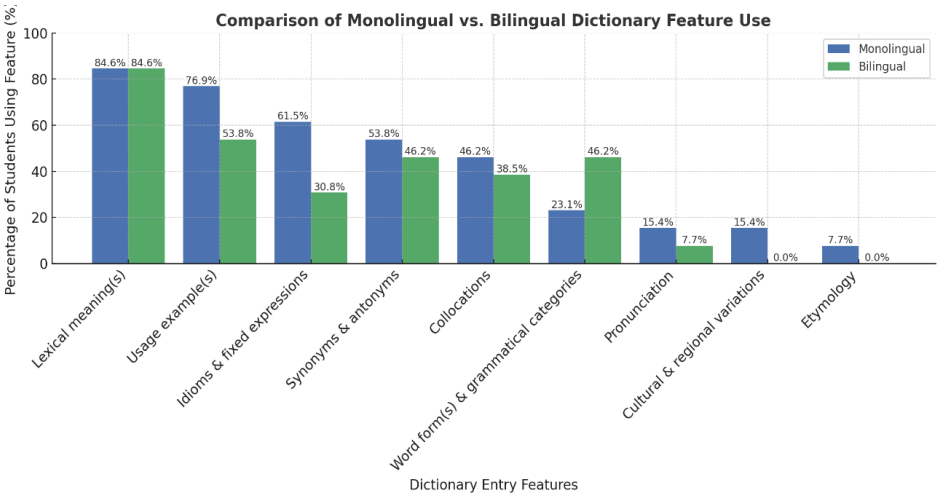

Figure 2: Comparison of features use between monolingual and bilingual dictionary

The analysis suggests variability in students' dictionary use and indicates that dictionary consultation was not always systematic in supporting translation beyond word-for-word equivalence. It seems learners still rely heavily on familiar, core elements such as lexical meaning and usage examples. The moderate and sometimes inconsistent use of both monolingual and bilingual dictionaries indicates developing but not yet fully mature lexicographic competence, although the students' preferences show that while monolingual dictionaries are valued for deeper understanding, bilingual ones remain essential for quick semantic ac-

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cess. Here follows a heat map summarising their answers about the difficulties encountered in interpreting twelve collocations and idiomatic expressions:

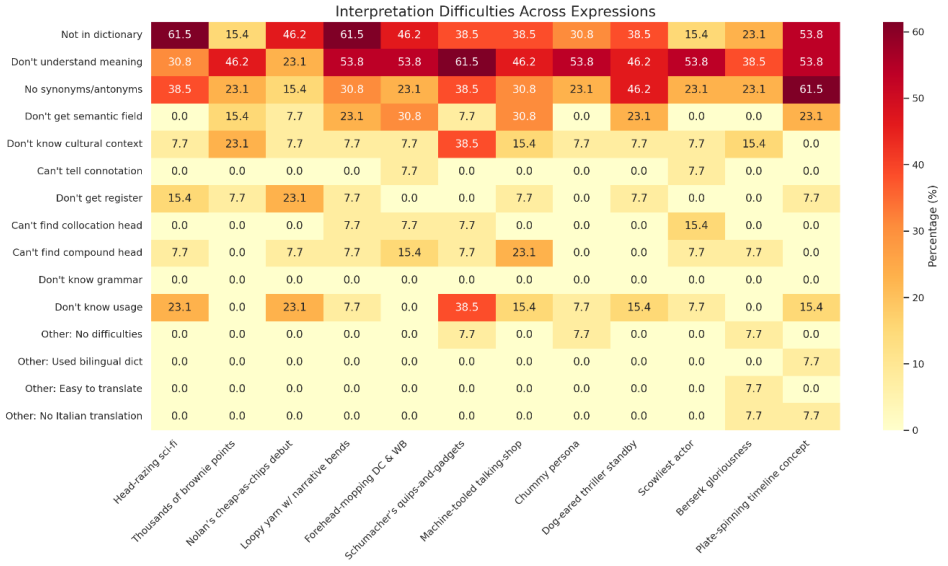

Figure 3: Interpretation of difficulties across expressions

Table 3 reveals that lexical unfamiliarity is the most common barrier, as the most reported issue is "Cannot find them in the general language dictionary", especially for: "head-razing sci-fi" (8-61.5%), and "an interestingly loopy yarn with hairpin narrative bends" (8-61.5%). Noteworthy are also the answers about "Nolan's cheap-as-chips feature debut" (6-46.2%), and "a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros" (6-46.2%) in confirming this issue. Higher scores had "plate-spinning timeline-juggling concept" (7-53.8%) that showed lexical unfamiliarity and, for the same students' number (7-53.8%), also posed a problem with semantic ambiguity and cultural embeddedness. This difficulty, in particular, scored high rates of "Do not understand their lexical meaning", primarily for "Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts" (8-61.5%), and notably for "the scowliest actor of the era" (7-53.8%), "an interestingly loopy yarn with hairpin narrative bends" (7-53.8%), and "a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros" (7-53.8%), which indicate that many students struggled with understanding meaning and finding equivalents, particularly when dealing with idiomatic usage. Also, "a dogeared thriller standby" (6-46.2%), and "a beautifully machine-tooled talking-shop" (6-46.2%) raised problems for their semantic ambiguity.

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All these expressions are metaphorical, creative, and neologistic and therefore unlikely to be found in conventional dictionaries. They challenge dictionary-based strategies and require contextual interpretation and creative reformulation. Great difficulty was also triggered by "Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts" (7-53.8%), which stood out due to cultural context confusion associated with film culture or cinematic styles. This pattern may reflect difficulty in interpreting film-related cultural references and idiomatic expressions, which is also highlighted by some students' answers showing a lack of knowledge of the related cultural context (5-38.5%). "Thousands of brownie points" (6-46.2%) seemed to cause more trouble in understanding the cultural connotation and figurative meaning, typical of idioms rooted in Anglophone culture. The figurative use of "brownie points" may have contributed to interpretive difficulty due to its idiomatic meaning in Anglophone contexts that misled the interpretation of the similar Italian "guadagnare punti". Most expressions produced relatively low difficulty in identifying grammatical forms or semantic fields, suggesting that students were generally able to parse the structure, even when the full meaning was opaque.

Furthermore, examining the other answers, it can be deduced that structural and grammatical challenges were less problematic, as very few students reported difficulty with collocation head identification, with low percentages overall (1-7.7; 2-15.4%), and none for grammatical form, with nought responses. This suggests that surface grammar was not the key obstacle; the struggle was rather lexico-semantic and pragmatic.

The answers showing many students' difficulty in recognising synonym/antonym heads and modifiers through inference strategies are worth noting. In this sense, the interpretations of "plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept" (8-61.5%), "a dogeared thriller standby" (6-46.2%), and "Nolan's cheap-as-chips debut" (5-38.5%) were notably difficult. This suggests that these expressions rely heavily on idiomaticity and non-literal usage, where word-to-word substitution doesn't suffice.

Considering register and stylistic variation, a few learners found difficulty in identifying them, especially for "Nolan's cheap-as-chips debut" (3-23.1%), "his normally chummy persona" (1-7.7). These are informal or humorous phrases requiring sensitivity to tone, which is often unmarked in dictionaries but critical for genre-specific writing, as it regularly occurs in journalism.

Interestingly, some students also specified their own strategies to overcome their difficulties, manifesting individual adaptation strategies, thus providing qualitative insights, in adding information to the box "other, specify". A few individual comments on these issues were: "Used a bilingual dictionary", which

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indicates reliance on cross-linguistic reference tools, or "Didn't find it hard to translate", which suggests individual variation in prior exposure or skill, and "Did not know the proper Italian translation", which rather confirms the lack of direct equivalents.

The analysis of Figure 3 would also offer some insights when comparing the different complexity of interpretation. Table 1 thus summarises notable expressions to interpret the most reported difficulties encountered by the students when translating them:

Table 1: Most reported issues and interpretation of difficulty per expression

Expression	Most reported issue	Interpretation of difficulty
head-razing sci-fi	dictionary absence (8-61.5%)	neologism + metaphor
plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept	synonyms/ meaning (8-61.5%)	extended metaphor, multi-layered idiom
a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros	meaning + register (7-53.8%)	culturally bound to superhero genre tension
Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts	lexical meaning (8-61.5%)	cultural reference + idiom
a dogeared thriller standby	synonyms + dictionary (6-46.2%)	idiomatic with the metaphorical use of " dogeared"

The above expressions reflect cultural idiomaticity, figurative language, and genre-specific references, which are the main obstacles to students' translation. Online monolingual/bilingual dictionaries (e.g. COBUILD) provide information for the "encoding" process, by displaying the syntactic constructions and collocations of the entry looked up, and for the "decoding", its meaning(s) (Yamada & Xu 2024: 123). Receptive skills are engaged through the process of decoding a text, and productive skills through that of encoding. A deep contextual understanding should result in awareness of cultural connotations and linguistic skills in creative reformulation, applying modulation techniques or adaptation strategies. Table 2 summarises key skills associated with the interpretation of the selected expressions:

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Table 2: Key skills and strategic focus per expression

Expression	Key Skills Needed	Strategic Focus
1. head-razing sci-fi	lexical analysis, figurative decoding	collocation + metaphor
2. thousands of brownie points	cultural competence, contextual inference	idiom understanding
3. Nolan's cheap-as-chips debut	register awareness, cultural competence	informal idiom
4. an interestingly loopy yarn with hairpin narrative bends	figurative decoding, semantic field	narrative metaphors
5. a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros	cultural reference, figurative decoding	familiarity with the brand + irony
6. Joel Schumaker's quips-and-gadgets efforts	register, genre awareness	film genre shorthand
7. a beautifully machine-tooled talking-shop	idiom recognition, register	pejorative tone
8. his normally chummy persona	lexical nuance, cultural tone	character trait
9. a dogeared thriller standby	idiom, figurative, connotation	familiar trope
10. the scowliest actor of the era	word formation, tone	negative character marker
11. a work of berserk gloriousness;	figurative, connotation	irony + praise
12. the plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept.	metaphor, context	complex storytelling

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To begin with, at the lexical level, the skill needed is advanced vocabulary knowledge, including idioms and metaphorical language. These findings suggest that interpreting such expressions may involve: - breaking down compound or metaphorical phrases into base components; - identifying the head phrase and related modifier(s); - using dictionaries of collocations (e.g. *Oxford Collocations Dictionary of English*) to understand common pairings. For instance, "head-razing sci-fi" requires understanding "head-razing" as a figurative modifier, standing for evocative, mind-blowing, not literal, of the head "sci-fi". Likewise, "An interestingly loopy yarn with hairpin narrative bends", as used figuratively, needs the development of the skills concerning figurative decoding, where "yarn" is to be interpreted as a story, and "hairpin bends" as abrupt plot twists, and its semantic field recognition entails storytelling and narrative structure. These findings suggest that interpreting such expressions may require strategies: - paraphrasing, by replacing with simpler phrasing, like in "a wildly structured story with unexpected plot twists"; - visual imagery, imagining a winding road, symbolising hairpin bends, and how this reflects a nonlinear story. Therefore, consulting bilingual/monolingual collocations dictionaries requires confirming the figurative use of "yarn" and "loopy."

Interpreting culturally embedded expressions may depend on familiarity with English-speaking cultures, media, idioms, and popular references. Possible interpretive strategies may include: - recognising references to films, public figures, or genres; - using contextual or encyclopaedic dictionaries along with reliable online sources, to understand cultural references. For instance, understanding "thousands of brownie points" requires recognising the metaphorical meaning of "brownie points" used for informal social credit or approval. Emblematic is also "A forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros", requiring reference skills in cultural decoding of film producers with connotative language awareness of "forehead-mopping", which implies stress, pressure, or relief in the journalistic register and informal tone through metaphor. Possible interpretive strategies include: - consulting cultural context, such as understanding the relationship between DC/Warner Bros. and film releases; - translating metaphorically, by focusing on the emotion conveyed, such as relief or anxiety, and not literally expressed. Whereas the expression "Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts" requires lexical knowledge of "quips" and "gadgets" alongside cultural competence, to understand Joel Schumacher's role in Batman films, and idiom decoding of "efforts", which here refers to the American film director's movies. The strategies needed are: breaking down compounding and interpreting "quips-and-gadgets" as shorthand for a light, gimmicky style; - developing filmic context awareness, recognising that Schumacher's Batman films are seen as flashy and campy. This

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suggests a translation with a genre tone, conveying both content, with humour and technology, and connotation with criticism or nostalgia.

In particular, figurative language decoding involves recognising metaphor, irony, and hyperbole in context. Strategies may be: - recognising between literal and figurative language; - using paraphrasing and restating techniques to interpret figurative meaning before translating. For instance, "a work of berserk gloriousness" combines paradox and hyperbole, and needs to be decoded as something wildly chaotic yet brilliant. Also "A beautifully machine-tooled talking-shop" requires the skills of figurative decoding, where "machine-tooled" is to be interpreted as a metaphor for precision and "talking-shop" as heavy dialogue, and of awareness of the genre in recognising film criticism vocabulary and the connotation, possibly admiring the polish of the script. Strategies to be adopted are: - rephrasing with functional equivalents such as "a perfectly crafted, dialogue-driven film"; - focusing on tone, keeping the slight admiration or critique implied; - drawing from target-language equivalents in film reviews.

Sensitivity to tone of formal vs. informal, humour, and genre are skills similarly required, with strategies such as: - determining text genre and communicative purpose (e.g., film review with humorous tone); - using bilingual dictionaries akin to COBUILD that indicate register (e.g., informal, humorous). For instance, the phrase *cheap as chips* in "Nolan's cheap-as-chips feature debut" is an informal, British-English idiom meaning very inexpensive.

For contextual interpretation, inferring meaning from the surrounding context and text cohesion is an essential skill. This competence can be operationalised through specific strategies, including: - examining sentence- and paragraph-level cues to identify referents and implied meanings - considering thematic links within the text (e.g. all phrases related to film critique or commentary). For instance, "the plate-spinning, timeline-juggling concept" functions as a metaphor for the complex narrative structure with multiple interwoven plotlines, a meaning that can be inferred from contextual cues within the review. Similarly, the phrase "His normally chummy persona" requires sensitivity to lexical nuance and register awareness as "chummy" denotes an informally friendly disposition often associated with a public image. In this context, the expression implies a contrast between the actor's familiar screen persona and the more serious role under discussion. Appropriate translation strategies may therefore include: - selecting a culturally equivalent expression in Italian (e.g. "alla mano"); - adopting contrast-based reformulation to foreground the shift from a known persona to the current role.

Proficient use of dictionaries (monolingual and bilingual) to explore semantics, usage, examples, and collocations requires strategies such as: - using monolin-

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gual dictionaries (e.g. OALD, COBUILD, CDE) to explore multiple meanings and usage - using bilingual dictionaries to validate or find equivalents in the target language; - combining word-formation knowledge (prefixes, suffixes, compounding) to navigate unknown terms. An instance is "a dogeared thriller standby": a monolingual dictionary might explain the phrase "dog-eared", that is well-used, or worn, while a bilingual dictionary could help find an equivalent idiom.

Concerning semantic field awareness, the ability to group words thematically and interpret the tone and attitude as mildly humorous or mocking requires sensitivity to evaluative and connotative meaning. This competence can be operationalised through strategies such as: - identifying the semantic field to which each expression belongs to (e.g., film critique, character description, narrative structure); – assessing the evaluative or attitudinal connotation of the expression (e.g. favourable, critical, ironic, or neutral) and its degree of emotional loading. For instance, the phrase "the scowliest actor of the era" carries a marked evaluative tone. The adjective "scowly" denotes a habitually frowning or grim-looking appearance, and its interpretation depends on contextual cues that signal a mildly humorous or ironic stance rather than overt criticism. In translation, adaptation should therefore preserve the connotative and stylistic effect of the source expression by maintaining an informal and playful register in the target language, for example through imagery or paraphrase.

5 Concluding remarks

This study has examined the receptive knowledge and reference skills involved in the translation performance of the trainee translators participating in the research to engage effectively with monolingual dictionaries and interpret complex lexical and pragmatic information in texts characterised by idiomatic and culturally embedded language.

In relation to the first research question, the findings suggest that successful use of monolingual dictionaries is associated with lexical awareness, semantic field recognition, and figurative decoding skills. Understanding idiomatic expressions, culturally loaded references, and stylistic connotations involves more than recognising individual word meanings; it requires sensitivity to collocational patterns, syntactic behaviour, and metaphorical extensions. For example, interpreting expressions such as "an interestingly loopy yarn" or "a forehead-mopping DC and Warner Bros" depends on the learner's ability to infer meaning from genre-specific vocabulary, register variation, and culturally embedded metaphors. These observations indicate that receptive knowledge extends beyond surface definitions to include contextual inference, register awareness, and

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attention to evaluative and connotative meaning, thereby enabling learners to use monolingual dictionaries as interpretive tools rather than as repositories of isolated definitions.

With regard to the second research question, the results highlight the importance of developing reference skills that support lexical and pragmatic analysis during dictionary consultation. Such skills include identifying idiomatic and figurative structures, interpreting metaphorical language, and evaluating the relevance of dictionary information within specific discourse contexts. The participants' responses suggest that effective dictionary use involves navigating cross-references, recognising register shifts, and applying reading strategies that are sensitive to genre conventions. In particular, the ability to identify appropriate translation equivalents, reformulate meaning through paraphrase, and maintain tone and stylistic nuance in the target language was found to be critical when dealing with expressions such as "Joel Schumacher's quips-and-gadgets efforts" or "the scowliest actor of the era", which combine humour, evaluative stance, and cultural specificity.

Overall, the findings indicate that successful dictionary consultation appears to be associated with the integration of lexical knowledge and contextual analytical strategies that support informed, context-sensitive decision-making in translation. Within the instructional context examined in this study, these competencies appear to be associated with learners' management of translation tasks across languages, supporting both lexical precision and the pragmatic complexity of authentic journalistic texts.

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Chapter 17

Metaphraseography and phraseographic design: A multilingual learner's dictionary of French–Chinese-Vietnamese idiomatic expressions

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Phraseological units (PUs) are rich with implicit carriers of cultural idiosyncrasies, societal states, collective perspectives, historicity, and conventionality (González-Rey 2002). Learning PUs should be part of a long-term process in the teaching of language and culture in a foreign language context (González-Rey 2007; Sułkowska 2016; Chen 2021). Bilingual or multilingual dictionaries are "the foundation of all language pedagogy" (Taifi 2021: 28). A good dictionary for learning foreign language (FL) phraseological units (PUs) meets learners' need to independently acquire this culturally rich part of the lexicon. In the context of didactic lexicology, "the phraseological dictionary claims its place of honor as the tool of choice in teaching-learning methods of fixed expressions" (Wotjak (2005), quoted by González-Rey 2017: 27).

Thus, we aim to design a learner's dictionary to improve phraseological competence in a foreign language, specifically focusing on French–Chinese idiomatic expressions, while also exploring the possibility of extending this phraseographic model to other languages such as Vietnamese. Our reflection is based on a metaphrastic approach (Murano 2011, Chen 2022b). This perspective opens the way to a multilingual phraseodidactic framework. The macrostructure is based, on the one hand, on thematic classification (e.g., the human body, animals) and, on

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the other hand, on the degree of intralingual "fixity" and on interlingual comparative methods. The microstructure will be detailed, including etymology, figurative meaning, the source of the phraseological unit (PU), its pragmatic use, and phraseological information (Chen 2022a).

learning dictionary, lexicography, phraseography, French as a Foreign Language (FFL), primary level

1 Learning dictionary and phraseodidactics in French as a Foreign Language

"Learners have various needs for knowledge that may be fulfilled by dictionaries" (Nielsen 2010: 89). It is difficult to learn a language without the support of a dictionary. (Cai 2016: 1). In didactic lexicography, learning, pedagogical, or teaching dictionaries are primarily intended to meet the language learning needs of learners (See González-Rey 2017: 28; Huang & Chen 2001; Cai 2016; Zhang 2009; Lehmann & Martin-Berthet 2018; Wotjak (2005), etc.). They are aimed at an audience learning the language described as a mother tongue or a foreign language (FL), are often presented in levels (Lehmann & Martin-Berthet 2018: 264), and their degree of integration into the learning process varies from one culture to another. They are not intended to be exhaustive (i.e. to collect all the words in the language), but are based on the principle of "reader first" practicality, i.e. according to their actual level (Cai 2016: 22). Thus, these types of dictionaries are learning (not research) tools for learners, and their unique function is to "guide the reader (learner) in using the target language" (Zheng (2005), quoted by Cai 2016: 25).

In the acquisition of a foreign language, it is essential for reflection on the language to also integrate a cultural dimension. The lexemes of a language are all marked from a cultural perspective, which manifest themselves particularly within a contrastive framework, that is, through a confrontation between different languages. Within the lexicon of each natural language, we find a certain convergence and fusion of various mechanisms that produce ready-made and ready-to-use sequences of words, "stereotyped and fixed" in form, possessing a "rich connotation" semantically and "brilliant and lively" in pragmatic effects (Wu 2007: 01). In French linguistics, these are referred to as "PUs" (Grossmann & Tutin 2003; González-Rey 2002; Chen 2021). Such fixed expressions are strongly colored and motivated by traditional national culture (Chen 2021: 129–132). PUs

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"integrate the fixed combinatorics of a given language and constitute linguistic, cultural, and valorizing elements" (González-Rey 2007: 7). Language and culture didactics must therefore integrate their teaching. This new discipline, Phraseodidactics, focuses on the teaching and learning of fixed expressions in the context of the acquisition of modern languages (González-Rey 2007: 11). The fluent and spontaneous use of these expressions in discourse represents indisputable proof of learners' mastery of the foreign language (González-Rey 2007: 26). However, the teaching of PUs is still often neglected in the context of foreign language teaching (Chen 2021: 463-464). They are not allocated any time and only appear sporadically in textbooks. Current teaching programs and textbooks often include PUs only at the advanced improvement level (levels C1/C2).

> "French as a foreign language textbooks only offer a limited selection of culturally marked fixed expressions, which are often presented in an anecdotal manner in a somewhat separate section and only at advanced levels of language learning. It is worth noting that recently published textbooks now contain more fixed expressions" (Cavalla & Labre 2009: 8).

An effective foreign language learning dictionary for PUs is essential to enable learners to acquire this component of the lexicon independently. In the context of didactic lexicology, "the phraseological dictionary claims its place of honor as a tool of choice in teaching and learning methods for fixed expressions" (Wotjak (2005), quoted by González-Rey 2017: 27).

2 (Meta)phraseographic approach: The learning dictionaries of the PUs in French as a Foreign Language

Many bilingual lexicographers (e.g. Szende 1993, Murano 2011, Huang & Chen 2001: 26–27; Yang 2005; Cai 2016) and, pedagogues (e.g. works by Robert Galisson 1984; Bellassen 2002; Mojca 2005; Granger & Paquot 2015; González-Rey 2007; Cavalla 2018; Frassi 2018; Cavalla & Pecman 2020; Li et al. 2023; etc.) have proposed in detail the development of a bilingual dictionary adapted to foreign language learners. However, in terms of Pedagogical Phraseography, current PUs in dictionaries of French as a Foreign Language still have gaps both theoretically and practically.

2.1 Phraseological dictionaries

Although "phraseodidactics currently represents a discipline that is gaining more ground in the field of Modern Language Didactics" (González-Rey 2017: 29), there

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continues to be a lack of learning dictionaries related to this discipline. This is because phraseodidactics remains a secondary and neglected component in foreign language teaching. In the teaching of French as either a mother tongue or a foreign language, the study of PUs has long been set aside. Because they do not belong to the literary or written register, studies in stylistics ignored them, despite their expressiveness and relative frequency in spoken language. It is only in the last two or three decades that phraseodidactics has become a subject of research in France, leading to the development and publication of books and manuals in this field.

Linguists and teachers of FFL have dedicated books (textbooks) to the practice of PUs in French as a foreign language. For example, a chapter is devoted to them in *Vocabulaire expliqué du français (niveau débutant et intermédiaire)* by Mimran (2004). In *Vocabulaire progressif du français* by Miquel & Goliot-Lété (2011), the most common fixed expressions and proverbs are grouped into themes (time, the body, clothing, professions, etc.).

It is useful to examine several works on phraseodidactics, which serve as a prototype for a "phraseodidactic dictionary" (González-Rey 2017: 29).

2.1.1 The *Traité de Stylistique française* by Charles Bally

González-Rey (2017: 29) considers Charles Bally as the father of phraseology, citing his work *Le Traité de Stylistique française*, vol. 2, published in 1909, which includes comprehensive phraseological material (manual and dictionary) oriented toward learning French as a foreign language (FFL).

This material comprises a set of 194 exercises. According to González-Rey (2017), a third of these exercises are phraseological in nature. They focus on verbal expressions, collocations, familiar expressions, routine sentences, periphrases, idiomatic expressions (IEs), and a repertoire of terms accompanied by their main synonyms, all organized under 10 notional headings. Each heading's title and body also include the corresponding antonyms. This directory, closely resembling a glossary and referred to here as a synoptic table, adopts an onomasiological approach. The author deems it useful and recommends consulting it for carrying out certain exercises.

2.1.2 Robert Galisson's *Dictionnaire de compréhension et production des expressions imagées*

The emergence of the phraseological dictionary is linked to the work of Charles Bally. However, the true "first pedagogical dictionary" focused on both decoding and encoding idiomatic expressions, as noted by Sułkowska (2013: 214), is

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attributed to Robert Galisson's work in the *Dictionnaire de compréhension et production des expressions imagées* (1984), which marks a significant turning point in the field of phraseological dictionaries. "This dictionary provides users with around 500 pictorial expressions, the use of which is sufficient to complete all the exercises." (González-Rey 2017: 30).

The book dedicated to the teaching of fixed expressions by Galisson (1984), titled *Les expressions imagées,* is a valuable collection of imaginative exercises designed to help learners guess the many expressions presented through the use of drawings, rebuses, a specialized dictionary, and more. However, the proposed exercises are suitable for learners at an advanced level in French (B2 to C), but not for beginners. They use iconic representations of expressions, which are very effective in helping to reinforce their meanings through visual memory.

> "The book is designed to be used with a dictionary of fixed expressions (Galisson 1991), which aids in understanding and usage. Without this dictionary, the exercises become very difficult to handle out of context. This dictionary is both semasiological and onomasiological, allowing expressions to be found by word or by concept. This feature has significant didactic value, which is absent in common dictionaries of fixed expressions (though that is not their primary function)." (Cavalla & Labre 2009: 8)

2.1.3 González-Rey's tools: the manual *La didactique du français idiomatique and PHRASÉOTEXT*

2.1.3.1 Le manuel *La didactique du français idiomatique*

González-Rey's book *La didactique du français idiomatique* (2007) provided the theoretical and methodological foundations for the creation of the *PHRASÉOTEXT* dictionary, published in 2015. It begins with an essay on phraseology, followed by 160 exercises with their answers and a glossary. The method is divided into two levels (Level 1 and Level 2) and covers three types of fixed expressions: idiomatic expressions (idiomatic statements and phrases), collocations, and paremias. Each part includes four lessons, each enriched with a series of five exercises. This manual is a welcome and very useful teaching tool for acquiring PUs.

The method *La didactique du français idiomatique (2007)* offers the opportunity to access two levels of training in fixed expressions for French as a foreign language, with the aid of a "thematic glossary" located at the end of the book. This glossary contains all the expressions worked on, respecting the order of presentation of the two levels. For each of the three types of fixed expressions,

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they are first presented from the perspective of their components, grouped into lexical fields; next, from the grammatical perspective according to their various syntactic structures; and finally, from the conceptual perspective, grouped into semantic fields. Within each category, the expressions are arranged according to their formal construction: first noun phrases, followed by adjectival, adverbial, and finally verbal phrases. Each subgroup is organized in alphabetical order. The presentation of the PUs of French offered here in lexical, structural, and semantic domains is based on the principles of redundancy and productivity, in the sense that the same expressions can be the subject of linguistic study by combining vocabulary and grammar, and/or that of meaning and discourse, according to the notions to which they refer.

In conclusion, the learners targeted by this method are those who wish to learn the phraseology of French as a foreign language, from level A to mastery at level C, as recommended by the Common European Framework of Reference (CEFR). The skills developed must lead the student not only to awareness but also to active mastery of fixed expressions available in their lexical repertoire, enabling them to handle the language at a level comparable to that of a native speaker. This work is, therefore, a complementary tool to be included among the educational resources available to learners of French as a foreign language, for the proper acquisition of an idiomatic level.

> "A phraseological dictionary is part of a manual or a teaching method for PUs, including locutions, [expressions], collocations, or paremias. It compiles the expressions contained in this method and presents them using an approach that facilitates the resolution of exercises. It is, therefore, a tool designed to support the manual and, consequently, the teaching and learning process of PUs." (González-Rey 2017: 31–32).

In recent decades, there has been a breakthrough in the use of computer corpora in linguistic research, which are employed for a wide range of studies in grammar, lexicon, discourse analysis, linguistic variation, etc.

> "Thanks to computers, the lexicographer's work is significantly easier; they can navigate from one dictionary to another with a click, provided the dictionaries are digitized." (Berk 2021: III)

Thus, considering the difficulties that students commonly encounter today in their written productions on the one hand, and the growing development of corpora on the other (González-Rey 2017: 32), González-Rey proposed "the

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PHRASÉOTEXT dictionary as an example of central material in the design of the teaching method for PUs, as well as in its didactic application" (González-Rey 2017: 32)[1] .

2.1.3.2 The PHRASEOTEXT dictionary

The PHRASÉOTEXT dictionary was released in 2015 in DVD format and aims to teach phraseological expressions in French as a foreign language. It is therefore a corpus that primarily serves as a fundamental support for the construction of the educational tool in its entirety. There are two methods of displaying the PHRASÉOTEXT[2] dictionary:

- GENERAL DICTIONARY: A general dictionary that contains all the expressions from the literary corpus.
- INDIVIDUAL DICTIONARIES: Individual dictionaries, each compiling the expressions from the texts studied in the didactic sequences.

The microstructure of this dictionary includes the text number, the expression (lemmatized PUs), the context (contextualized PUs), the definition, the keyword (headword of the PUs), the semantic field, the author of the text, the title of the work, the level of the PUs according to the CEFR, and the specific construction.

According to González-Rey (2017: 41–42), to adequately meet its definition, a phraseological dictionary must be integrated into a method of teaching and learning pragmatic uses of PUs, while respecting the principles of coherence and efficiency. It must also be designed with consideration for the various needs of users, whether they are native speakers (L1), learners of a foreign language (L2), or working in a translation context. Additionally, it should account for the skills to be developed, whether productive or receptive, along with the specific characteristics of the PUs. To achieve this, it is crucial to construct the dictionary by selecting expressions based on precise criteria (using corpora for didactic purposes) and by providing phraseographic information that aligns with the teaching objectives of the didactic sequences employed in the method. However, these dictionaries are all monolingual, which poses a challenge for beginning students. As Siepmann repeatedly points out in his 2005 article, a bilingual (or multilingual) approach to combinatorics better accounts for the precise magnitude of

[1]Projet Phraséotext, https://lidilem.univ-grenoble-alpes.fr/ressources/corpus/phraseotext (Accessed 2025-09-15.)

[2]http://phraseotext.univ-grenoble-alpes.fr/lexicoscope_2.0

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the collocational dimension of language. Metaphraseographic (Chen 2022a) and phraseographic research in French as a foreign language is still often limited to monolingual learners' dictionaries focused on usage patterns and intended for native speakers. This clearly poses a problem for foreign language learners, as access to phraseological units becomes more difficult, requiring a certain level of mastery of the target language.

2.2 Bilingual phraseological dictionaries

The bilingual or multilingual dictionary, characterized by its access route to a monolingual dictionary through the user's mother tongue, has become an essential tool for language learning. A (self-)learning dictionary is a reference work based mainly on two qualities: the relevance of the selection of materials described and a systematic explanation of information concerning these materials. It is up to the lexicographer to provide all the necessary information based on the characteristics and needs of the target audience. Sufficient in the sense that elementary or intermediate level learners have no interest in finding obsolete words, expressions, or infrequent constructions in their dictionaries. Necessary in the sense that, for the learner, nothing is self-evident: "the lexicographer is required to explain all useful information and to teach it sufficiently to allow the learner to proceed with correct decoding or encoding" (Verlinde et al. 2006: 84). There are only three French-Chinese phraseological dictionaries, and they are not learning dictionaries.

a) Yanglie Yue & Zhang Xiao. 2000. *French-Chinese Dictionary of Locutions and Proverbs*, Maison d'édition de traduction de Shanghai.

b) Qian Sun. 2010. *New French-Chinese Dictionary of Locutions and Proverbs*, Presse universitaire de Xiamen.

c) Hongbin Cai. 2014. *Explanatory Dictionary of French Phrases and Proverbs*, Presse commerciale.

A similar situation can be observed within the Vietnamese domain:

a) Lê Ngọc Tú. 2004. *Từ điển Tục ngữ - Thành ngữ - Danh ngôn Anh - Pháp - Việt* (Dictionary of English - French - Vietnamese Proverbs, Idioms and Famous Sayings), Social Sciences Publishing House.

b) Lê Ngọc Tú. 1997. *Từ điển thành ngữ - tục ngữ Pháp - Việt* (French - Vietnamese Dictionary of Locutions and Proverbs), Ho Chi Minh City Publishing House.

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c) Nguyễn Lân. 1998. *Từ điển Thành ngữ và Tục ngữ Pháp - Việt* (Dictionary of French - Vietnamese Idioms and Proverbs), Ho Chi Minh City Publishing House.

d) Nguyễn Lân. 1993. *Từ Điển Thành Ngữ - Tục Ngữ Việt - Pháp* (Vietnamese - French Dictionary of Idioms and Proverbs), Literature Publishing House.

These works have not yet been integrated into the field of learning dictionaries. Indeed, not all of them can claim the status of a learning dictionary, which is obviously essential for a dictionary intended for users in the process of learning a language. "It is therefore appropriate to dwell on the concept of a learning dictionary and its particularities compared to the classic dictionary" (Dechamps 2017: 109). Bilingual dictionaries link the vocabulary of two languages by means of literal translation or by searching for equivalences. However, if

> "The bilingual dictionary can be a practical tool for understanding, ... the knowledge acquired through the translation L2 (second language) → L1 (first language) does not systematically allow the reverse approach L1 → L2, an approach with regard to which, at this stage, the learner proves to be helpless" (Surcouf 2010).

Thus, the existing bilingual dictionaries of PUs (see the three above) do not meet the needs of foreign language learners for PUs. Furthermore, closely influenced by phraseology, bilingual learning dictionaries are primarily intended for advanced learners (except for the work of González-Rey 2007). Indeed, while there are a few bilingual learning dictionaries (mainly in French-English) linked to the PUs, none have been found at the beginner level, which is regrettable. However, PUs are "ubiquitous in everyday usage" (Bolly 2011: 19). Integrating PUs from the beginning of language learning undoubtedly reflects a current trend (Liontas (2002), quoted by De Serres 2011: 131). For González-Rey (2007), it is even evident that phraseology is necessary from the beginning of language learning, rather than only during the final years of study. This trend is confirmed by the publication of several monolingual phraseological or collocation dictionaries, which supports the idea that the learners targeted by these resources have an advanced level, enabling them to consult and use them without relying on lengthy source materials. One of the first examples of such a dictionary for English is Hill & Lewis (1997), and for French, Beauchesne (2001) or Mel'čuk et al. (1999), the latter being aimed not only at learners but also at linguists. Pecman (2008: 209–210), quoted by Granger 2021: 3) has already reached a conclusion about PUs

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in bilingual dictionaries: "Presently, the phraseological information included in traditional bilingual dictionaries is often missing or at best incomplete and presented in a disorderly fashion". Similarly, in Chapter 3 of her PhD dissertation and in some works by Chen (2021), Chen (2022b,a), she has found that there are many gaps in the collection of PUs in bilingual dictionaries. However, we prefer to focus here mainly on the study of bilingual "phraseodidactic dictionaries" (González-Rey 2017: 29).

Bilingual or multilingual dictionaries are "the foundation of all language teaching" (Taifi 2021: 28) and an essential tool for learners. A good dictionary is like a good teacher: it can guide learners, solve difficulties, and enrich their vocabulary. Educational or learner's dictionaries are lexicographic works designed to facilitate language learning. Thus, a good dictionary for learning foreign-language PUs should meet learners' needs and enable them to independently acquire this culturally rich part of the vocabulary from the beginner level. In this perspective, this study aims to design a learner's dictionary to improve the acquisition of phraseological units in a foreign language. This work adopts a metaphraseographic approach, that is, a reflection on the description, analysis, and design of dictionaries of phraseological units (Chen 2022b). The researcher must therefore explore and develop new concepts or hypotheses in order to create a more effective and innovative dictionary. It is in this context that we propose a French–Chinese PU learner's dictionary, whose architecture will be presented later. Although the present study focuses primarily on French–Chinese phraseological correspondences, the proposed metaphraseographic framework is not limited to these two languages. Similar mechanisms of metaphor, cultural symbolism, and lexical fixation can also be observed in other languages such as Vietnamese. Therefore, the methodological principles proposed here may also serve as a basis for developing a multilingual learner's dictionary integrating French, Chinese, and Vietnamese PUs.

3 Innovative phraseographic design of a multilingual dictionary for learning PUs

"Elementary dictionaries are designed for beginner-level language learners and consider the learner's actual level regarding word choice" (Cai 2016: 22). In this perspective, we are developing *DiCoP-Learning*, a didactic electronic dictionary designed for the learning and self-learning of phraseological units (PUs). The project initially focuses on French–Chinese phraseodidactics and aims to support the acquisition of PUs through a progressive phraseodidactic and phraseo-

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graphic methodology. The self-learning approach adopted in DiCoP-Learning promotes the gradual integration of PUs according to their degree of opacity, within teaching levels ranging from A1 to B2. The dictionary contains a selected set of frequently used PUs from everyday language, organized around thematic keywords (e.g., the human body, animals, etc.). For each entry, equivalents and explanations are provided in Chinese. The project is currently being extended to Vietnamese in collaboration with Vietnamese-speaking colleagues, with the aim of developing a multilingual learning dictionary integrating French, Chinese, and Vietnamese phraseological units. At the current stage, DiCoP-Learning remains a dictionary project under development and is not yet available online. Nevertheless, it is intended to serve as a didactic tool supporting both intra- and interlingual teaching of phraseological units.

3.1 Phraseographic macrostructure

The macrostructure of the PUs learning dictionary (here focusing mainly on idiomatic expressions, IEs) is based on an approach that is both intralingual and interlingual. Intralingually, the organization follows the degree of opacity of the PUs as well as the recommendations of language learning frameworks such as the *Cadre Européen Commun de Référence pour les Langues* (CECRL). Interlingually, it relies on the establishment of a typology of correspondences between the three languages, distinguishing perfect, partial, and non-equivalent equivalents, according to criteria of formal nature, semantic similarity, and lexical correspondence.

3.1.1 Intralingual approach - Degree of fixation/opacity of PUs

3.1.1.3 Lexical opacity

According to Gross (1966: 21–22), in all languages, there remain "erratic blocks", archaic elements or constructions that go back to a previous state of the language (*chercher noise* 'to pick a quarrel') or that refer to sociological realities that we are no longer able to understand straight away: *la bailler belle* 'to stare into the air, open-mouthed', *tenir le haut du pavé* 'To have a high social position', *ne pas faire de quartier* 'give no quarter'". These examples should be reserved for more advanced-level French textbooks (B2 or higher).

3.1.1.4 Semantic opacity

The first are explicit comparisons, called in *praesentia*: *avancer comme un escargot 'to advance like a snail'*; *rouge comme un coq 'red as a rooster'*; *pleurer comme un*

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veau 'to cry like a calf'; etc. The second, which are more opaque, are called *in absentia*: the comparative tool "like" 'comme' has disappeared. These take on a gradation:

- The formatives can correspond to the lexical field of the expression: *rire à gorge déployée* means 'to laugh very loudly'.
- At the other end of the scalarity, there may be no link between the formatives and the lexical field of the expression: in *tomber des cordes ' rain cats and dogs'* none of the formatives belong to the lexical field of rain.

From an intralingual perspective, there is a degree of metaphorical opacity in idiomatic expressions (IEs), ranging along a continuum from the most transparent to the most opaque. In this dictionary (levels A1-B2), the first step is to focus on the PUs with the most transparent lexicon and semantics, as well as the recommendations from learning programs (such as the CECRL) (Chen 2024). It is essential to establish a specific hierarchy among these phrases, considering their frequency of use (determined through digital corpora like the *Lexicoscope,* see the work of **KraifDiwersy2012**, Kraif 2016) to select the most relevant ones for allophone students. In the teaching of French as a foreign language, these PUs represent a second step in the development of teaching materials, which involves introducing the IEs progressively based on their perfect, partial, or non-equivalence according to contrastive linguistics, or more specifically, contrastive phraseology. The most implicit expressions tend to have double meanings and are often connected to a less obvious or accessible cultural context, relating to aspects such as religion, philosophy, and history. These expressions are also the most challenging to translate. For example, the French expression *talon d'Achille* cannot be directly translated into Chinese, as the mythological reference may be unfamiliar. Conversely, the Chinese mythological creature 鳌 *áo* has no equivalent in French; expressions such as 独占鳌头 *Dúzhàn'áotóu* are therefore particularly difficult to render. Similar difficulties can also be observed in Vietnamese phraseology. Some expressions refer to culturally specific mythological figures, such as the *Chim Lạc*, a legendary bird associated with the ancient *Đông Sơn* culture, or *Thánh Gióng*, a heroic figure symbolizing national identity. Others rely on rural or agricultural metaphors rooted in traditional Vietnamese life, such as *cày sâu cuốc bẫm* ("to till deeply and hoe carefully"), whose meaning cannot always be conveyed through a literal translation. Such examples illustrate the importance of considering cultural and metaphorical opacity in the design of multilingual phraseological dictionaries.

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3.1.2 Interlingual approach: phraseoculturology and contrastive phraseology in foreign language

The second approach, therefore, concerns "contrastive phraseology" (here primarily between French, Chinese, and Vietnamese). Its purpose is to identify the difficulties that arise from the differences between languages and to provide elements and a basis for the development of educational and lexicographical programs and materials.

Echoing Chen's (2021) PhD thesis, the analysis and comparison lead to the distinction of three types of relationships from one language to another regarding *chéngyǔ* 'Chinese IEs'.[3] This is based on the following analysis criteria: identity of nature, semantic identity, lexical identity, and structural similarity between the IEs of the two languages.[4] We have thus established the following typology: perfect equivalents, partial equivalents, and non-equivalents.

Phraseoculturology (Chen 2022a) and contrastive phraseoculture constitute a guide for phraseodidactics and phraseography. In contrastive phraseology, the established typology allows for a more precise and gradual integration of PUs into the PUs learning dictionary. The most transparent ones are not always perfect equivalents. These can also be partial equivalents, which can be integrated quite early in the learning process for learners. This is not the case for non-equivalents, with their difficulties arising from semantic or lexical vacancies. These non-equivalents not only pose the problem of translation or transposition from one language to another, but also a real difficulty in learning the foreign language. Although they are the most interesting because they illustrate the true culture of this target language, they are not integrated into this dictionary (level A1-B2). It is therefore imperative to develop a learning dictionary with clear lexical lists to master in foreign language. In our PUs learning dictionary, the *chéngyǔ* primarily involving perfect and partial equivalence were chosen ac-

[3]A *chéngyǔ (□□)* is a Chinese idiom usually composed of four characters. These expressions are often derived from historical tales, fables, or literary classics, and carry profound or moral meanings. *Chéngyǔ* are commonly used in the Chinese language to express complex ideas in a concise and elegant manner. They are frequently found in literature, everyday conversation, and even in formal contexts. Due to their cultural origins, understanding them may sometimes require contextual knowledge (see the work by Chen 2021). Similarly, Vietnamese idioms (*thành ngữ*) often follow a comparable four-syllable structure (Hoàng 2004, Nguyễn 2008, Nguyễn 1997)., such as *mẹ tròn con vuông* ("round mother, square child"), which refers to a safe childbirth

[4]Phraseological categories must be clearly identified in this dictionary, namely *DiCoP-Learning* (proverbs, idiomatic expressions, etc.). Indeed, the nature of these categories between the two languages is a condition for achieving perfect equivalence.

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cording to themes (human body, animals, colors, numbers, etc.) and linguistic and cultural correspondences to adapt to the students' level.

In this beginner's level dictionary, the following procedure was used:

1. Selection of PUs with the most transparent lexical metaphors and semantics, constituting a perfect or partial equivalence with the Chinese *chéngyǔ and thành ngữ*.

2. According to the recommendations of the foreign language teaching program (such as the Cadre Européen Commun de Référence pour les Langues - CECRL), the selection of *chéngyǔ* and *thành ngữ* should be based on the actual level of the learners.

3. Selection of the PUs most similar to the target language and easy to learn, taking into account their frequency of daily use.

We first provide a perfect (⊙) and a partial (◐) equivalent in Chinese and Vietnamese. Then, a literal translation (⟶) as faithful as possible is proposed, corresponding to the *chéngyǔ* in Chinese and to the idiomatic equivalent in Vietnamese. Here are examples relating to the human body from French to Chinese and Vietnamese:

(1) *de tout cœur* : ⊙全心全意 quánxīn-quányì ⊙ toàn tâm toàn ý (tout, **coeur**, tout, désir/intention)
'with all my heart : ⊙全心全意 quánxīn-quányì ⊙ toàn tâm toàn ý (all, heart, everything, desire/intention) to have an idea in mind'

(2) *avoir une idée derrière la* **tête** *:* ◐ 别有用心 biéyǒuyòngxīn ◐ biệt hữu dụng tâm (d'autre, avoir, utiliser, **coeur**) : ⟶ *avoir d'autres pensées*
'to have an idea in mind : ◐ 别有用心 biéyǒuyòngxīn ◐ biệt hữu dụng tâm (other, have, use, heart) : ⟶ to have other thoughts'

(3) *avoir une* ***tête*** *(cervelle) de linotte* :粗心大意 cūxīn-dàyì ⊙ thô tâm đại ý (gros, **coeur**, grand, désir/intention), ⟶ *cœur distrait et négligence*
'to have a brain of a linnet :粗心大意 cūxīn-dàyì ⊙ thô tâm đại ý (big, heart, large, desire/intention), ⟶ distracted heart and negligence with all my heart'

These examples illustrate that similar conceptual metaphors related to the human body can also be observed in Vietnamese phraseology, which confirms that the proposed phraseographic model can be extended beyond the French–Chinese pair to a broader multilingual framework.

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3.2 Microstructure of the PUs learning dictionary

Microstructure refers to "the set of ordered information for each article, realizing a constant information program for all articles, and which is read horizontally following the entry" (Rey-Debove 1971: 21). The innovation of the microstructure of our PUs learning dictionary is mainly reflected in phraseoculture.

This dictionary project pays particular attention to the phraseological level, especially for PUs with partial equivalence. This microstructural model can also be extended to other languages such as Vietnamese, where phraseological units similarly combine metaphor, cultural references, and lexical fixation. The absence of phraseological information may confuse learners, leading them to rely either on word-for-word translation or on global equivalence between the two languages, even when the terms involved differ (e.g., "heart" in Chinese and "head" in French, as shown in the example below). A short historical or culturally specific note accompanying the expressions would facilitate learners' understanding and memorization of these expressions and strengthen the role of the dictionary in cultural transmission. The dictionary therefore offers a detailed microstructure, including etymology and phraseocultural information from French to Chinese and Vietnamese, in order to facilitate cross-linguistic comparison and phraseological learning. The content of this idiom is referenced in the dictionary by Rey & Chantreau (2003: 481–482)[5].

(4) **Faire le pied de grue** « attendre debout » [exp.] v. 鹄立，久等
Vietnamese: đứng chờ rất lâu / đứng chờ mỏi chân
Source 来源：该表达式来源于17世纪的固定表达 faire la jambe de grue 和 faire de la grue (和16世纪的faire la grue)⊠在Faire de la grue中，grue这个名词有动词"等待"的含义，如在诗人 Maurice Scève作品中), 但是Bonaventure des Périers认为，在16世纪的语境中faire de la grue中的grue一词也含有鸟类：鹤的比喻义
Nguồn gốc: Cách diễn đạt này bắt nguồn từ các thành ngữ cố định vào thế kỷ XVII như *faire la jambe de grue* và *faire de la grue* (cũng như *faire la grue* vào thế kỷ XVI). Trong *faire de la grue*, danh từ *grue* mang nghĩa động từ "chờ đợi" (như được thấy trong tác phẩm của nhà thơ Maurice Scève). Tuy nhiên, Bonaventure des Périers cho rằng trong ngữ cảnh thế kỷ XVI, từ *grue* trong *faire de la grue* cũng hàm chứa nghĩa ẩn dụ liên quan đến loài chim hạc (grue).

[5]The sources of DiCoP-Learning used to create the examples include dictionaries such as Rey & Chantreau (2003), Yanglie Yue & Zhang Yue & Zhang (2000), Qian Sun (2010), and Hongbin Cai (2014), as well as digital corpora such as the BBC corpus, Frantext, press corpora (Le Monde, Le Figaro, Libération), and contemporary literature.

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Métaphore 隐喻：在 16 世纪，鹤的比喻用途通常是贬义的，être grue 愚蠢，suivre la multitude comme les grues [Calvin]s'en aller comme des grues [ibid.] 像鹤一样跟随众人，没有自己的想法。以及 Le Roux 在 1752 年给出的变体：être planté comme une grue，与 être planté comme un sot同义：一动不动地站着，等待很久，久等。最后，"妓女 "的意思来自faire le pied de grue，人行道上妓女等待客人的形象比喻

Ẩn dụ: Vào thế kỷ XVI, hình ảnh chim hạc (grue) thường được sử dụng với sắc thái mang tính chê bai. Chẳng hạn, *être grue* mang nghĩa "ngu ngốc"; các cách nói như *suivre la multitude comme les grues* (Calvin) hay *s'en aller comme des grues* [ibid.] chỉ việc đi theo đám đông như đàn hạc, không có suy nghĩ riêng. Ngoài ra, Le Roux 1752 còn ghi nhận biến thể *être planté comme une grue*, đồng nghĩa với *être planté comme un sot*, nghĩa là đứng bất động một chỗ và chờ đợi rất lâu. Cuối cùng, nghĩa "gái mại dâm" cũng xuất phát từ cách diễn đạt *faire le pied de grue*, gợi hình ảnh ẩn dụ những người phụ nữ đứng chờ khách trên vỉa hè.

Figure 1: Photo of HELD project, University of Grenoble Alpes. Reproduced with permission as a project participant.

Exemple d'emploi / Ví dụ : ❶Et d'indiquer des yeux les dizaines de Noires et de mûlatresses qui font, tout près, le pied de grue en se pavanant lascivement.

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(Le Point, 18-03-1995)
并使眼色表明附近几十个黑人妇女和黑白混血女人正在作出淫荡姿态等客上门呢。
Và đưa mắt chỉ về phía hàng chục người phụ nữ da đen và phụ nữ lai đang đứng chực chờ gần đó, uốn éo một cách dâm dật.
❷…
D'autres exemples en ligne
Entrainez-vous sur l'exercice
Laissez un message/Note

Here is the translation in English:

> '**Faire le pied de grue** « attendre debout » [exp.] v. to stand, wait for a long time
> **Source:** This expression is derived from the 17th-century fixed expressions *faire la jambe de grue* and *faire de la grue* (as well as the 16th-century *faire la grue*). In *faire de la grue*, the noun *grue* conveys the meaning of the verb "to wait" (as noted by the poet Maurice Scève), but Bonaventure des Périers argues that in the 16th-century context, the word *grue* also carries the metaphorical meaning of a bird: a crane.
> **Metaphor:** In the 16th century, the figurative use of "crane" was often pejorative (e.g., *être grue* meaning "to be foolish," *suivre la multitude comme les grues* [Calvin], *s'en aller comme des grues* [ibid.], which translates to "to go away like cranes," implying someone is following the crowd without a mind of their own). Additionally, the variant provided by Le Roux in 1752—*être planté comme une grue*, synonymous with *être planté comme un sot*—means "to stand still" or "to wait a long time." Finally, the meaning of "whore" is derived from *faire le pied de grue*, referring to the figurative image of a prostitute waiting on the sidewalk for customers.'

By integrating phraseocultures, this PUs learning dictionary project (DiCoP-Learning) facilitates in-depth understanding and memorization of expressions while reinforcing the role of cultural transmission. In addition to phraseoculture, the innovation of this dictionary under development is manifested through several key aspects: a) This platform takes advantage of technological advances. In the digital age, it integrates a variety of textual, audio, and hyperlinked content. Its ambition is to become an interactive and accessible internet platform where users can consult information anytime and anywhere. b) It offers learners opportunities to explore idiomatic expressions and engage with them. Dictionaries can thus be explored, read, and shared interactively from the DiCoP-Text corpus

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(a text corpus from various sources; see the work by Chen et al. 2024), allowing students to understand and use idiomatic expressions accurately. By focusing on the contextual use of IEs and avoiding overly complex expressions, this PUs dictionary selects the most common and simple examples from the corpus. These examples come from various authentic sources (literary works, press articles, everyday dialogues), thus ensuring practical immersion in real language use.

3.3 Digital integration in teaching: Fostering independent learning and practice

Finally, this dictionary project will offer fun exercises and games on digital educational platforms such as Moodle (with the H5P plugin) and Chamilo, utilizing ergonomic tools that enable students to memorize and practice the PUs independently, starting from the beginner level. For example:

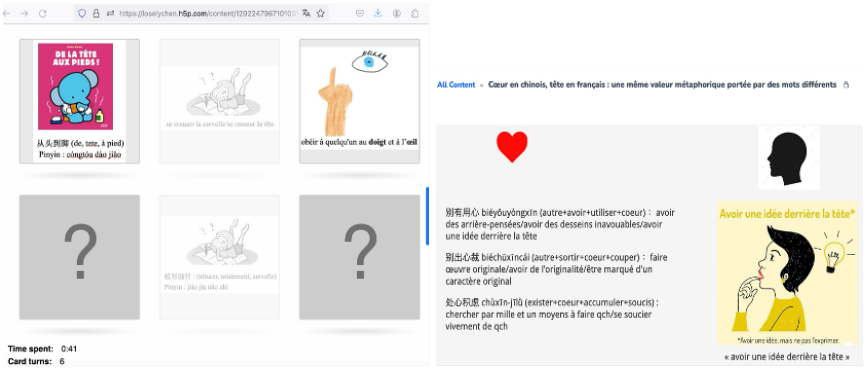

Figure 2: Examples of fun IEs exercises using Moodle and H5P

We plan to create an interactive application in the future. This dictionary project is intended to be an innovative educational tool, specifically dedicated to the e-learning of PUs within a foreign language dictionary. Its objective is to develop an improved method to gradually integrate PUs, taking into account their lexical and semantic opacity. In the digital age, the availability of such pedagogical tools makes it possible to design engaging learning activities that support the acquisition of phraseological competence.

4 Conclusion and perspectives

Li (2010) analyzed the significant impact of computerization on dictionaries at the first international conference on "Learner's Lexicography and Second Language

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Teaching." Traditional dictionaries are basically single-media; although some illustrations and photos are added to the text, they remain static and secondary to the textual content. Paper dictionaries only meet the needs of foreign language learners to a limited extent and are no longer in step with today's digital age. New media offer various types of presentation of dictionary content, such as text, images, sound, video, and hyperlinks, which provide rapid access to additional content. They are two-way interactive platforms, sometimes free and open, where users can obtain information, interact with it, and share it at any time and from any place. "Indeed, digital corpora and lexicometric tools have profoundly revolutionized linguistic research and, more particularly, lexicographic research, by increasing tenfold the possibilities of observations" (Hausmann & Blumenthal 2006: 11).

The researcher should explore and create new concepts or hypotheses for a better and more innovative dictionary. By combining the theoretical knowledge presented in this paper, we are developing the DiCoP-Learning project: a multilingual UP learning dictionary (currently French–Chinese–Vietnamese). DiCoP-Learning, developed within the DiCoP project (Chen 2022a, 2023), will be a teaching tool—more precisely, an e-learning dictionary of phraseological units (PUs), conceived as both a lexicographic and didactic resource. Thus, the contribution of this work lies in the combination of phraseological analysis with pedagogical design, in order to provide learners with authentic, contextualized, and culturally meaningful examples. By focusing on the gradual integration of PUs according to their lexical and semantic opacity, the project addresses one of the key challenges of phraseodidactics: helping learners to acquire complex, opaque expressions in a progressive manner.

Furthermore, digital resources constitute particularly effective tools for linguistic analysis, language-culture teaching, and the development of independent learning. "In the field of language learning, we are witnessing ... the rise of new technologies that are increasingly replacing traditional media ..." (Di Vito 2013: 159). In person or remotely, language courses are required to use a variety of innovative tools that allow for systematic work on the language. In the era of artificial intelligence, the DiCoP-Learning project, which is part of this dynamic, uses advanced technologies to improve the learning of PUs. In the future, by integrating AI, we will be able to offer personalized and adaptive recommendations for each learner, taking into account their level and specific needs. Through the analysis of usage data and machine learning techniques, we hope that DiCoP-Learning will not only serve as a digital dictionary but also as an intelligent self-learning tool that adapts in real time to optimize the acquisition of PUs.

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Dictionaries as tools for language learning

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